UNIVERSITY OF CALIFORNIA

Los Angeles

Roman Foundations:

Constructing Civic Identity in Late Medieval Italy

A dissertation submitted in partial satisfaction of the

requirements for the degree Doctor of Philosophy

in History

by

Carrie Elizabeth Beneš

2004

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

UMI Number: 3135515

Copyright 2004 by
Benes, Carrie Elizabeth

All rights reserved.

INFORMATION TO USERS

The quality of this reproduction is dependent upon the quality of the copy submitted. Broken or indistinct print, colored or poor quality illustrations and photographs, print bleed-through, substandard margins, and improper alignment can adversely affect reproduction.

In the unlikely event that the author did not send a complete manuscript and there are missing pages, these will be noted. Also, if unauthorized copyright material had to be removed, a note will indicate the deletion.

UMI®

UMI Microform 3135515
Copyright 2004 by ProQuest Information and Learning Company.
All rights reserved. This microform edition is protected against unauthorized copying under Title 17, United States Code.

ProQuest Information and Learning Company
300 North Zeeb Road
P.O. Box 1346
Ann Arbor, MI 48106-1346

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

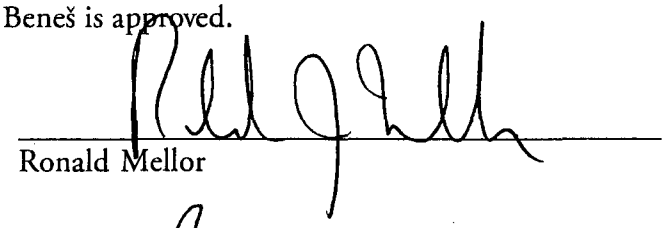
© Copyright by

Carrie Elizabeth Beneš

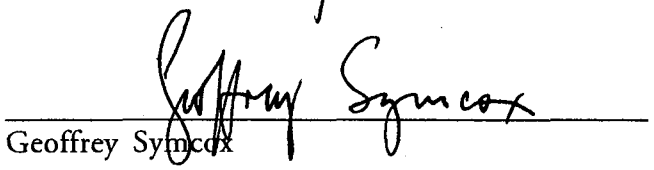
2004

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

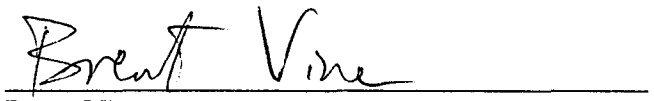
The dissertation of Carrie Elizabeth Beneš is approved.



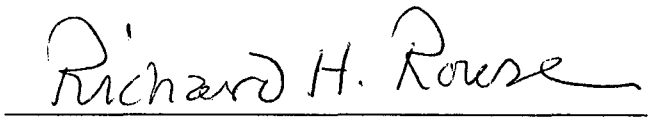
Ronald Mellor



Geoffrey Symcox



Brent Vine



Richard Rouse, Committee Chair

University of California, Los Angeles

2004

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

For my father

Beacus vir qui invenit sapientiam.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

CONTENTS

List of Figures	*page* v
Author's Note	viii
Acknowledgments	ix
Vita	xi
Abstract	xii
Introduction	1
Part I. A Classicizing Phenomenon	
1. Collective Identity and the Late Medieval Italian City	19
2. Roman History in the Italian Middle Ages	48
3. Appropriating a Roman Past	81
4. Urban Elites: Scholarship and Public Service	127
Part II. Case Studies: Civic Identity at the Turn of the 14th Century	
5. Reclaiming the Ambiguous Legacy of Antenor: Padua, 1260-1328	170
6. Unruly Descendants of Janus: Genoa, 1257-1312	206
7. Romulus and Remus Revisited: Siena, 1287-1355	249
8. A Lesser-Known Aeneas and His *Aeneid*: Perugia, 1255-1301	293
Conclusion and Epilogue	342
Figures	349
Works Cited	363

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

List of Figures

All figures are photographs taken by the author except where noted.

Figure		*Page*
1.	The area surrounding the 1st-century-BC Theatre of Pompey as it might have appeared in the 14th century AD. Manacorda (2001), fig. 74. © Electa Editore, Milan.	349
2.	The urban expansion of medieval Florence: three sets of city walls (1st-century, 12th-century, and 14th-century). Brucker (1984), 25, fig. 2. © The Regents of the University of California.	
3.	The republican tomb of Cecilia Metella on the Via Appia just outside the walls of Rome, incorporated into a Caetani family fortress; the brickwork on the tomb and the building attached in the rear date from the 14th century.	
4.	Inscription on the Bargello (Palazzo del podestà), Florence. c. 1255.	350
5.	Arch of Augustus, with medieval crenellations, Rimini. 1st century AD.	
6.	Bridge of Tiberius, Rimini. 1st century AD.	
7.	Marker on site where Julius Caesar allegedly gave his speech after crossing the Rubicon; this 15th-century marker probably replaced an older one.	
8.	Statue of Virgil, Mantua. 1227.	351
9.	[Etruscan?] bronze lion and griffin, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia.	
10.	City seal of Pavia showing the classical statue called the Regisol. 1341. Bascapè (1953), fig. 6. © Giuffrè Editore, Milan.	
11.	City seal of Fano showing the Augustan arch. 13th century. Bascapè (1953), fig. 21. © Giuffrè Editore, Milan.	
12.	City seal of Rimini showing Augustan arch (above) and Tiberian bridge (below). 13th century. Pasini (1974), p. 24. By permission of the Comune di Rimini.	
13.	City seal of Ravenna showing the Claudian Porta Aurea; the inner motto reads *Porta aurea de Ravenna*; the outer: *Urbis antique—Sigillum summe Ravenne.* Late 13th century. Bascapè (1953), fig. 23. © Giuffrè Editore, Milan.	
14.	City walls of Viterbo, originally constructed in the 11th century but frequently added to and reinforced through the next three centuries.	352
15.	Tomb of Rolandino Passaggeri outside the church of San Domenico, Bologna. c. 1300.	
16.	Matteo da Correggio, podestà of Perugia in 1278, as portrayed on Perugia's Fontana Maggiore, which was completed in that year.	
17.	Tomb of Cino da Pistoia in Pistoia cathedral. c. 1340.	
18.	First page of Ciampolo di Meo Ugurgieri's translation of the *Aeneid* (Siena, Biblioteca Comunale S.IV.11, f. 1r). Early 14th century. By permission of the Biblioteca Comunale Intronati, Siena, May 22, 2004.	353

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

(List of Figures, continued.)

Figure		*Page*
19.	City seal of Padua showing the city walls; the inscription reads *Muson, Mons, Athes, Mare certos dant michi fines.* Late 13th century. Bascapè (1953), fig. 11. © Giuffrè Editore, Milan.	354
20.	Basilica of St. Anthony, Padua. Completed c. 1310.	
21.	Tomb of Antenor, Padua. 1283.	
22.	Verses composed by Lovato Lovati and inscribed on Antenor's tomb. 1283.	
23.	Tomb of Lovato Lovati in Piazza Antenore, Padua. c. 1310.	
24.	Tomb of Rolando da Piazzola outside the basilica of St. Anthony, Padua, c. 1333.	
25.	1257 wing of the Palazzo San Giorgio, Genoa.	355
26.	Porta Soprana, Genoa: the best-preserved section of Genoa's 12th-century city wall, erected in defense against the Holy Roman Emperor Frederick Barbarossa.	
27.	West front of the cathedral of San Lorenzo, Genoa. 11th-14th centuries.	
28.	Roman sarcophagi decorating the façade of the cathedral of San Lorenzo, Genoa. 12th and 13th centuries.	
29.	Doria family church of San Matteo, Genoa. The white bands to either side of the door contain victory inscriptions from the 13th and 14th centuries.	
30.	Left arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. Rebuilt 1307. Di Negro and Di Goano's inscription runs along the top of the lower arcade, and Janus is at upper right.	356
31.	Head of Janus and accompanying inscription, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1307.	
32.	Inscription on left arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1307.	
33.	Inscription on right arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1312.	
34.	Sienese *carroccio* (military standard wagon) carrying the black and white *balzana* in the city's 2002 Palio.	357
35.	Palazzo Pubblico and Torre del Mangia, Siena, from the top of the Campo.	
36.	Palazzo Pubblico façade, Siena, as it would have appeared in 1310.	
37.	Wolf drainspouts on the Torre del Mangia, Siena. c. 1340.	358
38.	An original wolf drainspout, now kept on the ground floor of the Palazzo.	
39.	Porta Romana, Siena. Rebuilt c. 1327.	
40.	Wolf guarding the Porta Romana, Siena. c. 1327.	
41.	The Porta Romana as it appears in Ambrogio Lorenzetti's Allegory of Good Government. c. 1340. Starn (1994), 32-3. © Scala/Art Resource.	
42.	Detail of Lorenzetti's Porta Romana. c. 1340. Starn (1994), 71. © Scala/Art Resource.	

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

(List of Figures, continued.)

Figure		*Page*
43.	The Common Good/Good Commune of Ambrogio Lorenzetti's Allegory of Good Government, with the wolf and twins at his feet. c. 1340. Starn (1994), 27. © Scala/Art Resource.	359
44.	City seal of Siena, showing the Virgin Mary, its patron saint (above) and the wolf and twins (below). 1344. Bascapè (1953), fig. 77. © Giuffrè Editore, Milan.	
45.	A parallel to Siena's "Lysippan Venus": the fountain in Piazza dell'Erbe, Verona. 1368.	
46.	A wolf on the Fonte Gaia, Siena. c. 1410.	
47.	Bronze wolf by Giovanni di Turino on a classical column outside the Palazzo Pubblico, Siena. 1427.	
48.	Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.	360
49.	Eulistes (*Heulixtes Perusine conditor urbis*) on the Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.	
50.	Eulistes flanked first by the Archangel Gabriel and the Old Testament king Melchisedech, and then by Matteo da Correggio (podestà for 1278) and Hermanno da Sassoferrato (capitano for 1278). Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.	
51.	Perugia (*Augusta Perusia*) flanked first by the personifications of Chiusi and Lake Trasimene, and then by her patron saints, Lorenzo and Ercolano. Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.	361
52.	Rome (*Roma capud mundi*) positioned over the four reliefs showing Romulus and Remus, the two boys with the she-wolf, and Rhea Silvia. Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.	
53.	Etruscan arch in the medieval city wall, Perugia.	
54.	Detail of Etruscan arch, Perugia, with 1st-century-AD *Augusta Perusia* inscription.	
55.	Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.	362
56.	Etruscan-style molding on the Palazzo dei Priori façade, Perugia. c. 1300.	
57.	Etruscan-style molding on the Palazzo dei Priori façade, Perugia. c. 1300.	
58.	Sala dei Notai, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.	
59.	Frescoed SPQR shield in the Sala dei Notai, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.	

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Author's Note

Except where counter to established usage (e.g. in the case of Petrarch), the names of people who lived before 1500 appear here cited and alphabetized in full; e.g., Dino Compagni appears in the list of works cited as "Dino Compagni", and not as "Compagni, Dino". With the same proviso, medieval names are generally cited in Italian: Jacobus de Voragine, for example, appears in the text as Jacopo da Varagine, but Marsiglio de' Mainardini as Marsilius of Padua.

For the sake of consistency and ease of reference, English translations from the Greek and Latin classics (Appian, Julius Caesar, Cicero, Horace, Juvenal, Livy, Lucan, Sallust, Seneca, Valerius Maximus, and Virgil) are provided from Loeb Classical Library editions. They are cited and alphabetized by these conventional appellations rather than by their full names: Sallust appears in the list of works cited as "Sallust" and not as "Gaius Sallustius Crispus". Citations and English translations from Dante Alighieri's *Divina Commedia* are from the edition by Charles Singleton (1970); all other translations are my own except where noted.

Citations to works from before AD 800, and to Dante Alighieri's *Divina Commedia*, are by conventional book and chapter or line number. Citations to works after that date generally give modern page numbers; where it has seemed appropriate for more specific reference, or where many editions exist (as in the case of Giovanni Villani's *Chronica*), page numbers are occasionally supplemented with book and chapter or line numbers.

A final note: medieval Latin orthography is notoriously idiosyncratic and inconsistent. All spellings appear here as written or published (cf. especially chapter 8).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Acknowledgments

The aid of many people went into this dissertation. Richard and Mary Rouse, in particular, provided mentorship, assistance, and constant encouragement; they are an inspiration. My committee members Ronald Mellor, Geoffrey Symcox, Carole Newlands, and Brent Vine all provided considerable support, some of it at the last minute, for which I am particularly grateful. Patrick Geary and Simon Teuscher read several chapters despite their busy schedules. This project also owes much to the collegial advice and comments provided at various stages by Christopher Baswell, Carmela Franklin, George Gorse, Anthony Grafton, Lester Little, Edward Muir, Barbara Rosenwein, Gervase Rosser, Ingrid Rowland, Father Michael Sheehan, Quentin Skinner, Randolph Starn, Benjamin Victor, and Lila Yawn. Special thanks go to my parents, my aunt Mirka, my friends and colleagues at UCLA, and Michael.

Individual chapters were presented to the UCLA History Department's European Colloquium and the California Medieval History Seminar at the Huntington Library. The UCLA History Department, the Andrew W. Mellon Foundation, and the Beverly Walsh Scholarship Fund provided assistance with research and travel.

I am also grateful to the staff of Cambridge University Library; the Biblioteca Medicea-Laurenziana and the Biblioteca Nazionale Centrale, Florence; the Biblioteca Civica Berio, the Archivio di Stato, and the Biblioteca Universitaria, Genoa; the British Library, London; the Getty Research Institute, Los Angeles; the Archivio di Stato, Lucca; the Biblioteca Ambrosiana, Milan; the Biblioteca Universitaria, Padua; the Bibliothèque Nationale, Paris; the Istituto di Philologia Romanza of the Università degli Studi and the Biblioteca Augusta Comunale, Perugia; the American Academy in Rome; the Ecole

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Française de Rome; the Biblioteca Comunale Intronati, Siena; the Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana; the Biblioteca Nazionale Marciana, Venice; and the Biblioteca Comunale, Verona.

For their kind permission to reproduce certain illustrations, I am indebted to the Electa Editore, Milan (fig. 1); the Regents of the University of California (fig. 2); Giuffrè Editore, Milan (figs. 10, 11, 13, 19, and 44); the Comune di Rimini, Italy (fig. 12); the Biblioteca Comunale Intronati, Siena, Italy (fig. 18); and Scala/Art Resource (figs. 41, 42, and 43).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Vita

1974	Born, Summit, New Jersey
1996	A.B. magna cum laude, History and Literature Harvard University Cambridge, Massachusetts
1996-7	Harlech Fellowship New College, Oxford
1998-9	Mellon Fellowship in Humanistic Studies Department of History University of California, Los Angeles
2000	M.A., History University of California, Los Angeles
2000-1	Teaching Assistant Department of History University of California, Los Angeles
2001-2	Research, Italy, with the Robert Goheen Prize in Classical Studies, the Beverly Jean Walsh Scholarship, and a research grant from the UCLA History Department
2002-3	Teaching Assistant Department of History University of California, Los Angeles

Publications and Presentations

Beneš, C. E. (March, 1999). "Petrarch and the *Triumph of Death*." Paper presented at conference on *Death and the Hope of Life in the Middle Ages*, Princeton University.

Beneš, C. E. (1999). "Cola di Rienzo and the *Lex Regia*." *Viator* 30: 231-252.

Beneš, C. E. (1999-2000). "The Appearance and Spread of the E-Cedilla." *Manuscripta* 43/44: 1-43.

Beneš, C. E. (October, 2002). "The Dukes of Burgundy and the Evolution of the Princely Library in the Fifteenth Century." Paper presented at the 29th Annual St. Louis Conference on Manuscript Studies, St. Louis, Missouri.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Abstract of the Dissertation

Roman Foundations:

Constructing Civic Identity in Late Medieval Italy

by

Carrie Elizabeth Beneš

Doctor of Philosophy in History

University of California, Los Angeles, 2004

Professor Richard Rouse, Chair

This dissertation explores the construction of urban identity in the Italian cities of the thirteenth and early fourteenth centuries. As the influence of the papacy and the Holy Roman Empire waned throughout the Italian peninsula in this period, numerous small city-states rose to fill the resultant power vacuum, each seeking any opportunity to improve its position in relation to its neighbors. Each city-state adapted symbols of classical Rome, used ancient materials, and incorporated Roman myths to create an identity for itself both in relation to its own history and in relation to the socio-political network in which it functioned.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Part 1 of this study attempts to give a sense of the breadth of this phenomenon in the century between 1250 and 1350: to demonstrate why foundation legends were considered important, why Roman foundation legends were considered better than others; how such legends were invented, delineated, and propagated; and, as far as possible, who was responsible.

Part 2 examines four cities, each with a well-defined classical foundation myth from the turn of the fourteenth century: Padua (Antenor), Genoa (Janus), Siena (Aschius and Senius), and Perugia (Eulistes). Each chapter traces the origin and manipulation of a given myth while correlating its development with each city's particular circumstances. Although each myth emphasizes a different aspect of the Roman past, they all serve a similar function: to articulate each city's sense of historical identity and legitimate its current regime as a logical successor to, or even continuation of, Roman rule.

The Italian cities of the later Middle Ages attributed the foundation of their respective cities and leading families to legendary classical heroes; they uncovered and remounted Roman inscriptions; and they displayed ancient images on their coins. This study situates those efforts as part of the conscious identity-formation of the Italian city-states. At the same time, it contextualizes the wider relevance of the classical tradition in the society that brought forth early humanism, and characterizes the Italian cities' use and knowledge of ancient Rome as a dynamic engagement with the classical past more wide-ranging than historians have traditionally been willing to recognize.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Introduction

Si fabulas quaeris, easque aniles, haec lege.
If you are looking for legends and old wives' tales, read this.
—Ludovico Muratori's 1725 footnote to a medieval chronicle of Ravenna[1]

In 1422, the city council of Montelupo, a small town in southern Tuscany, sent one of their citizens on a diplomatic mission to the nearby and significantly larger city of Siena. Their ambassador, Nanni Matteo Lapetti, was charged with delivering an official gift from the government of Montelupo to that of Siena as a means of maintaining cordial diplomatic relations between the two cities. The official letter that he carried read as follows:

> Magnificent and powerful honorable lords: With our citizen Nanni Matteo Lapetti we are sending to Your Honors, whom we have always loved, this wolf. And although this animal is naturally fierce and ravenous, nonetheless this particular wolf is even tamer and gentler than a puppy, for our sons have nourished it since it was taken from its mother's womb. Prepared for your honors and good wishes, and given at Montelupo, the seventh day of May, fifteenth indiction, 1422.
>
> Your servants, the Council and Commune of the region of Montelupo, ally of Florence.[2]

While recognizing that diplomatic gifts often have obscure meanings representative of either giver or receiver, Montelupo's choice of present may nonetheless seem odd. We are more familiar with the aristocratic habit of medieval lords exchanging valuable *things*

---

1 The early fourteenth-century *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725).

2 *Magnifici et potentes domini honorandi. Per Nannem Matthei Lapetti terrigenam nostram mittimus Magnificentie Vestre, quam semper amavimus, quendam lupum. Et quamvis hoc animal ex sui natura ferox et immane sit, nichilominus lupus iste plusquam catulus mansuetus et domesticus est. Nam ipsum ab uberibus matris abstractum, nostri filii nutriverunt. Ad honores et beneplacita vestra parati. Datum in terra Montis lupi. Dis vij Maij, xv Indictione Mccccxxij.*

Servitores vestri *Consilium et Comune* *terre Montis lupi comitatus Florentie* –Lisini (1893), 28.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

as symbols of good faith: tapestries, valuable manuscripts, gold plate, or relics.[3] But unusual animals were highly prized in medieval Europe, because of their rarity and for their symbolic value. In the thirteenth century, for example, the menagerie of Emperor Frederick II was well-known throughout Europe; the history by Matthew Paris both discusses and illustrates the elephant that Frederick once sent to the city of Cremona to impress visiting English crusaders.[4]

There are several reasons why a wolf would have been especially meaningful as a gift between these two Italian cities. First, and most obviously, *Montelupo* means "Wolf Mountain" in Italian, and the wolf would have been an obvious reference to the city's name. Second, although wolves were fairly rare in central Italy by this time, their ferocity was legendary; a domesticated wolf would have suggested positive diplomatic sentiments about the value of friendship over conflict, peace over war, and civilization over brutality. Third, and most importantly, the wolf had been the symbol of Siena since at least the middle of the thirteenth century: the Montelupesi were presenting the Sienese with nothing less than a live civic mascot. In fact, evidence suggests that the Sienese were keeping live wolves in the Palazzo Pubblico (their seat of city government) as early as the later thirteenth century, almost a century before the gift from Montelupo.[5] This seems not to have been a continuous practice, as live wolves were rare—a fact which would have made the wolf from Montelupo a valuable gift indeed.

Hence the Montelupesi were presenting the Sienese with an animal which personified Sienese identity: according to local legend, Siena had been founded by the

---

3 Davis (2000) and Algazi, Groebner, et al. (2003).

4 Matthew Paris, *Chronica maiora* for 1241 and 1255; his drawings are reproduced in De Hamel (2000), 74-5.

5 Rondoni (1886), 28.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

sons of Remus (the brother of Romulus, who founded Rome), who were suckled by a she-wolf after being banished from Rome by their jealous uncle. Upon growing to manhood, they founded the city of Siena, making the wolf that had nourished them as infants in the wilderness the symbol of their city. Leaving for the moment the suspicious parallels between this foundation legend and the more famous one also involving a wolf and a set of twins (Rome's)[6], we may observe that the Montelupese wolf thus appealed to the Sienese sense of collective identity not only because it embodied the town's civic symbol, but because that symbol was rooted in the venerable and distant past of the city itself, emphasizing Siena's republican roots and connection to ancient Rome. This connection had been emphasized strongly by the autonomous republican regime which ruled Siena between 1278 and 1355, and was once again a major focus in the years after 1400, following a period of external domination by the Milanese.[7] Therefore the symbol of the wolf not only represented the city of Siena, it *defined* it and its citizens, their past as well as their present. The meaning attached to the wolf as mascot emphasized the features of the city which its citizens thought valuable: its republicanism, political autonomy, ancient foundation, and connection with classical Rome. The Montelupesi would have known these details perfectly well, and their choice of gift demonstrates their strong desire to maintain good relations with the city of Siena, despite their official alliance with Florence, Siena's main rival in central Italy.

In fact, anyone who heard of it would have known the broader implications of the Montelupese present; Roman foundation legends like the story of the Sienese twins and

---

6 Chapter 7 of this study discusses Siena and its foundation legend in detail.

7 See Bowsky (1981) and Fusai (1987).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

their wolf-nurse were widespread and influential throughout late medieval Italy. Although such legends existed for many European cities (Paris, Cologne, and Reims being three well-known examples), their popularity in Italy far exceeded interest in them north of the Alps; nowhere else did myths of civic foundation become so broadly known that their content could be referenced at will in public art and literature—or the bestowal of diplomatic gifts. This was largely the result of the Italian peninsula's unique socio-political situation at the end of the Middle Ages.[8]

Italy had been the most urbanized area of Europe since the days of the Roman Empire, and during the eleventh and twelfth centuries it became increasingly wealthy due to the growth of urban activity and commerce. Politically, however, the Italian peninsula grew more and more chaotic.[9] Its traditional overlords were the pope and the Holy Roman Emperor, but their authority as well as that of the landed nobility was gradually eroded by distance and inattention, given that the Emperor was usually German and the pope was usually French (as well as having European-wide religious and diplomatic concerns). Economics also had a share in this erosion of power: starting in the eleventh century, commercially successful townsmen and local nobility formed groups called communes in towns throughout central and northern Italy; these groups were sworn to protect urban political rights and economic privileges.[10] In this they were little

---

[8] Martines (1979) and Larner (1980) both contain good maps.

[9] For an overview of this period in medieval Italian history, see Hyde (1973), Larner (1980), Bordone (1984), and Waley (1988).

[10] See Larner (1971), Martines (1979), and Jones (1997).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

different from many other towns in medieval Europe that received charters from a reigning monarch.[11]

Rather, what made the situation in Italy unique was that this trend toward political decentralization continued much further than it did elsewhere in Europe, such that by the end of the thirteenth century, the pope and the emperor had lost all significant influence over political affairs.[12] Effective imperial power in Italy collapsed along with the Hohenstaufen line, upon the death of Frederick II and his two sons (1250-67), and by 1310 the aristocratic vendettas besetting the city of Rome were so bad that the papacy had moved to Avignon.[13] The Italian towns had essentially become self-governing city-states; the relatively simple communes of the twelfth century grew gradually into complex municipal bureaucracies. Nevertheless, the political situation remained volatile because the removal of external pressures inspired increased competition within the Italian peninsula. Newly independent city-states began to maneuver amongst themselves for territorial domination and political influence, each commune seeking any opportunity to improve its position, either real or perceived, at the expense of its neighbors. Needing to define, legitimate, and ennoble their newly-gained autonomy, these cities turned to the Roman past for both concrete and symbolic sources of identity.

---

[11] Frugoni (1991) and Lilley (2002).

[12] France and England, for example, had strong monarchies that supported urban development while (and even as a means of) extending royal authority within their realms; see for instance Reynolds (1977) and Gauvard (1996).

[13] The traditional designations of "Guelf" and Ghibelline", which date from the thirteenth century, refer to the political opposition of pope and emperor on the Italian peninsula. A city (or a specific faction within it) was Guelf or Ghibelline depending on which overlord it supported, but these alliances were more often based on local and immediate political expediency rather than any broader loyalty; see the discussion in Waley (1988), 200-218.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This dissertation argues that appropriations of the classical past in the Italian city-states attest a broader interest in classical antiquity than has traditionally been credited to late medieval Italy. Rather than limiting an interest in ancient Rome to a small circle of inspired intellectuals, I argue that the use of Roman myths and physical remains in communal ideology indicates a diverse and widespread engagement with the classical past, one fostered by the relatively sophisticated lay urban culture of the late medieval Italian cities. Contemporary education provided the raw material in the form of Roman authors and texts, and city-state government demanded competent diplomats, politicians, and ideologues. As the usefulness of feudal allegiance (to the pope or emperor) faded, governments were forced to invent their own ideals and ideologies. Hence each city's ruling body adapted symbols of classical Rome, used ancient materials, and incorporated Roman myths to create an identity for itself both in relation to its own history and in relation to the socio-political network in which it functioned.

A city's identity was asserted and advertised through various media: not only texts, but also statues, coins, inscriptions, and frescoes. These were widely and deliberately propagated: histories were commissioned, officially approved, and read publicly; events were organized to honor mythical founders, and Roman themes were incorporated into public art and architecture. If the impetus for this trend came, as I argue, from the literate ruling classes, they were nonetheless concerned with spreading the message through as much of the urban population as possible, and far beyond their city walls. In this unstable political climate, image was indeed everything—so the Sienese wolf guards the gates of the city; the Trojan founder of Perugia appears on the city's

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

main public fountain; Hercules is stamped onto the Florentine currency; and the arch of Augustus in Fano dominates that city's municipal seal. These examples suggest that it was quite as important to ensure the wide promulgation of one's civic connection with Rome as to establish it in the first place.

Modern academics have previously investigated these uses of the Roman past in terms of the reappearance of classical scholarship prior to the so-called Renaissance of the fifteenth century.[14] Scholars like Roberto Weiss and Remigio Sabbadini collected instances of Italian intellectuals attempting to read and reproduce classical inscriptions, or copying classical coins into their manuscripts, for example, as part of the history of epigraphy or numismatics, to chart the revival of interest in classical remains.[15] Others have followed the history of particular cultural artifacts, tracing the fortunes of the famous classical statue in Pavia called the Regisol, or noting mentions of the Veronese amphitheatre in medieval chronicles.[16] Until recently these "classical" or "antiquarian" studies stood in isolation from the larger history of late medieval Italy: the resurgence of interest in the classical past was assumed to be the work of individual scholars, a small circle of intellectuals working for themselves in their leisure time on subjects of purely academic curiosity. Petrarch, for instance, is generally presented as a man with a unique interest in the classical past: a driving passion in him which was shared by few of his

---

[14] Here, refraining from specific value judgments, I use "Renaissance" to mean the traditionally-construed Italian intellectual and artistic movement in the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries that was largely based on classical models. See Burckhardt (1990) and Burke (1987b).

[15] See, for instance, Weiss (1973) and Sabbadini (1967).

[16] Benzo d'Alessandria discusses the Veronese amphitheatre in the universal chronicle he wrote in Milan around AD 1316; see Berrigan (1967), 178-9. On the Regisol, see Sòriga (1937).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

contemporaries.[17] Similarly, studies of the so-called prehumanist schools of Padua and Verona discern a growing interest in classical Roman subjects without considering whence this interest comes.[18] This approach implies that the history of the classical tradition is a thing unto itself, independent from the larger historical issues contemporaneous with it. To a large extent such intellectual myopia stems from the movement that produced the notion of "prehumanism" in the first place, namely the Burckhardtian model of Renaissance intellectual historiography.[19] Viewing the fifteenth century as the flowering of a great period in politics, art, and architecture, all based on classical models, historians have tended to see classical interest in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries as the fragile beginnings of that period, rather than as a phenomenon on its own terms. Such misrepresentation may be redressed by considering the resurgence of interest in classical subjects in wider historical context, rather than tracing the development of antiquarianism, or the history of a given artifact, in a vacuum.

Therefore, rather than considering these manifestations of classical interest in and of themselves, or as precursors of a movement yet to come, I propose a broader scope, examining how classicizing objects and texts functioned in a late-medieval context. What role did they play in the construction and use of communal identity? How was the classical tradition appropriated, manipulated, and reapplied? Who decided it was

---

[17] See the biographies of Petrarch by De Nolhac (1907), Wilkins (1955) and (1961), and Foster (1984). Scholarly portraits of Dante tend to take a similar approach; examples of his classical interests (in the *Commedia*, the *Monarchia*, and elsewhere) are generally cited as evidence of how unusual Dante was for his own time.

[18] On prehumanism, also known as protohumanism, see the discussions in Billanovich (1953), Weiss (1964) and (1973), Folena (1976), and Witt (2000), as well as the works cited in chapter 5 of this study.

[19] Burckhardt's influence may partially explain why intellectual historians have most often fallen prey to this view: social and political historians have tended to maintain a much better perspective on Italy in the thirteenth through fifteenth centuries. Cf. Bertelli (1978) and Jones (1997).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

necessary, and whose knowledge of the ancient past provided the material for these ideological trends? I incorporate here approaches from semiotics and cultural anthropology insofar as they address how particular objects, legends, and symbols acquire cultural significance, and how that significance is used in the articulation of collective identity.[20] Further, I hope to transcend geographic as well as disciplinary boundaries, avoiding the concentrated approach common in Italian medieval history, where entire books often focus on a single town or province in Italy. While such studies are important for understanding particular areas in depth, they can obscure the fact that trade and communication were extensive up and down the Italian peninsula, as well as into the rest of Europe, and therefore the cultural history of Italy in the late Middle Ages cannot be too stringently compartmentalized.

This approach will require the consideration of political, economic, and social issues as well as art and literature. Scholars have traditionally treated each of these subjects individually, with the result that the historiography of late medieval Italy has tended to fragment along disciplinary lines: political historians focus on the politics of communal governments; economic historians address issues of wealth and commerce; social historians examine social stratification and demographics, and art historians and philologists deal respectively with art and the textual tradition. Issues of communal identity have usually been touched upon only insofar as they pertained to each topic independently.[21] Historians and art historians of the past thirty years, however, have

---

[20] Cf. Burke (1987a) and (1997); on semiotics and sign theory, see Cobley (2001) and cited bibliography.

[21] For a classic political approch, see Brezzi (1970) or Artifoni (1996).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

done much to integrate previously separate historical disciplines.[22] Randolph Starn and Loren Partridge, in particular, have clearly connected the commissioning and production of art with contemporary political ideology in their study of Italian halls of state between 1300 and 1600, while Quentin Skinner has analyzed the classicizing political theories underlying communal art.[23] A growing body of work by Italian scholars like Anna Maria Galletti and Paolo Brezzi has focused on the *coscienza cittadina*, or civic consciousness, of medieval Italian cities, integrating religious and intellectual changes with political and economic ones.[24] The work of these scholars has produced a better historical understanding of late medieval and early modern Italy on a broad scale, connecting more dynamically the economic and socio-political aspects of the culture with intellectual and artistic change. It is within this interdisciplinary paradigm that I wish to locate my study of urban identity-formation and communal self-promotion.[25]

Some clarifications of scope will be necessary. Despite my emphasis on community, city, and society, I think it important to note that these were not democratic

---

22 Larner (1971), Burke (1987b), and Martines (1979) have all considered the importance of art and ideology to the socio-political instability of the late medieval period in Italy, while art historians like Rubinstein (1958), Baxandall (1988), and Greenhalgh (1989) have considered the economic and political implications of classicizing tendencies in fourteenth- and fifteenth-century Italian art. The classic article on this topic is Wieruszowksi (1944), although the recent collection *Roma antica nel Medioevo* (2001) is extremely valuable.

23 Skinner (1986) and Starn and Partridge (1992).

24 See Fasoli (1961) and *Il senso della storia* (1995). Many of these historians have emphasized the role played by patron saint cults in the formation of civic identity; a city's patron saint (like St. Mark, in Venice) was venerated alongside its classical founder, serving a parallel purpose but in a religious context. See, for instance, Galletti (1979-80).

25 For a similar study focused on a kingdom, see Beaune (1991). Recent work on the mechanics of self-promotion in other historical eras are illuminating as paradigms of a similar process: for example, Peter Burke's work on the construction of Louis XIV's public persona in seventeenth-century France (1992), or Paul Zanker's exposition of propaganda imagery in the early Roman Empire (1988). The works of classicists Mary Jaeger (1997) and Catherine Edwards (1996) are also significant insofar as they address the construction of public memory, both in literary and in physical form.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

or grass-roots events. In most cases a city's image, both to its own citizens and to external observers, was the conscious result of actions taken by the group currently in power in that city, and the image that was projected was intended, consciously or unconsciously, to bolster that group's claim to legitimate authority in the city. In the republican city-states, the groups in power were usually oligarchies made up of the wealthy and educated members of society, consisting of the local nobility and successful commercial classes in varying proportions.[26] My point is not that these groups were merciless manipulators of public opinion, but that the parameters of any collective identity are to a large extent set by those in charge of the collective.[27] The people, events, and stated ideals of Roman history served as material by which ruling groups could define collective identity and foster unity among their citizens, as well as express their city's power, legitimacy, and ancient right to self-government in the political chaos that was late medieval Italy. Roman history was an ideological tool.

I do not, however, mean to suggest that it was an exclusive tool. Much has been made of the imperial and monarchic ideologies surrounding imperial rulers or claimants like Frederick II, Henry VII of Luxembourg and Ludwig of Bavaria—all rulers whose reigns fall within the scope of this dissertation.[28] Likewise, Hans Baron advanced the idea that republicanism was essentially unknown in Italy before its reawakening by the

---

26 See discussion in chapter 4.

27 Paul Veyne (1976) has described how, during the republic, wealthy Romans spent money on public works and games to ensure their place in the public memory—and how this function was later usurped by the emperor and his family.

28 On Frederick, see Kantorowicz (1931), Abulafia (1977) and (1988), and *Federico* (1997); on Henry and Ludwig, see Bowsky (1960), Thomas (1993), and Pauler (1997).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Florentine intellectuals of the early Renaissance on the eve of the fifteenth century.[29] The basic difficulty with both of these theses is their assertion that there was only one understanding of the Roman past at any given point in late medieval Italian history. I would argue the contrary: that the details of Roman history were flexible enough, and its perceived utility great enough, that it was used by proponents of every type of political system. For republican Florence and Siena, ruled by citizen oligarchies, glorifying their city's real or manufactured Roman roots supported the existence, goals, and ideals of the present republican regime, as well as arguing on historical grounds for the city's right to self-government. In exactly the same way, however, emphasizing the ruling *family*'s noble and illustrious Roman roots supported hereditary authority in cities which were ruled by local lords, like Verona under the della Scala (especially Cangrande) and Ferrara under the Este.[30] Finally, and somewhat obviously, emperors and imperial claimants could cite the precedent of five hundred years, if not fifteen hundred years, of Roman emperors before them. Frederick II's legal, artistic, and political claims to being a second Augustus are only the most dramatic example of this trend.[31] All of these ideological examples were essentially contemporary: Roman roots were clearly considered an asset regardless of one's particular political bent.

Likewise, this was not an intellectual trend pursued only in the biggest, most influential, and most "culturally developed" cities in Italy. Florence and Venice have

---

[29] Baron (1955) and (1988), and Hankins (2000). For medievalists' responses to the Baron thesis, see the recent Blythe (2000) in the Hankins collection, along with Davis (1974) and Skinner (1990).

[30] On the della Scala, see Varanini (1988) and the works cited in chapter 5 of this study. On other signorie, see Chiappini (1967) and Dean (1988) on the Este in Ferrara, and Mozzarelli (1987) and Simon (1988) on the Gonzaga in Mantua.

[31] See footnote 28, above on Frederick. See also Powell (1971) on the *Liber Augustalis* (a lawcode promulgated by Frederick), and Hersey (1973), Meredith (1986) and (1994), and De Robertis (1998) on Frederick's patronage of classicizing art and architecture.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

received more than their fair share of historians' attention for their cultural achievements in this area, which are often presented as unique to their particular (read, highly advanced) circumstances.[32] Whether intentionally or unintentionally, these two cities are frequently characterized as somehow more quintessentially republican than other cities in Italy: developing a republican sensibility earlier than other cities, and maintaining it in the face of tyrannical despotism long into the early modern period, after every other city in Italy had fallen.[33] This is misleading; the promulgation of origin myths lauding a city's supposed Roman or classical roots is a general trend visible on every level, from Venice and Genoa (populations circa 100,000 in 1300) to comparatively small cities like San Gimignano and Asti (circa 8-15,000 in the same period).[34] A broad cultural interest in city foundations is evident in the lists of civic origins which were common in general historical works written both in Latin and Italian; these lists only became more popular as the fourteenth century wore on. They tend to be organized alphabetically or chronologically for easy reference, and they frequently include origin information for forty or fifty different Italian cities.[35]

Thus my focus on the use of Roman history in the republican cities of northern and central Italy is not intended as the identification of a unique historical episode. Rather, it is a significant part of a larger cultural phenomenon, namely the adoption,

---

32 See, for example, Hale (1973), Brown (1996), and Pincus (1992) on Venice; and Becker (1967), Weinstein (1969), and Brucker (1983) and (1984) on Florence.

33 See footnote 29, above, on the Baron thesis.

34 I have generally used Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988) for my population estimates, noting the few occasions on which their estimates differ significantly from those given by historians of a given city. I should point out that all pre-modern population estimates are extremely approximate; the estimates by Russell (1972), another frequently-cited source, are usually one-third to one-half lower. For the cities cited above, see Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), pages 49, 43, 47, and 40 respectively.

35 Examples include Armannino Giudice's *Fiorita* (unpublished), Guglielmo da Pastrengo (1991), and Riccobaldo da Ferrara (2000).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

appropriation, and reuse of Roman history by virtually every political entity in medieval Italy, over the course of five or six hundred years—ending, in the fifteenth century, in the concentrated revival of Roman literature, art, and culture generally called the Italian Renaissance.[36] Here, however, I limit myself to a broad range of autonomous city-states throughout northern and central Italy, excluding the cities of southern Italy and Sicily; these remained under reasonably effective feudal control (e.g. that of Frederick II or Charles of Anjou), and do not show these trends to the same degree. Furthermore, I have chosen to concentrate on the years between 1250 and 1350 because the socio-political situation provided the republican cities with especially strong ideological incentives over the course of this century: the absence of strong imperial and papal figures encouraged self-government, but at the same time the instability of the political situation saw the rise of local lordships, or *signorie*, all over the peninsula—and not all experiments in republican government proved internally successful. City-states which wished to retain their autonomy had to defend it, which meant providing good ideological and historical reasons for independence, both *to* the involved citizenship and *from* potential aggressors. Sometimes this "armoury of ideological weapons" was insufficient, but it was inevitably considered a crucial part of any city's arsenal.[37]

This study is divided into two parts; Part I discusses the general phenomenon of Roman foundation myths within the temporal and geographical limits just set: where and how they appear, and what purposes they seem to serve. Chapter 1 introduces the

---

[36] See Benson (1982) and Baron (1955) for early and late examples, but Starn and Partridge (1992) is the best study encompassing a significant period of time.

[37] Skinner (1978), 1.6.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

general concept of collective identity, addressing its broader cultural ramifications before applying it specifically to the urban culture of medieval Italy and thereby establishing a contextual need for strong community identity in this period. Chapter 2 addresses why Roman history was perceived to fill that need, given the sources for Roman history and culture that were available in the late medieval period. Chapter 3 presents the classical foundation legends forged on this basis, appearing as they do in a range of media and designed for a range of purposes—and chapter 4 investigates the question of agency: who were the people responsible for the adoption and manipulation of Roman foundation legends? These four chapters together attempt to give a sense of the breadth of this phenomenon in the century between 1250 and 1350: to demonstrate why foundation legends were considered important, why Roman foundation legends were considered better than others; how such legends were invented, delineated, and propagated; and, as far as possible, who was responsible.

Approaching the same subject from a different angle, each of the four chapters in Part II examines in depth a city with a well-defined classical foundation myth from the turn of the fourteenth century: Padua, Genoa, Siena, and Perugia. I have chosen these four, cities of varying importance and circumstances, and geographically distant from one another, first to show that they represent a general phenomenon rather than exceptional occurrences; and second because none of them has received much historiographical attention in this area, particularly in the English academic world. Padua (chapter 5) claimed to have been founded by Antenor, the only Trojan besides Aeneas to have escaped the burning of Troy; in the late thirteenth century locals claimed to have dug up Antenor's bones, which were then treated with all the reverence due a holy relic.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Genoa's long tradition of municipal historiography resulted, also late in the thirteenth century, in the production of two long and popular histories of the city (chapter 6), both of which attest to the city's foundation by a third escaped Trojan named Janus, who gave his name to the new town: hence Janua, the medieval Latin spelling of Genoa. By contrast with Genoa, Siena's foundation myth (chapter 7) does not appear in written form until the fifteenth century, but a number of visual sources attest its importance from the late thirteenth century onward: the twins Aschius and Senius and their nurturing wolf appear not only on the wall of the Sienese communal council chamber, at the feet of the personified commune, but also on the town seal and in civic sculpture. Finally, in 1293 Perugia's ruling council commissioned a long epic poem on the deeds of its founder Eulistes (chapter 8), who also appears on the monumental public fountain built at the same time in Perugia's main piazza.

As far as possible, each of these four chapters traces the origin of a given story or myth as well as its adoption and reappropriation for use in the late medieval period. At the same time, each chapter correlates the development of its city's classicizing myth with its particular socio-political and economic circumstances. The evidence available for each city varies, and each city's purpose in propounding its myth is different; hence these studies demonstrate the wide variation present within the larger phenomenon. Although each of the myths analyzed in these chapters emphasizes a different aspect of the Roman past, they all serve a similar contemporary function: to articulate each city's sense of historical identity and legitimate its current regime as a logical successor to, or even continuation of, Roman rule.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In the hundred years surrounding the turn of the fourteenth century, the autonomous city-republics of northern and central Italy attributed the foundation of their respective cities to legendary classical heroes and historical figures; they uncovered and remounted Roman inscriptions; and they displayed ancient images on their coins. This study situates those efforts as part of the conscious identity-formation of the Italian city-states. At the same time, it contextualizes the wider relevance of the classical tradition in the society that brought forth early humanism, and characterizes the Italian cities' use and knowledge of ancient Rome as a dynamic engagement with the classical past more wide-ranging than historians have traditionally been willing to recognize.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

PART I.

A CLASSICIZING PHENOMENON

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Collective Identity and the Late Medieval Italian City

Chapter 1

> "Past events, it is argued, have no objective existence, but survive only in written records and in human memories. The past is whatever the records and the memories agree upon. And since the Party is in full control of all records... it follows that the past is whatever the Party chooses to make it...
>
> Who controls the past controls the future: who controls the present controls the past."
>
> —George Orwell, *Nineteen Eighty-Four*[1]

Introduction

Gore Vidal has said that "there is no history, only fictions of varying plausibility."[2] In historical circles it has become a truism to point out that we can never know, with Ranke, "how it really was"; that all historical data are mediated and made subjective by their creators; and that our vision of the past is, and has always been, conditioned by our own perspectives and presumptions. This does not necessarily mean (as more extreme theorists have posited) that attempting to understand the past is a pointless academic exercise. If anything, this realization has made historians more aware of the rhetorical features that have governed the act of historiography over the centuries. Getting past the nineteenth-century myth of "scientific" history, whose proponents attempted to uncover the absolute truth of the historical past, historians have begun to investigate how history is and has been constructed ever since the earliest peoples first began to commemorate events in tangible, lasting ways. Remembering is a willed event;

---

1 Orwell (1987), 222 and 260.
2 Vidal (1976), 208, but see 206-8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

like Sherlock Holmes, we choose what and how we want to remember, as well as how we ourselves wish to be remembered—otherwise we would go mad from the inability to forget *anything*; there would be too much information to process in a coherent manner.[3] Perhaps paradoxically, by understanding better how people understood themselves, and how they wished to be seen, we may be better able to distinguish fact, fiction, and the infinitesimal gradations between the two, thus more closely approaching the objective ideal in our understanding of the past.

This chapter introduces the concept of collective identity, a term for describing how groups of people promote their coherence as groups.[4] Agreement on certain issues, for example, affects the ways in which a group's members see themselves, each other, and the world around them, at the same time as it sets them apart from others who feel differently. Understanding these divisions is a first step toward understanding social interaction in any culture on a broad scale. Such issues are especially crucial when studying the medieval period, since scholars assert that—much more so than in modern society—people in the Middle Ages generally understood themselves in terms of their membership in groups: family, parish, guild, lordship, or even Christendom.[5] The first part of this chapter, therefore, discusses collective identity and its significance for cultural history generally, while the second part applies these principles to the urban culture of medieval Italy: I consider the contextual issues of urbanization, political structure, education, and law in turn as the chief factors contributing to the definition of the community in the century between 1250 and 1350. The relative lack of external control

---

3 Doyle (1986), 11-12.

4 Generally speaking, when I say "groups" do something, I mean that the leader(s) of the groups instigate the action, and everyone else goes along with it. See my discussion of agency in the Introduction.

5 See e.g. Bynum (1980) and Reynolds (1997).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

in the northern half of the peninsula and the resulting competition between cities made imperative the strong definition of the polity from within; the various groups which constituted medieval Italian society and the circumstances in which they operated combined to focus attention specifically on the city as the main locus of collective identity.

Defining the Past: History, Memory, and Collective Identity

A group's shared past is one of its most powerful defining features. In tacit recognition of this fact, a growing number of studies over the course of the last thirty years have focused on the history of how and why people remember. Studies in collective memory (also referred to as collective consciousness or social memory) have focused on how groups of every kind use recollected events as a means to identity or unification—as for example with the growing literature on national identity—while studies in the history of communication, propaganda, and power relations have investigated how collective memory can be manipulated in order to ensure that certain events or people are remembered in certain ways.[6] This wealth of terminology invites precision—what is *collective* memory and how does it differ from history and individual memory? Generally, scholars have distinguished history and memory in one of two ways. The first distinguishes the two through purpose. According to this view, *memory* is identified with unofficial recollection—what individuals have experienced, either

---

[6] On collective memory, see Connerton (1989), Burke (1992), Fentress and Wickham (1992), and Burke (1997), as well as more specific studies like Hen and Innes (2000), Roudometof (2002), and Brand, Monnet, et al. (2003). On the related issues of nationalism and national identity, see Gellner (1983), Smith (1986), Anderson (1991), Hobsbawm (1992), Gellner (1997), and Geary (2002).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

personally or vicariously, and are able to recall in an unmediated fashion—whereas *history* is seen as a deliberate, academic (and therefore more objective) endeavor to recall the past.[7] Memory is unmediated, unprofessional, and subjective; history is mediated, professional, and objective. Recent scholars have criticized this as an artificial distinction, a product of nineteenth-century positivism; in a poststructuralist world, the more mediated and deliberately constructed endeavor (here, history) is likely to be considered the less objective of the two.[8]

The second, more recent, way of distinguishing history and memory—and the way in which I will generally use the two terms in this study—is to consider memory an individual, private practice, and history a collective one. Just as a person's memory constitutes his or her understanding of his or her identity (true or false, deliberate or unintentional), a group's shared experiences define its *collective* memory, which in turn constitutes that group's identity as a group. History is therefore the commemoration of shared experience—something constructed and experienced in groups. As David Lowenthal points out in his fundamental work, *The Past is a Foreign Country*: "historical knowledge is by its very nature collectively produced and shared; historical awareness implies group activity."[9] In this sense, rather than having an objective existence of its own, history is the *result* of collective memory.

---

[7] See Lowenthal (1985), 193-213.

[8] Cf. Bennett and Royle (1999) for a good introduction to the concepts of structuralism, poststructuralism, and deconstructionism, and also Bennington (2000) on Derrida. For the application of these concepts to history, see e.g. White (1990) and Chase (1996). Peter Burke has wryly observed (1997) that "[r]emembering the past and writing about it no longer seem the innocent activities they were once taken to be" (44).

[9] Lowenthal (1985), 213.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Furthermore, *a history*, written or oral, is a particular version of the past, constructed by a particular person or group; as enumerated by Peter Burke: "Roman senators, Chinese mandarins, Benedictine monks, university professors, and so on"—in this case, all of them categories of people famous for writing (and therefore creating) history.[10] Each of these groups of people has, or had, a different sense of the significance of the past: what is worth remembering, and the right way in which it ought to be remembered. This being the case, we might say that there is no "history", generically speaking, since we can never know what actually happened; there are only histories: differing and necessarily subjective accounts of what actually happened. Approaching the same issue from an academic perspective, the French medievalist Jacques LeGoff has said that "every history should be a *social history* [sic]": all works of historiography are inevitably studies of society—how people function in groups of widely varying sizes and types, from the immediate family to the human race as a whole.[11] In the same vein, Peter Burke has described the intentional and sometimes unintentional manipulation of how people and events are remembered in certain ways as the "social history of remembering".[12]

History is therefore a constructed process by which groups identify themselves and relate to their surroundings, both geographically and chronologically, through their selective remembering of the past. As demonstrated by Patrick Geary in the recent and

---

[10] Burke (1997), 45.

[11] Le Goff (1992), xix. The academic study of this, for historians, is inevitably linked with the French histoire des mentalités movement pioneered by Philippe Ariès and Jacques Le Goff, and with the fields of semiotics and cultural anthropology. From a different perspective, Peter Burke's work on the history of ideology, propaganda, and public image has been equally influential: e.g. his study on King Louis XIV (1992); or his work on the uses of images (2001); in the latter, see especially chap. 11, "The Cultural History of Images".

[12] Burke (1997), 46.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

compelling *Myth of Nations*, a people's history is what defines them, whether (technically speaking) it ever actually happened or not.[13] The cultural and psychological ramifications of historical events therefore explain the magical prestige of the origin throughout human historiography. Its origin is a group's defining moment, the point at which the group becomes a group. This not only constitutes the group *as* a group, creating it and giving it identity, but it also creates an ideal by which the group will be judged throughout its existence. Almost by definition, the group as originally constituted is the perfect example of that group, and those who direct the collective memory of the group's origin also direct its sense of identity, whether the group is as small as a family or as large as a country. This is a process which operates both forward and backward: I refer not only to the intentional and historically verifiable formation of groups—like King Edward III's founding of the Order of the Garter in 1348, to choose a random example of the deliberate creation of a group; an event which all Garter ceremonies have commemorated since that time—but also to extant groups which choose moments of origin for commemoration according to their chosen ideals.

The American commemoration of Columbus Day, for example, celebrates the Spanish "discovery" of North America as an important moment of origin for the United States, at the expense of earlier European encounters with the continent and the native American peoples who already lived there—for whom the arrival of the Spanish was, truth be told, an unmitigated disaster. Thus the commemoration of origins is an activity charged with strong cultural, political, and even ideological overtones, implying not only a specific view of the past but adherence to a certain set of abstract ideals demonstrated

---

[13] Geary (2002), esp. 1-14.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

by that origin. Certain socially-conscious American cities (particularly in northern California and the Southwest) have in fact redesignated Columbus Day (traditionally celebrated the second Monday in October) as "Indigenous Peoples' Day", feeling that a celebration of Columbus himself sent all the wrong cultural and political messages.[14] The city council of Berkeley, California, made the change because it did not wish to be thought to support racial imperialism, military conquest, and colonialist greed—a dramatic example of the extremely broad implications the celebration of an origin can have.[15] In fact, David Lowenthal discusses six social "uses" for origins, regardless of context: legitimation and affirmation, to connect a present state of things (new or old) with the past, thereby validating it; innovation, to validate a new state of things through the use of logic linking the origin with the innovation; guidance and education, to express and exemplify a specific set of ideals; and finally glorification, to increase the perceived greatness of the group whose origin it is.[16] In each of these cases the origin celebrated may be either factual or unverifiable (if not actually fabricated wholesale); frequently the "factuality" of the origin, or lack thereof, is a matter of no real consequence.

What, then, differentiates between history and myth, since conventional wisdom says that, particularly when speaking of origins, history actually happened and myth did not? This set of definitions will not work, given our definition of history as a constructed

---

[14] The details and history of the holiday in Berkeley can be found at "Indigenous Peoples' Day" (2004); see also http://www.ci.berkeley.ca.us/communitycalendar/holidays.html. In fact, South Dakota has replaced Columbus Day with "Native American Day" state-wide.

[15] "To make the case for changing Columbus Day to Indigenous Peoples Day, the Task Force had to convince the community not only that Native people should be honored with a day, but that Columbus should no longer be honored. The Task Force presented their research which showed overwhelming evidence that Columbus himself took personal leadership in acts that would today be called genocide... Once the Berkeley City Council understood the proposal and that there was wide support for it in the community, they voted unanimously in its favor, declaring October 12th to be commemorated annually as 'Day of Solidarity with Indigenous People'"; "Indigenous Peoples' Day" (2004).

[16] Lowenthal (1985), 35-52.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

process of remembering—but the two are obviously connected, and just as obviously not quite the same thing. In his book *Myth and Reality*, Mircea Eliade distinguishes between history and myth by saying that history is essentially chronological, a causal chain of remembered events occurring in a specific period of time. Myth, on the other hand, is atemporal, occurring in some nebulous period before that: a time out of time. Insofar as they are atemporal, mythical events tend to be perfect and exemplary, but they are still necessarily "true" in some objective sense, since they brought forth and explain what can currently be seen to exist. Eliade goes on to identify this duality as one of the strengths of myth: its existence both in reality and out of it implies a recoverability of those times, a possibility of reliving or recovering a glorious past. The origin story is therefore a classic example of myth: a group's origin story defines the group and its ideals; the recollection of that origin recalls those ideals and encourages imitation.[17]

History and myth are therefore both products of collective memory, both purposeful ways of remembering the past. Going one step further: they define *identity* because collective memory is a means by which groups of people are defined as groups; it at least partially defines the people who are members of that group, and affects how they understand the world. At its most basic level, this creates an "us" vs. "them" dichotomy, but most people are, and understand themselves as, members of many different groups simultaneously. I, for instance, am a member of groups as diverse, potentially contradictory, and nebulously defined as: "US citizens of Czech descent", "US citizens of Scottish descent", "medievalists", "historians", "UCLA graduate students",

---

[17] Eliade (1963), 5-6 and 139-45.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

"confirmed Lutherans", "non-practicing Christians", and "people who ride their bicycles on Santa Monica beach". Consequently, I define myself through my membership in these groups. Unsurprisingly, some of them are more meaningful to me than others: for example, I have a greater interest in the first of my Scottish ancestors who came to North America (one Donald Ban McLennan, who emigrated to Canada in the early eighteenth century), than I do in the first person to ride a bicycle on Santa Monica beach.

As this example suggests, the most potent ties are usually those of kinship and "people" (however that word is understood).[18] In his book *History and Memory*, Jacques Le Goff identifies three main types of early collective memory: origin myths constitutive of specific tribes or peoples; family genealogies; and ritualized technical knowledge: thus implying the prime importance of tribe, family, and custom in the formation of early identity.[19] Far from being primitive phenomena irrelevant to modern civilization, these same concerns are still painfully relevant today, as Patrick Geary's analysis of the central role played by early medieval origin myths in the ethnic warfare of contemporary Europe demonstrates.[20] Political leaders, in fact, have always found collective identity a handy ethnic or nationalistic distinguishing factor, even up to the present day: Hitler, De Gaulle, and Mussolini all played consciously to (one might even say, preyed on) their constituents' sense of collective identity as German, French, and Italian. In hindsight, the groups to which people connect themselves, the pasts they attach to those groups, and the values they exemplify in them are all crucial ways by which to understand them.

---

18 The term "ethnicity" is equally problematic. Geary (2002) discusses both terms; see also his cited bibliography, as for example the work of Walter Pohl and Herwig Wolfram.

19 Le Goff (1992), chap. 3.

20 Geary (2002).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The most obvious way to ensure that something is remembered (to "memorialize" it), is to externalize it, making it both publicly accessible and physically lasting. This can take the guise of writing something down (like a grocery list), drawing a picture (the Lascaux caves come to mind), carving stone, or anything else that creates a physical symbol of the event or thing to be remembered. Physicality is thus central to the act of remembering; when we say history is constructed, we mean physically as well as mentally.[21] It can be anything from a reconstruction of the thing commemorated (a diorama of the Battle of Waterloo) to a written description (a charter of privileges granted) to an unrelated object (an uncarved stone) which simply indicates that something is to be remembered. All such intentionally created commemorations are *monuments* in the Roman sense of the word; they create a visible symbol which recalls a certain event or person in a certain way.[22] This refers to monuments as we generally think of them—equestrian statues, classical *stelae*, and victory arches—but also to written documents and other less predictable physical manifestations. By their sheer physicality, commemorative objects have an authoritative power which pure memory does not.[23] But like any historical piece of evidence, or remnant of the past, monuments require interpretation to give them meaning. The effort of collective memory is necessary to make the link between the recalled event and the monument. Particularly in the case of the uninscribed marker—like a bit of string on one's finger—if you don't know what the marker is intended to commemorate, you remain unenlightened and the marker isn't

---

[21] I do not mean to deny the existence of chiefly or entirely oral cultures, e.g. in ancient Greece, Africa, or India of the Vedic period, which remember (or remembered) the past in very different ways.

[22] See the works on *monumenta* by Mary Jaeger and Catherine Edwards cited in the Introduction, fn. 25.

[23] E.g. Clanchy (1993), 148-9 and 318-26.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

functioning properly.[24] Even the detailed diorama of the Battle of Waterloo is symbolically opaque if it lacks a label, and its observer doesn't know enough about nineteenth-century European history to identify the diorama as that particular battle. Thus the use of monuments is a two-directional phenomenon; the monument commemorates a certain view of the past, but the intention of the commemorator is always at the whim of the observer/interpreter, whose historical understanding is also necessary to the proper symbolic "functioning" of the monument. If the label says "Waterloo" but the viewer has no knowledge of the Battle of Waterloo, the diorama is just a collection of symbolically indeterminate figures on a battlefield.

Monuments—physical objects that recall certain memories, or project a certain understanding of the past—can (at least technically) be as small as a pebble or as big as a country. Memory, history, and identity are inextricably connected to physical space, and an object doesn't have to be intended as a monument to be treated as such, or to become such. The log cabin in which American president Abraham Lincoln was born certainly wasn't built as a national historic monument, although it may have become one.[25] Similarly, Mary Jaeger has dissected how the Roman Forum—not only the statues and buildings in it, but the space itself—constructed a certain historical identity for the citizens of first-century Rome.[26] Likewise, any territory which is identified as a "homeland" because a certain ethnic group perceives itself to have originated there (Israel, to choose a controversial example) is commemorative, like the Forum, not only for what

---

[24] A good example from popular culture is the Remembrall belonging to the hapless Neville Longbottom in J. K. Rowling's Harry Potter series: it turns red to remind him that he has forgotten something, but he can never remember what it is that he has forgotten; Rowling (1997), 145.

[25] "The Abraham Lincoln Birthplace National Historic Site" (2004).

[26] Jaeger (1997), esp. 30-56.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

it contains but *in itself,* and according to boundaries which have remained and should remain unchanged. Israel, for example, is identified as the homeland of the Jews not only because it contains such cultural and religious monuments as Jerusalem and the Temple but also because the territory itself is thought of as the ancestral patrimony, the place of origin, of the Jewish people. Defined by specific boundaries, the land is a historically meaningful monument (in this case, particularly due to the historical weight attached to exile from the homeland).[27]

Thus the monument is a potent device for the manipulation of historical meaning; it spans chronology, existing as it does both now and then, and serving as the conduit by which now and then are linked. Further, it controls what of *then* we know *now*, and how we know it.[28] As such, monuments are crucial foci when attempting to construct a collective past; they focus attention on certain commemorated events or people, thereby directing the collective memory. A monument, particularly one rooted in a specific place, gives an aura of actuality to otherwise mythical events; individual and collective memory coalesce around places and monuments which evince or actualize the history and/or shared experiences of a given group of people. People articulate their sense of history and identity through the monuments which they (or their leaders) erect, celebrate, and recognize; thus place and monument are the physical manifestations through which the abstract concepts, ideals, and values which comprise identity, memory, history, and myth are all connected.

---

[27] See e.g. Gorni (1994).

[28] Theoretical interest has focused very much on this issue in recent years: the symposium published as *Grounds for Remembering* (1995) included such diverse experts as literary historian Stephen Greenblatt and sculptor/architect Maya Lin.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

These connections between place, object, and event—these ways of creating identity and constructing the past—are essentially universal principles. The groups that people belong to, and the weight they place on them, vary widely over time, but the fact of how people define themselves according to those groups remains more or less a constant. In his preface, David Lowenthal comments that:

> individuals, like states, must continually confront the competing pulls of dependence and autonomy, following and leading, tradition and creativity, infancy and maturity. It was striking to find the same metaphors for coping with a past, at once supportive and burdensome, employed across such a spectrum of disciplines and over European history from the Renaissance to the present.[29]

I would argue that Lowenthal's point need not be so chronologically restrictive; ancient and medieval historiography show their authors dealing with the past in the same ways; reacting to the same constraints; using the same metaphors and techniques to legitimate their work. These issues of historical self-definition were particularly crucial to the cities of late medieval Italy due to the intensely competitive atmosphere—intellectual and economic as well as socio-political—pervading north-central Italy at this time.[30] Four general factors contributed not only to this atmosphere but also to the clear coalescing of collective identity at the level of the city itself.

---

[29] Lowenthal (1985), xix.

[30] Good general works on the period include: Martines (1979), Waley (1988), and Jones (1997); see also the works cited in the Introduction, fn. 9 and 10.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1: Urbanization

Italy's legacy from the classical period included not only ruins and ancient texts, but a demographic pattern which maintained levels of urbanization unseen elsewhere in Europe—even in the centuries of invasion and migration. Early Christian bishoprics and monasteries had been founded in the major Roman cities, and Roman edifices provided ready shelter and convenient building materials to people of later centuries, so that the early Middle Ages in Italy maintained not only the site of urban populations (however reduced from their third- and fourth-century heights) but a tradition of urban living while the rest of Europe was largely rural; see figure 1.[31] With the growth of towns and long-distance trade in the eleventh and twelfth centuries, after the end of the invasions of the sixth through tenth centuries, already extant Italian cities experienced exponential growth.[32] The twelfth-century walls of Florence, for example, cover an area more than twice as large as that covered by its Roman walls, and the fourteenth-century walls double that again (see figure 2).[33] The economic success of Italian trade and banking from the tenth century onward meant not only that urbanization started at a higher level in Italy than in the rest of Europe, but that it proceeded at a faster pace. In the later Middle Ages (c. 1050-1450), Italian cities comprised at least half of the ten largest cities in Christian Europe: around the year 1300, that number was probably more like seven or eight out of the ten (exceptions are Paris, Cologne, and potentially Bruges or Ghent),

---

31 La Rocca (2002), 47-9 and 168-88; Manacorda (2001) contains useful illustrations showing how the urban fabric of classical Rome became that of medieval Rome; see especially figures 30, 47, 71, and 74, which visualize the area around the classical Theatre of Pompey at different periods in classical and medieval history. Manacorda, figure 74, is reproduced here as figure 1.

32 See Lopez and Raymond (2001), chap. 2 and 3; Luzzatto (1961), 47-70; and Greenhalgh (1989).

33 Brucker (1984), 25-26.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

with populations of 40,000 people and higher.[34] If the population of Rome (which around 1300 was probably 30,000) was a fraction of what it was at its classical height of over a million people in the second century AD, it still overshadowed most of the cities in medieval Europe.[35]

Both demographically and historically, this high level of urbanization meant that the physical city defined personal identity as nowhere else in Europe. Following Augustine's fifth-century distinction between the earthly city and the city of God, medieval theorists distinguished clearly between *urbs* (the physical city) and *civitas* (the constituted group of people who live there).[36] Both of these different definitions emphasize the unity of the city at the expense of other kinds of groupings. Hence the urban classes of medieval Italy saw themselves as defined—personally as well as legally—by the physical space of the city. Since Italy was not yet politically unified, and no one thought of it except as a geographical entity (i.e. the Italian peninsula), one's first allegiance was to one's city. Living inside the walls of Padua meant identifying oneself first and foremost as Paduan. Padua may technically have been part of the Holy Roman Empire, but to most people "Roman" meant "an inhabitant of the city of Rome"—and besides, the Holy Roman Emperor was German, and a long way away.[37]

---

34 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 276.

35 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 47. Brentano (1990), for example, contrasts "The Physical City" (ch. 1), with "The Ideal City" (ch. 2). Rome's paradoxical situation will be treated further in the next chapter, although see also Davis (1957) and Krautheimer (2000).

36 Le Goff (1982), 19.

37 On the much-debated question of whether the "Roman people" actually had legislative power over the Empire, Cino da Pistoia remarks in his legal commentary on Digest 1.14.12 that "In these matters you may believe whatever most pleases you, because I do not care. For if the Roman people should in fact make a law or a custom, I know that it would not be heeded outside of the city"; Cino da Pistoia (1998), 29; see also my discussion in Benes (1999), 245-9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In visible contrast with these abstruse semantic matters (what, if anything, did it mean that the Holy Roman Emperor was German?), Padua's city walls clearly separated those who were Paduan from those who were not Paduan, and Paduan space from non-Paduan space. I do not mean to suggest that these boundaries were not fairly fluid: many city-dwellers owned estates in the countryside, and vice versa.[38] Likewise, most cities controlled a certain area outside their city walls, called the *contado*, which was still considered (e.g.) Paduan territory even if it wasn't inside the walls of Padua.[39] But the contado was territory controlled by Padua, not part of the city itself: the urban space of Padua was delimited and defined by its walls.[40]

By contrast, it was hard to be so precise in the larger regions which comprised much of the rest of Europe: one might be a resident of Bruges and a Fleming, but residents of other cities were also Flemings, and owing to the malleability of regional borders it wasn't always easy to distinguish Flanders from not-Flanders, or Flemings from non-Flemings. In Italy almost all of these larger identifications and allegiances were subsumed into the civic, at the level of the individual city: Dante identified himself first and foremost as a Florentine, and Marsilius of Padua as a Paduan.[41] North-central Italy's strong urban network and the clear physical boundaries demarcating each city supported that sense of identification and community.

---

38 See e.g. Martines (1979), 162-5.

39 See e.g. Fiumi (1956), Cherubini (1974), Grohmann (1981a), and Ascheri (2001a).

40 Cities in late medieval Italian painting are almost invariably depicted within their walls; see Frugoni (1991), especially figs. 16 (the heavenly Jerusalem), 39-41 (patron bishops holding small versions of their cities), and 85 (St. Francis driving the devils from Arezzo). Likewise, the early-fourteenth-century map of Rome in Krautheimer (2000), fig. 182, is defined by the oval of its walls, which show every main gate and tower.

41 Dante refers indirectly to Florence in *Inferno* 6.49; see also Najemy (1993). Marsilius refers to himself as a "son of Antenor" (Antenor being the legendary founder of Padua) in Marsilius of Padua (2001), 6; cf. discussion in chapter 5 at fn. 38.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

2: Political Structures

If urbanization focused attention on the city as the primary component of medieval Italian identity, political theory and the practicalities of government reinforced this emphasis—since the city was also the main political construct of the period. When medieval intellectuals wanted to know why people live in groups, and how this practice developed, they looked to two main authorities on political theory: firstly, Roman sources like Cicero and Seneca, whose thought was based on Greek (mostly Aristotelian) principles, and secondly, Judeo-Christian religious sources. In this respect, the three most influential political thinkers for medieval Christianity were Aristotle, Cicero, and Augustine, whose principles all built on one another.[42] Aristotle was well known throughout the ancient and medieval West for having defined man as a political animal, implying an inherent inclination to associate in social and political groups.[43] Not surprisingly, Cicero placed this formulation in a rhetorical context, explaining that it was man's unique ability to reason and communicate that created this natural sociability.[44] Only in groups, in other words in *society*, could man fulfill his full potential by utilizing these skills. Augustine took Cicero one step further, injecting these principles with a Christian's sense of virtue and vice: society was necessary not only because it helped man to fulfill his potential, to achieve his greatest good, but also because it encouraged those positive collective traits at the expense of negative, selfish ones.[45]

---

42 The best analysis of this development is Nederman (1988), but see also Mundy (1989), Blythe (2000), and the introduction to Nederman and Forhan (1993), 1-17.

43 Bosley and Tweedale (1992) and Kassim (2000).

44 See Nederman (1988) and (1992).

45 Nederman and Forhan (1993), 4-9; see also Condren (1975).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Thus the Middle Ages inherited a view of society based on the idea of a social contract; people come together for the betterment of society as a whole and its members individually, subverting their selfish individual interests to the common good. The idea appears in a number of important medieval thinkers, not least the twelfth-century John of Salisbury and the fourteenth-century Marsilius of Padua.[46] The ideas of contract and the common good underline the importance of the group in medieval society—societies were conceived of as groups of people joined by a common purpose.

The theoretical assumption that the city was the basic unit of society fit the medieval Italian experience remarkably well. Due to the long absences and relative ineffectiveness of the pope and the Holy Roman Emperor, the operative political entity—that which made laws, collected taxes, and negotiated with the outside world—was inevitably the city government. This was true whether people lived in the city or the countryside, since most parts of the countryside were under the control of a nearby city. In the republican cities of the north, the municipal government was usually known as the commune[47], and comprised of a number of citizen assemblies which at their broadest scope included all qualified male residents of that city.[48] Hence the commune was not only held to represent the city, and have its best interests at heart, but on some level to *be* the city, since it included everyone of consequence. (Women, children, slaves, and foreigners, for obvious reasons, did not qualify.) The group who made the laws was perceived to be equivalent to the group who were subject to them;

---

[46] John of Salisbury (1844-55) and (1990), and Marsilius of Padua (2001); the latter edition of John is a partial English translation by Nederman. See also Skinner (1978), vol. 1, and Black (1992).

[47] This was true despite bearing little actual resemblance to the eleventh- and twelfth-century groups of the same name, which weren't governments *per se*; see Fasoli (1961) and Martines (1979).

[48] See Chiappelli (1926), Fasoli (1961), and Bordone (1984).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

hence one of the most obvious definitions of a Sienese is "one who is subject to the laws of Siena."

The rise of the city as a contained and self-governing body meant that academic Aristotelian questions of "society" and "the common good" were much less abstract in Italy than elsewhere in Europe. When the society in question consists of twenty or forty thousand people, all living together in the space of two or three square miles, the notion that people must sometimes suppress their personal interests in the interests of the whole is no longer theoretical. When Italian political scholars discussed "the common good", they were in no doubt as to whose commonality they meant: for Marsilius of Padua, the society he discusses is fairly clearly the city of Padua in which he grew up.[49] For medieval Italians, classical political theory made a great deal of sense because it was founded almost entirely on the assumption that men live in cities—and the citydwellers of medieval Italy had firsthand experience with Aristotle's *polis.*[50]

3: Literacy and Education

The influence of the urban environment is as clear in other cultural realms as it is in politics; for instance, the cities' economic success led to the development of a sophisticated urban culture with a relatively high literacy rate.[51] Late medieval Italian culture shows a deep understanding of the importance of writing and its role in the preservation of the past. Lawyers and notaries, the professional writers of the Italian cities, were numerous and highly respected. Italy, in fact, is the one place in Europe

---

49 See Nederman's afterword to Marsilius of Padua (2001), 447.
50 Molho, Raaflaub, et al. (1991) is an interesting comparative study.
51 Gehl (1993), 16, and Martines (1979), 64.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

where the public notarial system had survived continuously from the time of the Roman empire: not everywhere, but enough that lay notaries retained the professional writing function that had been taken over in northern Europe by the church.[52] The role of writing, and of professional writers, was crucial: compared to the rest of Europe, the Italian towns made vast profits in trade through the high and late Middle Ages, both in textile production and in the luxury goods trade from the East. In this commercial atmosphere, literacy was essential for the technicalities of large-scale business such as contracts, charters, and bills of exchange.[53] Some of this was done officially, by notaries, but much of it was done by literate members of the middle class.[54] Lawyers and notaries were also responsible for producing reams of legal advice and official decrees for the communes, which kept tight control of economic, political, and religious matters in the Italian cities, and required legal advice and professional legal writing on a regular basis.[55] They were thus only the most official writers in a society in which literacy regularly extended, at least in some fashion, even to the lower classes.

Finally, these many lawyers and notaries were also responsible for educating the sons of the middle and upper classes; as a result, Italian education in this period was considerably more secularized than elsewhere in Europe.[56] The political weakness of the church meant that the cathedral schools were correspondingly weak; these were the main

---

52 Cammarosano (1991), 39-111, and Petrucci (1992).

53 See Lopez and Raymond (2001), especially part 3 ("Commercial Contracts and Commercial Investments") and part 5 ("Tools and Ideas"; a collection of translated sources).

54 See e.g. Gehl (1993) and Petrucci (1995).

55 Generally, Witt (1988) and Albini (1998); studies dealing with specific cities are Costamagna (1970), Giansante (1998), and Tamba (2002).

56 Gehl (1993), 6 and 16.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

providers of education, by contrast, in England and France.[57] The ascendance of commercial interests in the towns, on the other hand, meant that education in Italy was practical, with an emphasis on concrete application and utility: the sons of the merchant classes needed to know above all about accounting and contracts. The profusion of notaries on all but the lowest economic level meant that such practical education was widely available; students did not have to travel to a university or a cathedral center to gain a basic education.[58] As a result, a gap between northern and southern Europe developed in the medieval universities; essentially, the Italian schools and universities produced secular professionals (notaries, doctors, and lawyers), where the northern schools (the universities of Paris and Oxford being the most obvious examples) trained priests and religious professionals.[59] The Italian schools, moreover, were not dependent on the church for their maintenance. This secular educational system contributed to the prominence of educated lay professionals in the Italian social system.

As a system, it emphasized the importance of writing as a means of remembering, whether used for contracts or family genealogies. It is in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries that we first see members of the middle classes keeping personal account books, family histories, and written miscellanies (*zibaldoni*) as personal records of things they thought worth remembering, instead of being content with the public records made by the local notary.[60] Grammarians and teachers were correspondingly emphatic on the

---

57 Rashdall (1987), 17-8 and 21.

58 Cf. the discussion of the *abbaco*, a school for business arithmetic, in Gehl (1993), 21-3.

59 Rashdall (1987): contrast chap. 4 on Bologna with chap. 5 on Paris. On universities more generally, see De Ridder-Symoens (1992).

60 Editions include Biagi (1915) and Dotson (1994); good analyses are Klapisch-Zuber (1988), especially "L'invenzione del passato familiare a Firenze" (chap. 1) and "Le genealogie fiorentine" (chap. 2), and Picone and Cazalé-Bérard (1998).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

importance of memory, whether mental or written. Many thirteenth-century treatises on rhetoric (of which memory was a part, according to Cicero), like that of Boncompagno da Signa's *Rhetorica novissima* (1235), contain long sections on the importance of memory, and instructions on the best way to remember important things.[61] Many of these were derived from the classical art of memory, which emphasized the importance of symbolism, monuments, and physical space in the act of remembering. One common method of remembering a series of ideas was as popular in the Middle Ages as it was in the Roman period: the student would establish a mental itinerary through a series of invented monuments in a real or imaginary landscape; each monument reminded him of a single point, and the itinerary as a whole made up the entire sequence of ideas in order.[62] Several of these treatises were translated into Italian, and in fact the first work on memory in the vernacular was written in the first decade of the fourteenth century, by a Dominican friar from Pisa named Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1262-1347). His work was appropriately titled *Teachings of the Ancients.*[63] These works demonstrate the presence, in this literate urban culture, of a wide audience for and broad interest in questions of education, literacy, and memory—and specifically in appropriate ways of remembering and commemorating.

The emphasis placed on memory, combined with the strong pride and attention focused specifically at the city, led to the development of a strong tradition of civic

---

61 The classic is Yates (1966), but valuable recent contributions include Stock (1983) and Carruthers (1990); Carruthers and Ziolkowski (2002) is a valuable sourcebook which includes excerpts from Boncompagno da Signa.

62 Yates (1966), 1-26, and Carruthers (1990), 122-55.

63 Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1857); see the discussion and works cited in chapter 4 of this study.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

historiography in the northern half of Italy.[64] These texts borrowed and combined the features of a number of classical genres like historiography, ethnographic description, and civic panegyric; they encompass everything from city descriptions and annalistic chronicles to universal histories beginning with the creation of man and extending up to the current day.[65] The feature these many works all have in common is a historiographical treatment almost entirely focused on a single city. Chronicles focused on regions or feudal lordships do exist, but are much rarer: even Rolandino's *Chronicle of the Trevisan March* is really a chronicle of the city of Padua. Early examples include two ninth-century poems eulogizing the cities of Milan and Verona, but the trend really took off in the twelfth century, with examples from smaller cities such as Pisa and Bergamo as well as Rome.[66] Genoa has an official municipal chronicle covering the entire period from 1099 to 1294.[67] The overwhelming interest in the civic past was a natural result of the social characteristics of the medieval Italian city, a way of defining the city's collective identity on the municipal level.

---

64 Balzani (1883) provides an overview, but see also Arnaldi (1966), Martini (1971), Arnaldi (1984), and Zanella (1984); Hyde (1966-7), Green (1972), and Golinelli (1995) provide focused perspectives. Bak, Quirin, et al. (1987) is an extremely useful if not comprehensive guide to the sources.

65 This subject is treated in more depth in the next chapter.

66 The two earliest (from the eighth and ninth centuries) are treated in Pighi (1960). On Bergamo, see Haskins (1920), Moses de Brolo (1945), and Cremaschi (1945) and (1954); and on Pisa, see Fisher (1966) and Scalia (1995). On Rome's twelfth-century bid for political autonomy, see Schramm (1929), Brezzi (1947), Rota (1953), and Benson (1982) and (1985). The most important texts are reproduced in Valentini and Zucchetti (1946).

67 The chronicle is edited in Belgrano and Imperiale di Sant'Angelo (1890-1929); the best analyses are Petti Balbi (1982) and (1995).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

4: The Revival of Roman Law

Finally, the revival of Roman law in the twelfth and thirteenth centuries contributed to the focusing of collective identity around the city. In the 1070s, the single sixth-century manuscript (*Codex Pisanus*) of Justinian's complete *Digest* was rediscovered in Pisa, where it stayed until the Florentines carried it off as a spoil of war in the early fifteenth century.[68] This aided the formal development of the study of jurisprudence according to Roman law, which took shape under Pepo and Irnerius at Bologna in the early twelfth century.[69] Little is known about Pepo, but Irnerius and his students (known as the Four Doctors, or the Glossators) used the traditional method of Biblical exegesis to explain and interpret the *Corpus Iuris Civilis* to growing numbers of law students at Bologna. In the early thirteenth century, these glosses were compiled by Accursius into the standard gloss, or *glossa ordinaria*, on Roman law, thus providing a standard textbook for Roman law akin to Gratian's *Decretum* for canon law or Peter Lombard's *Sentences* for theology.[70] In the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries, once the standard gloss had appeared, interpretive commentaries were more usual in the schools (as under Boncompagno da Signa in the thirteenth century, or Bartolo da Sassoferrato and Baldo degli Ubaldi in the fourteenth). Instead of trying to explain what was already there, these jurists attempted to apply the principles of Roman law to problems not covered in the text: either classical problems for which the text was faulty, or, more commonly,

---

[68] The *Codex Pisanus* is CLA 5.295 (Lowe [1934-1972], 5.6); Radding (1988), 151-7, discusses the manuscript further.

[69] On Roman law and its study in the Middle Ages, see Ullmann (1975), Clarence Smith (1975), Radding (1988), and Vinogradoff (1994), as well as De Ridder-Symoens (1992), 388-408.

[70] See Kantorowicz and Buckland (1969); for contrast, see Winroth (2000) on Gratian.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

contemporary problems which the Romans never dealt with, but which the medieval jurists were now facing.[71]

Their experience with the *Codex* and other ancient sources engaged medieval jurists and lawyers in questioning how law was meant to be applied and interpreted: was Roman law valid for everyone, or just people who lived in Rome? Were Mantuans subject to Roman law? Why or why not? Moreover, it provided a basis around which to focus the practicalities of medieval law. Questions of legal identity that concerned theorists studying Roman law—can communes be autonomous? who is subject to them? to whom are they subject?—paralleled and connected with questions of collective identity in general—what is a Perugian? Municipal lawyers used Roman law to define citizenship and identity, incorporating it into the considerable municipal archives that were being accumulated.[72] These archives (deposits of decrees, legal decisions, diplomatic missives, and treaties) served as a focus for the collective memory of the city in their descriptions of the city, its citizens, and its privileges in relation to the world around it. The municipal chronicle of Genoa, for example, was a prized part of these notarial deposits: an official record of the memorable deeds and citizens of the Genoese republic which served to focus the civic memory and collective identity of the Genoese citizenry.

---

71 Kantorowicz and Buckland (1969) and Radding (1988).

72 On the role of writing and bureaucracy in civic definition, see Albini (1998), especially the articles by Fissore, Keller, Cammarosano, and Arnaldi. On citizenship, see especially Bowsky (1969), Waley (1988), 102-9, and Quaglioni (1991).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In the end, then, if we (along with the inhabitants of medieval Italy) subscribe to Aristotle's basic dictum that man is a socio-political animal, the essential question becomes: if men naturally live in communities, how were those communities determined? The considerations cited above—of urbanization, government, education, and law—suggest three main ways that medieval Italians defined "the community", or understood group identity. First is the obvious matter of geography. The urban community was defined physically, not only by its walls but by people's consciousness of them. Defensive castles in the countryside protected the Perugian contado as well as announcing to travelers that they were entering a new jurisdiction. The city walls and major gates of the town not only divided Perugia from the Perugian countryside and Perugia's nearby urban neighbors, but also acted as monuments within the physical space of the town. Chronicles of every sort take the time to delimit the major gates, roads, and landmarks of the city as if to make absolutely certain that there can be no question which area is being discussed when the chronicle speaks of Padua.[73] At the same time the city's history was visible, commemorated as it was by its physical space and monuments, so literary and physical forms of memory reinforced one another. The cities displayed a strong desire to define their own physical boundaries, as when the city council of Padua adopted the ancient Roman definition for the bounds of Patavium in the late thirteenth century: *Muson, Mons, Athes, Mare certos dant michi fines.*[74] The community was defined by the physical space which it occupied: urban Padua by its walls, greater Padua by its

---

73 Hyde (1965-6), 321, 327, 332, and 335.
74 Hyde (1966), plate 1; see chapter 5, fn. 9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

various castles and recent conquests (or losses) in the eternal jockeying for territory with its neighbors like Vicenza, Verona, Ferrara, and Venice.

The second major factor that defined the urban Italian community was the family: the community as defined genealogically over the course of time. This includes not only personal identity, the person as defined by his or her family (the Bardi of Florence, the Boccanegra of Genoa, the Ugurgieri of Siena) but also that fact's broader implications: who are his relatives? what is their family's traditional occupation? where does the family come from?[75] The answers to these questions are frequently complicated; for instance, a family might identify itself as Florentine, but within Florence still maintain ties to the village in the Florentine contado from which they had originally come.[76] Likewise, many of the larger merchant families of this period kept a broad scope to their investments, with various branches of the family extending into various types of trade in different parts of the Mediterranean world even while the family overall involved itself in banking.[77] Finally, the matter of family defined not only individuals but larger communities like cities as well: as J. K. Hyde has shown, one of the major genres akin to the city chronicle in this period was the "social chronicle", a kind of city description based on people rather than landmarks. These chronicles listed the city's major families and their chief members, frequently including such data as family occupation, family coat of arms, and even traditional place or area of residence within the

---

75 Cf. Farinata, who asks Dante "Who were your ancestors?" by way of an introduction (*Inferno* 10.42).

76 Brucker (1984), 27-8, and Hughes (1977).

77 The best-known example of this is probably Francesco Datini of Prato and his family, as described by Origo (1957).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

city.[78] Thus family and descent were a major way of locating a person's position within the city community, identifying his membership in various, often overlapping, subgroups such as parish, neighborhood, and guild. And inversely the city was perceived to be made up of these many family-based subgroups.

Finally, as we have seen, the third and last major way of defining the urban community was through law: from Roman law to decrees made by the city council. The physical bounds of the *urbs* were legally defined, but so was the *civitas*, or body of citizens, both those people who were subject to municipal law and those who were eligible to make it: men who met a given set of requirements, and were therefore qualified to vote and/or hold municipal office. As mentioned earlier, all of these ways of defining the community overlapped, since frequently the limitations on who could vote or hold office were couched in terms of physical residence or family membership. Most cities had laws about how long someone had to live or own property in their city (inside the city walls) before he was eligible to take part in city government, and many had lists of families who were or were not eligible for certain offices. After 1302, Florence published lists of noble families who were prohibited from holding office, while others, like Venice after the establishment of the Golden Book in 1297, limited municipal office to members of an established aristocracy, whose names were kept in an official list.[79]

Thus the city, the urban community, was the most dominant factor defining collective identity in medieval Italy. Examples of this abound in late medieval Italian

---

[78] Hyde (1966-7), especially on Giovanni da Nono, whose chronicle has been partly edited in Fabris (1932-9).

[79] Cf. Cracco (1967), chap. 3 and 4, and Lane (1973), esp. 110-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

literature. People identified themselves first and foremost by their city: both Dante (1265-1321) and Petrarch (1304-1374), although exiles, always identified themselves as Florentines. Dante had lived in Florence for much of his early life, and participated in its government (which fact resulted in his exile in 1302)—but Petrarch's father was exiled before his son was born, and Petrarch grew up in southern France. Yet both men saw themselves as Florentine—by family association, temperament, culture, or some unspoken combination of the three. Similarly, the sculptor Giovanni Pisano (c. 1250-after 1314) was granted municipal citizenship as a reward for his work in the city of Siena.[80] Giovanni was originally from Pisa, as his name suggests (though his father, the sculptor Nicola Pisano, grew up in southern Italy)—but he worked all over Italy, both with his father and independently. In accepting Sienese citizenship, however, Giovanni remained a Pisano: he did not suddenly become Giovanni Senese. These three modes of group definition—topography, family, and law—therefore all combined to create membership in the network of urban communities that occupied the Italian peninsula in the later Middle Ages. They were frequently complicated, and did not always return the same answers, but in that, they accurately reflect the rather chaotic but deeply-felt socio-cultural situation.

---

[80] White (1993), 114; see also Bowsky (1969) and Waley (1991), 72-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Roman History and the Italian Middle Ages

Chapter 2

> What chiefly makes the study of history wholesome and profitable is this, that you behold the lessons of every kind of experience set forth as on a conspicuous monument; from these you may choose for yourself and for your own state what to imitate, from these mark for avoidance what is shameful in the conception and shameful in the result.
>
> —Livy, *Ab urbe condita*[1]

> The deeds of the ancients have been put into writing so that their human heirs may benefit from their series of examples; so that when someone hears what glory the victors reaped, he may grow from virtue to virtue; and when he understands what scorn accrues to criminals and villains, he may beware the same lest he thereafter incur equal infamy. Indeed, when one contemplates the achievements and actions of the ancients, he comes to desire to follow the same path with affectionate steps, so that like them, and through similar virtues, he may achieve glory.
>
> —Boncompagno da Signa, *Liber de obsidione Ancone*[2]

Introduction

The Roman past was omnipresent in medieval Italy, not only in its extant literature but in the physical fabric of the peninsula. Patterns of medieval settlement were largely dictated by classical remains of all sizes, from highways to blocks of stone.[3] There was no point building an entirely new fortified house, for instance, if one could take advantage of extant Roman fortifications, precut blocks of stone, and ancient imported marble. The medieval fortress belonging to the aristocratic Caetani family on

---

1 *Hoc illud est praecipue in cognitione rerum salubre ac frugiferum: omnis te exempli documenta in inlustri posita monumento intueri; inde tibi tuaeque rei publicae quod imitere capias, inde foedum inceptu, foedum exitu, quod uites*; Livy (1919), Preface.10.

2 *Redacta fuerunt igitur in scriptis facta maiorum, ut humana propago successivis uteretur exemplis, et cum audit quantam victoriosi gloriam reportabant, de virtute in virtutem ascendat; et dum intellegit quanto ludibrio criminosi et pusillanimes respergebantur, a similibus caveat, ne parem infamiam ex post facto incurrat. Nam cum geste res et maiorum acta recoluntur, ad eadem facienda passibus tenditur affectuosis, ut de re consimili similis valeat gloriari*; Boncompagno da Signa (1999), 114.

3 This subject has been addressed in detail by Greenhalgh (1989).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the Appian Way just outside of Rome incorporated the republican tomb of Caecilia Metella: the crenellations which make the tomb so easily recognizable in Piranesi's eighteenth-century prints and modern photographs were a pragmatic fourteenth-century addition (figure 3). Such remnants were the inescapable reminder of a great empire which had once ruled the known world—a near-impossible achievement which medieval rulers consistently tried and failed to reproduce. Although the Romans were known to have been pagans, their skills in architecture, military conquest, literary composition, and political administration could not be gainsaid; Roman authors particularly favored by medieval scholars were even rumored to have converted to Christianity before death, thus making them more acceptable to a Christian posterity.[4] When the scholars and magistrates of late medieval Italy looked back through the ages, the achievements of their Roman forebears overshadowed virtually everything that had occurred since.[5] Thus, when they were searching for past events with which to inspire their citizens, and by which to increase their present civic glory, the events and personalities of classical history were an obvious choice. Since all the histories told how Julius Caesar's crossing of the Rubicon was the first step in the founding of the Roman Empire, it added to Rimini's consequence to have been the site of that famous event—and it was in the city of Rimini's interest to ensure that as many people as possible knew that.[6]

On the other hand, the history of ancient Rome was not just important for the ruling classes of medieval Italy because of its overwhelming symbolic and physical

---

[4] This is true of Ovid and Virgil, at the very least. For Virgil, see Comparetti (1997), viii and 96-103, and for Ovid, see Ghisalberti (1946) and Dimmick (2002), esp. 275-6.

[5] In the words of Beryl Smalley: "[in the Middle Ages] they knew perfectly well that the Roman people had flourished and had won their most striking victories in the good old days of early Roman tradition"; Smalley (1971), 167.

[6] Campana (1933); see also discussion in chapter 3.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

presence. Rather, the available sources spoke specifically to the medieval Italian urban experience: most dramatically, they described the practical functioning of a self-governing republic in a world which to all purposes had not had one for over a thousand years. Those sources were not identical to the ones we have now; Tacitus' *Histories*, for instance, with its cynical view of imperial leadership and the moral decay in republican Rome which necessitated the creation of an emperorship, would have been fascinating to thirteenth-century Italians, but it was only rediscovered in the fifteenth century.[7] Nevertheless, the sources that medieval scholars did have—be they classical, late antique, or medieval— provided a considerable amount of raw information on the Romans, as well as shaping how they (the Italians) approached their past. These sources not only described the structure of a republic, but provided an authoritative model for one; the Latin classics addressed the concerns of medieval Italians, while at the same time directing what those concerns should be. The previous chapter established how crucial the matter of collective identity was to the city-states of thirteenth- and fourteenth-century Italy; this chapter investigates why the ruling classes of those cities so often identified Roman history as the best means to that end. I attempt to envisage the Roman past as it was understood in the Italian Middle Ages, in order to discover what they thought important and why they found it useful.

A Mythical Past

The city of Rome held an almost magical fascination for the people of the Middle Ages. An *urbs* could be any city, but when medieval people used the word with

---

7 Reynolds (1983), 406-11.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

no other clear modifier, they invariably meant Rome.[8] People today regularly refer in this way to "the city" (as in, "I'm going into the city"), but the reference is peripatetic, and is generally taken to mean the closest big city. In the Middle Ages, the *Urbs* was always Rome. Rome was the *caput mundi*, the *urbs aurea*, and the *urbs aeterna*. In the late nineteenth century the Italian scholar Arturo Graf wrote an entire book, *Roma nella memoria e nelle immaginazioni del medio evo*, in which each of seventeen chapters discusses a different medieval legend surrounding the ancient city of Rome, from its founders and emperors to the foundation of the church.[9] Pilgrims' guides to Rome survive from the twelfth century onward; the genre is generally called the *mirabilia*, as in "guides to the marvels of Rome".[10] *Mirabilia* does technically mean "marvels", but the word also contains strong overtones of "miracles", particularly since the guides were directed toward a pilgrim audience. For example, one story popular in the *mirabilia* literature describes how the ancient Romans used the temple of Jupiter Optimus Maximus on the Capitoline hill: the temple contained a bell for every province in the

---

[8] Ranieri Granchi's introduction to his *De proeliis Tusciae* explains that "'the city' in absolute terms is understood throughout the whole world to mean the city of Rome... but here it means the city of Pisa, because the city is referred to not absolutely, but relatively and possessively—so that when I say 'my city' I mean the one belonging to me, brother Ranieri, composer of this work. And 'my' in this case means 'Pisan'" [*Urbs absolute dicta in toto mundo intelligitur civitas romana... set hic intelligitur civitas pisana, quia non absolute accipitur hic urbs, set respective et possessive, unde dicitur: 'urbs mea' idest mei f(ratris) R(aynerii) componentis hoc opus. Et bene 'mea' quia pisanus*]; Ranieri Granchi (1915), 5. The use of *Urbs* to mean Rome is a usage that dates back to the classical period.

[9] Graf (1923).

[10] The major versions are those by Canon Benedict, Master Gregory, an anonymous *Mirabilia urbis Romae*, and the *Graphia aureae urbis Romae*; these and others are edited in Valentini and Zucchetti (1946), although the *Mirabilia* and Master Gregory have also been published in English translation as *Marvels* (1986) and Magister Gregorius (1987). For an interesting perspective on the use of such works by later authors, see Garbini (1999), who addresses Boncompagno da Signa's use of the *mirabilia* literature in the *Liber de obsidione Ancone*.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Roman empire, which would ring if any trouble arose in its assigned province.[11] Such stories explained the Romans' seemingly magical ability (or so it seemed to medieval viewers) to maintain a worldwide empire over the course of centuries.

Thus the ancient myth of Rome's greatness persisted, despite the neglect, population decline, and internal violence endemic in medieval Rome.[12] At least in the abstract, Rome was still the focal point of Christian and imperial Europe. It was the seat of the Empire and the holiest city in Europe, an urban site of veneration for its long and glorious history. One has only to look to the number of cities—from Constantinople to Moscow—that have tried over the centuries to set themselves up as the *Roma secunda* to appreciate the potency of the idea. In the Middle Ages, these included Aachen, Cologne, Trier, Genoa, Milan, Pavia, and Pisa—to name only a few.[13] Charles Davis has pointed out that Rome itself in this period was "politically negligible but universally powerful. Its citizens were regarded with disdain and its name and glory with veneration."[14] The symbolic value and preternatural achievements attached to the *idea* of Rome provided a sturdy set of coattails for any city which desired to call attention to its ancient lineage, illustrious history, and political influence. Cities either compared their current fortunes to Rome in its heyday (universally agreed to be not now), or drew historical links between the past of their city and Rome's.[15] Some cities claimed to have been founded by Romans; others claimed, like Rome, to have been founded by Trojans

---

11 According to the *Mirabilia*, for example, "...as soon as the bell sounded they knew that the country was rebellious. The priest who was on watch that week, hearing the sound of the bell, therefore showed it to the senators"; *Marvels* (1986), 21, and Valentini and Zucchetti (1946), 34.

12 See Wright (1975) and Brentano (1990).

13 The best article on this subject is still Hammer (1944), but see also Jacks (1993), chap. 1.

14 Davis (1957), 32.

15 These comparisons are discussed at length in the next chapter.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

or Greeks after the Trojan War. Still others claimed to have pre-dated Rome and Troy entirely, and their chronicles proudly calculate the precise number of years by which said pre-existence occurred. Although the details varied, the *Urbs* was the yardstick against which all civic success was measured.

A Familiar Past

But there was more to the city's ideological value than a mystical aura and ancient symbolism. The urban populations of late medieval Italy were increasingly aware that the history of Rome was *their* history. The connection was historical as well as symbolic. Many of their cities' names appeared in the ancient sources—sometimes these were slightly altered, but often they looked exactly the same: Livian *Genua* was medieval *Janua* (now Genoa), while Servian *Perusia* was medieval *Perusia* (now Perugia). Furthermore, the correlation of Latin names with their vernacular Italian equivalents (Latin *Florentia* to Compagni's *Firenze*, for example[16]) was a task requiring no thought for educated Italians, many of whom were equally comfortable in both languages. As I mentioned at the beginning of this chapter, Roman ruins pervaded the living space of medieval Italy: people lived in the ruins or used Roman building blocks to build their own buildings.[17] Medieval laundresses hung up their washing in the ruins of the Colosseum; they might not have known what it was for (the *mirabilia* literature identified it as a temple of the sun), but they certainly *knew* it.[18] Landmarks were recognizable; the geography was well-known, and the medieval highways of Europe were the same roads

---

16 Dino Compagni (2000), 4.
17 See Manacorda (2001), especially as cited in chapter 1, fn. 31.
18 Valentini and Zucchetti (1946), 195, and *Marvels* (1986), 8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

that the Romans had built a thousand years before and more. Roman Italy was recognizable in the everyday surroundings.[19]

The literature was as familiar as the topography. Latin was the official language of religion, government, higher education, and even trade; everyone who hoped to function in these realms needed at least a rudimentary ability in the language. Underneath the required formulae, their stylistic models were the prose and poetry of classical Rome; these were the same school texts that Christian educators had been using for hundreds of years. The *Distichs* of Cato, Priscian's grammar, and Aesop's *Fables* exposed Italian schoolboys not only to the Latin language but to Roman historical events and issues at a very young age.[20] Higher education, and especially legal training, focused strongly on rhetoric and grammar, for which Horace, Juvenal, Lucan, Livy, Ovid, Sallust, and Virgil were all widely copied.[21] Students were encouraged to imitate classical techniques, and textbooks emphasized the importance of ancient models for official modes, as seen in the *ars dictaminis.*[22] Likewise, the texts of the first-century Valerius Maximus (*Factorum et dictorum memorabilium*) and the third-century Solinus (*Collectanea rerum memorabilium*) were as popular as stylistic exemplars as they were for the logic or virtue of their subject matter.[23] They incorporated actual excerpts along with

---

19 Greenhalgh (1989); the medieval road map in Ascheri (2001a), 115, is also helpful.
20 See e.g. Black (2001), 34-63.
21 Davis (1965); Gehl (1993), 107-134; Witt (1995); and Black (2001), 200-225.
22 Cicero's *De inventione* and the *Ad Herennium* were considered indispensable for students of rhetoric; Black (2001), 331-49, and Witt (2000), 15-6.
23 Valerius Maximus (2000) and Solinus (1864).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

stories taken from classical literature; some of these exposed medieval readers to authors whose full texts had long been lost.[24] Valerius Maximus' introduction reads:

> I have determined to select from famous authors and arrange the deeds and sayings worthy of memorial to the Roman city and external nations, too widely scattered in other sources to be briefly discovered, to the end that those wishing to take examples may be spared the labor of lengthy search.[25]

Miscellanies like those of Valerius Maximus and Solinus inspired similar medieval compilations like the *Florilegium Gallicum*, the *Florilegium Angelicum*, and the *Manipulus florum*.[26] Such florilegia were widely disseminated in Italy throughout the Middle Ages, and the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries saw several new collections made on the same pattern, like the Paduan judge Geremia da Montagnone's early-fourteenth-century *Compendium moralium notabilium*.[27] The popularity of such compilations demonstrates the ease and frequency with which literate Italians of the Middle Ages functioned in and around the Roman literary corpus.

The idea that Roman history was to some extent familiar and personal history was amplified by the sense of cultural continuity inherent in medieval historiography. One of the most popular types of historical writing in the Italian Middle Ages was what scholars now call universal history, a written account of the past that began with the creation of the world as told by Genesis, continued on through the dispersion of peoples

---

[24] Reynolds (1983), xxxviii. Authors chiefly or only available to medieval readers through florilegia include Catullus, the *Laus Pisonis*, Publilius, Seneca's *Dialogues*, and Tibullus.

[25] *Urbis Romae exterarumque gentium facta simul ac dicta memoratu digna, quae apud alios latius diffusa sunt quam ut breviter cognosci possint, ab illustribus electa auctoribus digerere constitui, ut documenta sumere volentibus longae inquisitionis labor absit*; Valerius Maximus (2000), Preface.

[26] On the florilegium tradition, see Rouse (1979) and Rouse and Rouse (1979), as well as Alexander and Gibson (1976), the two relevant articles in Rouse and Rouse (1991), and the catalogue in Munk Olsen (1982), 2.837-77.

[27] On Geremia, see Folena (1976), 31-2; on his florilegium, see Ullman (1955), which includes a list of all the manuscripts of the text of which Ullman was aware (p. 109).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

after the fall of Babel, through the birth of Christ and the advent of Christianity, and up to the (medieval) present day.[28] Despite their paganism, the Romans as a people were considered to have been favored by God because Christ chose to be born on earth under their governance. But the universal history did not periodize the past into "classical", "late antique", and "medieval" as the scholars of the Italian Renaissance did, or as we do today. It continued straight through from the Romans to the Ostrogothic kingdom, to Charles Martel, the invention of the Holy Roman Empire, and onward. This was a historical understanding that was decidedly linear without being positivist.

Moreover, it actively supported the notion that the Padua of today was the Patavium of yesterday, albeit with a bit more experience under its belt. According to the dictates of Christian theology, most medieval historians assumed that the common good toward which society was constituted was universal, and that the virtues required to achieve it were constant and unchangeable. As a result, medieval historians usually treated the history of their "people" (the Franks, the Florentines, the Normans) as universal history: because human society and human virtues are all universal, the history of Padua begins with the creation of people, cities, and so forth, proceeding up through the founding of Padua itself to the present day. Once founded, Padua itself was considered to have remained essentially unchanged despite the wars, changes of rulership, invasions, and sackings inflicted upon it by the centuries; the basic purpose of history was to relate those occurrences in chronological order.[29] One argument for the pre-Roman history of Milan even rested on the city's founding under a different name—that of

---

[28] Cf. Smalley (1974), 95-106, and Krüger (1985); recent trends are collected in Kooper (1999) and (2002).

[29] See McCormick (1975) and works cited in fn. 28, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Subria. According to this view, the earlier city was Milan in all essentials, and its later renaming merely incidental.[30]

The linearity of this conception of history is clearly visible in the historiography: most universal historians preferred to add their original material to the work of an earlier historian rather than starting from the beginning. The foundations of universal history were works by Eusebius and Eutropius, two fourth-century historians who sought to situate Jewish and Christian history within the traditional chronology of the ancient Mediterranean, combining events from the Old Testament with those from Greek and Roman historiographers. Eusebius of Caesarea's *Chronological Canons* written in AD 303, is less an actual history than a set of tables with copious notes. The tables align the major events of world history by following in parallel columns the contemporaneous events of Chaldaean/Assyrian, Hebrew, Egyptian, Greek, and Roman history.[31] Eusebius' Greek work was translated into Latin and updated by Jerome later in the fourth century, making it a major source for the medieval tradition of annalistic historiography.[32] The contemporary *Brief Roman History* by Flavius Eutropius (d. 378) incorporated parts of the Eusebius/Jerome chronicle in more traditional textual fashion, summarizing Roman history down to his own day.[33] The Eusebius/Jerome account of pre-Aenean Italy, for instance, consists of a single note at year 839 after the birth of Abraham, the year in

---

30 This is the stand taken c. 1330 by Galvano Fiamma (1727), cc. 541-2. Benzo d'Alessandria, however, takes this view sharply to task, arguing from a literal perspective that if the early city was Subria, it was not Milan, and "it does not therefore follow that Milan is older than Rome" [*non propterea sequeretur quod Mediolanum antiquius esset Roma*]; Benzo d'Alessandria (1967), 148. Unlike Galvano, Benzo was neither a Milanese native nor in the employ of the rulers of Milan.

31 Eusebius (1967) and Burgess and Witakowski (1999).

32 Eusebius (1923); see also Brugnoli (1995).

33 Eutropius (1979).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

which Aeneas supposedly began his rule in Italy: "Before Aeneas, Janus, Saturnus, Picus, Faunus, Latinus reigned in Italy, for about 150 years."[34]

Preserving the practice of cumulative historiography, the eighth-century Paul the Deacon (Paulus Diaconus) wrote an expansion and continuation of Eutropius, and Paul's history was continued in its turn through the eleventh century by Landulf the Wise (Landolfus Sagax).[35] Most of the scholars who wrote universal chronicles in the Middle Ages, including the historians of Italian cities, used either Eusebius or Eutropius—if not Paul or Landulf—as the basis for their early history, whether they acknowledged the debt or not.[36] These authors were all aware that the world had changed significantly over the course of two thousand years, but they also maintained a strong sense of continuity, that the change was organic rather than disjointed. Padua was still the Padua it had been in Livy's time, and Rome, of course, was still Rome.

The resurgence of Roman law within secular legal tradition emphasized the same sense of cultural continuity. Trying to use Roman law to address contemporary problems raised issues of change and difference; once the text of the *Codex* had been established and understood, the next step was recognizing that certain aspects of culture had changed since those laws were relevant. No one in thirteenth-century Bologna (the principal center for legal studies), for example, recognized the right of the population of

---

[34] *Ante Aeneam Ianus Saturnus Picus Faunus Latinus in Italia regnaverunt annis circiter CL*; Eusebius (1967), 55. Eusebius and Eutropius were useful because they provided details of pre-Aenean Italy which were rarely seen in the classical sources, as well as coordinating the details of Roman history with those of Jewish and Christian chronology.

[35] Paulus Diaconus (1914) and Landulfus Sagax (1912). Paul's chronicle extends the single sentence cited above on Janus, Saturnus, and their successors into five paragraphs (5-7).

[36] See e.g. Boje Martenson (1999-2000).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the city of Rome to dictate policy to the entire Italian peninsula, although Roman law clearly assigned legislative responsibility to the senate and people of Rome.[37] Both a philological and a practical engagement with the law were necessary to apply ancient laws to medieval legal cases—but no one argued that to do so was inappropriate. Instead, Roman law served as the basis for most of the internal decrees made in medieval Italian cities, as well as governing relations between the cities and the emperor.[38] The revival of jurisprudence paralleled the development of a critical approach to law; professional teachers now took not only a practical but also a more abstract view of legal problems—in contrast to previous practice, in which legal education had occurred as a more pragmatic master-apprentice relationship.[39] Thus the revival of Roman law and the study of jurisprudence engaged medieval scholars with the Roman past and provided them with an analytical model for thinking about historical difference and change. The ruling classes of medieval Italy realized that circumstances had changed since Rome's heyday, but Rome was still their history, their law, and their city. Such forms of historical and legal self-definition glossed over the intervening years and claimed a part in the glories of Roman history for each city involved.

---

37 Cf. the quotation from Cino da Pistoia, chap. 1, fn. 36.
38 See Reisenberg (1969) and Radding (1988).
39 Witt (2000), 16, and Radding (1988), 158-78; Banker (1974) is also helpful.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1: Politics

As stated at the beginning of this chapter, however, a broad interest in classical civilization didn't simply develop because it was seen as authoritative, or because people identified with it: the classical texts taught in Italian schools and debated by intellectuals were remarkably relevant to urban experience in the later Middle Ages. Politically, most of the city-states of northern and central Italy in this period were, or claimed to be, republics: in retrospect, they were oligarchies of a more or less republican kind, governments dominated by a ruling class of nobles or guildsmen. There were few models in medieval or early Christian sources for republican values or governance; hence Roman history, specifically that of the Roman republic, provided both a political model for republican behavior and a system of republican ethics which the medieval city-states adopted wholesale.[40] Aside from the obvious primary sources like Cicero and Livy, late antique sources like Orosius and Isidore provided good overviews of Roman political structure and administration. Paulus Orosius' fifth-century *Seven Books of History Against the Pagans* provided the Christian Middle Ages with much of its information about the Romans and their history, at the same time as it criticized the Roman way of life (specifically, the pagan critique of Christianity).[41] Likewise, Isidore of Seville's early-seventh-century *Origins,* or *Etymologies,* is an encyclopedia compiled from classical

---

[40] Aristotle's *Politics* was disseminated in Western Europe by about 1260, although many of its central ideas had never stopped circulating; the extent to which late medieval political thought was more "Ciceronian" or more "Aristotelian" has occupied many scholars; see the articles and cited bibliography in Skinner (2002), vol. 2, as well as the works cited in chapter 1, fn. 43.

[41] Paulus Orosius (1964).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

sources which contains detailed information on every subject, from politics to natural history. Isidore's definition of a consul, for example, reads:

> When the Romans no longer tolerated the arrogant rule of kings, they created dual consuls for themselves with annual terms... They elected these, changing them every year, so that they might not become arrogant by remaining in office for a long time, but rather might succeed one another at reasonable speed. And there were two of them because one dealt with civil and the other with military matters.[42]

These later sources may not always have been strictly accurate, but they certainly gave a good sense of how Roman administration worked and what the titles of its various offices were.

Using these sources as reference works, the medieval republics were all organized along Roman principles. When communes were first established in the late eleventh and twelfth centuries, for instance, they were almost invariably organized in consular fashion, with two rotating executive magistracies with terms of a year. Such magistrates were naturally called consuls, exactly as they had been in the Roman republic.[43] Over time, other officials were also given Roman titles, and city councils were frequently referred to in council minutes or official decrees as *senatus*.[44] As Isidore's encyclopedia might suggest, the repetition of terminology probably occurred both because city councils were conscious of their Roman predecessors in republicanism, and also because those Roman

---

42 *Nam cum Romani regum superbam dominationem non ferrent, annua imperia binosque consules sibi fecerunt... Quos tamen ideo mutandos per annos singulos elegerunt, ut nec insolens diu maneret, et moderatior cito succurreret. Inde autem duo pares, quia unus rem civilem, alter rem militarem administrabant*; Isidorus (1911), 9.3.6-7.

43 See e.g. the discussion in Martines (1979), 22-9.

44 See the terms used in Fasoli (1961), 155-89, and Artifoni (1996), 690-8, and especially Dazzi (1964), 47, discussing Albertino Mussato's diction. Frugoni (1950) discusses a similar twelfth-century case in Rome. Related to the use of such terms is the proliferation in manuscripts of vernacular lists explaining Roman offices and their functions, e.g. "tribunes were the officials of the 'little people'" [*Tribuni fuoro officiali del popolo minuto*]; Casella (1982), 25. One such list, transcribed and discussed by Casella, appears attached to an Italian translation of Valerius Maximus in at least ten fourteenth-century manuscripts; a version of this list appears as part of book 30 of Armannino Giudice's *Fiorita*, on which see chapters 3 and 4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

predecessors had defined their political paradigms for them to begin with. *Consul* was not only the Roman word for "annually-elected executive magistrate", but the Latin word for it as well; culture and language worked together to dominate medieval ideas of how a republic should operate. Throughout the late Middle Ages, the medieval republics reorganized, adapted, and changed the republican system to suit their needs, but the Roman infrastructure—as explicated in sources like Isidore—was never far from the surface.

Medieval works of political theory, law, and rhetoric, while not strictly historical, also transmitted information about the Romans, their political structures, and their civilization in general. Twelfth-century works like John of Salisbury's *Policraticus* and Hugh of Bologna's *Rationes dictandi* are early examples of the kind of scholastic analysis which would produce many treatises on ideal government, the *ars dictaminis,* and Roman law which flourished in schools and universities from the twelfth century onward.[45] Many of these, starting with the twelfth-century *Oculus pastoralis,* were aimed specifically at republican audiences.[46] They usually did not concentrate on Roman civilization (being neither historically nor geographically oriented), but they did employ Roman examples and models, which scholars adapted for their own purposes. These texts were therefore less a source than a conduit of Roman historical material, but they certainly played a part in the general awareness of Roman political practices.

---

45 Hugh of Bologna (1961), and John of Salisbury (1844-55) and (1990).
46 Skinner (1990), 125.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Classical works on political theory and ethics were likewise valuable because they affirmed ideals similar to medieval theorists' concerning the proper functioning of society. The medieval conception of the common good corresponds very closely with the classical notion of the *res publica*, taking the phrase in its literal sense as "the public thing": that which pertains to all citizens.[47] Just as the Roman government was originally organized to deal with interactions between citizens and matters which concerned the community as a whole, so the medieval "common good" was conceived as that which pertained to all inhabitants of the medieval community. The Dominican Ptolemy of Lucca is especially well-known for having lauded the Roman republic for its civic patriotism and *caritas* in his continuation of Aquinas' political treatise *De regimine principum* (c. 1302).[48] The lexical links reinforced this connection; just as *respublica* had become a type of government as well as an abstract concept, so too the medieval words connected these ideas: "common good" was usually expressed as *bonum commune*, which linked it to the *commune*, or city government (Italian *comune*). In his treatise *De bono communi*, written in Florence about 1305, the Dominican Remigio de' Girolami puns repeatedly on the notion that the good commune (*commune bonum*) will naturally seek the common good (*bonum commune*).[49]

Building on this parallel, several historians have recently commented on the influence of Roman stoicism on medieval Italian political thought. Cicero's *De officiis*,

---

[47] See works cited in the previous chapter as well as Benson (1985), Mundy (1989), and especially Kempshall (1999).

[48] Davis (1974) and (1975), as well as Blythe's recent edition of the *De regimine*, Ptolemy of Lucca (1997).

[49] Remigio de' Girolami (1965-7), 53-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

for example, was a common text assigned for legal studies at the university level.[50] Cary Nederman has stressed the collectively consensual nature of Cicero's Aristotelianism as understood by theorists in medieval Italy: "entry into human society is at the same time renunciation of the primacy of one's private and individual interests. Thereafter the common welfare and benefit take precedence over the needs and desires of particular members of the community."[51] Civic virtue in the medieval community was chiefly viewed as a renunciation of self-interest in the interest of maintaining collective *libertas*, or the free life as led under a republican government.[52] Cicero says in the *De officiis*:

> Those who propose to take charge of the affairs of government should not fail to remember two of Plato's rules: first, to keep the good of the people so clearly in view that regardless of their own interests they will make their every action conform to that; second, to care for the welfare of the whole body politic and not in serving the interests of some one party to betray the rest.[53]

As Quentin Skinner has shown, medieval political theorists and civic magistrates believed that only under such harmonious conditions could the urban community attain its proper goal: civic honor, glory, power, and wealth.[54]

Self-interest and greed, on the other hand, gave rise to factionalism and strife, which hampered the community's proper functioning and growth. This was a point made dramatically and repeatedly by Sallust in his late republican monographs on the Catilinarian and Jugurthine Wars: a point of which medieval thinkers were well aware.

---

50 Black (2001), 211-2.

51 Nederman (1988), 9.

52 The Florentine Sanzanome (1875-80) refers to his fellow citizens as having the "blood of free-born men" [*sanguinem de libera nati* (sic), 29], while Bonvesin da la Riva (1974), speaking of Milan, eulogizes the "natural freedom of this city" [*huius civitatis naturalis libertas*, 24].

53 *Omnino qui rei publicae praefuturi sunt, duo Platonis praecepta teneant, unum, ut utilitatem civium sic tueantur, ut, quaecumque agunt, ad eam referant obliti commodorum suorum, alterum, ut totum corpus rei publicae curent, ne dum partem aliquam tuentur, reliquas deserant*; Cicero (1913), 1.25. See also the very helpful Dyck (1996).

54 Skinner (1990), 125-9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

One passage from the *Bellum Jugurthinum* which was frequently quoted in medieval texts reads: "for it is by way of concord that small communities rise to greatness; it is as a result of discord that even the greatest communities fall into collapse."[55] Foreshadowing Lincoln's later dictum during the American Civil War, one anonymous fourteenth-century chronicle of Ravenna asserts that the city "...will never be destroyed by anyone unless it is divided within itself."[56]

This was a common trope for the urban historiographers of medieval Italy, who usually attributed all social ills, more or less accurately, to civic discord, or faction. Giovanni Villani and Dino Compagni, both fourteenth-century historians of Florence, are only two of the most famous to have done so. Compagni's introduction to his account of the internal warfare which plagued Florence between 1280 and 1312 blames its citizens' selfishness for the city's woes: "By their pride and ill-will and competition for office they have undone so noble a city, and abused its laws, and sold off in a moment the honors which their ancestors had acquired with great effort over many years."[57] In the same way, Cicero had attributed to factionalism the civil wars not only in Athens but in the Rome of his own time, citing "not only dissensions but disastrous civil wars in our own republic."[58] Lucan's later poem on the Civil Wars provided medieval readers with an even more cynical view of those same wars.[59] Roman authors like Cicero, Sallust, and

---

55 Sallust (1920), *Jugurtha* 10.7. As Beryl Smalley (1971) has demonstrated, Sallust's monographs were widely influential in the late medieval period, appearing in a number of historical compilations like the *Faits des Romains* as well as being copied on their own.

56 *Et etiam a gentibus non exterminabitur, nisi in se ipsa divisa exterminetur*; *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), 575. Ranieri Granchi makes the same point to his fellow Pisans in specifically Roman terms; see discussion in chapter 3 at fn. 95.

57 Dino Compagni (1986), 6, and (2000), 5.

58 *...non solum seditiones, sed etiam pestifera bella civilia*; Cicero (1913), 1.25.

59 Lucan (1928).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Lucan addressed not only situations but ideas that were crucial to the urban classes of medieval Italy: the preservation of civic peace, the administration of justice, and the maintenance of equitable social order.

In truth, the medieval republican system was essentially the same as that of Romans at the end of their republic: republican oligarchies grappled with dense populations, factionalism, and intense socio-economic competition; speeches and assemblies played a large part in political life, and major civic figures led very public lives whose proper display frequently involved the spending of large amounts of their own money.[60] Classical works on ethics and governance provided a secular model of civic virtue that accorded with the medieval urban experience in ways that traditional Christian doctrine could not. For instance, the medieval church taught that it was always more virtuous to contemplate heavenly things (St. Augustine's *civitas dei*, or city of God) than to become embroiled in the vanities of the material world; monks, who renounced the world, were by definition more virtuous than merchants. This was acceptable as an abstract principle, but it was not pragmatically useful: the economic and political success of the Italian city-states was directly dependent on their citizens' commitment to the material world. Roman authors mitigated this tension by providing a secular model of virtue. The first book of the *De officiis,* for example, lays out principles of *honestas*, or moral rectitude, which assume that the virtuous man will take a public part in society. While not specifically antithetical to Christian teaching—being mostly concerned with virtues like honesty, generosity, and kindness—Cicero's views and examples spoke more

---

[60] See e.g. Molho, Raaflaub, et al. (1991), especially parts 2 and 3 on the practice of politics in classical antiquity and medieval Italy.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

directly to the everyday lives of the urban community than, for instance, most Christian saints' lives did.[61] In short, texts like the *De officiis* presented the possibility of leading a virtuous life without renouncing society. Already in 1230 Sanzanome could assert that "honor is not gained by sitting passively" (*honor non acquiritur quiescendo*).[62]

2: Historiography

Central to this chapter's parallel arguments—that the Roman past addressed the concerns of the medieval urban community, while simultaneously defining those concerns—are the related matters of history and historiography. There was much in Roman historical texts that medieval readers found useful, but it was equally true that medieval historians inherited most of their ideas about historiography from the classical tradition, so an alignment of interests between the two is hardly surprising. It is nonetheless noteworthy, because it made the techniques of Roman history doubly attractive to medieval historians, who approached the writing of history in ways remarkably akin to their Roman models.

Firstly, the works of classical historians like Sallust, Lucan, and Livy all demonstrate a type of exemplary history which was specifically pertinent to a society based on identity through the *respublica.* History, according to the Roman tradition, was knowledge of one's ancestors, one's past, and oneself: a model by which to measure

---

[61] I do not meant to suggest that saints' lives were not widely read and enjoyed (Jacopo da Varagine's *Legenda Aurea*, for example), but rather that there were nevertheless large parts of the medieval Italian urban experience to which the ideals of traditional saints' lives (withdrawal from the world, poverty, and self-mortification, for instance) did not speak.

[62] Sanzanome (1875-80), 29.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

present behavior.[63] The Romans were not overly concerned with issues of fact versus fiction in their historiography. For them, history was the retelling of the deeds of great men in episodes designed to stimulate emulation or avoidance. It was a rhetorical exercise (and here Cicero, a non-historian, was influential) in which the past was reconstructed as it should have been. Roman generals give the speeches which should have been given before a battle, regardless of whether they actually were so given, or not.[64]

Practices like these developed out of a sense of the past based on the *mos maiorum*, or customs of their ancestors.[65] Hence Roman historiography was nostalgic almost by definition, a harking back to a better past which was designed to serve as a model for contemporary events. This idea of a long-past "golden age" is familiar in the modern trope of the "good old days", but also appeared in the medieval concept of the *buon tempo antico* ("good old time").[66] Roman ideas of contemporary decadence in the face of a superior past fit in well with the Christian notion of a fallen and imperfect world, and medieval men inherited Roman nostalgia as well as its sense of the purpose of history. The most common Latin terms signifying greatness to the Middle Ages were also those which signified age: *auctoritas* (authority), for instance, almost automatically implied *antiquitas* (age). The classical authors and the writings of the church fathers, for example, were all *auctoritates*. *Auctoritas* and *antiquitas* in turn appeared regularly with terms like *gravitas* (weight, seriousness), *dignitas* (dignity), and *maiestas* (greatness). As the dual epigraph to this chapter demonstrates, the writing of history for both Roman

---

63 Mellor (1999), 185-200.
64 My thanks to Ronald Mellor for this image.
65 See Zanker (1988), 11-24, and Linke (2000).
66 Davis (1969).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and medieval Italian historians was an exercise in eloquence designed to inspire virtuous behavior.

The second major point of convergence is that Roman historiography, like its medieval successor, focused heavily on heroic subject matter, specifically in the political and military realms. The Roman principle of exemplary history meant that the tales of the Romans' great deeds, as found in sources like Livy and Suetonius, were fertile territory for the medieval genres of *res gestae* and chivalric romance—especially insofar as they sought to portray virtue, eloquence, courage, and loyalty to the point of self-sacrifice. Tales of Greek and Roman "knights" rapidly became a major subject of chivalric romance: the earliest and best known of these are the Old French *Roman de Thèbes*, the *Roman d'Enéas* and Benoît de Ste-Maure's *Roman de Troie*, which date from the mid-twelfth-century.[67] Although it also encompassed the legendary material about Thebes and Alexander the Great, the subgenre has become known as the Matter of Rome, contrasting it with the legends of King Arthur and Charlemagne that comprise the Matters of Britain and France respectively.[68] Most of the material for the Matter of Rome came from the late antique versions of the Trojan War by Dares and Dictys (Latin translations of first- or second-century Greek texts); their "eyewitness accounts" were considered more reliable than the quasi-Homeric version given by the *Ilias Latina*.[69]

---

67 Editions include Benoît de Ste-Maure (1904-12) and Petit (1991) and (1997); for analysis and context of the French Troy romance tradition, see also Spiegel (1993), Henkel (1995), Jung (1996), Messerli (2002), and Petit (2002). For an artistic perspective, see Saxl (1957).

68 See Krueger (2000), especially the article by Christopher Baswell.

69 For Dares and Dictys, see Griffin (1907), Eisenhut (1958), Frazer (1966), and Beschorner (1992). On the *Ilias Latina*, see Scaffai (1982); and on the *Excidium Troiae*, a late antique compilation of Trojan materials, see *Excidium Troiae* (1944) and Bate (1986).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Unsurprisingly, medieval versions of the Trojan war emphasized the valorous deeds and travails of love suffered by the heroes of the war; the *Roman d'Enéas*, for instance, contrasts the virtuous love of Aeneas and Lavinia with the illicit love of Aeneas and Dido while glossing over the political parts of the Virgilian story. Despite these changes in emphasis, there can be no question that the story of Aeneas was broadly attractive to medieval authors.

The Matter of Rome proved long-lasting and widely popular; romances on Roman subjects were broadly copied in late medieval Italy, in Latin and Italian as well as in French.[70] The most popular version was that of Guido delle Colonne, an adaptation of Benoît's *Roman de Troie* called the *Historia destructionis Troiae* that was written in the late 1280s; it was originally written in Latin prose, but it was translated into Italian almost immediately, and circulated in both languages.[71] Guido's text, although based on Benoît's, incorporated classical details from other sources; Benoît's text amalgamated Virgil and Livy as well as Dares and Dictys. Romance and history thus enjoyed a frequent exchange of material: Galvano Fiamma's Latin history relates how:

> Francus, son of the Trojan Hector, rebuilt Troy on the bank of the river Rhine, and because of him the entire region was called Francia. Also from this Francus, after many intermediate generations, was born Anchises, duke of Franconia, who engendered Arnulf, father of Pippin the Great...[72]

---

[70] One intriguing question is why the Latin classics were first translated into the vernacular in France rather than in Italy; I would argue this is chiefly the result of the earlier establishment of the vernacular as a literary language in France, especially for subjects such as romance, which made wide use of classical materials; see discussion in Witt (2000), chap. 2. Buchthal's statement, referring to the *Roman de Troie*, that "it was a Northern French poem which brought the Italians into renewed contact with their own tribal legend" (1971, 5), seems to overstate the case.

[71] On Guido delle Colonne, see Chiàntera (1956); on the *Historia*, see Gorra (1887), chap. 2, Guido delle Colonne (1936), and Buchthal (1987).

[72] *Francus vero, filius Hectoris Trojani in ripa fluminis Rheni constructa Trojam. Ab ipso Franco tota Provincia dicta est Francia. De isto Franco per multas intermedias generationes natus est Anchises Dux Franconiae, qui genuit Arnulphum patrem Pipini Grossi...*; Galvano Fiamma (1727), c. 545.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Galvano has clearly integrated some of the contemporary French material on Trojan origins into his more universal account, attributing a Trojan origin to Charlemagne himself. Although medieval authors like Galvano frequently made assertions beyond what the classical sources actually attested, it is nonetheless clear that they found the classical sources a wealth of material in terms of both subject matter and methodology.

3: The Urban Mentality

Finally, ancient texts were the obvious source for medieval authors or intellectuals looking for information on cities and their foundations, since Roman literature was similarly focused on the urban community. Livy's history, for example, was the best-known example of Roman historical prose, and its entire existence was predicated on narrating the history of one city: Rome. For Livy, history might as well not have existed before the events which led to the foundation of Rome. He is only interested *ab urbe condita*, or from the founding of the city; his text starts right in with the fortunes of Aeneas: "After the fall of Troy..."[73] The substance of his work, too, betrays the Roman preoccupation with cities and urban politics all over the Mediterranean: the first book of the *Ab urbe condita* is as much about relations between cities like Alba, Caere, Rome, Veii, and Fidenae as it is the story of Romulus or any of his companions. A typical passage recounts: "it seemed to the people of Caenina, Crustumium, and Antemnae, who had been involved in the trouble [between Romans and Sabines], that Titus and the Sabines were unduly dilatory, so the three communities resolved to take action on their

---

[73] Livy (1919), 1.1.1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

own."[74] Like the inhabitants of the medieval Italian cities, Livy clearly assumes that the city is the basic unit of social and political life. A similar preoccupation with urban life and politics is visible in most Roman authors: Horace's poems celebrate civic festivals while Juvenal's satires bewail the trials of urban life.[75] All of these authors were commonly read as school texts.[76] The fourth-century poet Ausonius, in particular, wrote an influential series of poems called the *Ordo urbium nobilium*, which were rediscovered in the north of Italy around 1310—possibly by Benzo d'Alessandria, a notary and historian (fl. 1310-1333).[77] Each of the twenty poems in Ausonius' cycle praised a different city; as might be expected, his own home, Lyon, received a disproportionate share of the attention. If Livy was the father of the medieval city chronicle, Ausonian influence is likewise clear in civic panegyric from the early Middle Ages: the ninth-century *rhythmae* in praise of Milan and Verona show distinct Ausonian influence, and are themselves just as clearly models for panegyric poetry like that of Moses de Brolo and Bonvesin da la Riva, written in later years when Ausonius himself was largely unknown.[78]

Moreover, classical works of literature demonstrated not only an interest in cities but certain techniques for the writing of civic history which their medieval successors adopted and reused. Both Livy's version of the founding of Rome and Virgil's account of early Italy in the *Aeneid*, for example, demonstrate a civic variation of the exemplary history discussed earlier. One might almost call it prophetic history: according to both Livy and Virgil, the events surrounding the foundation of Rome imply the city's later

---

74 Ibid., 1.10.2-3.
75 Horace's *Carmen saeculare* (1988) and Juvenal's third *Satire* (1918).
76 Black (2001), 200-225.
77 On Benzo, see discussions in chapters 3 (his works) and 4 (life).
78 Pighi (1960) and Hyde (1965-6), 312-5. See chapter 3 on Moses and Bonvesin, and Schmidt (1978) on civic panegyric in general.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

glory and domination of the world. Livy's account of the building of the Temple of Jupiter Optimus Maximus (i.e. Jupiter Capitolinus) under the Roman king Tarquinius Superbus, for example, includes the following anecdote:

> A human head, with its features intact, was found, so it is said, by the men who were digging for the foundations of the temple. This appearance plainly foreshowed that here was to be the citadel of the empire and the head of the world.[79]

Etymology reinforces the story's point: the name of the site, Capitoline, derives from the Latin *caput*—both as excavated according to the story, and as in *Roma caput mundi.* Hence the circumstances in which cities were founded were considered indicative of that city's future. Omens and portents abounded, and early legends explained subsequent developments.

Related to this search for civic meaning are the circumstances surrounding the naming of cities. Cities were generally assumed to have been named by—and often for—their founders: Aeneas named Lavinium after his wife; Romulus named Rome after himself.[80] In some way, the history of a city always explains its name. The work of Isidore proved invaluable in this respect: in accordance with the nature of his work, book fifteen of the *Etymologies* begins by listing upwards of two hundred examples of cities and their founders: Rome was founded by Romulus, Bologna (originally named Felsina) by Felsino, Capua by Capys, and Mantua by Manto.[81] More than half of these connections are etymological, but many are not: Pompeii, for example, was supposedly

---

79 Livy (1919), 1.55.5-6.
80 Ibid., 1.1.11 and 1.7.3.
81 Isidorus (1911), 15.1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

founded by Hercules.[82] Nonetheless, the dominance of the etymological paradigm established a precedent: if a city did not appear in Isidore's list it could be reasonably assumed that its founder's name could be extrapolated from a city's name. Genoa (*Janua*) was undoubtedly founded by Janus. This system worked particularly well if an appropriate name already existed in the sources, even if no connection was made there between it and the city. Such appears to have been the case with Mantua: a nymph named Manto appears briefly in the *Aeneid* as the founder of Mantua. As a result, medieval Mantuans embraced the daughter of Tiresias and the daughter of Hercules (both also named Manto) as their long-lost founder despite the fact that nothing but a name connected the three.[83]

Along with data on cities and their founders, medieval Italian historians adopted the tradition begun by Solinus and Isidore of listing city founders in long lists. Works by Italian historians and chroniclers of the later thirteenth and fourteenth centuries like Riccobaldo da Ferrara, Armannino Giudice, Guido da Pisa, Benzo d'Alessandria, and Guglielmo da Pastrengo all include lists of city origins.[84] These tend to be clearly organized in chronological (Riccobaldo) or alphabetical (Guglielmo) order, for ease of reference. Their lists tend to include many more entries than their models, at least on an Italian scale, thus demonstrating the increased interest in city origins all over Italy.

---

82 The city of Pompeii, incidentally, did not exist at all in Isidore's time, but it still appears in his list.

83 Virgil (1918), 10.198-200, and Servius (1881), commentary on the same lines. On the legend's interpretation, see Nardi (1963).

84 Guglielmo da Pastrengo (1991) and Riccobaldo da Ferrara (2000); the other three—Armannino's *Fiorita*, Guido da Pisa's *Fiore d'Italia*, and Benzo's *Chronicon*—remain mostly unedited. On the edited sections of Benzo, see chapter 3, fn. 9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In the same way, medieval accounts of city foundations demonstrate a major concern with chronology. It was considered important when writing the history of a city to position its major events within the canonical chronology laid down by sources like Eusebius, thus making a place for it on the grand scale of classical and biblical history. Accordingly, city chronicles abound with lists of dates and calculations of the years between events. The fourteenth-century *Chronicle of the City of Ravenna*, for instance, begins as follows:

> Eber, from the line of Shem, son of Noah, lived 460 years after the Flood. At that time Nimrod, son of Cush, a grandson of Noah, built the Tower of Babel. At that same time, as it is found in the Pontifical Book of the Ravennese Church, Ravenna was founded: 392 years before the birth of Abraham, 1782 years before the founding of Rome, and 2497 years before the birth of Christ.[85]

Benzo d'Alessandria's *Chronicon* (a chronicle of the history of Milan, written c. 1318 and much referenced by historians both Milanese and otherwise who came after him) makes a similar point in its introduction:

> Milan... a most flourishing and opulent city, was founded by the Senonese Gauls while Tarquinius Priscus was reigning as fifth king of the Romans; according to Titus Livius, [this took place] in the 25th year of his reign, 1422 years after Abraham's birth; 590 [years] after the fall of Troy; about 5960 [years] from the creation of the world; about 1165 from the flood; about 1520 from the division of languages; about 1460 from the rule of Ninus, king of the Assyrians; about 160 from the founding of Rome; and 542 years before the birth of Christ, or thereabouts.[86]

---

[85] *Anno post Diluvium 460. Vivebat Eber de progenie Sem filii Noe. Eo tempore Nembroth filius Cus filii Noe, Babylone Turrim construxit. Cujus tempore, ut invenitur in Codice Pontificali Ecclesiae Ravennae, condita est Ravenna ante Nativitatem Abrahae Annis 392., et ante Romam conditam 1782. Annis, et ante Nativitatem Christi 2497*; *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), c. 574.

[86] *Mediolanum... florentissima et opulentissima civitas condita fuit a Gallis Senonibus, regnante Tarquinio Prisco quinto Romanorum rege, ut dicit Titus Livius, post scilicet 25 annum regni eiusdem, anno nativitatis Abraam 1422, post excidium Troie 590, a mundi exordio circiter 5960, a diluvio circitir 1165, a divisione linguarum circiter 1520, ab imperio Nini regia Assiriorum circiter 1460, ab urbe Roma condita circiter 160, ante Christi ortum [542] aut circiter*; Benzo d'Alessandria (1967), 141.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Strong Eusebian influence is visible in these passages, both in the attachment to numbers and chronology and in the integration of classical and Judeo-Christian events.

The years that are given in such passages rarely compute correctly: for example, the modern text of Eusebius places the founding of Rome 1263 years after the birth of Abraham[87], whereas the Ravennese chronicle above implies a span of 1390 years. The numbers given in many histories are even more inaccurate: some of the data given by one Pisan chronicle imply that 172 years elapsed between the founding of Pisa and the founding of Rome—but other data in the same paragraph generate a span of 638 years for the same period.[88] Still, the basic order of events and rhetorical emphasis are undeniable. In almost every case, care is taken to note how long the city in question existed before the founding of Rome—according to the *Chronicle of Ravenna* cited above, almost two thousand years. In part, this was certainly because the founding of Rome was a popular chronological marker (witness the practice of dating from the founding of the city), but the repetition and insistent tone usual in the chronicles would suggest that the comparison was rarely dispassionate. These medieval sources thus exemplify a pattern whereby medieval writers and scholars took from their Roman sources not only an interest in civic life but the techniques and methodologies by which to discuss it.

---

87 Eusebius (1967), 2.80.
88 Ranieri Sardo (1963), 8-9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Conclusion

We may therefore conclude that the Roman past, as it was available to educated Italians of the later Middle Ages, was attractive to them on a variety of levels ranging from the broadly symbolic to the intensely practical. Roman historical and literary texts spoke to their interests and needs, and the widespread presence of Roman remains in the Italian peninsula intensified feelings of cultural relevance and continuity, despite the passage of more than a millennium between the fall of one republic and the rise of others. The classical sources were at once useful and authoritative. Giovanni Villani claims that he got the idea of writing his chronicle of Florence from having visited the city of Rome during the Jubilee of 1300, and having read the ancient historians whilst there:

> And I, finding myself on that blessed pilgrimage in the holy city of Rome, beholding the great and ancient things therein, and reading the stories and the great doings of the Romans, written by Virgil, and by Sallust, and by Lucan, and Titus Livius, and Valerius [Maximus], and Paulus Orosius, and other masters of history, which wrote alike of small things as of great, of the deeds and actions of the Romans, and also of foreign nations throughout the world, myself to preserve memorials and give examples to those which should come after took up their style and design, although as a disciple I was not worthy of the work.[89]

With minimal reference to his own religious reasons for being in Rome, Villani attributes his inspiration to the combination of the physical remains of the ancient city and the inherited literature of Roman civilization; moreover, he aspires to their "design", or

---

[89] *E trovandomi io in quello benedetto pellegrinaggio ne la santa città di Roma, veggendo le grandi e antiche cose di quella, e leggendo le storie e' grandi fatti de' Romani, scritti per Virgilio, e per Salustio, e Lucano, e Paulo Orosio, e Valerio, e Tito Livio, e altri maestri d'istorie, li quali così le piccole cose come le grandi de le geste e fatti de' Romani scrissono, e eziandio degli strani dell'universo mondo, per dare memoria e esemplo a quelli che sono a venire presi lo stile e forma da·lloro, tutto sì come piccolo discepolo non fossi degno a tanta opera fare*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 2.58 (book 9.36), and (1906), 321. (*Nota bene*: the book and chapter divisions in Selfe and Wicksteed's English edition of 1906 are considerably different from those in the recent Italian edition; most notably, the English edition combines Villani's books one and two into a single unit, with the result that every following book number is off by one. I have provided book and chapter as well as page numbers for the Italian edition, but page numbers only for the English.)

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

purpose, as well as their style, since he intends to write the same kind of exemplary history. For Villani, Virgil, Sallust, Lucan, and the rest are stylistic models, authoritative sources, and historical forebears all at once.

Extant manuscripts attest to this broadly expanding interest in the classical past, at least on a textual level. The thirteenth and fourteenth centuries were a period of major literary production on all matters Roman, in the vernacular as well as in Latin: not only romances like Guido delle Colonne's *Historia destructionis Troiae*, but *res gestae* like the *Faits des Romains* (a text on the late republic created by cobbling together relevant sections of Lucan, Suetonius, Caesar, and Sallust).[90] The *Faits* were originally written in Old French in the early thirteenth century, but they were quickly translated into Italian and circulated in at least two different versions as the *Fatti dei Romani* and the *Fatti di Cesare*.[91] Universal histories largely devoted to Roman themes were popular, like Armannino Giudice's 1327 *Fiorita*, and several scholars even devoted themselves to specifically Roman histories.[92] Riccobaldo da Ferrara, a scholar at the university in Padua in the early years of the fourteenth century, produced a *Compilatio Chronologica* on the Eusebian model, the material of which was largely Roman, as well as a *Compendium historiae Romanae* which takes up two modern volumes in its meticulous review of Roman

---

[90] The *Faits des Romains* has been edited in Flutre and de Vogel (1938). The *Histoire ancienne jusqu'à César*, which incorporated Caesar and Cicero as well as the classical sources used in the *Faits*, is still largely unpublished. The classic on this subject is Meyer (1885), but see also Croizy-Naquet (1999) and Lynde-Recchia (2000). Romances and histories of antiquity were frequently lavishly illustrated; see Avril, Gousset, et al. (1980) and Oltrogge (1989).

[91] On the *Fatti dei Romani*, see Papini (1973) and Bénéteau (1997). On the *Fatti di Cesare*, see Banchi (1863); extracts also appear along with a brief discussion in Segre (1969), 85-110.

[92] On Armannino and his work, see chapter 4, fn. 90.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

history as known to the early fourteenth century.[93] One recension of the *Compilatio* includes Riccobaldo's chronological list of city foundations mentioned earlier.[94]

This increase in the circulation of texts on Roman subjects is even more suggestive when considered together with another literary activity which was widely pursued among Italy's educated classes around the turn of the fourteenth century: that of translation. Scholars like to point to the appearance of Dante's *Commedia* in the early years of the fourteenth century as the first major literary work in the vernacular, but it was preceded by about fifty years of increasing translation activity. From 1250 onwards, works of classical literature as well as romances (like those previously mentioned), political treatises, and other adaptations of classical material all appeared in Italian translation. Orosius, Vegetius, Cicero, Sallust, the *Aeneid*, the *Ad Herennium*, and Ovid's *Heroides*, for example, all received this treatment in the fifty years surrounding the year 1300.[95]

The preceding litany of names and titles, regarding both Latin and vernacular works, is remarkable only insofar as it demonstrates the extraordinary breadth of classicizing activity in the republican city-states of late medieval Italy. Additionally, these are only the relatively popular works, of which multiple copies survive: numerous single manuscripts containing unique collections of copied or translated material survive all over Italy as well.[96] Such translations and manuscripts would have radically broadened the audience for Roman subjects and texts, considering the relatively high degree of vernacular literacy among the urban classes of medieval Italy.

---

93 Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1984) and (2000).
94 Riccobaldo da Ferrara (2000), 233-48.
95 See my discussion of translation in chapter 4.
96 Kristeller (1963-97) lists many of these.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Without asking whether the readers of these varied sources believed that all of the events in them actually happened, one can certainly say that they considered all of them "historical", and they mined the increasing numbers of available texts for material of interest to them: on the subject of the Romans generally, or on one city in particular.[97] They adopted and used all the material about the past they could find, whether we would consider it historical, apocryphal, mythical, or even fictional. Mindful of predecessors like Cicero, Livy, and Sallust, medieval Italian historians, intellectuals, and public officials set out to demonstrate the benefits and consequences of a specifically civic system of ethics and behavior. Each project provided its city with a glorious past—one which predicted or even demanded a glorious future—while at the same time illustrating the means by which that future could be achieved.

---

[97] Although, see the Epilogue on the intransigence of belief in the face of absurdity.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Appropriating a Roman Past

Chapter 3

Drawing the threads from her distaff,
she would regale her family with stories
of the Trojans, and Fiesole, and Rome...
—Dante's description of a traditional Florentine matron[1]

Introduction

In their adaptation of the sources discussed in the previous chapter, the Roman pasts enumerated by the ruling classes of late medieval Italy varied wildly and frequently contradicted each other. As if civic honor were a zero-sum proposition, each commune attempted to increase its own glory at its neighbors' expense, detailing a past which exalted its own ancient and illustrious origins while at the same time denigrating any such pretensions by its neighbors. Medieval Florentine historians, to take a particularly brazen example, derived their city's name from words like force, flower, and sword (*forza*, *fiore*, and [*fior*]*enza*), while at the same time claiming that Pistoia, just down the road, was so named because of the massive plague (*pistolenzia*) that occurred there in the first century BC. In creating their various versions of history, they used a broad range of media to spread their message.

Between AD 1250 and 1350, classicizing intent is visible in forms as diverse as public fresco and sculpture, legal decrees, architecture, civic ritual, coins, and seals, as well as historical literature.[2] Predictably, the choice of medium varied with the objective;

---

[1] Evoked in *Paradiso* 15.124-6: *traendo a la rocca la chioma, / favoleggiava con la sua famiglia / d'i Troiani, di Fiesole, e di Roma.*

[2] See e.g. Weiss (1973).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

most of these forms serve either to legitimate or to publicize a particular historical claim. In a manuscript culture, for example, voluminous civic chronicles are more useful for enshrining a certain version of past events as canonical than for sharing that version with a large number of people; public sculpture, on the other hand, has a limited narrative scope but is likely to be encountered by many more people.[3] These are extreme examples; most manifestations of the civic past served both of these functions to some degree, and they reinforced each other when used in tandem. As part two of this study will demonstrate in greater depth, most cities articulated their chosen past in a number of different media at once; this encouraged a broad dissemination of and widespread familiarity with the city's chosen past.

This chapter investigates how the magistrates and scholars in charge of the thirteenth- and fourteenth-century Italian republics articulated their sense of their Roman past. The general trend was toward using a classical past as a means to civic glorification, but this goal could be achieved by a number of different approaches; the medium was only one consideration. Perhaps more fundamental was the exact nature of a city's relationship with classical Rome: did the city predate Rome, for example, or was it founded by the Romans? Were the city's magistrates more interested in familiarizing their citizens with the Romans' civic virtues or the details of their political structure? Depending on their interests, republican Italy's ruling classes generally incorporated Roman history into their own history in one or more of four ways: by comparing their city to the city of Rome outright; by championing a civic foundation related to or

---

[3] The Genoese kept an official chronicle of the city in a single authorized copy as part of their municipal archives, but also erected a large sculpted head in the nave of their cathedral; several inscriptions identify the head as Janus, the legendary founder of Genoa. See chapter 6 for both of these examples.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

modeled on that of Rome; by integrating the early history of their city with the better-known history of Rome; and by appropriating celebrated features of Roman culture as their own.

Deliberate Oneupmanship

The most direct way that these cities used Rome's glorious history to increase their own prestige was by outright comparison, taking the attitude of: Rome has fallen, and our city has taken—or is in the process of taking—the central position Rome once held in the world; our city now is as successful as Rome was in its heyday. To a certain extent, these were empty claims with little basis in reality: none of the republics of medieval Italy ever came close to controlling the entire Italian peninsula, much less "world domination". At the same time, it was well known that Rome began as one upstart city-state among many, so it is certainly possible that the same kind of exponential growth seemed not entirely beyond their reach. Medieval Rome's status in the Italian cultural network was precarious at best, so it may have seemed reasonable that the title of *caput mundi* would pass elsewhere—for example to one of the less anarchic and more economically successful northern city-states.[4] Superlatives characterizing that success—like *florentissima, potentissima, opulentissima, nobilissima,* and *excellentissima*—abound in contemporary city descriptions.[5]

---

[4] On medieval Rome, see Gregorovius (1894), Brentano (1990), and Krautheimer (2000). For general treatments of the communal period in Italy, see the Introduction, fn. 9 and 10.

[5] *Florentissima*: Giovanni Villani (1990); *opulentissima*: Benzo d'Alessandria (1967); *potentissima*: Galvano Fiamma (1727); *nobilissima*: Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1725), *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), and Opicinus de Canistris (1996).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Hence the concept of the *Roma secunda* was a powerful ideological possibility, a title which was claimed for a number of different Italian cities in this period, from Padua in the north of Italy to Rome itself, attempting to mirror its ancient success.[6] Perhaps the best-documented examples are those of Milan and Pavia, two neighboring cities in northwest Italy with a tradition of mutual rivalry that stretched back to the end of the Roman Empire. In 1288, the Milanese grammarian Bonvesin da la Riva wrote a treatise called the *Marvels of the City of Milan*, which praises the city's greatness through the ages, glorifies its traditions of republican liberty, and (albeit subtly) deplores the newly-established signoria, or lordship, of the Visconti family. The *Marvels* argues that Milan is the *secunda Roma* on two particular occasions: in book six, which emphasizes the city's unbroken tradition of loyalty to its ally Rome, Bonvesin asserts grandly that:

> I have never heard or read that this city ever rebelled against Rome, but rather whenever it was able served as a most faithful comrade and helper. Therefore it was ever called the second Rome; for which reason these five verses were written above Milan's Roman gate:
>
> > O passerby, when you touch the threshold of this gate, say:
> > Hail, second Rome, flower of the imperial realm:
> > City always to be honored, most plentiful in rich things,
> > Peoples fear you, mighty necks bow before you,
> > You surpass Thebes in war and Athens in wisdom.
>
> Our most excellent city is therefore to be commended on its true and constant loyalty.[7]

---

[6] On Padua as the *Roma secunda*, see chapter 5 of this study; on the concept generally, see chapter 2, fn. 13.

[7] *Nunquam quoque legi nec audivi hanc aliquando Romane urbe fuisse rebellem, sed sotiam fidelissimam et quantumcumque potuit adiutricem. Ideo secunda Roma vocata fuit antiquitus; unde super portam Romanam Mediolani aliquando scripserunt hos quinque versus:*

Dic, homo qui transis, dum porte limina tangis:
Roma secunda, valle, regni decus imperialle;
Urbs veneranda nimis, plenissima rebus opimis,
Te metuunt gentes, tibi flectunt colla potentes,
In bello Thebas, in sensu vincis Athenas.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Bonvesin bases his claim on Milan's tradition of supporting Rome, its favored position as something like a younger sibling. But he makes Milan's own virtues clear as well: its honor, riches, and power are its own, and not merely reflections of Rome's glory. Similarly, "flower of the imperial realm" implies a position that is not simply secondary. He expands this theme in book eight, on Milan's *dignitas*, which lists all the ways in which the city of Milan surpasses its neighbors. He adduces ten different points, including Milan's possession of an archbishopric not subordinate to the ecclesiastical power of Rome (8.3-4) and its many famous citizens (8.8)—but the first and most valuable points in his argument are, firstly, that Milan was chosen over Rome as an imperial seat by many of the Roman emperors both before and after the spread of Christianity (8.1); and that, secondly, many of those emperors chose to be crowned in Milan rather than in Rome (8.2). Bonvesin concludes his argument with the following rhetorical flourish:

> It is clear from these words that, all things considered, our city has no equal in all the world;... it is likewise clear that not only is it worthy of being called the second Rome, but even, if I may take liberties without seeming presumptuous, it seems in my judgment both appropriate and fair that the papal seat and all its ancient dignities should be transferred here in their entirety.[8]

Bonvesin's vision of Milanese glory encompasses Rome's absolute eclipse: Milan has surpassed the achievements of its old ally in so many ways that even the few honors remaining to Rome (i.e. the papal seat) ought to be relocated, in order to reflect the cities' changed status.

Est igitur vera et constanti fidelitate nostra civitas excelentissima comendanda; Bonvesin da la Riva (1974), 162. Diehl provides a good overview of the work in broader context in Bonvesin da la Riva (1987), 235-40.

[8] *Patet per iam dicta quod civitas nostra in mondo, conputatis omnibus, parem non habet;... patet quod non tantum secunda Roma vocari meretur, ymo, si michi liceret quod fari liberet, ut non imputaretur michi presumptioni; meo quasi dignum et iustum videretur iudicio sedem papalem et reliquas dignitates ad eam totaliter huc transferri*; Bonvesin da la Riva (1974), 188.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Historians who came after Bonvesin echoed his sentiments: Giovanni da Cermenate (1308-13) and Benzo d'Alessandria (c. 1318) both addressed the preeminence of Milan over its neighbors and contemporary Rome, as did Galvano Fiamma, whose long and prolific historiographical career spanned the first three decades of the fourteenth century.[9] His *Manipulus florum* (the "bouquet" in the title refers to a collection of miscellaneous literary extracts[10]) was written in the 1330s, and incorporates the five-verse inscription cited above as well as Bonvesin's comments on Milan's long-standing alliance with Rome. Galvano's formulation, however, takes Bonvesin's argument one step further:

> In this way the city of Milan was called the second Rome, and corresponded with Rome in one name, and thus one people was formed out of the Roman and Milanese peoples. The battle-standards of the community were equal [in rank], and entirely similar, such that in all the wars of the Romans the Milanese had the right of [throwing] the first spear. And in this way the people of Milan achieved countless victories throughout Italy.[11]

Not content to argue that Milan's present success has outstripped Rome's ancient glory, Galvano implies that Rome's own eminent achievements (namely, the military subjugation of the known world) were largely the work of her Milanese allies. Galvano is thus the most flamboyant of a number of Milanese historians, all of whom used the idea of Milan as the *Roma secunda* to augment their city's prestige.

---

9 Giovanni's work was edited by Ferrai in Giovanni da Cermenate (1889), while Benzo's ponderous history is only partly edited. Excerpts appear in Benzo d'Alessandria (1890) and Benzo d'Alessandria (1967); the latter contains Benzo's accounts of Italian city foundations. Entries on these authors in the DBI (1960-) provide brief biographical sketches and recent bibliography.

10 Galvano borrowed his title from the florilegium by Thomas of Ireland; see Rouse and Rouse (1979), 224.

11 *...sicut Civitas Mediolani secunda Roma dicebatur, et in nomine una cum Roma communicabat, ita ex Romano populo et Mediolanensi unus populus efficeretur. Vexilla Communitatis erant aequalia, et omnino similia; et fuit ordinatum, quod in omni pugna Romanorum semper Cives Mediolanenses primam aciem haberent. Et sic populus Mediolanensis infinitas victorias per Italiam faciebat*; Galvano Fiamma (1727), c. 553. *Per* in the last phrase probably means "throughout Italy" as translated, but "for Italy", i.e. on behalf of the larger political entity, is also an intriguing possibility.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Milan, however, was not the only city that had been used as a capital by Rome's last emperors. Pavia, a smaller city nearby, had been the capital not only of the last emperors before the fall of Rome but also of the Lombard kings which succeeded them in the fifth through eighth centuries.[12] The Pavian Opicinus de Canistris described his city in 1330 as "the head and center, or seat, of the entire realm of the Lombards; notable because it had been honored with many ancient privileges."[13] In the later Middle Ages, Pavia was a much smaller city than Milan, with many fewer claims to fame than (for example) Bonvesin's lengthy list, but Opicinus nonetheless mines what he can from the Lombard connection. In Opicinus's account of a prophecy uttered in the late Roman period by Pavia's patron saint, San Siro claims that Pavia is favored by God because it alone will be chosen to survive the Lombard pillage and destruction of the rest of Italy—an anecdote which neatly combines religious prophecy with secular prestige.[14] In fact, Opicinus appropriates some of the glory claimed by the Milanese for his own city: his text presents a modified version of the same five-line inscription quoted in Bonvesin, but maintains that it appears over the Pavian city gates, rather than the Milanese:

> Whoever now enters, let him speak with bended knee;
> You who pass by and touch the threshold of this gate, say:
> Hail, second Rome, imperial head of the world,
> You surpass Thebes in war and Athens in wisdom.
> Peoples fear you, mighty necks bow before you.[15]

---

12 See, e.g., Wickham (1981) or La Rocca (2002).

13 *Caput et camera seu sedes totius regni Longobardorum, multis extitit antiquis privilegiis decorata*; Opicinus de Canistris (1996), 73.

14 Opicinus de Canistris (1996), 75. See the Introduction to this study, especially the works cited in footnote 24, on the parallel roles of civic founders and patron saints in the medieval Italian cities.

15 *Quisquis nunc intrat deflexo poplite dicat,*
Dic prope qui transis qui porte limina tangis:

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Nowhere does he give any indication that the verse might be anything other than unique to Pavia, and in fact Pavia's claim to being "imperial head of the world" was nearly as good as Milan's in the grand scheme of things. No direct Milanese response to this appropriation survives, but it is probably not accidental that Galvano Fiamma (writing at about the same time as Opicinus, or just following) places the founding of Pavia more than a thousand years after the founding of Milan. The rivalry between the two cities was intense. Moreover, as this series of examples reveals, to be the "second Rome" was exceedingly desirable, and conferred a great deal of automatic prestige—as seen for instance in "imperial head of the world", above. Accordingly, *Roma secunda* was a title claimed by a number of competing cities, Milan and Pavia amongst them. Naturally, none of them recognized any of the others' assertions.

Furthermore, the *idea* of the *Roma secunda* was even more widespread than the phrase itself. The idea that Rome's power was declining, and that some other city would inevitably take its place on an international scale, was prevalent even among cities and historians who did not specifically make use of the phrase "second Rome". For instance, the passage most often cited by modern historians to demonstrate the civic self-confidence of the late medieval city-states comes from Giovanni Villani's chronicle of Florence, written in the late 1330s. Eschewing any direct mention of a *Roma secunda*, he states that he was inspired to write his account of the history of Florence after returning from a visit to Rome during the first Jubilee:

Roma secunda, vale, mundi caput imperiale.
Tu bello Thebas, tu sensu vincis Athenas,
Te metuunt gentes, tibi flectunt colla potentes; Opicinus de Canistris (1996), 99.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> ...considering that our city of Florence, the daughter and creature of Rome, was rising, and had great things before her, whilst Rome was declining, it seemed to me fitting to collect in this volume and new chronicle all the deeds and beginnings of the city of Florence.[16]

Like Bonvesin da la Riva, Villani acknowledges Florence's cultural debt to the ancient city of Rome, but claims that Florence is now taking Rome's place on the international stage; he confesses that his chronicle is chiefly designed to explain the rise of Florence in the history of Italy. Rome's time has come and gone, and other cities, while benefiting from her experience and nurturing, are taking her place.

Testifying to the fact that Villani's sentiments were widely felt rather than unique is an inscription placed on the wall of the Florentine palace of the podestà (now known as the Bargello) around 1255, about fifty years before Villani even conceived of his chronicle (figure 4).[17] Recent scholarship has debated the attribution of the inscription to Dante's mentor Brunetto Latini, chancellor of Florence between 1255 and 1260; the author's identity aside, his words express the same sentiments as Villani's later text.[18] In cramped Lombard capitals, the inscription enumerates the achievements of the city of Florence: its good fortune, power, and the civic "good health" accruing to the city; similarly, the inscription expresses Florence's capability of ruling earth, sea, and even the

---

[16] *... considerando che la nostra città di Firenze, figliuola e fattura di Roma, era nel suo montare e a seguire grandi cose, sì come Roma nel suo calare, mi parve convenevole di recare in questo volume e nuova cronica tutti i fatti e cominciamenti della città di Firenze*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 2.58 (book 9.36), and (1906), 321.

[17] A *podestà* (from the Latin *potestas*, meaning "power") was an executive official with judicial powers, elected for a term of six months or a year. He was usually required to be a foreigner, i.e. a citizen of another city, on the grounds that a foreigner could be impartial in judging civic affairs. He was usually paid well and a significant number of men appear to have made careers out of being podestà of one city after another; see the discussion in chapter 4 at fn. 5 and 24. Note also that the plural of podestà is podestà.

[18] Modesto (2004) gives a good review of the debate, as well as providing a photograph, a transcription, and an English translation of the inscription.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

whole world, starting with Tuscany—just as Rome did at one point.[19] The sense that Florence has replaced Rome in all its chief characteristics is unmistakable.

Thus the most obvious means of increasing one's own city's prestige by evoking the glory of ancient Rome was by direct comparison. Since contemporary Rome was a shadow of its former self, the assignment of the title of *caput mundi* was thought to be debatable, and many cities in Italy were eager to claim it. The examples above demonstrate the civic tendency to evoke the glory of Rome, and then to claim a transferral of power, glory, and influence *from* Rome *to* each citizen's own city in the time since the fall of the ancient city. Milan, Pavia, Florence, and a host of other cities all sought to use such comparisons to their own advantage. Perhaps the pithiest statement claiming the passing of influence from classical Rome to a newly affluent medieval city, however, belongs to Venice. Pace da Ferrara, a professor at the university in Padua, in a poem eulogizing the accomplishments of Venice in 1300, says that: "she has now grown so much, renowned through the whole world, that Rome herself is inferior to the city of Venice."[20]

---

[19] "And may Christ favour and preserve their city in a covenant of peace, because Florence is abounding in riches. She defeated her enemies in war and a great uprising; she enjoys prosperity and distinctions as well as a masterful citizenry. She acquires and affirms, and now impulsively extends her battle camps in safety; she rules the land, she rules the sea, she rules the whole world. Thus, by her domination, all of Tuscany becomes prosperous—and like Rome continues to lead the triumphs in wisely restraining all under her firm law"; Modesto (2004), fn. 2.

[20] *Iamque adeo crevit totum vulgata per orbem / Roma sit ut Veneta viribus urbe minor*; Pace da Ferrara (1843), 16. On Pace and his learning, see Stadter (1973). Brown (1996), 3-46, provides a good explication of classicism in medieval Venice, including a discussion of Pace in context.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Romanizing Foundations

The examples above also indicate that medieval appropriations of the glory of ancient Rome frequently combined direct comparison with historical causality: historians of both Milan and Florence emphasized their cities' original foundation from Rome as a basis for their present success. As discussed in chapter one, a city's foundation was considered a crucial indicator of its future success, and hence accounts of Roman civic foundation are a popular trope: Villani's characterization of Florence as a "daughter and creature of Rome", for example, is only the most famous in a long line of similar descriptions by thirteenth- and fourteenth-century Florentine historians.[21] With very little variation, Florentine accounts of the founding and early history of Florence connect it both to Rome and to the nearby town of Fiesole, a small town in the hills above Florence; hence Dante's reference, in the epigraph to this chapter, to the tales of Rome, Troy, and Fiesole which constitute the history of Florence. These epitomize the three different ways in which a city's foundation could be connected to ancient Rome: a city could be founded directly from Rome; it could be founded (as from Troy) in a process parallel to the history of Rome, or it could be shown (as was claimed for Fiesole) to predate Rome altogether. In every case, however, it was the desire to equal or better the history of Rome that drove these claims.

Medieval tradition relates the founding of Florence as follows: Fiesole, in some accounts founded by Atlas as the first city in Europe, rebelled against domination by the

---

[21] *...figliuola e fattura di Roma*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 2.58 (book 9.36), and (1906), 321; see fn. 16, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Roman republic; it was accordingly destroyed by a Roman army under Julius Caesar, and a new town populated by both displaced Fiesolans and conquering Romans was founded on the plain of the river Arno below the old site of Fiesole. A dispute erupted because Caesar, against the wishes of the Roman Senate, wanted to name the new city Caesarea after himself. Hence, until the city was built and the name Florentia adopted, the city was simply known as "little Rome" or "daughter of Rome" (*piccola Roma* or *filia Romae*)— since the Senate decreed that each Roman noble who wanted to name the city should be given a part of it to build in imitation of the city of Rome. Ricordano Malispini's late-thirteenth-century chronicle stresses repeatedly how "everything [was] made and built in the style of Rome", "like that of Rome", and "in the same fashion as those in Rome".[22] The idea was that whichever Roman finished his section first should have the privilege of naming the city, but they were all so eager for the privilege that all of them finished in a single day.[23] Eventually a proposal was adopted to name the city after the Roman senator Fiorinus, who had died in battle with the Fiesolans, because he had been the first to build on the site of the new city. Etymological references to Fiorinus as the flower of the Romans (*fiore de' romani*) and a flower of chivalry (*fiore de' cavalieri*) generally attend this part of the story.[24]

---

22 *...tutta fatta e edificata al modo di Roma...a similitudine di quegli di Roma,...come quello di Roma...*; Ricordano Malispini (1976), 16. There has been a great deal of debate over when and if Ricordano Malispini actually lived; supposedly his chronicle dates to the 1280s, as I treat it here—but certain scholars, Charles Davis prominent among them, have argued that the Malispini chronicle is actually a late-fourteenth-century compilation based on Dante and Giovanni Villani. See Davis (1984b).

23 In which case, unlike Rome, Florence *was* built in a day. The proverb (as relating to Rome) is first documented in a twelfth-century vernacular French text, so awareness of it in medieval Italy is at least conceivable.

24 E.g. Ricordano Malispini (1976), 17, and Sanzanome (1875-80), 2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Hence the "little Rome" analogy connecting Florence with Rome functions on a number of different levels: according to the medieval legend, not only the city's physical structures derived from ancient Rome, but the city's name and the Florentine people as well. Villani emphasizes how the population of Florence as originally constituted was a microcosm of its Roman parent body: "it was peopled by the best of Rome, and the most capable, sent by the senate in due proportion from each division of Rome, chosen by lot from the inhabitants."[25] The original population of Florence was thus not only an evenly-balanced reflection of the Roman population, but an improved one, since only the "best" Romans were sent out as colonists.

There are at least five full accounts written in the period under consideration that retell the origins of Florence, beginning with Sanzanome's *Gesta florentinorum* and ending with Giovanni Villani.[26] Although each contains unique details and explanations of events, their many common elements demonstrate that these accounts were all interconnected. Going one step further, it is likewise clear that the basics of the legend were well-enough known, that even authors whose focus was not the early history of the city repeated the phrases ascribing Florence's origin to Rome, elevating it more or less to the status of an epithet. For example, Dino Compagni's work is an almost micro-historical analysis of events in Florence which took place during only a few years around 1300; he ignores the city's history prior to that time, but nonetheless refers to his city in

---

25 *...fu popolata della migliore gente di Roma, e de' più sofficienti, mandati per gli sanatori di ciascuno rione di Roma per rata, come toccò per sorte che l'abitassono*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.62 (book 2.1), and (1906), 29-30.

26 The chronicle of Sanzanome (1875-80), c. 1230; the account given by Brunetto Latini in his *Trésor* (1948 and 1993), c. 1260-5; the *Chronica de origine civitatis*, with a contemporary Italian translation known as the *Libro fiesolano*, both c. 1265 (1875-80); the chronicle of Ricordano Malispini (1976), c. 1281-6; and that of Giovanni Villani (1990 and 1906), c. 1330-7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

his introduction as "this noble city, daughter of Rome".[27] Similarly, the 1339 *Description of the City and Republic of Florence* describes the people of Florence as "begotten from the stock of the Romans."[28]

Although Florence is certainly the best-known example, numerous other cities in this time period also advertised their foundation from Rome. The Romanizing claims of Florence's chief rival Siena, for example, are considered at length later in this study. Although Siena's foundation myth does not appear in written form until the fifteenth century, chapter seven addresses its numerous physical and artistic manifestations in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries. Likewise, Roman foundations also appear in numerous examples of civic poetry such as the mid-thirteenth-century *De laude civitate Laudae*, a poem on the rebuilding of the city of Lodi after its twelfth-century destruction by the Milanese. The poem's author puns repeatedly on the Latin form of Lodi (*Lauda*, meaning praise) to exalt his city and its historic independence. It eulogizes:

> This was a flourishing race, from the earliest peoples of Rome,
> For the ancient city had been rebuilt twice out of ruins,
> Which Pompey's sword taught to praise trophies.[29]

The anonymous author of the Lodese poem emphasizes his city's antiquity, connection to Rome, military prowess, and persistence. His diction in describing his city's past is notable chiefly for its extreme conventionality, viz. race, citizens, flourishing, ancient, and trophies. But these words describe a present intimately connected with its past in a way

---

27 Dino Compagni (2000), 2, and (1986), 3.

28 *...producti de genere Romanorum*; *Florentie urbis* (1885), 122.

29 *Hec fuit ex primis gens Rome florida civis.*
Nam fuit ex binis vetus urbs renovata ruinis,
Quam spata Ponpeia monuit laudare trophea; *De laude* (1962), 8 (lines 9-11). The text is problematic in line 9; its meaning is unclear, and I have left *civis* untranslated.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

that the inhabitants of a newly rebuilt city may have felt necessary: since Lodi was rebuilt on a site slightly distant from the destroyed city, for example, there would have been no visible ruins. Works like the *De laude* would therefore have reminded the Lodesi of their city's antiquity in the face of a civic appearance of extreme modernity.

Similarly, a short courtly poem on the origins of San Gimignano dating to the mid-fourteenth century attributes the city's foundation to "two noble shield-bearers, Silvius and Mutius, of the Roman people, descended and born of the best knights."[30] Descent from the ancient Romans was a matter of great prestige, bestowing a noble heritage on the people who claimed it for themselves—noble in the sense of imparting lofty principles (ethically, politically, and otherwise), but also in the literal sense of "aristocratic", since it is always the Roman nobility, frequently senators, which are cited in such stories. Like Villani's colonists, Silvius and Mutius are not only Roman, but "born of the best knights." These tropes of Roman descent and its various benefits therefore appear and reappear in remarkably similar form in numerous Italian cities in the late medieval period, from Milan and Florence (as we have seen) to smaller cities like Todi, Viterbo, and Pistoia.[31]

If a Roman foundation increased a city's prestige, however, it could logically be argued that having a history that paralleled or predated that of Rome would be even more effective. There are in fact many cases of Italian cities promulgating mythical

---

30 *...due gentil scudieri,/ Silvio et Mutio del popul Romano,/ Discesi e nati di pro' cavalieri*; Matteo Ciaccheri (1968), 1 (lines 4-6). (*Pro'* is most likely a short form of either *prode*, meaning valiant, or *probo*, which can mean anything generally positive from good and honest to virtuous.)

31 These cities and the various pasts they create for themselves will appear in greater detail later in this chapter; I have attempted here merely to introduce the benefits that a Roman origin was perceived to bestow on a medieval town and its citizens.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

origins in this period that are not specifically Roman; I would argue that ancient Rome was the frame of reference, if not the direct subject, for most of these. It was the standard that required surpassing, and as a result many of these seemingly non-Roman legends show decidedly Romanizing (one might even say Romanesque) traits. Most obvious is the idea that a foundation occurring at the same time as that of Rome, but independently, put one's civic history on the same level as that of Rome. The possession of a history paralleling that of Rome argued for historical parity; equal antiquity should result in equal prestige, especially if the contemporary fortunes of the city in question could be demonstrated to surpass those of Rome.

It was on this basis, for example, that a number of cities in the Po valley of northern Italy claimed Gallic foundations in the late medieval period—specifically, foundation by the Gauls under Brennus, since the Gauls were the only early tribe known to have sacked Rome, as vividly narrated by Livy in book five of his first decade. Milanese historians took up this trope in the early fourteenth century, as did many smaller cities in Milan's orbit, such as Bergamo, Brescia, and Asti.[32]

In the same way, stories of other, less famous, Trojans who escaped the burning of Troy permeate the historical literature of late medieval Italy. Classical Rome's claims to a unique ancestry had always been based on the idea that Aeneas and his immediate family had been the only Trojan survivors of the war, although even Virgil and Livy both mention peripherally the exploits of Antenor, the legendary founder of Padua, in northern Italy (on which see chapter five). In the Middle Ages, however, the list of Trojans who survived the war and went on to found other cities grew exponentially;

---

[32] Benzo d'Alessandria (1967) repeats a number of these myths.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Trojan founders, each more improbable than the last, were adduced for kingdoms and cities across Europe. Colette Beaune has explored the Trojan origins claimed for the Capetian dynasty of France, and Brunetto Latini's encyclopedic *Trésor* even includes a legend attributing Trojan ancestry to King Arthur.[33] Trojan descent was as popular in Italian cities as it was elsewhere in Europe; for example, the cities explored in chapters five, six, and eight of this study all claim Trojan descent in some way: Padua with its founder Antenor, Genoa with a "Trojan prince" named Janus, and Perugia with a Trojan (or possibly a Greek) veteran of the war named Eulistes.

The indeterminacy of Eulistes' affiliation with the Trojan War segues neatly into a contrasting example: cities which claimed parity with Rome not through Trojan ancestry, but through the side which actually won the war: the Greeks. In fact, given the war's outcome, it might be surprising that claims of Greek ancestry were not more numerous, were it not for the overwhelming influence of Roman historiography and the myth of Rome itself on medieval Europe, both showing a strong bias toward the Trojan side. Nevertheless, there were some cities that elaborated their descent from or affiliation with the Greeks, most likely as a way of surpassing or countering the traditional influence of Rome on the Italian peninsula. Most such cities were in southern Italy—unsurprisingly, given the area's ancient affiliation with Greek politics and culture (and its classical appellation of *Magna Graecia*). Following Solinus and Servius, for example, many histories attribute the founding of the southern cities Benevento and Arpi to the Greek hero Diomedes, in the period after the Trojan War.[34]

---

33 Beaune (1991); Brunetto Latini (1948), 43, and (1993), 24.

34 E.g. Riccobaldo da Ferrara (2000), 244, and Guglielmo da Pastrengo (1991), 282 and 286.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Other cities pursued this trend from further up the Italian peninsula. The best documented of these is the city of Pisa, a medieval maritime power in southern Tuscany best known for its cathedral campanile. Medieval chronicles of the city attest that it was built by the Greek Pelops, son of Tantalus and grandfather of the Atreides whose familial woes were the cause of the Trojan War. The fourteenth-century chronicle attributed in manuscripts to the Pisan Dominican Bartolomeo di San Concordio attests further that, before he came to Pisa, Pelops founded a city in Greece after which the entire Peloponnesian Peninsula was named.[35] Pisan accounts of the past, moreover, do not stop at linking the foundation of their city with Greek mythology. A later fourteenth-century chronicle by Ranieri Sardo, a Pisan who adopted his material on the early history of Pisa nearly verbatim from older thirteenth-century texts, gives a traditionally Pisan view of the Trojan war: "And we find how the Pisans gave aid to the Greeks when they were on the battlefield at Troy, and destroyed [the city]..."[36]

This view is "traditionally Pisan" because the legend of Pisan aid to the Greeks in the Trojan War is an idea that stretches back several centuries in Pisan history: a twelfth-century miscellany made by a Pisan deacon named Guido, for example, includes a version of the *Excidium Troiae* (*Siege of Troy*), a fairly common late-antique account of the Trojan War, which adds extra material about the city of Pisa to the base text.[37] These interpolations note the foundation of Pisa by Pelops at two relevant points in the text, as well as including Pisa in a list of Tuscan forces (taken from *Aeneid,* book 10) that

---

35 Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1725), c. 163.

36 *Et trovasi chome i Pisani dectono aiutorio a Greci quando erano a chanpo sopra a Troya et distrussola...*; Ranieri Sardo (1963), 8. Sardo's sources are discussed by Banti (1963) as well as in his introduction to Sardo's text.

37 Guido's manuscript is discussed at length in Fisher (1966).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

joined the Greek side in the war. For example, instead of the *Excidium*'s "behold, Aeneas triumphed with the army which Evander the king had given him", Guido's version reads: "behold, Aeneas triumphed with the army which he had received from Evander and the other maritime cities and allies, namely Pisa and Elba and others."[38]

It is not known whether Guido copied the "Pisan version" of the *Excidium Troiae* from an earlier manuscript or made the interpolations himself. Nevertheless, the text is relevant for our purposes because the Pisan *Excidium* survives not only in Guido's twelfth-century manuscript but also in several late thirteenth-century and early fourteenth-century copies.[39] These later manuscripts therefore demonstrate a late medieval interest in Pisa's part in the war, independent of the usual historiographical sources. In fact, the manuscript which served as the basis for Atwood and Whitaker's English edition of the *Excidium* is a late thirteenth-century copy containing the Pisan interpolations, now in the Riccardiana Library in Florence. (Atwood and Whitaker publish these, but relegate them to the footnotes.) Hence the rewriting of Pisan history on the Greek side of the war is visible not only in local historical sources but also in literary ones. Pisan historians made a great deal of their city's historical connections with Rome, and they did not hesitate to frame their city's successes in classicizing terms—the Pisan poet Ranieri Granchi stresses his city's *Romana vetustas,* or Roman antiquity—but their purported Greek origin and affiliation during the Trojan war seem to have provided a kind of independent historical prestige that a direct dependence on Rome would not.[40]

---

38 Base text: *ecce Eneas cum exercitu quem Evander rex dederat supervenit*; Riccardiana 881 ("Pisan version"): *ecce Eneas cum exercitu accepto ab Evandro et ab aliis civitatibus maritimis et allis Pisa scilicet et Ilba et ceteris supervenit*; *Excidium Troiae* (1944), 44.

39 See the discussion of manuscripts in Atwood and Whitaker's preface to *Excidium Troiae* (1944).

40 Ranieri Granchi (1915), 7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In the same way, and in the same period, a number of Italian cities vaunted pre-Roman origins as a way of outshining the prestige of Rome's own history. Pisa is naturally one of these, since being able to send aid during the Trojan War meant that the city had to predate the war. And in fact the Pisan chronicles are good examples of the style in which this was usually done: they repeat multiple times and in great detail exactly how much older their city is than Rome. This tendency appears in the previous chapter in the context of Eusebian-style chronology, but it occurs just as often without the specific calculation of periods of years; for instance, the Pisan chronicle attributed to Bartolomeo da San Concordio contains a number of statements, repeated throughout the text, on the significantly greater antiquity of Pisa than Rome. After a description of the events surrounding the founding of Pisa by Pelops, the text adds: "And it is certain that this time, in which [Pisa] was built, was a long time before the city of Rome was founded."[41]

Such statements appear fairly regularly; Ranieri Sardo emphasizes that Pisa was founded in the third age of the world, thirty years before the sack of Troy, whereas "Rome was built in the fourth age, or the fifth, in the 4056th year from the beginning of the world... Therefore Pisa existed 268 years before Rome."[42] Galvano Fiamma's claims for Milan strike a remarkably similar chord: having pointed out that Milan (originally Subria) was a great city which controlled all of Lombardy long before Rome grew into its power, he reminds the reader redundantly that "it was built in a most ancient time,

---

41 *De tempore autem, quo aedificata fuit, certum est, longo tempore ante Urbe Romanam conditam*; Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1725), c. 163.

42 *Roma fu edifichata nella quarta etade, overo nella quinta, chorente nel quatro mila cinquantasei dal cominciamento del mondo... Et Pisa si fu innanzi che Roma 268 anni*; Ranieri Sardo (1963), 9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

before Rome."[43] The superlative *antiquissimo* and the number of times this fact is repeated reveal the immense significance of the Roman comparison to Galvano.

Furthermore, for many of these cities, it seems to have been desirable not only that their city should predate Rome, but that it should do so by a significant amount; thus many of these legends place city foundations in a mythical time we might call primeval. The chief point of such myths is to emphasize the really remote antiquity of these cities, many of which claim to have been the first city in Italy, founded by the very first rulers of Italy in the dawn of the world. Logically, this is a good argument; if accepted, it would negate all competition on the matter of ancient prestige.

We have already seen at least one example of this "primeval" argument with Florence's binary origin myth, the city being founded not only from the Romans but from the ancient Fiesolans, which according to many accounts was the first city in Europe. As Villani puts it, expanding on a description in the *Chronicle of the Origin of the City*: "Note that it was the first city built in the said third division of the world, called Europe, and therefore it was named '*Fia Sola*' [it shall be alone], to wit, *first*, with no other inhabited city in that said division."[44] In explanation of this derivation, both the *Chronicle* and Villani relate how Fiesole was founded by the classical grab-bag of Atlas, Jove, Electra, and Apollo as—alternately—the first post-diluvial city in the world, the first city in Europe, or the first city in Italy. (Ricordano Malispini justifies the former by explaining that Atlas was closely descended from Noah.[45]) According to all of these

---

43 *Ergo antiquissimo tempore ante Romam constructa fuit*; Galvano Fiamma (1727), c. 542.

44 *E nota ch'ella fu la prima città edificata nella detta terza parte del mondo chiamat Europia, e però fu nominata* Fia sola, *cioè prima, sanza altra città abitata nella detta parte*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.13 (book 1.7) and (1906), 6.

45 Ricordano Malispini (1976), 2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

sources, Atlas and Electra, the rulers of Fiesole, had three sons named Italus, Sicanus, and Dardanus, who divided the world in three amongst themselves: Italus ruled Italy from Fiesole, Sicanus ruled Sicily, and Dardanus, to whom the rest of the world was assigned, retired to the eastern Mediterranean to found Troy (thus, in a very roundabout way, making the medieval Florentines the ancestors of the Romans). Returning to Italus in Fiesole, Villani recounts how "he [Italus] begat great rulers which after him governed not only the city of Fiesole and the country round about, but well-nigh all Italy, and they built many cities there; and the said city of Fiesole rose into great power and lordship, until the great city of Rome reached her state and lordship."[46] If Fiesole was the first and most important city in primeval pre-Roman Italy, then medieval Florentines (so the argument would go) are merely reclaiming the glory that had once belonged to their ancestors.

The idea of descent from Noah, as was claimed for Atlas, was extremely widespread in this context, being the best way to guarantee the unsurpassable antiquity of one's city and people in a post-diluvial Christian world. Galvano Fiamma's story of Milan's foundation as Subria in the "most ancient time" rests on the idea that Subres, the founder of Subria, was the great-grandson of Noah through Tubal, son of Japheth (as enumerated in Isidore's *Etymologies*).[47] Tubal in fact was generally acknowledged as the founder of Ravenna, but the Ravennese chronicles generally connect him to Noah

---

[46] *...di lui nacquero grandi signori che apresso di lui signoreggiaro non solamente la città di Fiesole e la provincia intorno, ma quasi tutta Italia, e molte città v'edificaro; e la detta città di Fiesole montò in grande potenzia e signoria, infino che·lla grande città di Roma nonn-ebbe stato e signoria*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 15 (book 1.9), and (1906), 7.

[47] Isidorus (1911), 9.2.26-30.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

through Ham rather than Japheth.[48] On the fortunes of Ravenna once founded, however, the Ravennese texts reinforce the same trends we have already observed: "And the city of Ravenna flourished for a long time... and Ravenna was the seat of the kingdom, [a city] in which barons and soldiers and nobles all gathered, and all of Italy was subject to it, up to the time of the Romans."[49] In essence, the legend claims that Ravenna was the most important city in Italy from its earliest human inhabitation following the flood up to the moment of Roman domination, leaving very little glory for any other city.

One other trend is visible in the search for pre-Roman civic glory: or, it might be more accurate to say that one other major source was available to cities looking for it: namely, the Eusebian account of pre-Roman Italy which had been expanded by Eutropius, Paul the Deacon, and others, as discussed in chapter two. Suffice it to say here that the Eusebian rulers of pre-Aenean Italy—Janus, Saturnus, Picus, Faunus, and Latinus—are frequently cited in late medieval Italian histories as pre-Roman founders of cities, or incorporated into broader Trojan or Noetic accounts. Janus, for example, was venerated as the first king of Italy and the founder of medieval Genoa (as will be discussed in chapter six), but he also appears in Brunetto Latini's *Trésor* as a descendent of Noah in the sixth degree.[50] In the same vein, Ricordano Malispini records that Capys, the legendary founder of Capua, was the grandson of King Latinus.[51]

---

[48] E.g. *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), c. 574, along with several other chronicles edited by Muratori in the same volume.

[49] *Et floruit Civitas Ravennae longo tempore... Et Ravenna erat Sedes Regni, in qua Barones, et Milites, et Nobiles commorabantur, et ei tota Italia deserviebat usque ad tempora Romanorum*; *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), cc. 574-5.

[50] Brunetto Latini (1948), 35 and 42, and (1993), 17 and 23.

[51] Ricordano Malispini (1976), 7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Cities that wished to improve their historical prestige in relation to Rome and their neighbors, therefore, took several different approaches with respect to their civic foundation, all of which used the classical history of Rome as a historical benchmark. The three paradigmatic ways of accomplishing this were, first, claiming a foundation from Rome itself; second, vaunting an early history which mirrored that of Rome independently, such as a foundation by Trojans, Gauls, or Greeks; and third, asserting a pre-Aenean foundation which predated that of Rome entirely. Individual legends often show the characteristics of more than one of these; one Genoese account which we will encounter in chapter six makes use of all of them at once, with the help of some extremely elastic logic.

The important thing to note at this point is that these three different types of mythical foundations claimed by the cities of medieval Italy all share a common obsession with the legendary history of Rome; those that do not use the history of Rome directly are always in some way competing with it as well as with each other. In most cases (as shown above), the competitive spirit is explicit; chroniclers attempt to extinguish every possible doubt as to their city's primacy and antiquity, on whatever grounds they base their claims. Hence all of these legends can be described as "Romanizing", since they all engage directly with, and locate themselves within, the canonical Roman past. Using this framework of three basic trajectories for a Romanizing engagement with the past, the rest of this chapter examines the particular ways in which medieval Italian historians, scholars, and public servants tried to support their ideological claims.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Retroactive Networking

Given the desire to "improve" a civic past by association with Romans, Trojans, and other figures of a mythological and literary past, the most common means of expressing such claims was by merging civic history with the better-known exploits of the Romans, Trojans, or others—the implication being that the Romans were obviously biased and told the story to their own advantage. A city gained prestige if, like Pisa, it could be shown to have taken part in well-known historical events like the Trojan War. Thus cities sought to increase their glory in the medieval present by a practice one might call retroactive networking: either by incorporating better-known historical figures and events into the local history of the city, or, inversely, by arguing for the involvement of the city in famous historical events. Many cities, for example, attributed their foundation or other significant local events (like the building of a monument) to Julius Caesar; the prestige in these cases is due to the value attached to Caesar's name. On the other hand, we have already seen the importance that Milan and Pavia attached to, and the consequence they felt they gained from, their association with the later Roman emperors and Lombard kings of Italy. Civic glory was gained retroactively by association with events and people already recognized as glorious by the canonical history, literature, and art of medieval Italy.

For example, Julius Caesar's fame is the driving force behind the myth of Rimini, a city located south of Ravenna on the Adriatic coast of Italy. It was the site of classical Ariminum, and even today both an arch of Augustus (figure 5) and a bridge built by Tiberius (figure 6) still stand. Taking advantage of these classical remains from at least

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the turn of the fourteenth century, Rimini advertised itself as the place where Julius Caesar crossed the Rubicon.[52] A commemorative stone much like a modern historic site marker was set up (figure 7); Petrarch mentions the Riminese marker when recounting Caesar's exploits in *De viris illustribus*, written in the 1330s: "When I was a boy, I was shown the stone in the middle of the piazza where it is said that Caesar spoke."[53] Caesar's legendary crossing of the Rubicon was considered particularly momentous since the medieval world thought of him (rather than his great-nephew Octavian, later Augustus) as the first Roman emperor. Hence the crossing of the Rubicon was considered the main event symbolically dividing Republic from Empire, and having been the site of this famous event increased Rimini's consequence on the broad medieval stage.

In the same way, Florentine sources associate the eventual rebellion of Fiesole against Rome with the Catilinarian conspiracy, explaining that when Catiline fled north from Rome, he went to Fiesole. The Romans were compelled to destroy the city in order to crush the rebellion; the story thus attributes the rebellion and destruction of Fiesole to a more historically significant force than Fiesolan irritability or Roman peninsular imperialism. The *Libro Fiesolano* takes the story one step further, finishing it with:

> And this Catiline, noblest king [*sic*] of Rome, had a son called Uberto Caesar [*Uberto Cesare*], who was a wise man of the greatest valor... And when this Uberto was fifteen years old, he returned to Rome and was confirmed [in his rights], and pardoned by the Senate and the Consuls: and all the Romans gave him much honor, and his inheritance was restored to him... and he went to rule over Florence with seven companions, among them both Romans and Fiesolans:

---

52 See Campana (1933).

53 *Lapis, me puero, ostendebatur fori medio, ubi Caesar concionatus ferebatur*; Razzolini (1874), 2.464. Only a small portion of the *De viris illustribus* has been edited, by Martellotti in Petrarch (1964); Razzolini gives the Latin life of Caesar along with a facing-page contemporary translation by Donato degli Albanzati; Martellotti's forthcoming second volume will provide a new edition. See also Campana (1933), 10.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> and he was lord over all of them, and held the city for the government in Rome. And so it happened that this Uberto Caesar took a Fiesolan wife and had sixteen children, who multiplied greatly in their realm, as it pleased God...[54]

This version of the story resolves Catiline's involvement with the rebellion of Fiesole and the associated founding of Florence by reconciling Catiline's family with the Roman community through his son; attributing specifically to him the initial merger of the Fiesolan and Roman peoples; and seeking to increase the symbolic value of the entire legend by somewhat whimsically giving the boy the magical name of Caesar.[55] A similar genealogical claim appears in a chronicle of Todi, in which the early Roman hero Coriolanus is claimed to have descended from the early rulers of Todi rather than local Roman stock.[56]

The practice of incorporating famous figures from Roman history into local history of one city or another was exceedingly widespread, involving not only political figures like Julius Caesar and Catiline but also literary and mythological figures. Mantua based a good part of its fame on having been the birthplace of Virgil, and at least one statue of the poet (in medieval academic dress) was erected in Mantua in the late

---

[54] *E di questo Catellina nobilissimo re di Roma, nacque uno figliuolo, lo quale ebbe nome Uberto Cesare, lo quale fue uomo savio e di grande prodezza... E quando quest'Uberto fue grando di xv anni si tornò in Roma e fue ribandita, e perdonatoli dal Comune e dalli Consoli: e fulli fatto grand'onore da tutti i Romani, e fue rimesso sopra lo suo patrimonio... e andovi e sinoreggiò Firenze con .vii. compagni tra di Romani e di Fiesolani: ed elli era signore in tutto, e teneali per lo comune di Roma. Sicchè avvenne che Uberto Cesare prese moglie di Fiesole ed ebbe .xvi. figliuoli, i quali multiplicarono molto in lore nazione come piacque a Dio*; *Libro fiesolano* (1875-80), 64.

[55] Catiline is a particularly ambiguous figure in medieval Italian legend: he was certainly one of the better-known traitors in Roman literature, and medieval scholars knew his crimes from reading Cicero, whom they would hardly have disbelieved. The literature notwithstanding, however, there is some evidence that the medieval city of Pistoia embraced rather than disowned their disreputable forefather—Catiline being an ancestor for whom they were regularly taunted by neighbors like the Florentines. Nonetheless, one thirteenth- or fourteenth-century stone tower standing just off the main square of Pistoia is still known as "Catiline's Tower" (*Torre di Catilina*); moreover, it abuts the *Via della tomba di Catilina*, or "street of Catiline's tomb". These bear witness to a medieval legend in which, after his defeat, Catiline was reputedly buried in or beneath the tower itself; presumably, for the Pistoiese, even notoriety was preferable to obscurity.

[56] *Historia Tudertine civitatis* (1979), 82.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

medieval period; see figure 8.[57] Sulmona did the same with the poet Ovid, who eventually appeared not only in public statuary but on the Sulmonese civic seal and coinage.[58] Parma advertised itself as the home of the later Roman poet Macrobius, whose statue was placed on the facade of the cathedral in Parma—and the Paduan veneration of the great Augustan historian Livy will be discussed in chapter five.[59]

I would venture that Roman authors were particularly valued as ancestors due to the immediacy of their works: medieval scholars could only read *about* Catiline, but they could read the words of Livy, Ovid, or Virgil personally, and medieval pedagogical techniques fostered an acute familiarity with their works, to the point of direct memorization. Notarial education, for instance, required the close study of ancient letters as models for contemporary (medieval) legal and contractual practice.[60] Virgil, in particular—the most respected of all classical writers—had a medieval reputation that verged on the divine; he was considered not only a poet but a magician, and legends of his remarkable feats both literary and otherwise swirled up and down the Italian peninsula throughout the medieval period.[61]

Finally, mythological figures such as Hercules also appear frequently in early civic history, most likely because they represented a link to the classical Roman past (since most such stories were taken from Livy or Ovid's *Metamorphoses*), while at the same time providing a pre-Roman milieu. The Umbrian city of Todi, for example, divided its

---

57 Nardi (1963); the statue of 1227 is reproduced as plate 1 bis, opposite p. 16. Cf. also fn. 61, below.
58 See De Nino (1970).
59 See Mancini (1928) and the discussion in Weiss (1973), 121-3.
60 On the importance of grammar and rhetoric see especially Gehl (1993) and Witt (2000); on education more generally see Grendler (1989) and Black (2001).
61 On Virgil in the Middle Ages, see Comparetti's dated but classic text (1997); for a more recent and focused analysis see Henkel (1995). Dante's choice of Virgil as his guide through the Inferno was probably not entirely based on the latter's reputation as a classical author; see especially Jacoff (1993), chap. 7 and 11.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

origin in half, producing a legend much like that of the Florentines. The first half attributes the events surrounding the city's foundation to a son of Remus named Senna.[62] The other half of the legend traces the city's origin to a pre-Roman city called Eclis (renamed Todi many centuries later by the city's patron saint, Fortunatus), which according to the legend had been founded by Hercules on the occasion of his wrangle with the thief Cacus, an event which according to Livy took place in pre-Aenean Italy during the rule of Evander. The city's name, Eclis, was naturally derived from Hercules's own.[63] And although the city was eventually renamed, from Eclis to Todi, the inclusion in the legend of famous figures from early Roman history (Hercules, Evander, Romulus and Remus) increased the symbolic value and the broad recognizability of Todi's early history to all who heard it, which in turn would have appreciably enhanced the municipal glory of the medieval city.

Similar to the practice of adopting famous Romans as one's own was that of aligning the early history of one's own city with the early history of Rome, claiming close political association (*amicitia*, "friendship" in the traditional Roman sense of the word) if not actual blood kinship between the two. We have already observed this in the case of

---

[62] Here the Todese story of Senna parallels the Sienese legend of Aschius and Senius, who were also presented as the sons of Remus (a legend discussed at length in chapter 7). According to the chronicle of Todi, Senna went to Tuscany and founded Siena only after he'd already conquered most of Umbria and established his capital (Eclis, which would later be renamed Todi). See *Historia Tudertine civitatis* (1979).

[63] As these details may suggest, the early history of Todi according to these chronicles is rather convoluted. The basic story goes as follows: Senna, chased out of Rome by the army of his uncle Romulus, goes north, founding first Narni and then a city he calls Eristo. He gets into a dispute over the ownership of the land on which Eristo sits with the nearby city of Eclis (founded many years earlier by Hercules). This dispute leads to a war, which Senna wins, and he marries the Eclesian priest's daughter, taking Eclis as his capital. Battles with both Romans and Tuscans ensue, all of which the Eclenses naturally win until they are finally subdued by the Romans for supporting the rebels during the Catilinarian conspiracy; *Historia Tudertine civitatis* (1979).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Milan, where Bonvesin da la Riva asserted that "I have never heard or read that this city ever rebelled against Rome, but rather whenever it was able served as a most faithful comrade and helper. Therefore it was ever called the second Rome..." (8). It was culturally valuable for medieval Milan to have been associated with classical Rome. The integration of Milan's less canonical early history with the familiar early history of Rome not only parallels the urban development of the two cities, inserting famous and recognizable events into the early history of Milan—but also gives that city credit for having contributed to Rome's original success. Hence, also in the case of Milan, Galvano Fiamma's claim that Roman military success was mostly due to the valor and ferocity of their Milanese allies: "and thus the people of Milan achieved countless victories throughout Italy."[64]

We will also see in chapter eight how the city of Perugia's historical epic, the *Eulistea* (written in 1293), characterized its citizens not only as descended from the survivors of the Trojan war but as close allies of the Romans. If Bonvesin characterized Milan as Rome's younger sibling, Bonifacio da Verona, author of the *Eulistea*, characterized Perugia as Rome's older sibling: "sister and parent and friend", in the words of the poem.[65] Eulistes and his compatriots send aid and fraternal advice to Romulus and Remus, for example, over the matter of the Sabine women. Hence the success of the nascent Roman state was largely to the credit of their helpful Perugian mentors. At the same time, the *Eulistea* also reminds the citizens of Perugia of their historic *Romanitas* (balancing out the Romans' *Perusinitas*), since it describes not only

---

64 See fn. 11 above.

65 *Soror atque parens et amica in fine dierum*; Bonifacio da Verona, 14 (book 2, line 91).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Romans but Perugians as sons of Romulus (*Romulides*[66]); at one point, a Perugian general reminds his troops to be brave, because "you are Romans".[67] The cultural implications for medieval Perugians could not be clearer, particularly since the main meeting hall in the Perugian city hall (the Palace of the Priors, built 1298-1305) was decorated with (among other things) frescoed shields displaying the Roman SPQR abbreviation.[68]

Paralleling Bonifacio's story of Perugian aid to Romulus and Remus, Ranieri Sardo records Pisan aid not only to the Greeks during the Trojan War, but also to Aeneas for his battle against Turnus, once he had arrived in Italy:

> And afterward, the Pisans gave Aeneas help when he fled from Troy and came into Italy to found a new city on the bank of the Roman Tiber; from this people came those who later founded Rome. Having been spurned by Turnus who was there in the city of king Latinus, Aeneas came to Pisa for help, and he received it from all of Lombardy and all of Tuscany down to the Roman Tiber. And the Pisans sent one thousand knights [*chavalieri*], whose captain was a Pisan named Assila.[69]

In this legend, Pisa is already well established when Aeneas arrives, to the extent of having the resources to provide a sizable military force on short notice. Furthermore, by contrast with the churlish Turnus, they are welcoming and helpful to the exiled Aeneas—and the reader would already know the outcome of the Aeneas–Turnus struggle

---

66 See chapter 5 on Paduans as *Antenorides*.

67 Bonifacio da Verona, 27 (book 3, line 225); Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. (1850b), 13.

68 I discuss all of these features at greater length in chapter 8, but it is worth noting here that the SPQR abbreviation had been resuscitated as a political symbol by the city government of Rome only in the thirteenth century; it is unclear how far the historical understanding of the abbreviation went, since at least one fourteenth-century source—BAV Chigi VIII.296, f. 28v, cited in Magnani (1936), 23—expands the abbreviation to a pseudo-vernacular *Sanatori Populo Qumune Romano* ("the Roman senators, people, [and] commune"; MS spelling as written), rather than the classical *Senatus PopulusQue Romanus* ("the Roman senate and people"). I intend to take up the medieval and early modern fortunes of this abbreviation in a forthcoming article.

69 *Et dipoi y Pisani dectono aiutorio a Enea quando si fugì di troya et venne in Talia presso al Tevero di Roma per fondare nuova cittade; della quale giente uscirono poi [coloro che] edifichorono Roma. Essendo chontradiato da Turno che era nella città del re Latino, Enea venne a Pisa per aiuto et per tucto Lonbardia et per tucto Toschana, (insino al Tevero di Roma) [ed] ebbe socchorso. Et da Pisani ebbe mille chavalieri et si nne fu chapitano uno Pisano chiamato Assila*; Ranieri Sardo (1963), 8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

from classical sources like Virgil. The naming of the Pisan captain Assila (source unknown) provides the account with an aura of verisimilitude and authenticity. Therefore, according to Sardo's account, the Pisans were on the victorious side in two of the most important conflicts for Italian history: the Trojan War and Aeneas's conquest of Italy. By implication, these might not have had the "right" outcome had it not been for Pisan intervention. In this respect, Sardo's account elevates his city almost to the level of the divine: Trojan settlement in Italy, the growth of the Roman state, and all that came afterward were all predicated on aid provided at crucial moments in history by the Pisans.

As with the inclusion of superfluous details—like the name of the Pisan captain who headed the Pisan support troops provided to Aeneas—these historiographical accounts of past glories, renown, and alliances were rendered significantly more plausible if physical evidence could be adduced in their favor. The dissemination of Romanizing history was easier as well, since explaining a monument which was already there was a far less complicated process than building one (as it were) from scratch. Pride in, attention to, and appropriation of extant monuments therefore took a significant role in the articulation of Roman civic identity—whether or not those monuments were truly ancient (or just old), and whether or not what was said of them was true.

Naturally, when considering the medieval reuse of classical remains, the question of intent must inspire caution. Classical remains were not always considered desirable because of their affiliation with classical Rome; the aristocratic families who took over ancient Rome's most visible monuments as extended family fortresses in the medieval

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

period were most likely more interested in their sheer size, which saved valuable construction time and material, as well as intimidating onlookers, than in their classical provenance.[70] But there are certainly instances where some sort of historicizing intent is discernible, as when a classical statue or structure was adopted as a civic emblem, like the locally-excavated statue which was chosen to adorn Siena's first public fountain in the city's main square[71], or the statues of a lion and griffin, most probably of Etruscan origin, which were erected on the town hall of Perugia (see figure 9) and complemented on the hall's façade by Etruscan and Roman decorative elements copied from the city's ancient arch and city wall (see figures 53-7).[72] Thus, although it is not always possible to locate a particular instance precisely along the spectrum between obliviousness and intentionality, in many instances we do have a good idea of what medieval builders, historians, artists, and magistrates thought they were doing, or trying to do, when they adopted a particular classical motif or monument.

For example: ancient monuments, particularly large ones, were often adopted as civic symbols, as the most visible and memorable attributes of specific cities. A large equestrian statue of one of the Antonine emperors, known as the Regisol, served as Pavia's emblem (see figure 10): some would argue that even modern Pavians have never quite gotten over the statue's destruction by the French in the eighteenth century, during the Napoleonic invasion. It seems clear that the French did so as a political gesture designed to crush Pavian independence and reinforce their subjection of the area, rather than, as claimed, to destroy a tyrant's image in the name of republicanism; this suggests

---

70 See e.g. Krautheimer (2000), especially chap. 7 and 8. The illustrations in Manacorda (2001), as referenced in chapter 1, fn. 31, are also helpful; see figure 1.

71 On the story of the Lysippan Venus, see chapter 7.

72 Riess (1981), 15-23; also see Caputo (1961).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the historic depth of the Pavians' attachment to it.[73] Such well-known monuments, including the Regisol, frequently appeared on city seals and coinage; this was the case in many cities during the late Middle Ages and long after. A few important examples are the Augustan arch at Fano (figure 11), the Nervan arch in Ancona, the Roman arch and bridge at Rimini (figure 12), the Golden Gate (*Porta Aurea*) at Ravenna (figure 13), and both the amphitheatre and Roman arcade at Verona.[74]

Not content to let the monument speak for itself, communal regimes often co-opted and reinforced the historical associations of these monuments multiple times in a given city. The Nervan arch at Ancona, for example, consisted of a Roman arch (a gate to the city still used as such in the medieval period) surmounted by a monumental statue of Nerva, by whom it was originally constructed. Whether or not the medieval inhabitants of Ancona knew the figure was that of Nerva is unknown (or indeed who they thought it was if not Nerva), but they reproduced the same figure in two very significant places: on the city seal, and in a bas-relief on the podestà's palace in the city's main piazza.[75] Given these choices, we might venture that the medieval inhabitants of Ancona perceived the figure of Nerva to represent not only their entire city, but the maintenance of proper rule and order therein (since that was a podestà's main charge). That was, after all, what the Romans were particularly famous for.

Further explanations for these monuments often appear in civic chronicles and broader histories. A Viterbese chronicler named Francesco di Andrea, for example,

---

[73] An article by Renato Sòriga (1937) on the subject of the Regisol refers to the French as "foreign barbarians", and their explanation for the statue's destruction as a "specious pretext" (36-7). Pavia was the site of considerable resistance to the French invasion.

[74] Bascapè (1953) categorizes and illustrates a number of these.

[75] Bascapè (1953), 79-80.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

claims that the entire city of Viterbo, as enclosed by its eleventh-century walls (figure 14), was originally founded as a fortress by Hercules:

> This fortress of Hercules was large and attractive, positioned between two valleys and located on a hill with a bank behind, and it had an attractive village [*borgo*], in which everyone lodged who wished to travel in the countryside. And he maintained it in prosperity until the time Rome was founded.[76]

Francesco essentially cites the entire circuit of the Viterbese walls as a monument supporting his version of the foundation and early history of Viterbo. Not all historiographical references are quite so sweeping; Giovanni Villani asserts (albeit incorrectly) that the early-twelfth-century cathedral baptistery in Florence was an ancient Temple of Mars.[77] Such explanations could be quite elaborate, as in the case of the Porta Aurea in Ravenna. The *Chronicle of the City of Ravenna* incorporates their Roman gate (the Porta Aurea) and the figure of Caesar into local Ravennese history as follows: after Caesar crossed the Rubicon, he stopped in Ravenna to reorganize his troops, and while he was there he ordered the elaborate rebuilding of one of the gates of the city, known as the Asian Gate: "Here he ordered another gate to be built on top of the original gate, with a little house underneath it, which had doors of Arabian gold... Because of this, that gate was called Golden which had previously been known as Asian [hence *Porta Aurea*]."[78] This account integrates a number of the methods we have been seeing by which late medieval historians and magistrates incorporated the Roman past into the

---

[76] *Era el dicto castello di Hercule grande e bello, posto tra doi valloni et riterrato in uno poggio con ripe dintorno, et haviva uno bel borgo, per lo quale albergavano tutti quelli, che volevano andare in compagnia. Et cui se mantenne in prosperita, in sino che Roma fu edificata*; Francesco di Andrea (1969), 688. The art historian John White (1993) notes that Viterbo was well known for its magnificent walls, and that architecturally significant additions to the walls, such as the tower of San Biele, show that the city was continually concerned with their maintenance and improvement (63 and 264).

[77] Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.67-8 (book 2.5), and (1906), 33.

[78] *Hic mandavit fieri supra Portam Auream quamdam* [sic] *Portam de auro, et subtus eam domunculam, quae habebat ostia de auro de Arabia... Ex tunc illa Porta vocata est Aurea, quae prius dicebatur Asiana*; *Chronica de civitate Ravennae* (1725), c. 575.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

local history of their own city: it involves a famous Roman figure, at a well-known moment in history; it provides an etymological explanation for a traditional appellation (the Golden Gate; presumably the gold was long gone); and it embodies all of those historical claims physically, in a monument still extant in Ravenna.

The most brazen such claim in relation to a monument that I have encountered in this study is the adoption of *another* city's monuments, which occurs in the Todese chronicles discussed earlier in this chapter. We read previously in these accounts how Senna, the son of Remus, conquered most of Umbria to the north of Rome, and in so doing came into conflict with both Romans and Tuscans. The story continues: Senna's wife had given birth to twins named Latinus and Cornelius, and in fact Senna had renamed his capital (Eclis) Latina in honor of his son.[79] After many years pass, Latinus and his ally the king of Tuscany defeat the Romans, who:

> began to plead with Latinus that he refrain from destroying their city, which had been constructed with such great labor, and they said to him that they would accede to anything he wished [if he would spare the city]. Among other things, Latinus ordered that all of Romulus's heirs should be killed [since Remus had been Latinus' grandfather], and that two gates should be constructed in the city of Rome, one of which should be called *Latina* in honor of his own name, and the other called *Salaria* in honor of his wife.[80]

The anonymous chronicler posits not only Todi's rout of early Rome—one which was only saved from being a complete sack of the city by the restraint of the Todese leader—but a Todese origin and etymology for two of the most famous gates in Rome

---

[79] The story parallels many others: the twins Cornelius and Latinus are most likely derived from Romulus and Remus, and the name Latinus is that of Aeneas's father-in-law, as given both in the *Aeneid* and in Eusebius (on which see chapter 2).

[80] *Romani... ceperunt rogare Latinum, ne destrueret civitatem eorum edificatam multo labore. Illi autem dicebant esse facturi quicquid imperare vellet. Latinus inter cetera iubet interficere omnes heredes Romuli et iubet construi duas portas in urbe Romana, unam quarum fecit vocare Latinam in honore sui nominis, altera vocata Salaria in honore sui cognati*; *Historia Tudertine civitatis* (1979), 80.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

(the *Porta Latina*, or Latin Gate, and the *Porta Salaria*, or Salarian Gate, the former still extant today in classical form) despite the fact that said gates are located on opposite sides of Rome: the Salarian Gate faces north in the general direction of Umbria and Todi (although the ancient Via Salaria did not go anywhere near Todi), while the Latin Gate gives access to the countryside south of Rome. This story thus takes the trend we have seen throughout this chapter one step further: not merely content to appropriate events and figures from Roman history to fit its own historical experience—as for example explaining local monuments—it appropriates both history *and* monument, for which it posits a previously unknown independent origin. It is perhaps indicative of the credibility of this particular claim, even in the Middle Ages, that it never appears (as many such do) in a historical text produced outside of Todi. But the paradigm of retroactive networking shown by the medieval inhabitants of Todi, in their attempt to link the famous ancient gates of Rome with the history of their particular city, is one that appears over and over again.

Cultural Appropriations

Historical name-dropping is a fairly easy way to appropriate a past: the previous examples have demonstrated how Roman names, events, and monuments bestrew the historiographic world of late medieval Italy. But those who were responsible for promulgating these legends frequently supported their more historical explanations with broader social associations, championing Roman traditions and practices as a way of linking the two worlds more closely. In effect, they argued for a *cultural* connection between the medieval and classical periods as well as a historical one. This was certainly

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

an ideological maneuver: they manipulated contemporary views of the Roman past to promulgate values which were important to them in the late Middle Ages, in realms which they saw as ideologically influential. Hence the specific choice of the areas in which these cultural connections were advertised—such as law, terminology, ritual, and ethics—are significant in themselves.

If, as I have argued throughout this study, one of the chief objectives of these classicizing foundation myths was to bolster claims of political autonomy in and for the cities of late medieval Italy, it is not surprising that such myths should be used to emphasize the rights accorded to cities in Roman law—or those granted to the city in question. Perugia seems to have developed the pre-Roman and Roman parts of its civic history, in particular, to counter-balance the papacy's traditional control over the town.[81] Roman law was perceived to establish both legal and cultural precedent, and any privileges a town could be shown to have gained at any point in past history, however long ago, could be cited to justify contemporary independence and self-rule.

Riccobaldo da Ferrara, for example, argues that the city of Ferrara was originally constituted in the time of the emperor Constantine as a republic, *unam Rempublicam.* He parses the idea as two words (*rem* and *publicam*, both in the accusative case), but Riccobaldo clearly thinks of the word as a single idea referring to a specific type of government, and his argument implies that because of this historical event, Ferrara has always been, is inherently, and therefore should remain a republican entity.[82] The city as first created is the best guide to its future development.

---

[81] See chapter 8, below.

[82] Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1983), 106. As an idea referring to "the State", the word republic usually appears in the classical sources as two words: *res publica*, which literally means "the public thing", and is

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Maximizing these parallels, medieval historians, notaries, and other scholars frequently framed medieval structures and concepts in classicizing terms. This occurred both officially and rhetorically: Roman titles were adopted for certain political systems and municipal offices, but writers also used classical terminology to describe those systems and offices, even medieval offices which could not be paralleled with any classical cognate. The minutes of the highest Perugian city council were known as the *Annali decemvirali*, even though the council regularly comprised many more than ten men, who were not in fact known as *decemviri*.[83] Political historians of medieval Italy are used to speaking of "consular" regimes, which were typically the first form of independent government adopted in the rebellious cities of tenth- and eleventh-century Italy.[84] Like their Roman model, these cities were generally ruled by executive magistrates called consuls, in varying numbers and for varying terms.

But even when the consular model was almost universally replaced with the more complex podestarial system, the use of Romanizing terms persisted. City councils are frequently referred to as *senatus* (senate) both in official documents like council minutes and decrees, as well as in more literary forms like civic histories and works of political theory. Apart from *consul*, other titles such as *magistratus*, *praetor*, and *tribunus* are reused in reference to various offices, sometimes more appropriately than others.[85] One

---

probably best translated by the modern English "commonwealth", which implies both a system of government and an abstract concept referring to the common good. The word was occasionally used in the early and high Middle Ages (e.g. in some Carolingian cartularies, cf. Du Cange [1954]) to mean, very generally, "the realm" or "the fisc"—but when used by Riccobaldo in the fourteenth century it clearly refers to a specific type of representative government first practiced under the ancient Romans.

83 Mazzatinti (1896).

84 See Jones (1997).

85 See Mazzatinti (1896), 559-60; Dazzi (1964), 47; Fisher (1966), 172-3; Remigio de' Girolami (1965-7), 63ff.; and Bowsky (1981), 295, for specific examples. More generally, see Davis (1974), Martines (1979), and Mundy (1989).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

could certainly argue, particularly in the case of a general reference word like *magistratus*, that such words were used because they had an uncomplicated meaning in medieval Latin, and not because of their historic significance. Nevertheless, a particular historical awareness is identifiable in many of these usages—as for example in Cola di Rienzo's adoption of the classical term *tribunus* in the context of his re-establishment of the Roman republic in 1347, which is only the most flamboyant of many such instances.[86]

Following similar trends in the historic vein (as in Todi), we can occasionally observe the fabrication of Romanizing offices by which to describe, or from which to derive, contemporary medieval offices. Galvano Fiamma is a trove of such linguistic improbability: he reports that Milan was the seat of a classical *archiflamen,* as historical support for the Milanese archbishopric. The presence of an important group of priests with the title *flamen* is certainly well documented in Roman religion; the most prestigious of these priests, however, had names like *flamen dialis*; there was no *archiflamen.*[87] Galvano has thus reverse-engineered the Milanese archbishopric in medieval style, probably to counter-weight the medieval papacy's claim to the title of *pontifex maximus* (the traditional, and documentable, head of another group of Roman priests called the *pontifices*). If the papacy based its claims to antiquity on being the most important of the *pontifices*, Galvano's etymology makes a parallel claim for the Milanese archbishopric, as being the most important of the *flamines.*

Despite their pagan implications, Roman religious terms also appear fairly frequently in the urban literature of the medieval cities. Sanzanome, for example,

---

[86] Discussed in Wright (1975), Benes (1999), and several recent books including Collins (2002), Di Carpegna Falconieri (2002), and Musto (2003).

[87] E.g. Scheid (2003).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

eulogizes Florence at the end of his text as "built under such fortunate auspices" (*haedificata fortunatis auguriis*), or positive omens—the taking of the auspices being one of the most important religious rituals of the Romans.[88] Likewise, both Pace da Ferrara, speaking of Venice, and Bonifacio da Verona, speaking of Perugia, refer to the city's *lares,* or guardian gods.[89] To a large degree these are rhetorical tropes inherited from classical and postclassical sources—and they certainly do not imply any rebellion against the established medieval church—but I cite them to demonstrate the extent to which classical Roman modes of thought underlay urban consciousness in medieval Italy, both intentionally and unintentionally.

Certain Roman traditions and rituals were revisited in this way, both in literature and in fact. The connection of Roman mythology with medieval astrology may have made this less inflammatory than it might have been; Giovanni Villani, for example, explains with complete seriousness how Florence's civic problems are the result of the city's foundation under the sign of Mars.[90] The *Description of the City and Republic of Florence* relates a prophecy made by the Eritrean sibyl, which had often been interpreted as referring to the founding of Rome:

> it is not true that [the prophecy] speaks of Rome, because this sibyl prophesied long after the city was founded... it should not be overlooked that the Tiburtine sibyl prophesied after the Eritrean sibyl, in the time of Octavian, and, in speaking of some city, said many of the same things; but it is clear from other things she said that she too was referring to the city of Florence.[91]

---

88 Sanzanome (1875-80), 30.

89 Pace da Ferrara (1843), 20, and Bonifacio da Verona, 5.

90 Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.46 (book 4.1), and (1906), 62.

91 *Etsi dicatur, quod loqui potest de Roma, non est verum, quia hec Sybilla claruit diu post urbem conditam... Sed hoc non omittitur, quod post Erithream tempore Octaviani claruit Tabertina sybilla, que tractans de quadam civitate, ponit quasi similia, sed per alia verba, cuius dicta per multos ad civitatem Florentiam verisimiliter reducuntur; Florentie urbis* (1885), 123.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The anonymous work appropriates not only a prophecy alleged to foretell the glorious destiny of Rome but the entire Roman system of omens, prophecies, and sibyls. We will see the literal embodiment of this kind of cultural appropriation in chapter five, in the case of Padua. In 1315, their city council revived the ancient ceremony of laureation to honor a local poet-notary, Albertino Mussato, and his pro-republican Senecan tragedy *Ecerinis*, thus demonstrating the kinship and relevance perceived not only between the political and religious structures of the medieval and classical periods, but their cultural practices as well.

In fact, as I argued in chapter two, Roman society was perceived to have been not only well-organized and lawful but fundamentally ethical in a way that was both relevant and useful to the inhabitants of Italian cities in the late Middle Ages. This is demonstrated by historiographical texts and public frescoes, which repeatedly emphasize the virtue of Roman principles or historical figures. Villani's claims for the medieval Florentines derive them from the "noble Romans in their virtue" and the "ancient and worthy Trojans."[92]

Some of this may be rhetorical flourish, but art historians have identified a number of Romanizing frescoes in the public art of late medieval Italy. Romans appear as the most numerous figures in a series of historical frescoes, now mostly obliterated, painted in the Loggia dei Cavalieri in Treviso just after the turn of the fourteenth century.[93] Roman frescoes seem likewise to have been painted in Vicenza during the

---

[92] *...gli antichi buoni Troiani, e' valenti e nobili Romani*; Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.4 (book 1.1), and (1906), 2.

[93] Cf. Coletti (1935), 32-6.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

time when the Paduan prehumanist Lovato Lovati was podestà. Simone Martini painted a fresco of Marcus Regulus for the Nine in Siena, and an early-fourteenth century fresco of the republican hero Marcus Junius Brutus has been attributed to the hall of the *Arte della Lana* (the wool guild; the most influential guild in Florence and hence a very public place) in the same period.[94] Public art was didactic above all, and frescoes of Roman subjects emphasized the courage, intellect, and virtue of great Romans as practiced on a public, specifically civic, stage. The relevance of this material for late medieval Italians, particularly in the urban republics, was repeated and confirmed by materials all around them. These ranged from classical remains to written histories, medieval monuments, frescoes, public terminology, and the oral legends that inevitably surrounded all of these things.

Conclusion

Romanizing legends, however they were articulated—and however farfetched they may seem to us in hindsight—thereby demonstrate the didactic and symbolic approach to history outlined in the previous chapter. The past was considered eternally relevant: past glory inspired and foretold present glory, and past virtue served as a model for present behavior. A foundation legend described the ancient glories of each particular city according to its present desires and needs, reaching backwards to associate itself with the classical people, events, or traditions that were perceived to be valuable to medieval urban experience. Using one or more of three base models, all framed around the history

---

[94] See Ruck (1989) on Brutus; Wieruszowksi (1944), 495-8, on Marcus Regulus; and chapter 5 at fn. 76 on Lovati in Vicenza.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

of the city of Rome as it was known to them (foundation by the Romans, at the same time as the Romans, or before the Romans) they appropriated famous role models like Julius Caesar, adduced classical events to explain the existence of local monuments, and championed Roman customs in commemoration of a city's ancient customs and privileges. In extreme cases, people or events which would strike us as completely unrelated were incorporated into local history, the most obvious explanation being simply that an association with renowned events increased a city's renown.

Underlying all of these actions, however, is a basic principle: the comparison—even equation—of classical people and situations with contemporary medieval people and situations. The past was seen as a barometer of present status (rising, the further back a city's history could be traced), and the principles which dictated a city's success or failure in the past were imagined to be identical in the present. The past was an object lesson, to be learned from or ignored at will, and the fate of one's own city hung in the balance. Ranieri Granchi begins his poem on Pisan history with the words:

> My city, may your Roman antiquity remind you
> That, when it gains honor, it is ruled with conjoined hearts,
> But when it is ruled by disagreements, it remains unadvised
> and falls into ruin.
> Rome remembers its triumphs with minds united.[95]

Granchi combines the trends we have seen repeatedly in the historical literature, monuments, and practices of the late medieval Italian cities: he uses the history of Rome

---

[95] *Urbs mea, te memorem faciat romana vetustas,*
Que regitur iuntis animis, dum captat honores,
Et dum per varios, manet inconsulta ruitque.
Mentibus unitis, congnoscit Roma triunphos...; Ranieri Granchi (1915), 7, lines 1-4, although I have modified the punctuation as presented in the edition cited above to accord with my sense of the text; for instance, the 1915 editors put a comma before instead of after *dum*, which seems problematic.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

as a point of local pride (recalling the Roman history of Pisa), as a means of fostering a positive competitive spirit among its citizens (comparing the history of Pisa to that of Rome), and as an ethical exemplar (leading the citizens of medieval Pisa into virtuous civic behavior). Each version of a city's early history, however expressed, is a condensed microcosm of its leading citizens' values and priorities.

Therefore, despite their particularity—because each legend we have dealt with here is different, and promulgates a unique version of the past—these foundation myths rely on a common subject material as well as displaying a remarkable similarity of approach. On the most general level, they demonstrate an intent concern with the passage of time: how time passes; what happens when time passes; how old things are different from recent things; and how that affects their relative values, as it obviously does. All of these concerns were tied up with the dominating paradigm of Rome, the history of which served as a yardstick by which every city judged itself, and was judged by others.

This can be seen in the words with which medieval scholars talk about the past: the deeds of our ancestors (literally, those who came before; *res gestae antecessorum*), the antiquity of the fatherland (*vetustas patriae*), and remains or ruins (*vestigia, ruinae*). They were obsessively concerned with what once had been, and what was now left of it. These two states of being were organically linked by a genealogical language consisting of words like *origo*, *prosapia*, *gens*, and *stirps* (most of which mean something on the order of: origin, race, family, or stock), which derived the present from the past in linear

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

fashion. In explaining the utility of Roman and Fiesolan history for his medieval contemporaries in Florence, Sanzanome writes:

> If we trace our origin from the noble stock of the Romans, and we derive from them our successful advances in virtue, it behooves us to maintain what remains to us of our ancestors, lest we be derided by others as ungrateful...
>
> Men, brothers who derive your origin from Italus, from whom all Italy is said to be descended: behold your nobility and the steadfastness of this ancient place...[96]

Sanzanome's explanation therefore demonstrates why Dante's ideal Florentine woman is a mother who tells her family the legends of Fiesole, Troy, and Rome as she spins. The myths of Florence were considered the key to her family's past, a model for their present identity, and a primer for their future.

---

[96] *Si de nobili Romanorum prosapia originem duximus sumpsimus, et ab eisdem victoriosa incrementa virtutum, decet nos patrum adherere vestigiis, ne tamquam ingrati simus gentibus in derisum... Viri fratres qui ab ytalo sumpsistis originem, a quo tota ytalia esse dicitur derivata, nobilitatem vestram respicite et antiqui loci constantiam...*; Sanzanome (1875-80), 3.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Urban Elites: Scholarship and Public Service

Chapter 4

> I have therefore translated from Latin into the vernacular various memorable deeds and sayings of the ancients, especially the Romans, since by their marvelous example they have illumined the entire world.
>
> —Guido da Pisa, *Fiore d'Italia*[1]

Introduction

The Florentine Sanzanome exhorted his fellow citizens to remember and venerate the past, especially their "origin from the noble stock of the Romans".[2] But who was Sanzanome? When was he writing, and why did he think the Roman past was important to the inhabitants of medieval Florence? Unfortunately, we know little of him aside from the fact that he wrote around the year 1230—not even his name, since *Sanzanome* (*senza nome* in modern Italian: "without a name") is the vernacular equivalent of Anonymous. Fortunately, Sanzanome is the exception rather than the rule. The existence of extensive written sources both public and private—such as tax records, council minutes, notarial records, personal accounts, and letters—means that in many cases modern scholars can reconstruct with some certainty the lives of individual Italians from the late medieval period, as well as the dense social networks in which they moved.

The purpose of this chapter, therefore, is to consider the personal—perhaps one should say personnel—aspects of late medieval classicism in Italy. Who was responsible for the adoption of classicizing ideologies? Who paid for them, and by whom were such

---

1 *Ho traslatato di latino in volgare alquanti memorabili fatti e detti degli Antichi, e specialmente de' Romani, i quali tutto il mondo di maravigliosi esempli hanno illuminato*; cited in Guido da Pisa (1834), xviii.

2 *...de nobili Romanorum prosapia originem*; Sanzanome (1875-80), 3. See chapter 3, fn. 96.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

projects actually executed? Thus far we have spoken chiefly of individual authors or artists, like Bonvesin da la Riva, and of nameless groups like "medieval Italian intellectuals" or "the ruling class." This chapter aims to integrate these two categories, contextualizing the former and better defining the latter. It will thereby describe more precisely the actors and agents involved in the production of communal ideology: their backgrounds, circumstances, and motivations.

Clearly, the creation or promulgation of a Romanizing civic identity required the collaboration of various types of people: the person who wrote an official civic history was not necessarily the same person or people who commissioned it. Likewise, we might expect the motivation behind a work commissioned for a public audience to differ from a "private" work by an individual; the former is usually seen as propaganda, and the latter as the expression of antiquarian interest. I hope here to give a sense of how such groups and their interests did or did not coincide.

This chapter is therefore not prosopographical in the traditional sense of the word. Although it deals with many holders of public office, they are not its main focus; likewise, I make no claims to completeness in the people or groups of people I discuss. I have attempted merely to analyze more closely those whose names come up elsewhere in this dissertation: to give a representative sense of who such men were, and what their motivations and interests may have been. My goal has been to complicate traditional singular categories (painter, magistrate, merchant, friar) by examining what else such men did and who their friends were—in the end, explicating the complex webs which constituted Italian life in the late Middle Ages.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The Educated Elite

In the first two chapters of this study I identified medieval Italy's political structures, educational practices, and legal system as some of the chief factors contributing to its vested interest in classical history and civilization. I have already emphasized the connections which medieval theorists like Remigio de' Girolami and Ptolemy of Lucca drew between classical history and literature, and medieval principles of republican governance. Likewise, there were major overlaps in medieval Italian culture between groups with historical and political interests: the most prominent men in politics—usually notaries, lawyers, and judges like the Paduan Lovato Lovati—were frequently involved with matters of law, education, religion, and literature, and vice versa on all counts. In fact, all such men, many of whom we have already encountered in this study, and shall encounter again, were members of an educated elite with wide-ranging personal connections and multiple common interests. Giovanni Villani, Benzo d'Alessandria, and the other men who ran the municipal governments were the same men as were reading and writing classical history.

Members of the legal profession were generally divided into notaries (*notari*) and judges (*giudici*), although these titles are imprecise and the two categories frequently overlapped.[3] In certain cities (e.g. Perugia) the two professions were incorporated in the same guild, and in others they were entirely separate: Paduan notaries had their own

---

[3] Modern historians frequently use the term "lawyer" or "jurist" when a member of the medieval legal profession's precise position is unclear. Armannino Giudice, to give one example, appears in a number of documents as *iudex* and *iudice*, i.e. judge, but he held the office of notary in the city of Fabriano after moving there late in life; see Mazzatinti (1881) and DBI 4.224-5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

guild, and judges shared a *collegio* with the university's law professors.[4] Roughly speaking, both notaries and judges were required to complete legal studies, but judges had generally studied Roman law at university level (usually at Bologna, the European center of such studies). Because a university education was expensive, judges were often from wealthier families than notaries.

Both judges and notaries frequently held official positions in the communal government: the poet-notary Albertino Mussato (1262-1339) seems to have held a number of different positions at different times within the Paduan commune, ranging from "official notary" to ambassador, diplomat, and captain of the militia; his mentor Lovato Lovati (a judge; 1241-1309) served as podestà of Vicenza as well as a judge of the Paduan commune.[5] Members of the legal profession therefore played a crucial role in communal politics, not only by providing it with most of its labor force, but also by using their professional expertise in their roles as citizens. Both judges and notaries were accordingly held in high esteem in communal society: the notary Rolandino Passaggeri (1207-c. 1300) created and led a citizen militia in Bologna. His monumental tomb still stands prominently outside the Dominican church in Bologna (figure 15): this was a location of considerable honor since St. Dominic himself is buried inside.[6]

Notaries were nonetheless professional writers: Passaggeri, a famous jurist who seems to have run the Bolognese commune for most of the later thirteenth century (even when he held no official position), wrote one of the most famous notarial guides of the

---

4 See Abbondanza (1973) on Perugia, and Hyde (1966) on Padua.

5 See works cited in chapter 5, especially Dazzi (1964), Hyde (1966), and Weiss (1951).

6 On Rolandino Passaggeri and the various roles he played in Bolognese institutions, see Palmieri (1933), Martines (1979), 57ff., and Giansante (1998). For his work as a notary, see Rolandino Passaggeri (2000) and Tamba (2002).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

late Middle Ages (the *Summa totius artis notarie*).[7] Such works were a popular genre, consisting as they did of model letters, contracts, and speeches for every situation arising in public life. Many authors compiled such didactic treatises: the Bolognese notary Matteo dei Libri (fl. c. 1250) and the Florentine notary Filippo Ceffi (fl. 1320s) are two who works seem to have been particularly popular.[8]

But they did not confine themselves to writing manuals to their own profession: many of medieval Italy's best-known writers—especially on classical topics—were notaries or judges of some kind. The judge Guido delle Colonne (c. 1210-after 1287) was also the writer of the immmensely popular *Historia destructionis Troie*, a Latin romance circulating in at least six different Italian versions by 1350.[9] Albertino Mussato, Lovato Lovati, Rolando da Piazzola (c. 1260-c. 1333), and Geremia da Montagnone (1255?-1321) formed a circle of Paduan notaries and judges who also wrote classical-style poetry, drama, history, and letters, and miscellaneous works; their Veronese associates Benzo d'Alessandria and Guglielmo da Pastrengo (c. 1290-1362) were jurists in the employ of Cangrande della Scala (1291-1329), lord of Verona, as well as the authors of works on classical subjects.[10] The notary Andrea Lancia (c. 1290-after 1357)

---

7 Rolandino Passaggeri (1977), parts of which are reprinted in Rolandino Passaggeri (2000).

8 On Ceffi, see DBI 23.320-1 as well as Palma (1973) and Buonocore (1993-1994). Ceffi's *Dicerie* have been edited by Biondi in Filippo Ceffi (1825), but Ceffi's translation of Ovid's *Heroides* and its accompanying gloss remain unpublished. Matteo dei Libri's *Arringhe* have been edited by Eleonore Vincenti in Matteo dei Libri (1974); on Matteo's life, see Kristeller (1951).

9 On Guido generally, see Chiàntera (1956), although the various debates surrounding his life and works have been summarized more recently in Jensen (1986). The standard edition of the *History* is Guido delle Colonne (1936), and Guido's vernacular poetry has been edited by Contini in Guido delle Colonne (1954). For early translations of the *History*, see Gorra (1887), chap. 2 and 3.

10 For Benzo, DBI 8.723-6. The best introduction to Paduan and Veronese prehumanism is Folena (1976), but see also works cited in chapter 5 of this study.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

wrote both Florence's 1355-7 sumptuary laws and an early translation of the *Aeneid*.[11] Even the fourteenth century's greatest poets, Dante and Petrarch, both had legal training, as well as political experience either in municipal government (Dante) or diplomatic service (Petrarch).[12]

The important role played by notaries in education meant that many of these men appear as teachers of others: a number of well-known Italian poets were also professors of law or rhetoric, such as Guittone d'Arezzo (1235-1294) and Cino da Pistoia (c. 1270-1337).[13] Pace da Ferrara (fl. c. 1300) was a professor at Padua when he wrote the *Festa delle Marie*, a poem lauding Venice's Trojan origins; his colleague at Padua, Riccobaldo da Ferrara (c. 1245-1318), started out as a notary in his native Ferrara, and in later years wrote a number of civic chronicles and Roman histories.[14]

Certain men seem to have embraced all of these fields, not necessarily at once: Brunetto Latini (c. 1220-1294), for instance, is best known as one of Dante's early mentors, and chancellor of the city of Florence between 1255 and 1260—but he is also regarded as an accomplished poet and historian in his own right: his *Trésor* combines universal history with rhetorical advice for the practice of politics.[15] Similarly, Andrea

---

[11] On Andrea Lancia, see Azzetta (2001) and cited works, as well as the works cited below in fn. 60 and 72.

[12] On Dante Alighieri (1265-1321), see Jacoff (1993), which includes a brief biography with bibliography by Giuseppe Mazzotta; and on Petrarch (Francesco Petrarca; 1304-1374), see Dotti (1987) and Wilkins (1961); recent bibliography can be found in Stierle (2003).

[13] On the poets of the *dolce stil nuovo* (including Guittone, Cino, and Dante), see Di Benedetto (1944) and Marti (1969). Recent studies on Guittone include Baldi (1975), Picone (1995), and Borra (2000). Editions of Cino's works include Cino da Pistoia (1948) for his poetry and (1998) for his university lectures on the *Digest* (the main textbook of Roman law); Chiappelli (1978) and Gagliardi (2001) provide analytical perspectives.

[14] See Pace da Ferrara (1843) and Stadter (1973). On Riccobaldo da Ferrara, see the work of Teresa Hankey and Gabriele Zanella, especially Hankey (1996) and Zanella (1980); between them they have edited most of Riccobaldo's extensive literary corpus in the last twenty years.

[15] On Brunetto cf. Bolton Holloway (1986) and (1993), and the recent edition of the *Trésor* (1993).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Dandolo (1306-1354) studied law at Padua before embarking on a life of public service in Venice, culminating with his election as doge at the unusually young age of thirty-seven in 1343; over the course of his public life he patronized a number of poets including Pace da Ferrara and Albertino Mussato as well as himself writing two chronicles of Venice and a treatise on Venetian law.[16] These historical authors were prominent members of society who were also involved in municipal politics, law, and education, whether at local or university level.

Unsurprisingly, some of them were also members of the church. Especially given the mendicant orders' focus on urban ministry and education, it is hardly surprising to find Dominicans moving in many of the same circles. Jacopo da Varagine (c. 1230-1298) was not only the author of one of the best-known books of the Middle Ages (the *Golden Legend*, a collection of saints' lives) but also archbishop of Genoa; in that capacity he both wrote a long history of Genoa and used his religious position to intervene in political affairs.[17] He thereby used his Dominican training in service not only to the church but also to the benefit of the Genoese commune and its history. The historian Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1262-1347), the political theorists Ptolemy of Lucca (c. 1236-1327) and Remigio de' Girolami (1240s-1319), and the poet Ranieri Granchi (fl. 1320s) were also all Dominicans.[18]

---

[16] See Pincus (1990) and the bibliography cited in DBI 32.433-40, especially Lazzarini (1976) and Arnaldi (1970). On Venetian cultural relations with the mainland, cf. Folena (1976).

[17] Cf. chapter 6 of this study and cited bibliography.

[18] See relevant DBI entries along with Panella (1986), Davis (1960), De Matteis (1965-7) and (1977), and the biographical information in Blythe's introduction to Ptolemy of Lucca (1997), 7-8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In cities which had no university, such as Florence or Genoa, the school run by the local Dominican convent often fulfilled many of the same functions.[19] Educational practices, as well as interests in political theory and Latin literature, were therefore frequently realms of collaboration between the secular and religious realms, and intellectuals moved easily between the two: Benzo d'Alessandria served as a clerk in the train of the Bishop of Como before becoming chancellor to Cangrande della Scala in Verona, and the school at Santa Maria Novella fostered secular as well as religious intellectuals. The frequency of this exchange may have given rise to, or itself been caused by, a particular interest in lost classical texts, many of which could only be found in manuscripts in the older monastic libraries: Lovato Lovati, for example, found a number of previously-unknown works of classical literature in the library of the monastery at Pomposa, north of Padua.[20]

Most prominent intellectuals of the day were therefore involved in multiple activities at any given time: they were simultaneously authors, historians, administrators, politicians, teachers, and lawyers, with frequent interchange between the secular and the religious realms. The pursuit of multiple interests and a broad engagement in public affairs were encouraged by the easy mobility and personal relationships of people in these various occupations.

Firstly, one's profession was frequently a matter of family tradition. Albertino Mussato's father had been a notary in Padua, and the same is probably true for the

---

[19] See e.g. Smalley (1960) and Larner (1971), 183 and 95.

[20] See discussion and bibliography in Billanovich (1958), 160ff.; Weiss (1951) and (1973), 18; and Witt (2000), 99-100.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

notorious political theorist Marsilius of Padua (c. 1278-1342), who did his legal studies at the Paduan university before moving to Paris.[21] Similarly, the Florentine jurist Bono Giamboni's father had been a judge first in Orvieto and then in Florence.[22] In a different professional vein, the father-son team of Nicola and Giovanni Pisano (Nicola c. 1220-1278; Giovanni c. 1250-1314) worked on many of the major sculptural projects of north-central Italy around the turn of the fourteenth century, many of them (such as the Perugian Fontana Maggiore) together.[23] To take an extreme example: there were actually four different men named Matteo da Correggio, all of them related, and all judges by trade, who earned a living acting as professional podestà in various cities of north-central Italy in the years between 1250 and 1320.[24] Family ties therefore reinforced the natural links between men in the same profession.

Just as strong, however, was the tradition of family diversification, in which one member of the family might go into the family business, one into law, and another into the church. Such connections could then be relied upon for the duration of the participants' lives, and even those of their descendents. It was a means by which leading merchant or noble families maintained both a voice and an ear in the chief cultural fora of their time. The aristocratic Doria family of Genoa is a case in point: in the late thirteenth century, Oberto Doria (before 1230-1306) was a renowned naval commander and capitano del popolo in the Genoese government, while his brother Jacopo (1233-c. 1300) was the city's official historian and archivist; other members of the family served

---

21 Marsilius of Padua (1951), 20-8, and Hyde (1966), 165-8.
22 On Bono Giamboni (c. 1240-after 1292), see DBI 54.302-4.
23 White (1993), especially chap. 6 and 8. See also Fasola (1941) and Carli (1977).
24 DBI 29.460-6.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

prominently in the church or in Genoese trade in the Mediterranean.[25] Ciampolo di Meo Mellone degli Ugurgieri (c. 1290-after 1347), a member of the noble Sienese Ugurgieri family, was a professor at the university in Siena as well as being a well-known translator of Virgil's *Aeneid*, and the political theorist Ptolemy of Lucca (1236?-1327) came from the noble Fiadoni family of Lucca.[26]

This was true for the educated middle classes as well as for the nobility: Ranieri Granchi, for example, was not only a historian concerned with Latin literature and Roman virtues but a major administrator for the Dominican order, being twice regional head of the Dominican order in Pisa.[27] A native Pisan, one of his near relatives, Andrea di Marco Granchi, appears in numerous Pisan documents as a *bancherius*: a banker or merchant. Likewise both Andrea and another relative (possibly Ranieri's brother) Giovanni served in the Pisan government as *anziani* (elders, council members)—Andrea in 1290 and 1297, and Giovanni in 1324, 1327, and 1330. The Granchi family were

---

[25] The Doria family is discussed further in chapter 6, but note DBI 41.257-466. Especially relevant to this study are Pietro (41.449-52) and his sons Jacopo (41.391-6); Lamba (41.396-9); and Oberto (41.424-31). *Capitani del popolo* were communal executive magistrates like consuls and podestà; sometimes they ruled singly, and sometimes not; occasionally they shared power with a podestà. Unlike a podestà, however, capitani were usually citizens. The presence of capitani in the official hierarchy is frequently connected to the *popolo*, the nonaristocratic but increassingly wealthy middle classes whose demands for greater representation in municipal government complicate later medieval Italian politics considerably; Martines (1979) has the best explanation of the popolo's rise (45-61). See also the discussion of the Genoese capitano del popolo in chapter 6.

[26] The Ugurgieri played a major role in Sienese and church politics: Ruggiero degli Ugurgieri was bishop of Massa Marittima in 1231; the family are also well known for the fortified castle they built on the edge of Siena called the Castellare, begun in 1212; Bowsky (1981) and English (1984). The Fiadoni were likewise members of the Lucchese merchant elite; one Omodeo, a near relative of Ptolemy, was elected into an elite *societas* of merchants in 1284; DBI 47.317-20.

[27] DBI 58.450-2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

therefore prominent members of the Pisan community, with multiple members in trade, politics, and the church.[28]

These professional and familial networks were particularly close-knit due to the constant and easy movement of people between cities. Citizen embassies were common, and the practice of electing non-citizen podestà, for example, meant that lawyers and judges had especially good reasons for travel and wide personal contacts. One Matteo da Correggio (of the four mentioned earlier; c. 1230-after 1329) was podestà of at least thirteen different cities in north-central Italy over the forty years between 1250 and 1290; he was holding that position in Perugia when the Fontana Maggiore was finished in 1278, and a statue of him accordingly appears on it (figure 16).[29]

The practice of exiling political figures with every change of regime contributed to this tendency: Dante, Brunetto Latini, and Petrarch's father Ser Petracco are three of the best-known victims of this practice, but others mentioned elsewhere in this study include Riccobaldo da Ferrara, Bonifacio da Verona, Albertino Mussato, Cino da Pistoia, and Dino Compagni. Members of a number of other professions with interests in classical art and literature also tended to move from town to town: the sculptor Arnolfo di Cambio, for example, was born c. 1245 near Siena (in Colle Val d'Elsa) and died c.

---

[28] Eighteenth- and nineteenth-century scholars claimed that the Dominican author and translator Bartolomeo da San Concordio was also a member of the Granchi family; see e.g. Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1857), 7—but there does not seem to be much evidence for or against this theory.

[29] Matteo da Correggio was podestà in: Piacenza, 1250; Gubbio, 1252; Jesi, 1255; Florence, 1257; Padua, 1258-9; Bologna, 1261; Padua, 1263-4; Treviso (subject to Paduan control), 1265-6; Mantua, 1269-72 (with his brother Guido); Padua, 1269; Cremona, 1271-2; Mantua, 1274; Perugia, 1278; Padua, 1280; Bologna, 1282; Modena, 1283; Pistoia, 1286; and Parma, 1288. Along with being podestà of Perugia when the Fontana Maggiore was built (on which see chapter 8 of this study), he is mentioned by the chronicler Rolandino for having organized Padua's rout of the forces of Ezzelino while podestà there in 1258-9 (on which see chapter 5); DBI 29.462-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1310 in Florence, but accomplished major works over the course of his life in Rome, Viterbo, Orvieto, Perugia, and Florence.[30]

Likewise, educational practices occasioned the regular movement of professors and students alike: Boncompagno da Signa (c. 1170-after 1240) taught rhetoric at the universities of Bologna, Venice, and Padua; Petrarch's teacher Convenevole da Prato (c. 1270-1338) taught both in Pisa and Avignon before retiring to his hometown of Prato to teach Ciceronian Latin with the title of "official professor of the commune."[31] Cino da Pistoia, a friend of both Petrarch and Dante, worked in Pisa, Avignon, and Rome before becoming a professor of civic law at age forty-four, after which he taught at Treviso, Siena, Florence, Perugia, and Bologna.[32]

The same mobility is visible in church education and administration, particularly given the Dominican network of *studia*: along with his regular affiliation with the convent of St. Catherine in Pisa, Ranieri Granchi both studied and taught at the Dominican schools in Arezzo, San Gimignano, Florence (San Miniato), Perugia, and Lucca.[33] His compatriot Bartolomeo da San Concordio studied in Pisa, Bologna, and Paris, and afterward taught logic, philosophy, and canon law in Todi, Rome, Florence (Santa Maria Novella), Arezzo, Pistoia, and Pisa itself.[34] The internal organization of the religious orders and the church as a whole clearly encouraged travel by its members all over the Italian peninsula.

---

30 DBI 4.285-90, Carli (1993), and Napoli (2002).

31 On Boncompagno, see DBI 11.720-5 and Boncompagno da Signa (1999); on Convenevole, DBI 28.563-8, D'Ancona (1891), 109-47, and Giani (1913).

32 See works cited on Cino in fn. 13 above, especially Chiappelli (1978).

33 DBI 58.450-2.

34 DBI 6.768-70.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This easy movement of teachers and students emphasizes the extremely fluid nature of intellectual exchange in this period: along with the Dominicans Bartolomeo di San Concordio, Ptolemy of Lucca, and Remigio de' Girolami, the commentator Nicholas Trevet (c. 1265-after 1334), the artists Duccio and Giotto, and Dante himself all lived, worked, studied—or all three—at the Dominican convent of Santa Maria Novella in Florence in the space of twenty years or so around the turn of the fourteenth century.[35]

These intellectual networks were also supported by the relationships of teacher/student and master/apprentice, which apply to a significant number of the people cited above. The most prominent connection here is probably Remigio de' Girolami, who appears to have studied under Thomas Aquinas in Paris in his last years of teaching (c. 1270), and in turn to have served as a mentor to a young Dante Alighieri while Remigio was *lector* in theology at Santa Maria Novella in the 1290s.[36] Other relationships are also evident, however: the Paduan notary Rolandino studied under Boncompagno da Signa at Bologna, and Convenevole da Prato taught both Petrarch and Cardinal Niccolò da Prato.[37] At Bologna, Cino da Pistoia taught law to Bartolus of Sassoferrato, possibly the greatest jurist of the late Middle Ages, as well as to the poet Giovanni Boccaccio; his tomb in the cathedral in Pistoia memorializes his academic

---

[35] The intellectual culture surrounding Santa Maria Novella in this period has chiefly been treated by scholars dealing with specific individuals; no real synthetic study exists. See Panella (1986), Smalley (1960), especially chap. 11, and the articles in Davis (1984a), as well as De Matteis (1965-7) on Remigio; Dean (1948) and Kristeller and Brown (1960-), 2.333, on Nicholas Trevet; and White (1993), chaps. 23 and 24, on Duccio and Giotto.

[36] See Davis (1959) and (1960), as well as De Matteis (1965-7) and (1977), and Panella (1986); DBI 56.531-41.

[37] Hyde (1966), 287, and Boncompagno da Signa (1999), 46-8; DBI 28.5634-5. Niccolò da Prato (Niccolò Albertini; DBI 1.734-6) was a friend of Ser Petracco and a patron of Convenevole da Prato, Nicholas Trevet, and Simone d'Arezzo; see further discussion below.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

accomplishments (figure 17).[38] In a more official vein, Nicola Pisano had both his son Giovanni and Arnolfo da Cambio as apprentices; all three are known for a particularly classicizing style of late medieval sculpture.[39]

The tendency for notaries both secular and religious to attach themselves to the entourage of prominent men meant that the ties of patronage were similarly important. Galvano Fiamma (1283-after 1344) came from a family of secular notaries, but joined the Dominican order and spent his life as a clerical notary attached to the Visconti family of Milan; he was a prolific historian, and used the substantial Visconti library as his main source of material.[40] Benzo d'Alessandria worked first for the bishop of Como and then for Cangrande della Scala, whose clients also included Ferreto Ferreti (c. 1295-c. 1337), Guglielmo da Pastrengo, and the entire Alighieri family.[41] The cardinal Guillaume de Braye (d. 1282) is known to have patronized both Bonifacio da Verona (who wrote the *Eulistea* for the commune of Perugia; fl. 1263-1294) and the sculptor Arnolfo di Cambio; de Braye's tomb by Arnolfo can still be seen in the church of San Domenico in Orvieto.[42]

A final example will illustrate the complex manner in which family, occupation, patronage, and intellectual interests all interwove: Simone d'Arezzo (c. 1280-1338) spent

---

38 Chiappelli (1978), 72-9.

39 See, for example, Fasola (1941), Carli (1977) and (1993), Moskowitz (1994), and Napoli (2002).

40 DBI 47.331-8, as well as Ferrai (1889) and (1891).

41 On Ferreti, DBI 47.57-60; on the Alighieris (Dante and his sons Jacopo and Pietro), see DBI 2.385-451 (Dante); 2.452-3 (Jacopo); and 2.453-4 (Pietro).

42 De Braye was created cardinal in the second creation by Urban IV (1262) and died in 1282; my thanks to Father Sheehan of the BAV for this information. De Braye's tomb is reproduced in Napoli (2002), 43. Arnolfo also designed the tomb for Cardinal Annibaldi (in St. John Lateran, Rome), and Pope Adrian V (in Viterbo); see White (1993), chap. 7, for details of his career. On Bonifacio, see DBI 12.191-2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

much of his life as a papal notary in Avignon. From 1316 until his death in 1338, he also held a canonry with the cathedral in Verona; this appears to have been more a source of income than anything else, as he traveled back and forth on clerical and diplomatic errands. He was particularly connected with the entourage of Cardinal Niccolò da Prato, whose will he executed in Avignon in 1321.[43] It has been surmised that he made Niccolò's acquaintance originally through Petrarch's father, Ser Petracco, who moved his family from Arezzo, Simone's hometown, to Avignon via Pisa in the years 1310-13, and who knew Niccolò quite well.[44] (Petrarch's early education, first in Pisa and then in Avignon, was entrusted to Convenevole da Prato, another of Niccolò da Prato's clients.[45])

At his death in 1338, Simone bequeathed the books that he had collected over the course of his life to the Dominican and Franciscan friars of Arezzo.[46] The booklist contains many classical authors such as Livy, Sallust, Seneca, and Terence, including a codex containing the somewhat rarer works of Pliny and Apuleius.[47] Amongst his volumes were a copy that Simon made around 1328 of the Veronese Livy (an important manuscript of the first decade); this may have been one of the texts whose variants Petrarch later copied into his own Livy, now British Library MS Harley 2493, and **m** in the editions.[48] The booklist also contains commentaries on Seneca, Livy, Boethius, and the book of Job by Nicholas Trevet, the English Dominican who was also a protégé of Niccolò da Prato, and a sometime resident of Santa Maria Novella in Florence; Trevet

---

43 Dean (1948), 563.
44 See Dean (1948) and Billanovich (1959), 136ff.
45 DBI 28.564.
46 The inventory is published by Pasqui (1889).
47 Pasqui (1889), 253.
48 Billanovich (1959), 177.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

had composed his commentary on the tragedies of Seneca at Niccolò's request. Basedon the presence of Nicholas Trevet's commentaries in Simone's collection, Ruth Dean has suggested that Simone had acquired some of Niccolò da Prato's books, perhaps in lieu of payment for his notarial services.[49] Simone's acquaintances therefore spanned numerous cities on both sides of the Alps, encompassed both civic and ecclesiastical affairs, and involved much exchange of books and intellectual information.

This easy movement of books and people therefore facilitated the exchange of ideas among artists, friars, notaries, professors, and civic officials up and down the peninsula, while ties of friendship, family, profession, and common interest linked the wealthy and educated classes of medieval Italy across disciplines. Given this complex web of interpersonal connections, it is hardly surprising that a sculptor in Orvieto should display many of the same cultural concerns as a Dominican notary in Milan, a prominent merchant in Florence, and a professor of rhetoric in Padua. The same factors which combined to focus group identity on the city gave cultural prominence to men with a close knowledge of and respect for the Roman past. In essence, as a result of north-central Italy's republicanism and its educated upper classes, the men who *ran* medieval Italy—its bureaucracy, commerce, schools, and churches—were the same men who were writing history and were interested in the Roman past. The educated elite had a vested interest in the practical aspects of Roman history, and exerted themselves to increase its accessibility.

---

[49] Dean (1948), 563.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Accessibility would have been important because even by the mid-thirteenth century a significant number of people who would have been considered part of the "ruling class" were not of the nobility, and might not have had a Latin education. Giovanni Villani was a prominent merchant and banker who played a number of significant roles in Florentine government, but he wrote his Florentine chronicle in Italian rather than in Latin.[50] Most of the relatives of the Latin authors we have been speaking about would not have had more than the most basic Latin. The "educated elite" of whom we have spoken thus far, in other words, was only a part of a much larger set of people who were nonetheless prominently involved in commerce and government.

The republican cities of northern and central Italy were governed by oligarchies, which comprised in different proportions the following groups: the local hereditary nobility, high guildsmen (broadly-invested bankers and merchants), and low guildsmen (artisans and other small businessmen).[51] Only the first two of these would have been likely to have had any but the most rudimentary formal education.[52] The "ruling class" therefore included an unusually high percentage of the civic population: the largest civic councils were occasionally as large as one thousand members in cities where the total population cannot have been higher than thirty or forty thousand.[53]

---

50 Giovanni Villani (1990), partly translated in Giovanni Villani (1906).

51 See e.g. Martines (1979), especially chap. 4.

52 The classics are Davis (1965) and Wieruszowksi (1967), but see also the more recent Gehl (1993) and Black (2001).

53 As e.g. in Padua; see Hyde (1966), especially chap. 2. Martines (1979) stresses how low these percentages are in absolute terms, but this emphasis seems misleading to me. The Italian city-states never claimed to be democracies, and the level of citizen involvement in government they sustained over a period of centuries was strikingly unusual for the time.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The largest civic assemblies, however, rarely met more than once or twice a year; rather, the political structures of most republican cities provided for a number of smaller councils with various qualification requirements and electoral procedures. Perugia had at least five such councils ranging from several hundred members to an elite council of five (representatives elected by the rectors of the city's guilds from amongst themselves). The council which made most of the city's decisions could be any of these: in Siena, it was the high council of the Nine; in Perugia it was a regularly-meeting council of two or three hundred men. Thus the extent to which a citizen was directly involved with his city's legislative decisions varied widely from city to city—but each city's mechanisms for involving large numbers of citizens varied as well. Membership on the Nine, for example, changed every two months, so that in a given year up to fifty-four citizens could take part; in Perugia the general council was larger, but its membership changed less often.[54]

Legislative power thus generally belonged to the citizen councils, while judicial powers lay chiefly in the (foreign) podestà. This system provided an intriguing balance between professional magistrates (career men who moved from city to city as professional podestà) and the citizen councils: the councils retained most practical power, but the fact that any prominent citizen with legal experience would usually be called to act as a podestà or equivalent in some other city at some point in his life ensured the circulation of magistrates and intellectuals amongst the Italian cities. The regular presence of foreigners in the city and the frequent use of citizen ambassadors ensured not only that political and intellectual ideas circulated quickly, but also that the citizenry at

---

[54] See Blanshei (1976), Grundman (1992), and Giorgetti (1993) on Perugia, and Bowsky (1962) and (1981) on Siena.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

large were exposed to them fairly regularly due to membership on one council or another. Particularly in the thirteenth century, very few ruling councils were ever able to maintain a closed oligarchy, and those that did were quickly replaced with a regime more sympathetic to the demands of the *popolo* (a term which usually refers to the guildsmen).[55] Even cities famous for the limited nature of their citizenship were generally still reasonably open to new blood and broad participation; membership in the Venetian aristocracy, for instance, was only closed by the institution of the Golden Book in 1297.[56]

Thus the ruling class, those taking an active part in communal politics, was relatively large, sometimes encompassing up to ten percent of a city's total population. Considering that half of that population was automatically disallowed by reason of gender (and may have exerted its own influence through male relatives), this was a relatively high proportion. I do not claim that a local shoemaker would have had the same political influence and level of involvement as a university-educated lawyer or wealthy merchant—but he would at least have had considerable exposure to matters concerning the commune, and the opportunity to express his opinion.

Moreover, such urban citizens and the councils on which they sat displayed a remarkable unity of purpose throughout this period. Factionalism and disputes over who ought to run the government presented serious (and in many cases bloody) difficulties—but the actual policies pursued by different governments regarding civic affairs rarely changed significantly. Ruling regimes were concerned with increasing and maintaining

---

[55] Cf. chapter 6's discussion of regime changes in Genoa, as detailed in Epstein (1996). Bornstein's introduction to Dino Compagni (1986), xi-xxviii, is also illuminating on this subject.

[56] Cf. Cracco (1967), chap. 3 and 4, and Lane (1973), esp. 110-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the political and economic privileges which had been granted to them by pope, emperor, or both over the course of the three preceding centuries: exemption from (or the reduction of) papal taxation, for example, or the right to try judicial cases in a municipal court. They regulated trade both inside the city and with neighboring competitors, and maintained order within the city walls. In larger cities, the commune frequently agitated for the establishment of a *studium* or university, passing laws designed to entice masters and students but also sending ambassadors to the pope or the emperor to negotiate the granting of an official charter for the institution. They spent vast amounts of money building and improving urban amenities such as aqueducts, paved streets, grand cathedrals, and urban fortifications.[57]

In short, the urban communes were concerned with keeping order, boosting their political status, advancing their citizens' economic success, and advertising their progress in those areas with more cosmetic improvements such as new buildings, public works projects, and public art and literature. Like anything else on which the commune could spend its money, projects which developed or publicized a particular classical foundation myth—in fresco, mosaic, written history, or a city seal—would therefore have required the knowledge and approval of some proportion of the civic population at their outset. Accordingly, the opinions of local judges, notaries, intellectuals, authors, and professors were highly respected due to their education and training. Men like Brunetto Latini and Jacopo da Varagine were not only intellectuals but men who used their interest in ancient Rome to the public benefit: the ways in which such men combined and interrelated their

---

[57] Studies focusing on ideology and civic improvement include Larner (1971) and Jones (1997); Dean (2000) is a useful collection of translated texts.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

political and historical interests suggest a remarkably organic connection. They saw the two realms as vitally interdependent and relevant to one another, and their duty was to educate those lacking similar knowledge and experience.

The clearest demonstration of this point is the substantial increase in the practice of translating the Latin classics into the Italian vernacular. The century from 1250 to 1350 saw the first translations of many Latin classical authors into Italian, and unlike in France (where a number of French translations had been made earlier), Italian authors tended to translate practical works as well as romantic ones. As the epigraph to this chapter suggests, such translations were generally made for legal, moral, and historical purposes rather than entertainment. They aimed to make the past more accessible because it was germane to practical experience, not because it was inherently superior and worth preserving for its own sake (as one might argue of later Renaissance classicism).[58]

A very few of these translations are anonymous: the translation of Livy's first decade made circa 1320, for example, or the 1313 Italian translation of the French *Faits des Romains.*[59] But in most cases we know (or can deduce) their authors, which tend to come from the same categories of people we have been discussing in this chapter. Many of these translators were notaries and lawyers, closely involved in communal politics: Brunetto Latini, for example, translated a number of Ciceronian orations and the *De inventione* into Italian; these deal directly with public rhetoric, a subject with which

---

[58] For example: with the possible exception of the materials on Troy and Julius Caesar (which could also be considered historical as well as courtly), all of the translations discussed in Segre (1969) are on moral and historical rather than chivalric subjects.

[59] The mid-thirteenth-century *Faits* amalgamated Suetonius, Lucan, and Sallust into a pseudo-chivalric account of the late republican period; see chapter 2, fn. 90 and 91.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Brunetto and his colleagues were intensely engaged. Several decades later, Brunetto's compatriot Andrea Lancia wrote an early translation (loosely abbreviated) of Virgil's *Aeneid*; the classical poem was considered important in this period as much for its "historical" material as its style.[60] Lancia has also been identified with early translations of Palladius, Quintilian, Ovid's *Ars amatoria* and *Remedia amoris*, and certain Senecan epistles.[61]

Other author-notaries for whom we have less evidence of direct political involvement demonstrate the complex intellectual and social networks within which such translations took place. The notary Alberto della Piagentina, for example, wrote his translation of Boethius' *Consolatio philosophiae* while a political prisoner in Venice between 1322 and 1332; given that he died while still imprisoned in 1332, the parallel between his situation and that of Boethius illumines his choice of base text.[62] Similarly, Bono Giamboni was a judge of the Florentine commune who made the first known translations of Orosius and Vegetius into the Italian vernacular.[63] Explaining the coincidence of Giamboni's literary and political connections, Simona Foà explains that:

> Giamboni's judicial activity and his participation in civic institutions is in direct rapport with his literary production, which places him, along with his contemporary Brunetto Latini, as a participant in that particular Florentine intellectualism which exercised juridical activity, participated in the political life

---

[60] Lancia's text appears in Fanfani (1851), while Parodi (1887) covers the extensive body of medieval pseudo-Virgilian literature; see also Gamba (1831) and the discussion in Segre (1969), 567-73.

[61] See Azzetta (2001) as well as Maggini (1952). Casella (1982) argues that the early-fourteenth-century translations of Livy and Valerius Maximus which had traditionally been attributed to Lancia were actually made by a young Giovanni Boccaccio; see Kristeller and Brown (1960-), 3.297 and 5.297.

[62] Segre (1969), 283-313, contains a biographical note and book 5 of the text; the full text appears most recently in Battaglia (1929).

[63] DBI 54.302-4. Bono Giamboni (1815) and (1849); see also notes in Segre (1969), 317-9, and Kristeller and Brown (1960-), vol. 6, on Orosius.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> of the city, and—through translations and the writing of original works in the vernacular—was involved with the creation of a new lay culture.[64]

Giamboni was a friend as well as a colleague of Brunetto Latini, who was chancellor of Florence for a good part of Giamboni's professional life; their collaborations have been documented by Julia Bolton Holloway.[65]

Finally, Filippo Ceffi was a Florentine notary who exemplifies the diverse literary interests of the oligarchic class: he wrote the first Italian translation of Ovid's *Heroides*, the first Italian version of Guido delle Colonne's Latin romance of Troy (the *Historia destructionis Troiae*), and at least one well-known podestarial tract called the *Dicerie*, a collection of model letters and speeches for public life.[66] Ceffi thus illustrates the congruence of interests I mentioned earlier: his *Dicerie* are based on classical models just as his more literal translations are.

Not just notaries, however, but many of the period's professional intellectuals concerned themselves with translation work—men, in other words, whom one might have expected to consider the vernacular beneath their notice. Ciampolo degli Ugurgieri, a master in the Sienese *studium*, wrote one of the first translations of the *Aeneid* in the 1320s, while his university colleague Guidotto da Bologna wrote a vernacular treatise called the *Fiore della rettorica*, a loose translation of the pseudo-Ciceronian *Rhetorica ad*

---

[64] *L'attività di giudice e la partecipazione alle istituzioni cittadine sono in stretto rapporto con la produzione letteraria del G., il quale si colloca, a fianco del contemporaneo Brunetto Latini, come esponente di rilievo di quella intelletualità fiorentina che esercitava l'attività giuridica, che partecipava attivamente alla vita politica della città e che, attraverso i volgarizzamenti e la scrittura di opere originali in volgare, era impegnata nella creazione di una nuova cultura laica*; S. Foà in DBI 54 (2000), 302.

[65] Bolton Holloway (1993), esp. 8-10. Traditional scholarship had attributed the Italian translation of Brunetto Latini's *Trésor* to Giamboni (as Chabaille [1878]), but several recent scholars (including Bolton Holloway) have argued against this, maintaining that Latini did his own translation; see also DBI 54.302-4.

[66] Cf. works cited in fn. 8, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Herennium.[67] Guidotto was a friar, like his colleagues Bartolomeo di San Concordio (a Dominican) and Guido da Pisa (a Carmelite; before 1290-1337). Both of these are also known to have translated Latin authors as well: Bartolomeo translated both of Sallust's monographs and Cicero's first Catilinarian oration, while Guido wrote a long vernacular history called the *Fiore d'Italia* whose second book was a translation of the *Aeneid.*[68] Furthermore, some of the poet Giovanni Boccaccio's earliest works were translations of Valerius Maximus and the third and fourth decades of Livy; these were written in the 1330's and early 1340's, at least in part while he was also pursuing legal studies in Bologna and Paris.[69]

Translation was thus a task which occupied men in many different occupations, both professional intellectuals such as university professors and more practical users of classical materials such as notaries and magistrates. Furthermore, many of the authors cited above were not only translators but compilers of classical material, which they intended for audiences less well educated in the classics than themselves. Brunetto Latini's *Trésor* includes not only a history of the world and an account of the founding of Florence, but model letters for the use of public officials, while (in addition to his *Marvels of Milan*) Bonvesin da la Riva wrote an Italian translation of the *Distichs* of Cato,

---

[67] Medieval thought attributed the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* to Cicero (see discussion in chapter 2). As discussed by Speroni in Guidotto da Bologna (1994), there are four different contemporary redactions of the text; two of these are anonymous, and the other two attribute the work to Bono Giamboni and Guidotto da Bologna respectively. Both men were well known authors and translators; I have chosen to refer to the work as Guidotto's since I cite the introduction to "his" redaction later in this chapter.

[68] The *Fiore d'Italia* and Guido's other literary works are discussed below. On Guido himself, see Canal (1981) and (1997).

[69] Giovanni Boccaccio lived 1313-1375 (DBI 10.838-56); on his translation activity, see Casella (1982) and Kristeller and Brown (1960-), 5.297.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

a basic Latin school text.[70] There was clearly the increasing sense amongst those who could read Latin that classical materials were useful even to those without the benefit of an extensive Latin education.

Tellingly, the usual dedicatees of such works are merchants, bankers, and holders of public office. Andrea Lancia's translation of the *Aeneid*, for example, was sponsored by Coppo di Borghese Migliorato Domenichi (fl. 1308-1353), a merchant from a rich Florentine family and a prominent figure in Florentine society of the mid-fourteenth century. Coppo held the public offices of Prior and Gonfalonier (Standard-bearer) multiple times, and served on an emergency provisions committee known as the Six during the famine of 1328-9.[71] He was also a good friend of Giovanni Boccaccio's, and appears in the *Decameron* as the source of one of the stories told by the character of Fiammetta; Boccaccio refers to him in one of his *zibaldoni* as "Coppo di Borghese Domenichi: Florentine, most fervent lover of the republic, and father of traditions [*amantissimus reipublice, morum pater*]."[72]

Half a century earlier, Bono Giamboni's translations were also both dedicated to members of prominent Florentine families: his Orosius explains in its introduction that it was translated at the request of Lamberto degli Abati.[73] Likewise, Giamboni's

---

70 Cf. the discussion of the *Mirabilia* in chapter 3; on Bonvesin, see the introductory material in Bonvesin da la Riva (1998) and DBI 12.465-9. Bonvesin's version of the *Disticha Catonis* has been recently edited by Carlo Beretta in Bonvesin da la Riva (2000).

71 DBI 40.594-5.

72 *Coppus Borgesis de Dominicis florentinus amantissimus reipublice, morum pater*; cited in Bruni (1997), 121. Bruni ably explicates the complex web of cultural associations between Boccaccio, Coppo, and Andrea Lancia, and Azzetta (2001), 18-20, inserts the chronicler Giovanni Villani into the same cultural, literary, and political milieu.

73 I have not been able to identify this particular Lamberto; if a contemporary of Bono's, he cannot be the Lamberto degli Abati mentioned by Villani in connection with the dictatorship of the Duke of Athens in 1343. Nonetheless, the Abati family were prominent members of Florentine society: they took part in the

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

translation of Vegetius was dedicated to the banker Manetto Scali, a relative of the noble Cerchi family and a leader of the White Guelfs (like Dante and Dino Compagni) who served at least once as captain of the Guelf party in Florence.[74] Bartolomeo da San Concordio also seems to have been closely connected to the political leaders of Florence: one of his tracts based on classical models, the *Teachings of the Ancients,* was dedicated to the prominent banker and politician Geri Spini, a political opponent of Manetto Scali's.[75] Furthermore, Bartolomeo's translations of Sallust were made for Nero Cambi (c. 1250-c. 1320), the Spini agent at the papal court.[76] In fact, all of these dedicatees except Lamberto played major roles in the factional politics and civil strife in Florence during the early years of the fourteenth century, as related in Dino Compagni's vernacular chronicle of those events—and at least one of them, Cambi, did not know Latin.[77] This suggests that at least in some cases such a dedication was a matter of practical use rather than (or in addition to) political flattery: Scali *might* have been able to read Vegetius in the original, but Cambi needed Sallust in translation.

---

battle of Montaperti in 1260, and were included in the exile of White Guelfs in 1302; Brucker (1984), 167, and Dino Compagni (1986), 53 and 70.

74 Manetto Scali was a relative of the noble Cerchi family and a White Guelf (like Dante and Dino Compagni); he served as Captain of the Guelf party in Florence, and figures prominently in Dino Compagni's chronicle. Compagni describes him as "strong in friends and followers" (Dino Compagni [1986], 45), and attributes the continued factional struggles in Florence at least partly to Scali's unwillingness to assert his influence. He was banished from Florence with Dante Alighieri and the rest of the White Guelfs in 1302. Due to these political setbacks and the dubious monetary policies pursued by the king of France (one of their chief borrowers), the Scali family bank failed in 1326; Brucker (1984), 74-83, and Dino Compagni (1986), 26, 36, and 51-4. On Compagni see DBI 27.629-47.

75 "To the noble and wise knight messer Geri Spini of Florence" [*Al nobile e savio cavaliere Messer Geri degli Spini da Firenze*]; Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1857), 13. The Spini family were Pope Boniface VIII's bankers, and Geri Spini (fl. 1285-1313) plays a major role in Dino Compagni's chronicle of the Florentine struggles of 1300-13. He was one of the leaders of the Black Guelfs who first supported and then overthrew Corso Donati when the Black Guelf faction split apart.

76 DBI 17.106-7; Dino Compagni (1986), 24, 26, and 54.

77 DBI 17.106.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In many cases, the authors' introductions to and comments concerning their works—both in Latin and in the vernacular—explicitly state their desire to increase the accessibility of classical materials. In the prologue to his *Compendium historiae romanae*, Riccobaldo of Ferrara explains:

> ...Indeed, I confess that you have persuaded me, with good reason, to reduce the difficulty of this work, and to write in an accessible style [*stillum plebeium*]; for indeed, many people avoid huge tomes on account of the expense of the writing and because of the lofty style, which would not be difficult for the educated.[78]

The *Compendium* folds a number of classical sources into a prose history in two modern volumes. Even though Riccobaldo wrote it in Latin, his intention of making the material more appealing to people unaccustomed to reading classical Latin is clear: he wished to write a history for people who might otherwise not read Roman literature on account of its cost or ponderous style.[79] Riccobaldo's medieval Latin is considerably easier to follow, for example, than the complex syntax of Livy or Virgil.[80] The prologue to Riccobaldo's *Compilatio chronologica* reveals his determination that such superficial problems should not hinder access to useful material; having related his discovery of an old manuscript of the Eusebius/Jerome chronicle, he comments: "I was saddened that a thing so worthy of the knowledge of good men should have been concealed and lost like

---

[78] *Fateor quidem quod michi rationabiliter suasisti ut operem darem in attenuando molem operis et in stillum faciendo plebeium, quippe multi volumina spernunt maiora propter impensam scribendi ac propter stilli maiestatem, que non congruit tenuiter litteratis*; Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1984), 1.

[79] The intriguing modern parallel is the proliferation in recent years of "dumbed-down" versions of well-known texts: "Freud for Beginners", or a "The Complete Idiot's Guide to Postmodern Literary Criticism". Their titles notwithstanding, such texts are usually reasonably good introductions to their topic; in this sense, Riccobaldo's *Compendium* could be considered a fourteenth-century "Ancient History for Dummies".

[80] Compare, for example, Livy (1919), 1.7, with Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1984), 1.56 (chap. 52), on the founding of Rome.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

some buried treasure; so I decided to arrange this chronicle for public use [*ad publicam utilitatem*], since it is not difficult to understand and the text has been kept brief."[81]

The translators of ancient authors frequently express the same desire for their work to reach the general public. Guidotto da Bologna's translation of the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, for example, rhapsodizes at length on the genius of Cicero and the value of rhetoric:

> [Cicero] was master and inventor of the great science of rhetoric, that is of speaking well... which advances all the other sciences because of the constant need to speak of important things, whether in making laws, and in deciding civil and criminal cases, and in civic affairs; or in waging war and organizing battle lines and encouraging knights in the service of the empire, realm, or princedom; in governing peoples and realms and villages and strange and diverse races; or in coming into contact with the great circular map of the world... And I, brother Guidotto of Bologna, perceiving his great virtues, conceived the idea of translating some parts of the *Flower of rhetoric* from Latin into our language, since they pertain generally to the public [*laici*].[82]

Guidotto assumes that there are people working in the professions he mentions (legislation, government, speechmaking, diplomacy, etc.) who cannot read Cicero in Latin; his purpose is therefore to present Cicero's work to an audience who will benefit from the work, but who would not otherwise be exposed to it. He considers the *Rhetorica* useful to all sorts of people, even to those ignorant of Latin. Likewise, Ricordano Malispini's chronicle of Florence begins by invoking God and the book's purpose: "In honor and reverence to God the Father, from whom comes the highest

---

[81] *Dolui rem tam dignam proborum cognitione virorum esse abditam ac perditam ut thesaurus suffossus. Proposui ad publicam utilitatem opus chronicum ordinare, non difficile intellegi et scriptura breviter moderatum*; Riccobaldo da Ferrara (2000), 1-2.

[82] *... fue maestro e trovatore della grande scienza di rettorica, cioè di ben parlare... la qual sormonta tutte l'altre scienze per la bisogna di tutto giorno parlare ne le valenti cose, sì come in fare leggi e piati civili e criminali, e ne le cose cittadine, sì come in fare battaglie e ordinare schiere e confortare cavalieri ne le vicende de l'imperii e regni e principati, in governare popoli e regni e cittadi e ville e strane e diverse genti, siccome conversano nel gran cerchio del mappamundo della terra... E io, frate Guidotto da Bologna, cercando le sue magne vertudi, sì mmi mosso talento di volere alquanti membri del fiore di rettorica volgarezzare di latino in nostra loquenzia, siccome appartiene al mestiere de' ladici, volgarmente*; Guidotto da Bologna (1994), 150.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

good, and to the benefit and use of all who read this, whether educated or lay [*degli alletterati come de' laici*]..."[83]

The descriptors "educated", "lay", and "laity" used in this way by both Guidotto and Malispini are not intended, as today, to distinguish those with religious vocations from those without (clergy vs. laity)—although that is doubtless their origin. Deriving from the years in which the church was the only provider of Latin education, these terms distinguish levels of education more than anything else. *Literatus* implied not just someone who could read, but someone with extensive Latin training, while being an *illiteratus* merely meant one was not an intellectual. [84] In the same way, *laicus* could signify not only a person's non-clerical status, but the lack of a certain level of training which one would expect in a priest.[85] Hence Malispini's opposition of *literatus* and *laicus*: for him, they were two ends of an educational spectrum. Nero Cambi was *laicus* and *illiteratus*, despite his influential position in finance and politics at the papal court; he and the growing number of men like him formed the chief intended audience for such translations and adaptations of the Latin classics.

The nature of this intended audience is made particularly clear by Bartolomeo da San Concordio's introduction to his translations of Sallust, in which he explains that

---

[83] *A onore e reverenza dell'alto Iddio Padre, da cui discende il sommo bene, e a frutto e utolità di tutti coloro che leggeranno, sì degli alletterati come de' laici...*; Ricordano Malispini (1976), 1.

[84] See the definitions of *literatus/litteratus* in Du Cange (1954) and Niermeyer (2002), as well as *letterato* as in the *Grande dizionario della lingua italiana* (1973); they all translate better to "cultured, literary, lettered" than to "literate." Dictionaries of modern Italian such as the *Cambridge Italian Dictionary* (1981) still give an archaic meaning of *letterato* as "a Latinist." (1.439). See also the discussion in Clanchy (1993), 226-40, and Paul Gehl's discussionof the terms used to describe education in fourteenth-century Florence (1993, 20-42).

[85] Du Cange's glossary gives the word's secondary meaning as *illiteratus, indoctus*, or "unlettered and unlearned." He also cites the phrase *laica lingua*, which he translates as "the vernacular"; Du Cange (1954), 5.15. See also the third definition of laico given in the *Grande dizionario* (1973), 8.698, which cites Giovanni Villani and Bono Giamboni along with Guidotto and Malispini as examples.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

"both of these books [on the Catilinarian conspiracy and the Jugurthine War] are written in extremely subtle language, such that common people [*gl'uomini volgari*] cannot appreciate or make use of them. Therefore I have exerted myself to put them into the vernacular..."[86] Paralleling the terms *illiteratus* and *laicus*, a *uomo volgare*was a person who did not speak Latin—someone who knew only the *volgare*, the vernacular. The assumption made by Bartolomeo, Guidotto, Riccobaldo, and others that classical literature was of relevant to the experiences of normal people (whether referred to as *laici*, *volgari*, or otherwise) echoes our conclusions in chapter two. These translators saw works such as Sallust's monograph on the Jugurthine War or the *Rhetorica ad Herennium* as ethical and practical models for the proper conduct of civic life.

The comments introducing each of Bartolomeo's translations emphasize this aspect: the rubric introducing the *Bellum Catilinae* in fourteenth-century manuscripts explains that "in this prologue Sallust intends to urge the minds of men to the practice of virtue"; likewise the rubric introducing the *Bellum Jugurthinum* announces: "here begins the prologue to the 'Jugurthine [War]' of Sallust, which is intended to demonstrate how one acquires honor and glory through study or purity of heart, and especially how useful the study of true history is."[87] To men like Bartolomeo, history was a moral lesson and a model for practical behavior—especially when it was as relevant to civic experience as that of the Romans—and as such it applied not only to intellectuals but to the public at large.

---

[86] *E l'uno e l'altro di questi libri è scritto per lettera molto sottilmente, sicchè gli uomini volgari non ne possono trarre utilità ne avere diletto. Onde io, sopra ciò pregato, sì mi brigherò di recarlo al volgare*; Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1843), 3-4.

[87] *In questo proemio intende Sallustio di confortare e inanimare gli uomini ad operazione di virtù; Qui comincia il Proemio del Sallustio Giugurtino, nel quale intende dimostrare come per via di studio e di virtù d'animo s'acquista onore e gloria; et come principalmente è utile lo studio dele veraci storie*; Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1843), 5 and 119.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The practice of translation sought to broaden the audience who could appreciate the relevance and utility of such histories.

In addition to these translations, the immediate success of Dante's *Divina Commedia*, finished between 1301 and 1320 and written in the vernacular, had the effect of establishing the vernacular as an acceptable language of serious discourse—valuable not only for the translation of the classics on behalf of those who could not read Latin, but as a language worthy of original composition and thought.[88] Brunetto Latini's *Trésor* had been composed in the vernacular in France in the 1260's, but the French language had an earlier tradition of vernacular composition dating from the second half of the twelfth century; it was not until after 1300 that universal histories began to be written in Italian. Two of the better known of these are the *Fiorita* of Armannino Giudice and the *Fiore d'Italia* of Guido da Pisa.[89] Armannino (before 1260-after 1332) was a Bolognese judge who lived in Viterbo and Bologna before settling in Fabriano around 1320. The *Fiorita*, which Armannino wrote at Fabriano in his old age, is closely modeled on Dante's expositional style and narrative structure.[90] It begins with the author-narrator lost in a dark wood; he is then rescued by the figure of Poesia, who recounts the history of the world to him in the course of thirty-three *conti* (i.e., the same length as *Inferno* and

---

88 See e.g. Dante's own treatise (Dante Alighieri [1996]) and its accompanying literature.

89 Because the names of Armannino's and Guido's histories are so similar, readers and scholars through the ages have frequently confused them; see for instance the discussion in Guido da Pisa (1957), v-vi. The situation is further obscured by the many late-fourteenth- and fifteenth-century manuscripts which conflate the two texts into a single narrative, such as MS II.III.135 in the Biblioteca Nazionale Centrale, Florence, a fifteenth-century paper manuscript which contains Armannino's *Fiorita* with long interpolations from Guido's *Fiore d'Italia*; see the description in Mazzatinti (1890), 9.177.

90 Armannino's work remains unedited; see Mazzatinti (1881), 12-15, Parodi (1887), 101-30, Sassi (1924), and DBI 4.224-5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Purgatorio). Probably partly because of its similarities with the *Commedia*, Armannino's work was extremely popular, and survives in over fifteen fourteenth- and fifteenth-century manuscripts.[91]

Guido's *Fiore d'Italia* has a more traditional structure, but deals with very similar material. Following the model of Orosius, Guido divided his history into seven books, although only the first two books survive: they collate the usual historical and mythical sources of pre-Christian and early Christian history into a single narrative.[92] The work's second book is essentially a translation of Virgil's *Aeneid*; this enjoyed a wide circulation separate from the rest of the work as the *Fatti d'Enea*, even though two nineteenth-century editors described it as "Virgil's *Aeneid* denuded of every flower of poetic eloquence."[93] Guido inserts sections of Augustine, Jerome and Isidore into Virgil's basic narrative, thus updating or contextualizing the classical work for his medieval audience: the dying Nisus and Euryalus, for example, discuss their fates in decidedly Christian terms, looking forward both to burial and the office of the dead (*ufficio dei morti*).[94] Both Armannino and Guido place a great deal of emphasis on primeval and classical events, and spend long pages detailing the foundation of various cities in Italy: before Dante, such works appeared only in Latin.

---

91 Mazzatinti (1881), 47-55 lists nine. Mazzatinti (1887), 1.2, 1.16, and 2.1-33, describes two now in Paris (BN Ital. 6 and 120), and Betti (1820) gives one more from the Vatican (Ottob. 3336); I have seen most of these and am aware at least three more: BAV, Barb. Lat. 3923; Florence, Bib. Med.-Laur., Gaddi rel. 95; and Florence, Bib. Naz. Centrale, Panciatichi 13[12].

92 See Guido da Pisa (1957); the *Fatti d'Enea* are also discussed in Parodi (1887), 131-66.

93 ...*la Eneide di Virgilio denudata di ogni fiore di poetica leggiadria*; Gamba and Puoti's introduction to Guido da Pisa (1834), xix. There are a number of nineteenth- and early-twentieth-century editions of the *Fatti d'Enea*, but according to Fòffano in Guido da Pisa (1957), vii, book one of Guido's history has only been published once, under the title of *Fiore di mitologia* (Bologna, 1845). I have not been able to locate a copy of this edition.

94 Guido da Pisa (1957), 61.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The extent to which Dante's *Commedia* was seen as a scholarly and intellectual work even though it was in Italian is evident in the number of commentaries written on it even in the years immediately after its publication. The commentary tradition had developed with the early universities, in which oral commentaries on canonical works (like the Bible) had been the most basic form of lecture; written versions of these commentaries had developed into textbooks.[95] But the texts subjected to this treatment had always been very serious, including not only Biblical exegesis but works of canon and Roman law as well as Aristotle and other authoritative scholars; the *Commedia* was the first vernacular work ever subjected to this detailed type of analysis.[96]

In fact, many of the earliest exegetical works on the *Commedia* were written by men whom we have encountered in other contexts: commentaries in both Latin and Italian were written in the 1320s and 1330s by Ciampolo degli Ugurgieri, Andrea Lancia, Guido da Pisa, and both of Dante's sons.[97] Nonacademic treatments of the poem such as summaries, paraphrases, and introductions were also common: Bosone da Gubbio, for example—a friend of Dante's, to whom Armannino dedicated the *Fiorita*—wrote a summary in *terza rima* of *Inferno* and *Purgatorio* called the *Capitolo* in 1328.[98] The proliferation of such commentaries and revisions implies the quick acknowledgment of the *Commedia* as a major scholarly work despite its being written in the vernacular, as

---

95 See De Hamel (1984) on the development of the the medieval gloss and glossed books.

96 Out of the vast corpus of studies on Dante's *Commedia* and its fortuna, see Caesar (1995), as well as Cavallari (1921), Hollander (1983), and Jacoff (1993), including Hollander (1993).

97 Many of the major commentaries on the *Commedia*, including the works of Andrea Lancia (i.e. the *Ottimo commento*) and Guido da Pisa, are available online through "The Dartmouth Dante Project" (2004). Additionally, Hollander (1983) lists the major printed editions, although Jacopo Alighieri (1990), *Ottimo commento* (ed. Torri [1995]), and Pietro Alighieri (2002) have appeared since then. The identification of Andrea Lancia as the *Ottimo commento* is speculative but undisputed; see Bellomo (1980) in addition to the recent edition. The *Enciclopedia dantesca* (1970) also provides short articles on Dante's various commentators and adapters.

98 On Bosone da Gubbio (1280-after 1349), DBI 13.274-7 and Raffaelli (1928).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

well as its speedy dissemination among the educated classes of northern and central Italy. That in turn suggests that most of the people we have encountered in this chapter had read and were reading the same books, and that new works circulated both widely and speedily.[99]

The physical form in which many of these vernacular works appear supports the idea that they functioned as a bridge between the intellectual culture of the universities and the everyday culture of commerce; specifically, to judge from the extant manuscripts, they appear to have been written carefully and at some expense. For example: MS Gaddi rel. 71 (in the Biblioteca Medicea-Laurenziana in Florence) is essentially a school book, dating from the early fourteenth century; it contains Filippo Ceffi's translation of Ovid's *Heroides*, part of Andrea Lancia's translation of the *Aeneid*, and two other lesser-known medieval Troy poems.[100] Although its contents are all in the vernacular, they are written in a careful mercantesca bookhand on parchment, and glossed like any other authoritative text.[101] This is particularly true of Ceffi's *Heroides* translation, which looks like a cross between an early copy of Dante's *Commedia* (being written in *mercantesca*) and a glossed copy of Gratian (due to its layout).

In the same way, the earliest copy of Ciampolo di Meo Ugurgieri's translation of the *Aeneid* (now Siena Biblioteca Comunale S.IV.11) is not only elaborately illustrated

---

99 As was the case with Simone d'Arezzo and the commentaries by Nicholas Trevet, above. On the by-now mainstream concept of "textual communities", see Brian Stock (1983), part 2, chap. 1 and 2.

100 Along with works by Ceffi and Lancia, the volume contains the *Intelligenza* and the *Istorietta Trojana*, on which see Gorra (1887), 61, and Parodi (1887), 359-60.

101 Early copies of the *Commedia* helped establish *mercantesca* as an acceptable literary bookhand, much as the poem itself did for the Italian language. On the role of *mercantesca* or chancery minuscule as a bookhand, see Petrucci (1995), esp. 183-200.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

but glossed in the same fashion as the Gaddi manuscript (see figure 18).[102] Its first page is a careful balance between miniature (Ciampolo, or possibly Virgil, at his desk), Italian text, and gloss. The appearance of Ciampolo's work is even more formal than that of the Gaddi manuscript because it is written in Bolognese textura, the formal script most often used for lawbooks in medieval Italy. The preparer of the manuscript clearly equated the significance of classical history and literature (such as Virgil and Ovid) with major university legal authorities such as Gratian. Both the format and the contents of the manuscript reflect the status attributed to the base text: its extensive and intricate gloss suggests that Ciampolo's translation is worthy of serious study, while the manuscript's formal presentation—size, choice of script, and the presence of decoration—shows that it was considered appropriate for important and wealthy people. In other words, the *Aeneid*'s status as a literary work was extremely high even though the text was no longer in its original Latin form, but rather in the vernacular, traditionally considered to deserve a less formal presentation.

Cultural Discourses Within and Without

The leading members of the ruling class, the educated elite, therefore combined their political and intellectual interests, and many of these were disseminated to the broader civic population not only through participation in city government but also by the growing number of politically-relevant works available in the vernacular. It is also possible, however, that the adoption of a classicizing civic identity was a two-directional process: a concern in which not only the ruling class but of everyone else living inside the

---

102 Ciampolo di Meo degli Ugurgieri (1858).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

city walls participated. Were the city's rulers and intellectuals focusing and enshrining a civic legend which already existed in oral consciousness, or were they creating stories wholesale, which never reached an indifferent civic population? In other words, what role did ordinary people exercise in the adoption and propagation of civic mythology?

The first issue, the intersection of written culture and oral culture, suffers from a lack of anthropological evidence—unfortunately, the medieval historian cannot ask his or her subjects about the oral transmission of civic foundation legends. Indirect evidence nonetheless supports the idea that many of these legends were extant in oral form before they were enshrined as political iconography via art or literature. Jacopo Doria's Genoese chronicle cites the "opinion of the common people" (*opinio vulgaris*) when introducing the story of Genoa's founding by Janus, a prince of Troy.[103] This naturally suggests that Janus was an established figure in Genoese folklore before Doria recorded the legend in writing.

Italians studying local history have made similar arguments for the foundation legends of Siena and Perugia; the latter is particularly compelling because Eulistes, the legendary founder of Perugia, appears as a sculpted figure on the main fountain of Perugia in 1278 with the label "Eulistes, founder of the Perugian city" (*Heulixstes Perusine conditor urbis*)—fifteen years before the elaborate poem which officially records his foundational exploits was commissioned in 1293 (see figure 49).[104] It seems more likely that the fountain's designers would choose a figure already known to the civic population for their fountain than that they would invent one for the purpose; this

---

103 Jacopo Doria (1929), 4; see discussion in chapter 6.

104 On Siena, see Rondoni (1886), 15, and discussion in chapter 7; on Perugia, see Galletti (1988), 379, and discussion in chapter 8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

implies that the legend of Eulistes was already established in oral folklore, and the actions of the Perugian government between 1278 and 1301 merely made it official and authoritative.

If the civic population was therefore already interested to some extent in questions of foundation and historical identity, how much did they take part in the new articulation of civic identity through a classical foundation myth? We have already suggested the municipal bureaucracy as one path by which civic consciousness could trickle down to the general public; the city's magistrates and intellectuals would convey their ideas and priorities on the subject of classical foundation legends to their less-formally-educated fellow citizens, who in turn could convey the same to their neighbors and families. That civic identity was indeed a phenomenon felt by the entire population is suggested by the city-wide celebrations which attended on the completion of many classicizing public projects: the crowning of Albertino Mussato, for instance, as the world's first poet laureate since antiquity, was a civic festival akin to the completion of a large public works project, or a civic saints' day.[105]

Such festivals usually included representatives from all the city's guilds, confraternities, and dependent territories, walking in a procession which encompassed some significant part of the downtown area; music, games, and long public speeches were de rigueur. Even those members of the community who did not have a family member involved in some official capacity would have turned up simply to enjoy the spectacle;

---

[105] Dazzi (1964), 188-90. See chapter 5, fn. 66.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

such festivals were the late medieval Italian cities' chief form of public entertainment.[106] In such circumstances it seems likely that some notion of the purpose of the gathering would have been accessible even to the illiterate and/or nonvoting population.

Furthermore, the inclusion of explanatory inscriptions was a common practice in medieval art and architecture; the tomb of Antenor in Padua and the head of Janus in the Genoese cathedral have accompanying inscriptions similar to (and considerably longer than) the statue of Eulistes on the Fontana Maggiore in Perugia.[107] The transmission of meaning from the literate to the illiterate was a well-established route; as with the Biblical scenes depicted in stained-glass windows, those who could read the inscription (visually or literally) were expected to explain it to those who could not.[108] The articulation and adoption of a classical foundation myth may therefore have been driven by a relatively small class of well-educated and socially influential people, but it seems unlikely that its awareness was limited to them, or that enthusiasm for it was lacking in the broader civic population.

The most important and immediate audience for a city's classicizing ideology was therefore most likely its civic population as a whole, since they would be its chief participants and most frequent viewers. It was *their* history, and the articulation of a classical civic identity therefore took the form of a cultural discourse amongst the various citizen groups: educated and illiterate, rich and poor, franchised and unfranchised. The

---

106 See the studies comprising Hanawalt and Reyerson (1994), especially Kempers (1994); Carruthers and Ziolkowski (2002), 3-4, discuss public oral presentations.

107 See discussion and accompanying figures in chapters 5, 6, and 8.

108 With respect to Pope Gregory's famous dictum that art served as "the book of the illiterate", see Duggan (1989) and Chazelle (1990), as well as Baxandall (1988), 41. This definition was well-known in late medieval Italy: Baxandall cites a passage to this effect from the late thirteenth-century *Catholicon* of Giovanni Balbi—on whom see the discussion in chapter 6 at fn. 36.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

group I have identified as the "educated elite" certainly had more experience with and more control over the concepts of civic historiography, but I hope I have shown, first, that they were not doing it merely for their own intellectual entertainment, and second, that their decisions were not unilaterally imposed on an indifferent civic population. The cities of medieval Italy were sites of seething public political discourse, and—given the parallels that their inhabitants clearly saw between contemporary and classical politics—it would be surprising if their discussions of history and the classical past should be otherwise.

In his introduction to the *Marvels of Milan*, however, Bonvesin da la Riva explains that he is directing his work to two separate audiences:

> Since I address myself not only to foreigners, but also to my compatriots who sleep in the desert of ignorance—that is to say, unknowing of the marvels of Milan—I have decided to aid and counsel their opinions, so that in opening their eyes, they may see, and in seeing, they may understand why and how greatly our city is worthy of admiration...
>
> [Thus] all the foreigners who come to know the nobility and dignity of the Milanese will respect, honor, love, and defend them everywhere and above all men, [and] my fellow citizens, seeing themselves in this mirror and considering the fatherland of which they are sons, will not diminish its nobility in any way, nor will they pollute or defame their fatherland with dishonorable behavior.[109]

Bonvesin intends his book not only for the general population of Milan, so that his fellow citizens can properly appreciate the virtues and worthiness of their own city, but also for

---

[109] *Cum animadverterem non solum gentes extraneas, verum quoque compatriotas meos in cuiusdam ignorantie dormientes deserto, nescientes Mediolani magnalia, oppinioni eorum succurrendum et consulendum fore exstimavi, ut vigilantes videant et videntes cognoscant qualis et quanti sit nostra civitas admiranda...*; Bonvesin da la Riva (1974), 20.

...ut omnes extranei Mediolanensium nobillitatem atque dignitatem scientes, eos ubique super omnes mortalles revereantur et honorent, dilligant, et deffendant... ut mei concives in hoc specullo se intuentes et quante oriundi sint patrie contemplantes, a nobilitate nequaquam degenerent nec patriam suam dedecoroso regimine commaculent et diffament; Bonvesin da la Riva (1974), 22.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

foreigners "to know the nobility and dignity of the Milanese". He adds a specific wish that his work should either change the minds of those who envy the city's wealth and success to admiration, or cause them to be consumed by their own jealousy. Bonvesin is a man as comfortable with civic oneupmanship as with more traditional notions of Christian charity. Civic foundation legends therefore appear to have functioned not only as internal discourse but also on an extramural level: as weapons of civic competition as well as weapons of civic unity. The two went hand in hand.

This is evident not only in the insults and boasts exchanged between particularly fierce competitors (this study considers Padua's rivalry with Venice, and Siena's rivalry with Florence, in part two) but in civic records which insist on the maintenance of the honor and glory of the commune not only in and of itself, but, as with Bonvesin, on a broader scale, in the eyes of "all foreigners": the presence of whom in the city would have been ubiquitous given contemporary political arrangements and the ruling elite's propensity for travel. Competition both implicit and explicit between cities was therefore a major motivating factor in questions of public appropriations: the engineer who designed the Fontana Maggiore for the commune of Perugia—one Boninsegna da Venezia—appeared before the Perugian council in 1277 and claimed that he could build a fountain for the Perugians which was even bigger and better than the one he was just finishing in Orvieto.[110] Naturally, he received the commission.

---

[110] Fasola (1951), 56; see chapter 8, fn. 95.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Conclusion

Due to various factors such as patterns of urbanization, the available historical literature, political structures, and education, therefore, the nature and status of civic identity was a major concern of the elites who ruled northern and central Italy in the later Middle Ages, and they frequently seized onto the Roman past as the best way of addressing those concerns: both to unify and instruct their own populations, and to raise their own cities' status on a broader Italian scale. This makes sense because the ruling elite was also the educated elite; historians, translators, and intellectuals not only came from the same families that dominated politics and commerce but participated in government themselves; they formed a close-knit cultural network which assured the spread of translations, new texts, and ideas not only throughout the Italian cities but among members of families and various professions—even those who did not read classical Latin comfortably.

The articulation of a particular classicizing civic identity therefore involved a complex encounter between educated intellectuals and their books, oligarchs and the urban populace, and one city and another. Each city elaborated on its chosen theme in a slightly different way, since it was using that ideology to address unique socio-political circumstances. The various groups of people within each city interacted differently, and each city had different concerns about itself in relation to its neighbors. By accident or original intent, the surviving evidence for classical legends in each city is likewise slightly different: to take one example: the surviving evidence for Siena's chosen origin legend is almost entirely visual, whereas that for Genoa is overwhelmingly literary. The next four chapters therefore seek to contextualize the legends adopted by each of four specific

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

cities around the turn of the fourteenth century—Padua, Genoa, Siena, and Perugia. I have attempted to give a sense of how and why each legend took the specific form it did, given the circumstances in which each city found itself, as well as by my choice of cities to demonstrate the wide variability of the classical-legend phenomenon. Rather than being set in stone, such legends were part of a constantly-changing cultural discourse, both inside and outside the city walls.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

PART II.

CASE STUDIES: CIVIC IDENTITY AT THE TURN OF THE 14TH CENTURY

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Reclaiming the Ambiguous Legacy of Antenor: Padua, 1260-1328

Chapter 5

Antenor was tall, graceful, swift, crafty, and cautious.
—"Dares the Phrygian"'s chronicle of the Trojan War[1]

Introduction

According to all the ancient sources—from Virgil and Livy on up to Solinus and Servius—the northern Italian city of Padua was founded by Antenor, the only Trojan survivor of the war with the Greeks, apart from Aeneas and his family.[2] This connection with the renowned founder of Rome and the ancient sources was a double-edged sword, however; the version of Trojan history dominant in the Middle Ages, that of Dares and Dictys, asserted that both Aeneas and Antenor only escaped with their lives because they were traitors who betrayed their city to the Greeks, receiving freedom in return for their collaboration.[3] Thus, while Antenor provided the city with an illustrious heritage traceable straight back to Troy in the most ancient and authoritative sources, he also represented the worst sin known to medieval Italians: betrayal and treachery.[4] It cannot

---

1 *Antenorem longum gracilem velocibus membris versutum cautum*; Meister (1871), 15, and Frazer (1966), 143.

2 Virgil (1918), 1.242-9; Livy (1919), 1.1.1; Solinus (1864), 2.10; and Servius (1881), commentaries on *Aeneid* 1.1, 1.242, and 1.601.

3 These were Latin translations of Greek texts probably written in the first or second centuries AD. Their "eyewitness" accounts—Dares on the Trojan side, Dictys on the Greek—were preferred in the Middle Ages to the texts derived from Homer; see Griffin (1907) and (1907-8); and Frazer (1966). Dares was moreover preferred to Dictys for having been on the "right", albeit losing, side—one more instance of the Roman bias of the Latin Middle Ages as a whole; the classic study of Dares is Schissel von Fleschenberg (1908) but this has been recently superseded by Beschorner (1992).

4 See Braccesi (1997) and Cimegotto (1936-7).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

have been pleasant seeing one's founding father featured as an embodiment of sin in the lowest circle of Hell (*Antenora*, in Dante's *Inferno*).[5]

This dichotomy presented a sticky problem, since Padua in the late Middle Ages saw itself as a city worthy of a distinguished founder. Its citizens had thrown off the tyranny of Ezzelino da Romano and his family, who had ruled in the city from 1236 to 1260, and established an autonomous republican government (in practice, a fairly limited oligarchy, but a republic nonetheless).[6] Between 1260 and 1328, this communal government ruled over a prosperous city in the midst of both economic and territorial expansion, the construction of one of Italy's major pilgrimage churches, and the development of a university renowned throughout Europe. And so, as a key part of the public improvements considered essential to a city-state of Padua's stature, the Paduan commune of the late thirteenth century set out to rehabilitate their city's classical origins and its traditional founder.

Padua's political and economic success in this particular stretch of almost seventy years is remarkable in itself since the independent city-republics which had been common in northern and central Italy in the twelfth century were rapidly disappearing: victims of factionalism, infighting, and greedy expansionism on the part of their neighbors. As the thirteenth century wore on, more and more of these republican governments were subsumed into less "democratic" but stabler signories (hereditary lordships) and petty despotisms. The della Scala family, lords of nearby Verona, were the Paduans' main external threat throughout this period: it was the della Scala conquest of the city which

---

5 *Inferno* 23.88.

6 Ezzelino was killed in battle in 1256, but it took until 1260 for all of his relatives and would-be successors to be either killed as well, or expelled from Padua. On the years of da Romano dominance, see Rapisarda (1965), Perria (1973), and Polizzi (1989).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

ended Paduan independence in 1328, and when the Paduans finally threw off della Scala dominion nine years later, it was only to replace their lordship with that of the native Carrara.[7] But all this was far in the future to the newly "liberated" Paduans (for such they thought themselves) of 1260—and for almost seventy-five years they successfully resisted external imperialism, expanded Paduan territorial control, and gradually improved and beautified their city.

The reappropriation and promotion of their classical heritage, including a figure like Antenor, then, is hardly surprising given the situation in which the Paduans found themselves: a republican regime, newly and proudly independent—but increasingly threatened by the expansionism of their neighbors, most notably the della Scala to the west. In these circumstances, the Paduan commune's various projects are revealed as inextricably intertwined: it became imperative for the Paduans to assert their equality with other nearby regimes ideologically as well as militarily, economically, and diplomatically. And, as to ideology, the natural model with which to link their history was that of Rome: it provided republican roots as well as a long tradition of ideological dominance.[8] By going back to the classical sources for their evidence, the urban elite of Padua bypassed the medieval emphasis on Antenor as a traitor, instead highlighting Antenor as a noble Trojan and city founder. Their legendary foundation by Antenor allowed the Paduans to lay claim to a history older, more prestigious, and—via its parallel with the foundation of Rome—more ideologically meaningful than that of any other neighboring city. The more elements of government and daily life they could

---

7 For a good account of the growth of Carrara influence, see Kohl (1998).

8 Cf. part 1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

somehow connect to ancient Rome, the better: and thanks to Padua's university and homegrown crew of prehumanists, the historical material with which to work was readily available. The seal of the late thirteenth-century Paduan commune even defines the territory of the Paduan city-state in terms of the ancient Roman province: "the Muso [river], the mountain, the Athes [river], and the sea give me definite borders" (see figure 19).[9] Reviving the memory of Roman *Patavium* with its legendary founding by the Trojan Antenor helped to define medieval Padua as a bastion of independent republicanism in a world of encroaching "tyranny", as much for the city's inhabitants as for its external audience.

Growth and Civic Improvement

The demographic and economic story of these years in Padua is one of sustained growth: of the Paduan contado, its population, and its economy. Late medieval Padua was a thriving commercial center, with a city population of about 35,000 by 1300.[10] Like many of the cities of northern Italy, its main growth industries were textiles, wool, and linen; the guilds of the cloth and wool merchants were two of the most powerful in the city, out of thirty-six guilds total in 1287. As one might expect, there were close economic ties between the city and the surrounding countryside; in the later thirteenth century the Paduan commune made a policy of expanding its control of this territory, including smaller subject cities and villages. The Paduan chronicles of the second half of

---

9 *Muson, Mons, Athes, Mare certos dant michi fines*; in Kohl (1998), 3; being a fully metrical dactylic hexameter, the text was most likely adapted directly from a classical source. The municipal seal with this motto is also reproduced as plate 1 of Hyde (1966).

10 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 47. Hyde (1966), 48, gives an estimate of 30,000 for 1320. On the medieval history of Padua generally, see also Arnaldi (1963), Simioni (1968), and Stella (1990). Collodo (1990) has an extensive bibliography.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the thirteenth century, especially for 1280 through 1300, are a litany of towns and rural areas made subject to Paduan control.[11] In a notable example, the nearby town of Vicenza was brought under Paduan domination in 1266 and held until seized by Cangrande della Scala of Verona in 1311. As the *Liber regiminum Padue* says:

> And after [this battle] the Vicentine citizens gave themselves and their city up to the Paduans, and surrendered [themselves] into their power and dominion, and then the Paduan rulers elected Henrigetus Capodivacca to be podestà and rector of the commune and people of Vicenza.[12]

At its greatest extent the Paduan city-state encompassed a contado of about two thousand square miles, from the Adige river in the south to Castelfranco and Bassano in the north.[13] The contado held more than twice as many people as the town of Padua itself, bringing the total population of Paduan territory to about 95,000 people in 1320.[14]

The communal regime was also concerned, however, with establishing and maintaining central control in the midst of expansion; conquering new territory is futile if the conquering body's political and military infrastructure cannot support the expansion. Thus the Paduan government itself underwent a series of gradual changes designed to clarify and affirm its political rights and responsibilities. New sets of city statutes were promulgated in 1265, 1276, and 1295, and additions and emendations were frequent.[15]

---

[11] These include a number of chronicles, most of them in annalistic form, chief among which are two redactions of the *Annales Patavini*: AP1 (1905) and AP2 (1905); the *Liber regiminum Padue* (LRP [1905]); and the *Chronicon de potestatibus Padue* (CPP), ed. Bortolami (1975). These abbreviations will be used throughout the rest of this chapter.

[12] *...et postea Vincentini cives dederunt se et suam civitatem Paduanis, et eorum potestati ac dominio subsiderunt, et tunc Paduani elegerunt domini Henrigetum de Capite Vacae in potestatem et rectorem communis et hominum Vincentiae* (LRP 329).

[13] See the fold-out map at the back of Hyde (1966).

[14] Calculations in Hyde (1966), 48.

[15] The early texts, namely the statutes of 1265 and their amendments, have been published in Gloria (1873); some of the later amendments appear in Zorzi (1931).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Not surprisingly, this concern with government regulation extended into the contado: for instance, the commune created a policy of assigning Paduan administrators directly to dependent villages and rural areas instead of depending on the traditional feudal authorities. In broad scope, the communal regime espoused the oligarchic-republican constitution common to later medieval Italian cities: prime executive power was wielded by the podestà, a foreign citizen elected for a term of six or twelve months. The city provided the podestà with a permanent bureaucratic apparatus with which to carry out his duties, composed of professional soldiers, notaries, servants, and police. Other segments of government included a complex judicial system and several different citizen councils, the largest of which was the Consiglio Maggiore, the membership of which increased dramatically during this period from about four hundred to about one thousand members by 1277. This large council was supported by a Consiglio Minore of forty to sixty members, and a council of eighteen Anziani, or Elders, which from 1287 included representatives from the city's thirty-six incorporated guilds. Along with their participation in the councils, citizens were employed in the administration at every level. A citizen doctor of civil law, representing the podestà, served as presiding judge in the highest communal court (called the Sigillo, or Seal), and other citizens served as podestà of subject areas, ambassadors, tax collectors, notaries, and book-keepers. The administration of government was complex enough to require the employment of as many as one hundred and ten notaries at a time.[16]

---

[16] Hyde (1966), 48. Many of these ninety to one hundred and ten offices would not have been full-time positions. Membership in the guild of notaries was probably about six hundred in the late thirteenth century, but this (along with employment by the municipal government) was restricted to Paduan citizens. There were probably also many notaries working in Padua who did not meet these conditions.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In addition to territorial expansion and political development, the commune paid serious attention to improving their holdings, for quality of life as well as military defense. A new "hearth assessment" tax was decreed throughout Paduan territory in 1281 specifically for the purpose of funding public works.[17] These included the construction or improvement of roads, bridges, dikes, irrigation canals, and rural defense fortifications. These monies were badly needed: according to the *Annales Patavini* and the *Liber Regiminum Padue*, seven stone bridges (capable of bearing more weight than wooden ones, and immune to fire besides) were built in different places around the contado in the six years between 1282 and 1287.[18] Similarly, 1295 saw the construction of a defensive keep across the Adige River from the recently fortified Castrobaldo, and an eighth stone bridge.[19]

But the public works in the contado paled in comparison to those undertaken in and around the city itself. A second major tax, unusual enough to merit mention in the city's annals, was assessed for this purpose in 1290-1:

> In that time a tax was created in the city of Padua, and an assessment was made in the Paduan villages throughout the district, and tax imposed; and the tax was adjusted for everyone; and at once, therefore, the city was transformed with better buildings.[20]

---

17 Hyde (1966), 48.

18 For 1282-3: *pons Bassanelli, pons Graditiorum, pons sanctae Mariae de Porcilia, pons sancti Leonardi,* and *pons qui est a porta domini Guidonis de Lucio* (AP1 204, AP2 230, LRP 336-7).
For 1285-6: *pons sancti Iohannis a navibus* (AP 205, LRP 338).
For 1286-7: *pons Thadorum* (AP 205, AP2 230, LRP 339).

19 For 1291-2: *inceptum Casterum baldum* (AP1 205, AP2 230). For 1295: *pons Pizonis,* and *turris ex opposito Castri baldi ultra flumen Aticis* (AP1 207, AP2 231, LRP 343).

20 *Eo tempore factum fuit extimum in civitate Padue, et facta fuit impositio in villis paduanis districtus, et imposita datia; omnibusque fuit damnum emendatum; et ideo fuit statim civitas melioribus aedificiis reformata* (LRP 340).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The urban improvements followed the same pattern as in the contado: the Altinate gate (one of four major gates to the city) was redone in 1286-7, followed by the Ognissanti gate and its bridge in 1300.[21] At the same time, the city undertook a major overhaul of its public buildings. The most famous of these is the Palazzo della Ragione, the hall in which the largest city council met. It was built in the unusual shape of a parallelogram due to space and foundation constraints, and dominates the two main squares of the city even today. Known familiarly as the *Salone*, it was begun in 1218 and finally completed in 1272. Only thirty years later, however, the new city hall was considered in need of updating, and major remodeling was carried out between 1306 and 1309 by the friar-architect Giovanni degli Eremitani, who restructured the squares on either side of the hall at the same time. Cosmographical frescoes were added by Giotto (fresh from his work on the Arena Chapel) in 1315-17.[22]

Housing for the smaller councils and branches of the Paduan government was thoroughly renovated in the same period: a complex east of the main palazzo was completed in 1285-6, and included the Palazzo del Podestà (for the podestà and his staff) and the Palazzo degli Anziani (for the small council of city elders which advised the podestà). The nearby Palazzo del Consiglio was also finished in 1285.[23] As these dates show, a flurry of construction swept the city in the second half of the thirteenth century, serving two purposes: firstly, to provide for the smooth functioning of the

---

21 AP2 230-32. See Hyde (1966), 36, for a good map of late medieval Padua, and Lucianetti (1970) on the city's urban development.

22 On the history of the Palazzo della Ragione, see Mor (1964), *L'Uomo* (1989), *Il Palazzo* (1992), and Fantelli and Pellegrini (2000). Giotto's work in the Palazzo is not much discussed by art historians since none of it remains, but it is mentioned in the context of his life and work in Gnudi (1959), 254-6 and Eimerl (1967), 131-33.

23 For all of these projects, see AP1 187, AP2 230, and LRP 338-9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

newly autonomous Paduan government—a purely practical goal—and secondly, to provide housing appropriate to that government, bearing witness to its status, power, and resources—a more nebulous but no less crucial goal, given the Paduans' relations with their neighbors.

Correspondingly, the regime sponsored a number of improvements that served this more ideological goal, designed to foster patriotism, pride, and civic unity. In 1266, for instance, the city paid for the building of a military *carroccio*, a cart on which to haul the Paduan standard in time of war.[24] The oligarchs in charge of the city clearly recognized the political necessity of *looking* like a strong, growing, city-state as well as *being* one. A visitor from out of town in these years would encounter little but massive construction projects and bustling activity from the time he crossed into Paduan territory to the moment he approached its seat of government—all of it organized and paid for by the commune.

As the building of the carroccio suggests, not all of this activity was specifically political: major work was also being done on projects overseen and sponsored but not directly commissioned by or for the commune. For example, the town had a new saint: St. Anthony of Padua (d. 1231), one of St. Francis's early followers who had settled in Padua.[25] He was canonized in 1232, only a year after his death, and the basilica dedicated to him was already under construction six years later in 1238. The unfinished church was dedicated in 1248, but work increased significantly after the death of Ezzelino in 1256. The saint was installed in his basilica with a huge feast and procession

---

[24] AP2 227 and LRP 328. For Rolandino on the Paduan carroccio, see Rolandino (1905), 124-5; and on carrocci in general, see Tucci (1985), esp. 95-104, and Dean (2000), 48-50.

[25] On the life and works of St. Anthony of Padua, see Bertazzo (1997), Raffard de Brienne (1998), and Rigon (2002). For his cult in Padua, see *S. Antonio* (1981).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

at Easter in 1263, at which point the Paduan commune undertook the finishing of the church. Work continued on the structure—a massive basilica with circular Byzantine domes and many connected outbuildings (see figure 20)—and contemporary sources say that the church was mostly finished in 1310 when Anthony's relics were transferred from the nave to the north transept, where they still lie today.[26]

Similarly, the university for which Padua was already renowned (having been established in 1222 by students from Bologna) had fallen into disorder in the years of Ezzelino's domination. At the commune's instigation, the university was reestablished in 1262 and gained papal recognition in 1264. The *studium generale,* as it was usually known, soon eclipsed its previous fame, and students started coming from all over Europe. In exchange for its legal protection and the granting of certain privileges to professors and students, the Paduan government claimed a considerable level of control over the schools, and the two became closely intertwined despite official policy affirming the university's independence from Paduan politics.[27] This connection was so commonly recognized that in 1289 Pope Nicholas IV threatened to close the university as a means of punishing the Paduan commune for rebellious behavior.[28]

Between 1260 and 1328, therefore, Padua was a growing city with a strong economic base (agricultural as well as commercial), and a republican government both engaged with its responsibilities and largely capable of fulfilling them. Benjamin Kohl, a

---

26 On the basilica of St. Anthony, see *Guide* (1956) and Lorenzoni and Bresciani Alvarez (1981).

27 The best introduction to the medieval university of Padua is Siraisi (1973); her first chapter, "The Studium of Padua" deals extensively with university-commune relations. See also Arnaldi (1976), the articles in Marangon (1997), and the numerous municipal decrees in Gloria (1873).

28 Siraisi (1973), 27.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

historian of the Carrara dynasty, has commented that by 1300, "Padua had reached the height of its medieval prosperity under a broadly based communal regime."[29] Several features set it apart from its neighbors and served as sources of local pride: firstly, its recent and important saint, already in the late thirteenth century making the city a site of pilgrimage; secondly, its university, with all the cultural and economic implications that that had for the city at large; and thirdly, its strong legal base. The university's reputation for instruction in law, together with the communal government's employment of huge numbers of citizen judges and notaries, made it a veritable forum for the theory and practice of law. Citizens and members of the university were supposedly forbidden from accepting each other's jobs, but the scope for theoretical exchange and discussion was enormous.[30] Finally, there was a great deal of local pride in the fact that all this had taken place under a republican government, which had begun its rule by throwing off the tyranny of Ezzelino da Romano. With these elements added to the city's territorial gains and economic success, the city could fairly claim to be the equal of any in northern Italy. As the *Annales Patavini* state concisely—and, it must be said, rather smugly—"at this time, Padua was in the greatest possible state for a commune."[31]

At the same time, the Paduans and their government had good ideological reasons to publish their wealth and success to anyone who would listen. They faced increasing competition and expansionism on the part of several powerful neighbors, namely Verona, Ferrara, and Venice, and the ambitions of these would give any dedicated Paduan oligarch cause to lie awake nights, despite his city's success.

---

29 Kohl (1998), 137.

30 Hyde (1966), 121-53, esp. 4ff. and 46ff.

31 *Hoc tempore Padua erat in communi statu excelso* (AP1 209). English misses the dual meaning of comune, which can be translated alternately as "commune" or as "community." See the discussion in chapter 1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

A Classicizing Ideology

To a Paduan of the late thirteenth century, however, such fears were only a distant possibility. His city was both prosperous and expanding, and like his neighbors he was fiercely proud both of its autonomy and of all that it had accomplished since Ezzelino's overthrow in 1256. It is in this milieu that we must situate the rise of a specifically classicizing ideology. Modern scholars have discussed this phenomenon at length as "Paduan prehumanism" (or protohumanism), looking to the efforts of a few dedicated lawyers around and under the aegis of Lovato Lovati to resurrect classical poetry and drama, and find and recopy unknown ancient texts—all as precursors to the more established humanist movements of the fourteenth century.[32] I shall argue here, however, that "Paduan prehumanism" was much more engaged with the issues and problems of its day than scholarly discussion generally tends to make it seem. Most characterizations of Lovati and his circle make their classical interests seem like a model train set: a hobby, experimented with on weekends but not related in any way to one's real work.[33] The fact is that Padua in the later thirteenth century had a real need for a civic ideology that unified its citizens, increased their pride in their city, and impressed neighboring cities. Given the citizens' pride in having overthrown the tyranny of Ezzelino to establish a republican commune, the prehumanists' hobby was undeniably relevant.

---

[32] Mann (1996) gives a general overview of humanism's development from the Middle Ages to the fifteenth century, including the place of Padua in it; basic studies considering Paduan prehumanism in thirteenth- to fourteenth-century context are Weiss (1964) and (1973), and Sabbadini (1967). On Paduan prehumanism, specifically, see Billanovich (1953), Billanovich (1958), and Kristeller (1985); the best recent studies are Folena (1976), especially Guido Billanovich's long chapter on Paduan prehumanism (19-110), and Witt (2000), although I disagree with some of his conclusions.

[33] As, for example, Weiss (1973), in chap. 2, "The Forerunners of Petrarch".

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Roman myth and history had never been forgotten: everyone who had ever read the first book of Virgil's *Aeneid*, a basic school text, knew that Antenor was the ancestor of all Paduans much as Aeneas was the ancestor of all Romans:

> Antenor could escape the Achaean host, thread safely the Illyrian gulfs and inmost realms of the Liburnians, and pass the springs of Timavus... Yet here he set Padua's town, a home for his Teucrians, gave a name to the race, and hung up the arms of Troy; now, settled in tranquil peace, he is at rest.[34]

This in itself was a point of pride, since Virgil's text states that Antenor founded Padua before Aeneas even got to Italy. Paradoxically, the well-known first lines of the *Aeneid* state that Aeneas was the first arrival on Italian shores—but Servius points out that Padua at that time was in Cisalpine Gaul, not in Italy, in which case Antenor's earlier arrival didn't count as Italy.[35] Aside from their city having been founded first, the Paduans could also preen themselves over the fact that Antenor founded Padua directly, without needing to go through an intermediate stage. (Rome was founded by Romulus and Remus, who came from Alba Longa, which had itself been founded by Aeneas: Padua,

---

[34] *Antenor potuit, mediis elapsus Achivis,*
Illyricos penetrare sinus, atque intima tutus
regna Liburnorum, et fontem superare Timavi...
Hic tamen ille urbem Patavi sedesque locavit
Teucrorum, et genti nomen dedit, armaque fixit
Troia; nunc placida compostus pace quiescit; Virgil (1918), 1.242-4 and 247-9.

[35] Virgil's text begins: *Arma virumque cano, Trojae qui primus ab oris / Italiam, fato profugus*; "Arms and the man I sing, who first from the coasts of Troy, exiled by fate, came to Italy and Lavine shores"; Virgil (1918), 1.1-2. Servius's commentary reads:

QUI PRIMUS: many ask why [Virgil] says that Aeneas arrived in Italy first, when just after that he says that Antenor founded his city before the arrival of Aeneas. In truth, this is consistent, since Virgil spoke according to the habit of his time in his logical reasoning. For in the time in which Aeneas came to Italy, Italy ended at the Rubicon river: this fact is attested by Lucan... thus it becomes apparent that Antenor did not arrive in Italy, but rather in Cisalpine Gaul... [*quaerunt multi, cur Aeneam primum ad Italiam venisse dixerit, cum paulo post dicat Antenorem ante adventum Aeneae fundasse civitatem. constat quidem, sed habita temporum ratione peritissime Vergilius dixit. namque illo tempore, quo Aeneass ad Italiam venit, finis erat Italiae usque ad Rubiconem fluvium: cuius rei meminit Lucanus... unde apparet Antenorem non ad Italiam venisse, sed ad Galliam cisalpinam...*]; Servius (1881), commentary on *Aeneid* 1.1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

on the other hand, was founded directly by Antenor.) Padua's own son Livy expanded on Virgil's comments in the first sentences of his monumental *Ab urbe condita*:

> First of all, then, it is generally agreed that when Troy was taken vengeance was wreaked upon the other Trojans, but that two, Aeneas and Antenor, were spared all the penalties of war by the Achivi, owing to long-standing claims of hospitality, and because they had always advocated peace and the giving back of Helen. They then experienced various vicissitudes. Antenor, with a company of Eneti who had been expelled from Paphlagonia in a revolution and were looking for a home and a leader—for they had lost their king, Pylaemenes, at Troy—came to the inmost bay of the Adriatic. There, driving out the Euganei, who dwelt between the sea and the Alps, the Eneti and Trojans took possession of those lands.[36]

Aside from these two towering authorities, the chief sources that medieval Italian historians tended to cite on the foundation of Padua were Seneca (in the well-known *Consolatio ad Helviam*) and Solinus, both of whom only cite the fact of the founding without providing further details.[37] But the classical tradition was clear in its essentials.

Moreover, the surviving evidence seems clearly to indicate that Padua's classical origins had never been forgotten, even on a popular level. A poem written circa 1200 by Giovanni da Val di Taro addressed the Paduans as *Antenorides*: sons of Antenor.[38] In it, he encourages his fellow citizens to seek peace and concord rather than factionalism: "O sons of Antenor, if you wish to remain safe from the enemy outside the walls, the peace

---

[36] *Iam primum omnium satis constat Troia capta in ceteros saeuitum esse Troianos, duobus, Aeneae Antenorique, et uetusti iure hospitii et quia pacis reddendaeque Helenae semper auctores fuerant, omne ius belli Achiuos abstinuisse; casibus deinde uariis Antenorem cum multitudine Enetum, qui seditione ex Paphlagonia pulsi et sedes et ducem rege Pylaemene ad Troiam amisso quaerebant, uenisse in intimum maris Hadriatici sinum, Euganeisque qui inter mare Alpesque incolebant pulsis Enetos Troianosque eas tenuisse terras*; Livy (1919), 1.1.1.

[37] Seneca (1932), 7.6, and Solinus (1864), 2.10. Solinus, for example, includes Antenor in a long list of founders, in the middle of which is: *Padua, ab Antenore.* Interestingly, neither Dares nor Dictys discusses the fortunes of Aeneas and Antenor after the war: in both accounts, the two men have a disagreement which causes Aeneas to leave Troy (and disappear from the narrative), while Antenor remains as ruler in Troy itself.

[38] The descriptor "son of Antenor" was used by at least one other late medieval Paduan: Marsilius of Padua describes himself as an *Antenoridis* at the beginning of the *Defensor pacis*; Marsilius of Padua (2001), 6.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

of love must bind you together inside them."[39] Giovanni presents the Paduans' common descent from Antenor (and the republican political tradition implied therein, given Troy's connection with ancient Rome) as a compelling reason to make peace amongst themselves, the better to resist any external (and non-republican) threats. The poem was publicly endorsed and publicized: in 1210, it was inscribed in a plaque and placed in an obvious spot on the city's Torricelli gate, where everyone coming in or out would be able to see it.[40] Posting the poem on the city gate is also symbolically significant: the reference to *Antenorides* defines Paduan identity in the same way that the city walls and their gates defined the physical space of Padua.

In the same way, Antenor's remains were thought until recently to have been "rediscovered" in 1283-4, when the extant tomb of Antenor was built.[41] Recent reappraisals of the evidence suggest, however, that a tomb of Antenor had existed in the city for a number of years previously, and that the 1283 event was simply the renovation of a previously-existing tomb. Brunetto Latini's *Trésor*, for instance, written in France between 1260 and 1266, identifies Antenor as the founder of Padua, and says that "his tomb is still there."[42] Similarly, the 1283 entry for the recently-published *Chronicon de Potestatibus Paduae* says that the tomb was "repaired anew", rather than "discovered."[43] The late-thirteenth-century resurrection of Padua's classical origins as an ideological tool

---

39 *Vos Antenorides, si tuti vultis ab hoste*
Esse foris muro, pax vos liget intus amoris; Gasparotto (1979), 7.

40 Ronchi (1911) and (1967).

41 As cited in Weiss (1973), 18; Ullman (1945), 40; Jenkyns (1992), 64; and others, all of whom relate that a skeleton was dug up during construction in 1283, and Lovati identified it as Antenor's.

42 *Encor i est son sepulture*; Brunetto Latini (1948), 46.

43 *De novo reparata fuit* (CPP) for the former, *inventa fuit* (AP1) for the latter.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

was, therefore, less a resurrection of something long-forgotten than the intensification of something which was already an established part of city tradition.

The first major statement commending Padua's classical origins to the attention of its medieval descendents was made by the city's greatest thirteenth-century author, the notary Rolandino, a student of the Bolognese rhetorician Boncompagno da Signa.[44] His *Liber chronicorum*, a history of northeastern Italy during the time of da Romano domination, asserts that Padua, having thrown off the tyranny of Ezzelino, is now worthy to be called a second Rome. Rolandino was here taking advantage of a time-honored tradition, since calling itself a "second Rome" was a common trope for any city with grand pretensions.[45] Any citizen of northern Italy's successful cities could be excused for preferring his city's modern wealth and influence over anarchy among the ruins. (Padua even had its own ruins: the Paduan suburb of Rudena was widely believed to have been named for its extensive classical ruins.[46]) As Rolandino says in an oft-quoted passage:

> For was not Padua originally founded by Antenor, who left the Trojan city in the same hour as Aeneas, the founder of Rome? Has not it endured many tribulations and wars, like Rome herself? Have not its citizens suffered cruelty, their towers, palaces, houses, and their belongings ruined and cast down? Indeed, if the Roman Curia will pardon me, Padua can now almost be called a second Rome.[47]

Rolandino's civic pride is entirely comprehensible in someone who had lived through Ezzelino's tyranny and helped construct the republican government which replaced him.

---

44 See Arnaldi (1963) and (1964), and the related but more general works Arnaldi (1966), Fabris (1977), and Bortolami (1995).

45 See chapter 3 on the trope of the *Roma secunda*.

46 Rolandino (1905), 124.

47 *Numquid Padua condam* [sic] *est ab Antenore constituta, egresso civitatem troianam eadem hora cum Enea, conditore romano? Numquid passa est multas tribulaciones et werras, ut ipsa Roma? Numquid in suis civibus est offensa crudeliter, turris et palaciis, domibus et decoribus suis dirutis et prostratis? Nempe, si michi parcat romana Curia, iam Padua dici potest quasi secunda Roma*; Rolandino (1905), 159.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

As J. K. Hyde says, "it was his determination to expose [Ezzelino's] evils to future generations which inspired him to write": as such, his history is a conscious polemic illustrating the virtues of republican government over signorial "tyranny".[48] Interestingly, in Rolandino's view, it was her sufferings as much as her successes which qualified Padua for comparison with Rome.

Even more significant, however, than Rolandino's casting his city's current regime in classical and republican terms is his work's reception by his fellow citizens. As soon as he finished the *Rolandina* (as it came to be called), the chronicle was read in a public session before the heads of the university and the Paduan government:

> This book was read and recited in front of the doctors and masters named below, and also in the presence of the worthy society of the graduates and scholars of the liberal arts of the Paduan *studium*. Also, the venerable men ruling at that time in Padua were there: [list of masters by name and specialty], attentive and valuable professors of grammar and rhetoric. Gathered here specially for the purpose, they solemnly praised, approved, and authenticated the aforesaid book and work, or chronicle, with their professional authority, in the cloister of Saint Urban in Padua, during the 1,262nd year of the Lord, fifth indiction, on the thirteenth day of the month of April.[49]

The extent to which Rolandino's chronicle was formally adopted by the Paduan commune is debatable: Girolamo Arnaldi argues that it was adopted as the official city chronicle, but J. K. Hyde is only willing to go as far as saying that it "became a part of the city's political tradition, serving at a more sophisticated level the same function as the songs and verses of the Ezzelino legend among the populace in maintaining the political

---

[48] Hyde (1966), 287.

[49] *Perlectus est hic liber et recitatus coram infra scriptis doctoribus et magistris, presente eciam societate laudabili bazallariorum et scollarium liberalium arcium de Studio paduano. Erant quoque tunc temporis regentes in Padua viri venerabiles:* [list of magistri] *in gramatica et rethorica vigiles et utiles professores. Qui ad hoc specialiter congregati predictum librum et opus sive cronicam sua magistrali auctoritate laudaverunt, approbaverunt et autenticaverunt solempniter in claustro sancti Urbani in Padua, currente anno Domini millesimo duecentesimo sexagesimo secundo, indictione quinta, die tercia decima intrante mense aprilis*; Rolandino (1905), 173-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

ethos of the restored commune."[50] In either case, it is undeniable that the Paduan city leaders publicly sanctioned Rolandino's comparison of Padua with Rome—not only in her origins but also in her modern fortunes, in which Rolandino sees more to praise in his hometown than in Rome. Thus already, only six years after Ezzelino was deposed, the Paduan commune had already allied itself with a political ideology that was self-consciously both republican and Romanizing, with a particular emphasis on the city's founding by the classical figure of Antenor.

On the subject of Antenor himself, we have already established that some monument to him existed by the time Brunetto Latini was writing his *Trésor* between 1260 and 1266. By 1283, however, whatever had sufficed previously was now "judged inadequate to the importance of the Paduan commune," and under the guidance of the respected intellectual Lovato Lovati (1241-1309), now identified as the guiding light of the Paduan prehumanist movement, a new tomb was erected for the city's founder (figure 21).[51] According to the 1283 entry of the *Annales Patavini*: "In this year the stone bridge of San Leonardo was built and the tomb of the noble Antenor, founder of the city of Padua, was made with its capital, next to [the monastery of] San Lorenzo by

---

[50] Arnaldi (1963), 138-40, and Hyde (1966), 288. The wording of the description may be taken as indirect evidence in favor of Arnaldi's view, since the notarial phraseology of "praised, approved, and authenticated" [*laudaverunt, approbaverunt, et autenticaverunt*] is taken directly from that used in official contracts. I am indebted to Simon Teuscher for this point.

[51] Gasparotto (1979), my translation. On Lovati, see especially Weiss (1951). On the tomb of Antenor, see also Fabris (1932) and (1937), Lazzarini (1937), and Prosdocimi (1939-41). There was an upsurge of interest in the tomb in 1937, when local scholars lobbied successfully against a municipal proposal to demolish or move the monument. A fascinating collection of articles (Zampieri [1990]) published on the occasion of the tomb's restoration ranges from analyses of the wood and pollen found inside the tomb to considerations of the legend's classical iconography.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the gate of Santo Stefano."[52] The *Chronicon de potestatibus Paduae* gives a very similar account: "And the tomb of the most noble Antenor, founder of the city of Padua, was restored anew with its capital..."[53]

Lovato's involvement in the project extended to writing a set of verses for Antenor's sepulcher which recall both Virgil's and Livy's accounts of the founder (see figure 22):

> Noble Antenor, a strong voice, transferred hither a peaceful homeland
> and refugees: the Eneti, and the sons of Dardanus;
> cast out the Euganeans; founded the city of Patavium;
> he whom this home, cut from modest marble, holds here.[54]

His mention of the Eneti, the sons of Dardanus (Trojans), and the Euganeans indicates that Lovato's verses derive chiefly from Livy, but his phrasing is very much his own. Using echoes of Virgil (e.g., *quietem* and *quiescit*), Lovato's emphasis is on the act of founding and its long-term results: *patriam quietem* (peaceful homeland), rhymed with *patavinam condidit urbem* (founded the city of Patavium). The place of *condidit* (founded) immediately between *patavinam* and *urbem* (both referring to Padua) is particularly forceful. Lovato's words essentially equate the values of the past and the present, uniting them with Antenor's founding act.

---

[52] *Factus fuit pons lapideus sancti Leonardi hoc anno et inventa arca nobilis Antenoris, conditoris urbis Paduae, cum capitello, penes Sanctum Laurentium a porta sancti Stephani* (AP2 262). *Inventa*, here, from the Latin *invenio* (to find or discover) would seem to contradict the entry in the CPP which says that the tomb was renovated in that year, but medieval uses of *invenio* sometimes have overtones of "to devise, or build" rather than simply "to discover". That the tomb was rebuilt rather than built in 1283 is corroborated, for instance, by the reference to it in Latini (footnote 42, above).

[53] *Et de novo reparata fuit archa nobilissimi Antenoris urbis Paduae conditoris cum capitello...* (CPP 104).

[54] INCLITUS ANTENOR PATRIAM VOX NISA (sic) QUIETEM
TRANSTULIT HUC ENETUM DARDANIDUM[QUE] FUGAS
EXPULIT EUGANEOS PATAVINAM CONDIDIT URBEM
QUEM TENET HIC HUMILI MA[R]MORE CESA DOMUS.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The style of the sarcophagus itself is the type with "ears" popular in the fourth and fifth centuries AD, but the inscription is written in Lombardic capitals; the classicizing motif does not extend to using classical letterforms, or epigraphical formulae. The tomb is surrounded and surmounted by four brick columns and a roof with a small cupola to protect it; in fact, it closely resembles the tombs of contemporary jurists like Accursius, Odofredus, and Rolandino Passaggeri in Bologna (compare figure 21, for instance, with figure 15). The whole was built against the wall of the monastery of San Lorenzo in the center of the city. After the monastery was demolished and the area around the sarcophagus cleared in the nineteenth century, the resultant piazza became known as "Piazza Antenore" (the "Bar Antenore" being one current tenant), but it is nonetheless clear that from the time that the new monument was built, it was a major focus of civic pride. Lovato was buried next to it in 1309 (see figure 23). And the fact that the pre-existing tomb was considered to need rebuilding at this particular moment in Paduan history—i.e., in 1283—makes sense given the program of public improvements occurring throughout Paduan territory at that time.

In a quaint but meaningful parallel to the renovation of Antenor's sarcophagus, a Roman epitaph was dug up near the convent of Santa Giustina several decades later and immediately hailed as the tomb of Livy, the most famous citizen of Roman Patavium. The inscription, still extant (CIL 5.2865), reads as follows:

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

V . F
T . LIVIVS
LIVIAE . T . F
QUARTAE . L
HALYS
CONCORDIALIS
PATAVI
SIBI . ET . SVIS
OMNIBVS [55]

Unfortunately, the conclusion was a leap in the wrong direction: the owner of the tombstone bears the surname Halys, and was a freedman of the Livius family rather than the Augustan historian himself. To fourteenth-century Paduans unfamiliar with the technicalities of classical epigraphy, however, the inscription T. LIVIVS seemed self-explanatory; the tombstone was promptly cleaned off and installed on the wall of Santa Giustina. Its influence may be echoed on the tomb of Lovato's nephew and intellectual heir Rolando da Piazzola, who died in 1333; the two plinths supporting his sarcophagus read ET SIBI and ET SUIS respectively (figure 24), mimicking the SIBI ET SUIS on the false Livy inscription.

The precise date of this second example of the discovery and translation of civic relics has never been established. For a long time it was thought to have taken place much later in the fourteenth century: Petrarch wrote his famous letter to Livy sitting in front of the other's "tombstone" in 1350[56] (as a *terminus ante quem*), and several Paduan historians of the mid-fifteenth century imply a date of the mid-fourteenth century when discussing the matter.[57] B. L. Ullman, in his article on the "Post-Mortem Adventures of

---

55 An approximate translation would be: "Titus Livius Halys of Padua, freedman of Livia T. F. Quarta, priest of Concordia, made this while alive for himself and his family"; *V(ivus) F(ecit), T(itus) Livius, Liviae T(iti) F(ilia) Quartae L(ibertus) Halys Concordialis Patavi Sibi et Suis Omnibus.* See Billanovich (1969).

56 Petrarch (1975), 24.8.

57 See the text accompanying CIL 5.2865, and Ullman (1945) as cited below.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Livy", states, without further elaboration, that the event took place "between 1318 and 1324."[58] He was presumably relying on the only record of the event, which dates from several decades after the fact. This was written by Giovanni Boccaccio into his *zibaldone* (copy-book) now in the National Library in Florence (commonly known from its provenance as the *Zibaldone Magliabechiano*, to distinguish it from Boccaccio's other *zibaldone*):

> ...in the fourth year of Tiberius Caesar he [Livy] was removed from the toil of Paduan life: and the citizens wanted him buried there: producing a stone discovered in our days, which was dug up by a farmer of the same city in a field, and on which can be read these letters: [text of inscription follows].
>
> These carvings are believed to be his epitaph. Moreover, the old stone, cleansed of ancient decay and with letters formed with the greatest elegance, can be seen even today—affixed by order of the noble man Jacopo da Carrara, who was ruling Padua at that time, to the wall of the church porch within the monastery of Santa Giustina the virgin.[59]

Boccaccio's mention of Jacopo da Carrara suggests that the inscription was discovered during the rule of Jacopo the Elder as Captain General of Padua, that is, between 1318 and 1324; hence Ullman's dating. Recent research on two fronts, however, indicates that the finding of the epitaph must have occurred significantly earlier. Firstly, Teresa

---

[58] Ullman (1945), 55. As detailed in Ullman's article, the discovery of the Livyesque inscription in early fourteenth-century Padua was only the beginning: for instance, the Paduans claimed to have dug up Livy's bones in Santa Giustina in 1413, and his so-labeled mortal remains had a long and exciting afterlife. In discussing the later discovery of the bones, chroniclers of the early fifteenth century like Giacomo Cavacio, the chronicler of S. Giustina, and Sicco Polenton, a humanist friend of Niccolò Niccoli's, mention the epitaph as having been uncovered about 50 (Cavacio) or 80 (Polenton) years earlier. This would indicate a date of 1333 or 1363 for the earlier discovery, both of which are patently too late. On attitudes to Livy in the Renaissance see also Bodon (1989).

[59] *...anno Tiberij caesaris .iiij. pataui vitae ac labori subtractus est: et ibidem cives sui sepultum volunt: producentes lapidem unum ab agricultore agrum secus ciuitatem altius solito fodiente, diebus nostris compertum, in quo hae leguntur litterae: V. F. T. LIVIVS. LIVIAE. T. F. QVARTAE. L. HALYS. CONCORDIALIS PATAVI SIBI ET SUIS OMNIBVS. Quas in suum epitaphium sculptas credunt. Is autem lapis vetusta purgatus carie et litteris in primam formositatem redactis iussu inclyti viri Jacobi de carraria tunc pataui imperantis apud monasterium Sanctae Justinae virginis in pariete uestibuli ecclesiae affixus in hodiernum usque videtur*; Hortis (1877), 100-01. Boccaccio also copied the inscription into his other zibaldone (the Zibaldone Laurenziana), now in the Biblioteca Medicea-Laurenziana in Florence. This is available in facsimile by Biagi (1915); the Livy inscription is at f. 59v.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Hankey's work on Riccobaldo da Ferrara demonstrates that the discovery should be dated at least before 1313. Riccobaldo was resident in Padua and teaching at the university between 1293-5 and 1303-9, and the text of the epitaph appears in both Riccobaldo's *Historie* (written at Padua before 1313, probably 1305-8) as well as in his later *Compendium historiae romanae* (finished 1318).[60] The text of the *Historie* has only recently been rediscovered in three late-fourteenth-century manuscript copies, but the epitaph's presence in manuscripts of the *Compendium* is well-established; its citation—probably adapted, like most of the compendium, from the longer *Historie*—reads:

> The epitaph written in stone on his sepulcher can be read near the monastery of the blessed Giustina of Padua, written thus: [text of inscription follows]. [61]

Secondly, Guido Billanovich's discussion of Lovato introduces an *accessus* (short introduction) to Livy written by Lovato, which appears in Vat. Lat. 1769, a fourteenth-century compendium of writings by and relating to the Paduan prehumanists. The *accessus* ends with the inscription much as Boccaccio's and Riccobaldo's do:

> And today this stone tomb can be seen in the monastery of Saint Giustina with letters inscribed on the stone in the following fashion... [text of inscription follows].[62]

Lovato's *accessus*, together with the evidence from Riccobaldo, suggests that the inscription was known by the first decade of the fourteenth century, since Lovato died in 1309. Hence the event should probably be dated to 1305-1309, if not earlier.

---

60 Hankey (1958), 218-19, and (1996), 129; also Zanella (1989).

61 *Eius sepulture epytaphium scriptum in saxo legitur Padue apud monasterium beate Iustine sic scriptum: V. F. T. Livius Liviae. T. F. quartae. L. Halys. concordialis Patavi. sibi et suis omnibus*; Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1984), 2.488.

62 *Et hodie Patavi cernitur eius saxeus tumulus in monasterio Sancte Iustine cum huiusmodi saxo incisis litteris:* [text of inscription follows]; Billanovich (1976), 104.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The final public event based on a Paduan classicizing ideology is also associated with the prehumanists: namely, the crowning of Albertino Mussato as the first poet laureate since antiquity. Lovato Lovati's nephew, Rolando da Piazzola, and his friend and colleague Albertino Mussato were the most prominent prehumanists of the generation after Lovato himself, and Mussato has been alternately described as the last luminary of medieval Padua and the first true man of the Renaissance.[63] Born in 1261, the year after the end of da Romano domination, he was a notary like almost all the prehumanists, employed by the communal government throughout his life. He was also, however, a historian, poet, and dramatist—and it is in recognition of this last that he was crowned with the laurel in December of 1315. His *Ecerinis* was not only the first Senecan tragedy written since antiquity, but an antityrannical republican polemic in the best tradition of Rolandino, fifty years earlier.[64] By 1315, Cangrande della Scala's threat to Paduan independence had become acute, and Mussato's tragedy warning of the dangers of tyranny was seen as directly pertinent to the current situation, with Cangrande as the new Ezzelino.

Thus, acting on the suggestion of Rolando da Piazzola, Lovato's nephew and Mussato's good friend, the commune voted to award Mussato the title of poet laureate. J. K. Hyde labels the event as the "cultural apogee of the Paduan commune."[65] As with the presentation of Rolandino's chronicle, the ceremony was a huge public event

---

[63] See Dazzi (1964) and Feo (1990), as well as the sections on Albertino in, for instance, Weiss (1964) and Billanovich (1976). On Rolando da Piazzola, see Girardi (1909).

[64] The most recent edition of the *Ecerinis* is Albertino Mussato (2000); two English translations are available: Albertino Mussato (1972) and (1975).

[65] Hyde (1966), 302.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

attended by representatives of both university and communal government. Trumpets blared, and a lengthy procession wound its way through the streets of Padua.[66] The *Ecerinis* was given a public reading, and a decree was made that the reading should be repeated annually for the edification and remembrance of the citizens. The classical theme only went so far: in its particulars the ceremony more closely resembled a medieval academic ceremony, like the awarding of an honorary degree, than a classical laureation. Nonetheless, it is clear that the government and people of the city understood that they were reviving an ancient tradition with present-day meaning for them, and that they were doing so in celebration of a poet whose accomplishments themselves promoted the city's classical origins, in both content and style.

Paduan prehumanism is often characterized as a movement confined to a small group of intellectuals, who gathered in their leisure time to explore a joint interest in the technicalities of classical (particularly Senecan) poetry; Italian scholarship on the subject, for instance, regularly refers to Lovato and his circle of friends as the *cenacolo padovano*, or "Paduan clique".[67] Certainly many of their activities were private exercises between friends—like the notorious poetic debate about whether it is better to have sons or not—but their interest in classical literature, objects, and history extended into their public responsibilities, fostering a decidedly public, even official, component of Paduan classicism. The appropriation of Rolandino's chronicle and Mussato's tragedy by the communal regime, the official rehousing of Antenor's bones, the discovery and display of

---

66 Mussato's own letter describing these events is edited in the appendix to Dazzi (1964), 188-90.

67 *Cenacolo* in Italian translates literally to "dinner party".

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the pseudo-Livian epitaph—all events occurring within the space of about fifty years—show that a certain sector of Paduan society was eager to connect, even to equate, modern Padua with ancient Rome. And from these very public acts, we may assume at the very least that the stories and principles evoked either already meant or would shortly come to mean something to the majority of Paduan citizens.

Agents Provocateurs

Who were these men who were so eager to maintain their city's connection with ancient Rome? With whom did the ideas originate, who decided they were worthwhile, and who paid for them? For obvious reasons, I consider the *cenacolo padovano* to be an insufficient answer. It seems implausible that a few intellectual dilettantes should wish or be able to decide policy for an entire city-state. Rather, I would broaden the scope of the answer to emphasize the influence and ubiquity of the legal and notarial class as a whole in Padua in this period. All of the members of the *cenacolo* were either lawyers or notaries, as was Rolandino a generation before them. And the notaries comprised the most powerful guild in Padua in the later thirteenth century, having about five hundred members at the turn of the fourteenth century, of whom (as discussed above) more than one hundred were employed in the communal government at any given time. Notaries and their guild, moreover, were only half the issue. In Padua, unlike many other Italian cities of this period, judges and notaries were not part of the same guild.[68] Instead, judges were organized in their own association, the Collegio dei Giudici del Palazzo (the Palazzo in question being the Palazzo della Ragione); this Collegio had a membership of

---

[68] Hyde (1966), 110-75, analyzes the legal structure of the Paduan government in detail.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

about one hundred in 1300, which included not only Paduan citizen judges but the university's professors of law.[69]

Thus the legal profession in Padua was very tightly-knit despite limitations on the jobs available to citizens as opposed to non-citizens: citizens could not be employed by the university, and non-citizens could not hold posts in the government. The commune not only paid the salaries of the university's law professors—in canon and civil law, as well as in arts and medicine—but also prescribed which textbooks were to be used.[70] Judges, notaries, and professors of law were all engaged with, and their professional duties were regulated by, the Paduan commune, which therefore served as a forum for the theory and practice of law, as proposed above. Albertino Mussato refers easily to Paduan political institutions in Roman terms (*Senato* for Consiglio Maggiore, for example: also *senatori*, *tribuni*, *plebii*, and *plebiscitii*).[71] Similarly, several historians have observed that most of the "ideal" political institutions propounded by Marsilius of Padua (c. 1275-1342) are modeled on the Paduan political structures of the later thirteenth century.[72] Unsurprisingly, Marsilius' father was a Paduan notary, and Marsilius himself most likely did his university studies there in Padua before going on to his later career at the University of Paris.[73] The judges, professors, and notaries in Padua, therefore, were trained in Roman law, comfortable with its principles and terms of reference, and dealt with its practical applications on a daily basis.

---

69 Along with Hyde (1966), 124ff., see also Gloria (1884).
70 Siraisi (1973), 27.
71 Dazzi (1964), 47.
72 See Nederman's afterword to Marsilius of Padua (2001), 447, and Hyde (1973), 187-95.
73 See Gewirth's extensive introduction to Marsilius of Padua (1951), vol. 1, as well as Rubinstein (1965) and Piaia (1999).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

One of the reasons scholars see the work of the *cenacolo padovano* as private leisure activity is its members' insistence on the separation between public and private in their lives. Lovato Lovati, for example, claimed in his letters that his classical interests were a respite from the pressures of public life.[74] That he did not want his public duties to interfere with his personal interests, however, does not mean that the inverse is also necessarily true. Rather, the practical and the theoretical were intertwined: the Paduan intellectuals and political theorists of this period did not hesitate to apply the knowledge they gained if it could provide some public benefit. And the application of Roman history and politics to the current situation was hardly a mental stretch: the viewing of the Paduan government in Roman terms had been common since the foundation of the commune in the twelfth century. As with many Italian communes, Padua's original communal constitution provided for two consuls elected yearly.[75] But when (like those other communes) the rule of consuls was replaced with the system headed by the podestà, the framing of the constitution in Roman terms continued.

Thus Lovato Lovati was not only a judge and a prehumanist interested in Senecan poetic forms, he was also a member of Padua's ruling elite, personally involved in his city's government—and by connection and proximity, likely to have been involved in the running of the city's university. These activities are not necessarily separated in his character, as scholars tend to assume: during his tenure as Paduan podestà in Vicenza, for example, Lovati oversaw the painting of frescoes depicting scenes from Roman history as decoration in the city hall. The annals of the Vicentine Niccolò Smereglo state that "in

---

74 Lovato's poetry has been edited in Padrin (1887) and Bolisani (1953-4).

75 Hyde (1966), 17-9, and various entries in AP2 and LRP, e.g.: "1176.—Lord Ugone de Canavolis, lord of Transalgardinus, and Lord Azino, consuls, ruled Padua"; [*MCLXXVI. —Dominus Ugonus de Canavolis, dominus Transalgardinus, cives Paduae, et dominus Azinus, consules rexerunt Paduam*] (LRP 293).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1291 *ser* Lovatus was podestà of Vincenza, who ruled well, and had histories painted and written on the town hall."[76] Manlio Dazzi, along with others, has suggested that *historias* specifically refers to Roman stories, possibly scenes from Livy.[77] This action clearly demonstrates two things: first, that Roman history was considered topical and instructive in a contemporary political setting, and second, that the understanding of politics in Roman terms was neither confined to Padua nor to the small clique of Lovato and his friends (at least two of whom, Benvenuto dei Campesani and Ferreto Ferreti, were Vicentines).[78] The impetus in this case may have come from Lovato and his greater familiarity with things classical, but the project would certainly have been approved by the local council in Vicenza, who would be paying for it, and who would want decoration appropriate both to the dignity of their city and the activities conducted in the town hall. The frescoes would also need to be understandable and instructive for their larger audience: the citizens of Vicenza.

Thus these classicizing events took place in the same context as those more practical public improvements discussed earlier in this chapter: the creation of a monument for Padua's founder (1283); the discovery and monumentalization of the epitaph of its greatest (Roman) citizen (c. 1305); the crowning of the town's greatest modern poet as "poet laureate", a title unused since antiquity (1315); and the public reading of both a chronicle (1262) and a play (1315) celebrating the republic's escape

---

76 *In MCCLXXXXI fuit D. Lovatus Iudex potestas Vincentiae, qui fecit bonum regimen et fecit depingi et scribi historias de palacio*; Niccolò Smereglo (1921), 16.

77 Dazzi (1964). Ambrogio Lorenzetti painted "Roman scenes" at Siena in the 1320's; see chapter 7. Similar scenes of Roman heroes, to a scheme devised by Petrarch, were painted for the Carrara signori in Padua in the second half of the fourteenth century; see Mommsen (1952).

78 On Vicentine and Veronese scholarship in this period, see Folena (1976), especially chap. 2 and 3.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

from tyranny. These were not just the whims of a small group of unworldly intellectuals, but public events engineered to show Padua and its current republican regime in a particular light. On an internal level, they were directed at Padua, its citizens, and its subjects in the contado, generating pride in the city and its ruling regime. Events like these emphasized the city's origins, fostering a sense of unity, common descent, and collective purpose amongst the people, as well as joint resistance to any external threat. And speaking of external threats, these ideological, classicizing events also served on an external level to make the same points to other cities and political regimes. Claiming Trojan ancestry and Roman descent imbued Padua and its republican regime with an aura of antiquity as well as political legitimacy. Such assertions implied that the Paduan government was more important, better-established, and more authoritative than any of its immediate neighbors—and, consequently, that any potential threats were automatically doomed to failure.

But these classicizing, politically-unifying events confronted not only political and military challenges from Padua's neighbors; being themselves a means of ideological warfare, they also addressed ideological threats to the city. Neighboring Venice, for instance, was a city founded embarrassingly recently in Paduan terms; starting in the eleventh century, early chronicles relate how the city's first settlers went out to the lagoon in the sixth century, fleeing from the Gothic king Totila's depredations.[79] In search of an older and more illustrious past, late thirteenth-century Venetian historians started laying claim to Padua's founder Antenor, in a historiographical practice that would continue for several centuries. The first known example of this occurs in the chronicle of Marco,

---

[79] Cessi (1933), 30-1, and Brown (1996), 11-25. On Totila vs. Attila, see fn. 82 below.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1292, in which the author claims that the city of Venice was founded by Antenor *before* he founded Padua: because, coming to the Veneto with his companions on his way from Troy, he landed first in the lagoon. As befits a purely fabricated history—Venice was *not* a classical city—the story is more complex and detailed than any of the Antenor legends in Paduan historiography:

> And then, the Trojans coming to their boats, they gave their sails continuously to the winds for a long time, until, sailing over the ocean, the came all the way to the place where now the city of the Venetians is built, and... they spread out there to build their homes...
>
> And then Romulus and Remus founded Rome. And because of this it is widely known that the first construction of the Rialto preceded the construction of the city of Rome... Trojans came to Antenorida from diverse regions, but when one particular huge crowd arrived there, it could not be housed on the island. Therefore, Antenor departed to occupy dry earth and in a spot not much distant from the island, he founded a very beautiful city which he called Altilia. After this he built Patavium, which is today called Padua, and there he lived out his last days, and on his tomb these verses are written:
>
> Here lies Antenor, founder of the city of the Paduans.
> He was a good man; everyone followed him.[80]

This is a nice piece of historiographical oneupmanship: it would have horrified any Paduan who heard it, especially in the years after 1283, but it did at least have the advantage of geography (Venice being technically closer to Troy than Padua). The story

---

[80] *Itaque accedentes Troiani ad eorum vassella, dederunt continuo vela ventis, tam diu per equora navigantes quo<u>sque pervenerunt al quandam* [sic] *tu<n>bam, ubi nunc Venetiarum civitas est constructa, et... disposuerunt ibi ipsorum construere mansiones...*

Et tunc Romam Romulus et Remus condiderunt. Et propter hoc scitur aperte quod prima constructio Rivoalti, precessit constructioni Romane <civitatis>... Quid dicam? Troiani ex diversis partibus ad Antenoridam accesserunt sed quidem moltitudo maxima illuc perveniens, in insula non potuit hospitari. Antenor, inde recedens, occupavit siccam terram et in loco parum distanti ab insula fundavit pulcerimam civitatem, quam Altiliam appellavit. Postea vero edifficavit Pataviam, que hodie Padua appellatur, ibique diem clausit extremum, in cuius tumulo scripti sunt hii versus:

Hic iacet Antenor, Paduane conditor urbis.
Vir bonus ille fuit, omnes secuntur eum [sic]; Carile (1970), 121-2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

became relatively common in Venice, appearing in a number of histories and chronicles after 1292 and down to the Renaissance.[81]

Direct Paduan responses to the Venetian claim do not survive, but one example of Paduan retaliation may occur in Giovanni da Nono's early-1320s *Liber de ludi fortunae*, a multi-part work combining a history of Padua with a detailed description of the city and its inhabitants in his own time. In one section of the *Liber* known as the *Visio Egidii regis Patavii*, Egidius, an early king of Padua who has been chased from his city by Attila ("Attila, the perfidious pagan king of the Huns"[82]) and who has taken refuge in nearby Rimini, falls asleep and is favored with a vision in which an angel tells him:

> Fear not, king of Padua, for God has placed you among his elect. Being from the noble race of the Altine city, which will never be put into servitude, you will found a city with the name of the Venetians, existing amongst the sea water.[83]

Intellectual contact between the cities of the Veneto was constant—perhaps having a Paduan king found Venice was da Nono's retaliation against the Venetian appropriation of Antenor. Nonetheless, it is clear that, far from being an intellectual exercise, the classicizing phenomenon in its various guises and appearances as we have identified them

---

81 The best general studies on Venice are Pertusi (1970), Carile and Fedalto (1978), Carile (1987), Brown (1993), and Brown (1996). An intriguing recent addition to this collection— unfortunately beyond the scope of this study, since it deals with an eleventh-century text—is Berto (2001).

82 *...perfido pagano Athilla ungarorum rege*; Fabris (1932-9), 10-11:1. Unlike most medieval Italian sources—Villani, for instance, in book 2.1—Giovanni manages not to confuse the sixth-century Ostrogothic king Totila (r. AD 541-552) with the fifth-century Hun, Attila (c. AD 406-453), whose pillaging of Italy was only stopped outside the gates of Rome by the mysterious intervention of Pope Leo I. More often Totila is (probably incorrectly) cited as the great source of urban destruction. Early Venetian sources fluctuate as to whose pillaging forced their first flight to refuge in the lagoon. Confusion of Totila and Attila is compounded by the fact that both Goths and Huns are often referred to in sources like this one as *ungari*, "Hungarians".

83 *Non timeas, rex Padue, quoniam Deus in sede suorum electorum posuit te. Ex Altine civitatis nobiliore gente, que nunquam in servitute posita erit, civitatem unam Veneciarum nomine, existentem intra marinam aquam, hedificabis*; Fabris (1932-9), 10-11:2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

in late-thirteenth-century Padua served a number of very practical purposes, from unifying the citizens of Padua and providing a focus for civic pride, to fighting off ideological appropriation.

And despite their vaunted success, the Paduans and their government had need of all the weapons they could get, ideological or otherwise, in this period. For all the "idealism" of their republican constitution and their success in deposing Ezzelino, their world was closing in around them. As the thirteenth century turned into the fourteenth century, Padua was increasingly threatened by Venetian economic (and subsequent diplomatic) success to the east; the consolidation of d'Este power in Ferrara to the south; and, most ominously, far-reaching della Scala expansion out of Verona in the west. Cangrande della Scala's army took Vicenza away from the Paduans in 1311, and Padua finally yielded in 1328 after a long and expensive war which ended with a crippling siege of the city itself. As the thirteenth century drew to a close, the proudly independent Paduan regime found itself fighting on two fronts: first, a military and political front, as it struggled to keep its many subject territories out of Cangrande's greedy grasp. This it managed with varying and decreasing levels of success until compelled to surrender the city to Cangrande in 1328.[84]

The Paduan republic was also fighting on an ideological front. Any face-off between two powers involves diplomatic machinations, the effort to present a façade which will make the potential invader think victory is impossible or unlikely. At the same time, this façade should create the impression in its audience that his side is not

---

[84] On Veronese expansion and the rule of Cangrande della Scala, see *Verona e il suo territorio* (1960).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

influential, knowledgeable, or wealthy enough to overcome the resistance that will certainly be offered. Internally, this image projected outward should also keep morale up, making the threatened city's citizens both determined to resist and believing that they can do so successfully. The image of an Antenor-founded, Roman-strengthened, republican Padua fit these requirements ideally; in this way Antenor's 1283 funerary monument was as much a weapon as the military carroccio the Paduan commune commissioned in 1266: as rallying point, source of collective identity, and focus of civic pride.

Hence virtually everything the commune concerned itself with in this period—from city statutes to public works, the patronage of learning and religion to city historiography—pointed toward the same end. These things defined what it was to be a Paduan citizen, and why being Paduan was a source of pride. In most cases these projects that the city oversaw contained both physical and symbolic means of conveying identity: Antenor's tomb was a material focal point in downtown Padua, an impressive structure in its own right, but its presence furthermore served to remind the Paduans of who they were, where they came from, and (hopefully) where they were going. Their sense of communal identity and common descent unified them, maintaining their resolution and fierce pride in their own independence. As Giovanni da Val di Taro's poem said back in 1210: the *Antenorides* had to unite harmoniously if they wished to fight off external threats.[85] The Paduan commune, fueled by its classics-inspired prehumanistic legal class, recognized this principle from its first constitution after

---

[85] See fn. 39, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Ezzelino's downfall, and the period between then and Padua's downfall in 1328 shows a conscious effort on the part of the commune to keep Padua's classical origins in the public mind. The publicization of Antenor and Livy in these years is but one facet of the "public improvements" taking place all across the Paduan contado, designed to maintain and display the city in the manner which it considered itself to deserve. These improvements focused communal pride and presented a unified and robust façade to outsiders. Antenor, Livy, St. Anthony, and the university were all aspects that made the city's citizens Paduan rather than Vicentine—or, God forbid, Veronese.

The emphasis that the Paduans placed on their origins, and the widespread power of that ideology, was recognized not only by their friends but also by their enemies. As a parting shot, once Padua had finally succumbed to Veronese expansionism in 1328, an anonymous Veronese poet included a rude mockery of the verses on Antenor's tomb in a poem praising the della Scala regime. Written in 1329, the *Dedizione di Treviso e la morte di Cangrande* turned Lovato Lovati's famous phrases on their head, commenting that:

> Here lies Antenor, founder of the city of Padua.
> He was a traitor, as is any who follows him.[86]

---

[86] *Hic iacet Antenor Patavine conditor urbis.*
Proditor ille fuit quique sequuntur eum; Padrin (1896). The Vicentine poet Ferreto Ferreti, a friend of Mussato's, sidesteps the question of what comes after the first line in his 1328 *De Scaligerorum origine*, written for Cangrande, by tactfully giving only the first line—"Here lies Antenor, founder of the city of Padua"—leaving completion of the distich, either pro- or anti-Paduan, to the mind of his reader (*DSo* 5.291; Ferreto Ferreti [1920], 94).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The Paduans' republican ideology and proud origins fell into subjection along with the regime that promoted them; the Veronese and their allies saw clearly that to attack the city's founder was to attack its citizens' sense of self.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Unruly Descendants of Janus: Genoa, 1257-1312

Chapter 6

> No one ought to be ignorant of the fact that Janus built Janicula, and that he named it after himself. In fact, he did not name it Janua, but Janicula, using the diminutive [*Janicula* = little Janua] on account of its small size—just like Rome, at the time of its first construction, when it was small, was called Romula [after its founder, Romulus]; and afterward, when it grew, it was called Roma. Likewise, our own city was very small when it was first constructed, and it was called Janicula; and afterward, when it grew, it was called Janua.
>
> —Jacopo da Varagine, *Chronicle of the City of Genoa*[1]

Introduction

The Paduans' struggle to preserve their autonomy serves as an intriguing contrast to Genoa, the next city under consideration. While Padua lost its independence permanently in 1328, in time exchanging the *signoria* of the della Scala for that of the Carrara before being swallowed by Venetian expansion on the mainland, the city of Genoa remained an autonomous republic from the formation of its commune in 1098 more or less consistently until 1797. Genoa in 1300 was the third largest city in Christian Europe, with a population approximately three times that of Padua.[2] It boasted a highly successful maritime economy with trading outposts and contacts from the Black Sea to the Baltic, along with a navy experienced in defending its interests throughout the Mediterranean, whether from pirates or its most despised competitors,

---

1 *[N]ullus debet hoc ignorare quin Ianus Ianiculam construxerit et quin a suo nomine eam appellaverit. vocavit autem non Ianuam, sed Ianiculam in diminuto propter eius parvitatem, sicut enim Roma a principio sue constructionis, quando adhuc erat parva, vocabatur Romula; postquam autem crevit, dicta est Roma. sic civitas nostra a principio sue edificationis fuit multum parva et vocabatur Ianicula; postquam autem crevit, dicta est Ianua*; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 343. Especially with relation to his authorship of the *Legenda Aurea* (on which see fn. 37 below), Jacopo da Varagine is perhaps better known as Jacobus de Voragine; he also appears as Jacopo da Varazze, Varazze being the modern name of his hometown.

2 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 43 and 46.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Pisa and Venice.[3] Unlike the Paduans, therefore, the Genoese had to confront few serious external threats to their political and economic autonomy in the later Middle Ages. Rather, the city suffered from serious internal strife throughout the thirteenth and into the fourteenth century. The citizens' efforts to promote the cult of their mythical founder Janus, at exactly the same time as Padua was reviving the legend of Antenor, can be situated in this cultural milieu: rather than uniting its citizens against an external threat, stories about the city's original founder (or founders) sought to persuade the Genoese away from internal division by recalling a long-distant but joint unspoiled past. This chapter will contextualize promotion of the myth of Janus in the years commonly considered the height of the medieval Genoese commune: from 1257, the year of Guglielmo Boccanegra's election as capitano del popolo, to 1312, when a Genoese government desperate to restore internal order offered control of the city to Emperor Henry VII.

Growth and Civic Improvement

In area, the city of Genoa was relatively small; the twelfth-century city walls, which surround the city center, encompass less than a square kilometer of land.[4] Its medieval population was crowded into a small hilly space between the sea and the mountains; even today, both of the city's major railway stations are built into steep hillsides. Nonetheless, its exponential success in the Mediterranean trade economy

---

[3] On Genoese maritime history, see especially Byrne (1930), Ortalli and Puncuh (2001), and Hattendorf and Unger (2003), especially the articles by Dotson (119-36) and Balard (137-50).

[4] Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 94-5, plate 5, provides a detailed map of Genoa in the thirteenth century.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

fostered one of the great population leaps of medieval demography: from a small town of less than 15,000 people in 1000, it grew to a city of approximately 100,000 in 1300, with a slightly faster growth rate in the hundred years between 1200 and 1300. (In 1200, the population was still only about 30,000.)[5] In the Europe of the early fourteenth century, however, only Paris (at 150,000) and Venice (110,000) were bigger—and Venice only barely so.[6] Since available land within the city walls was so scarce, Genoa was a particularly vertical city in an era of high urban population density: not only the towers of the local nobility, omnipresent in medieval Italian urban architecture, but tenements of six and seven stories were common throughout the city.[7]

Genoa's population growth was made possible by the usual reason: economic opportunity. An important port even in the early Middle Ages, Genoa was sacked by Muslims in 935 (implying vulnerability, but also the presence of goods worth looting).[8] The city's inhabitants rebuilt the town soon after, and the town grew rapidly to become a significant trade presence in the Mediterranean from the beginning of the eleventh century. In fact, the Genoese, in collaboration with the Pisans, played a major role in eliminating the threat of Muslim pirates in the western Mediterranean, whose depredations had hampered long-distance trade through the ninth and tenth centuries; in 1087, for instance, the Italian allies made a joint attack on Al-Mahdiyya, a major Muslim

---

5 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 43. De Negri (1986), chaps. 9-11 (209-99), provides a good account of this growth.

6 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 28 and 49.

7 Mazzino, de Negri, et al. (1969), 18. Epstein (1996), map 3, shows late medieval Genoa, but see also fn. 4, above.

8 On Genoa in the early Middle Ages, see especially Origone (1992) and Pavoni (1992); on the Muslim sack of the city in 934-5, see Kedar (1997).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

capital in north Africa.[9] In the same period, both towns backed the Normans in their quest to reclaim Sicily from the Muslims. The socio-economic historian Steven Epstein sees these acts as economically as well as militarily and religiously motivated: "The Muslim half of the Mediterranean world depended on its coastal shipping from Morocco and Spain to Egypt, and Italian efforts to disrupt this trade and to pillage it... could only benefit Genoa and Pisa."[10]

Thanks to their participation in the Crusades and the waning of Muslim sea power, the Genoese expanded their maritime concerns over the course of the next two centuries, so that by 1250 Genoa was the focus of a trading empire stretching from Spain and North Africa to Egypt, the Holy Land, and Constantinople. These frontiers expanded substantially between 1250 and 1300, particularly since the Genoese aided their traditional allies, the Byzantines, in regaining their capital from occupying Franks left over from the Fourth Crusade in 1261 (an act which gained them six years' excommunication by the pope, for conspiring with schismatics).[11] In return for military aid, the Byzantines promised the Genoese exclusive trading rights in the Eastern empire, which would have cut out the Venetian competition. Although the Byzantines soon reneged on this commitment, Genoa did establish important trading outposts in Greece and Syria, as well as gaining control of the western Black Sea.[12] At the same time, Genoese merchants were expanding into Europe as well, establishing markets for their

---

9 See Cowdrey (1977); there are no contemporary Genoese accounts, but the 1088 *Carmen in victoriam Pisanorum* (1969) tells the story from the Pisan side.

10 Epstein (1996), 23.

11 See Manfroni (1898), Origone (1992), and Geanakoplos (1973).

12 On Genoese trade in the East, see Day (1988) and Balard (1989). Medieval (and occasionally modern) sources generally refer to trade with *Romania*, meaning not the modern country but the general area of the Byzantine Empire (which still saw itself as the "real" Roman Empire—hence *Romania*).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Eastern goods. They had contacts in Provence and at the Champagne fairs, and already by the 1270s Genoese sea-traders were making regular sea trips around Spain to Flanders.[13] Thus Genoa gradually assured its position as a focal point of western European trade with the East (both Near and Far). Economic development benefited the city on all levels: a mercantile economy provided the opportunity for nobles and entrepreneurial members of the middle class to amass fortunes abroad, but it also supported an internal system of wage employment for poorer members of society—native Genoese, or the increasing numbers of immigrants.

With the decline of Muslim power in the Mediterranean, Genoa's main economic competitors were other maritime Italian port cities: Amalfi, Pisa, and Venice. Due to imperial assertion of feudal power in southern Italy, Amalfi's early economic success was already fading by the twelfth century. This left Pisa and Venice as Genoa's chief rivals, and, despite some notable failures, the city proved itself exceedingly able to hold its own on the high seas. A string of Genoese victories in the later thirteenth century even managed to break Pisan seapower more or less permanently.[14] After their early collaboration against the Muslims, economic tensions had always been higher between Genoa and Pisa than between either and Venice, due to their relative proximity. But the Genoese fleet defeated the Pisan fleet in a colossal sea battle at Meloria in 1284, and later in the Pisans' own port (1290). This left only the Venetians as serious competitors, and the end of the thirteenth century saw notable success on that front as well. The Genoese

---

[13] Fischer and Pedrotti (1997), 38, provides a map comparing Genoese, Pisan, and Venetian trade routes and outposts in the Mediterranean and the Black Sea. Liagre-De Sturler (1969) has published Genoese notarial archives relating to both Flanders and the Levant.

[14] See Boscolo (1978) on relations between Genoa and Pisa, especially over the island of Sardinia; on their various battles, see also Hattendorf and Unger (2003), especially the article by Dotson (119-36).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

overcame the Venetians in a 1298 naval battle, and the year 1299 saw peace treaties made with both Venice and Pisa. The treaty with the Venetians was basically an even truce between exhausted equals, but the treaty with the Pisans was extremely favorable to the Genoese, demonstrating the lasting effect of Genoese victories ten years earlier.[15]

Probably as a result of their already-successful economic practices, Genoa is the first city for which we have direct evidence for the formation of a commune, in the late eleventh century.[16] This occurred on the heels of Genoese triumph as part of the first Crusade, and is contemporaneous with the establishment of an official city chronicle under Caffaro in 1097.[17] From this point forward, therefore, the Genoese government—while technically republican all the way up to 1797, the year of the Napoleonic invasion—fluctuated between several types of regime, especially during the course of the thirteenth century.[18] Three of these types of political arrangements were the most popular and replaced each other on a more or less regular basis: firstly, the government of multiple consuls, which was that originally established for the commune, and which persisted through the eleventh and twelfth centuries; secondly, government by capitani del popolo, in which prominent Genoese citizens were elected singly or in pairs to rule over the city; and thirdly, podestarial government like that in Padua, in which

---

15 On relations between Genoa and Venice, especially in the East, see Ortalli and Puncuh (2001), particularly the articles by Maltezou, Jacoby, and Karpov.

16 Martines (1979), 18-20, and Epstein (1996), 33-8.

17 The chronicle itself has been edited in Belgrano and Imperiale di Sant'Angelo (1890-1929); the best general study is Petti Balbi (1982). Petti Balbi (1995), with its focus on the chroniclers' "sense of history" (*senso della storia*) is also interesting in this context.

18 "Technically republican" not least because the city underwent several periods of more (and less) transparent *signoria* through the years.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

trusted foreigners were invited every six months or year to serve as podestà.[19] In the period which we will be considering, from 1257 to 1312, the latter two systems replaced each other regularly as the result of civic revolts which occurred, on average, every five years.[20]

This political instability was largely the fault of the Genoese nobility, who were divided between Guelf and Ghibelline allegiances, supportive of the pope or emperor respectively. This split had real importance in the later thirteenth century, particularly during the southern Italian campaigns of Charles of Anjou, who was funded by the pope, and the northern Italian struggles of Emperor Henry VII to reestablish imperial control in the years after 1300.[21] Genoa's role in supporting or opposing each of these was determined by which faction was currently in power in the city. Of the city's most influential noble families, the Doria and Spinola, for example, were traditionally Ghibelline, while the Grimaldi and Fieschi were traditionally Guelf.[22] The latter connection was so close that several late-thirteenth-century popes were from the Fieschi family: Sinibaldo Fieschi (d. 1254) became Pope Innocent IV, and his nephew Ottobuono (d. 1276) became Pope Adrian V.

While important in defining Genoa's position within the larger scope of Mediterranean and Italian politics, however, the factions of Guelf and Ghibelline also served, as elsewhere in Italy, to disguise major power struggles between Genoa's various

---

19 See Vitale (1951) on the podestarial system in Genoa.

20 According to the appendix in Epstein (1996), 325-7, revolts occurred in 1257, 1259, 1262, 1265, 1270, 1278, 1291, 1295-6, 1300, 1306, and 1310; half of these resulted in a change of regime.

21 See e.g. Macconi (2002) for Genoa's relations with the Empire, and Bowsky (1960) on Henry VII.

22 Guelf or Ghibelline connections should not mislead us into thinking these were permanent alliances: the civil war into which the city fell after the death of Henry VII in 1313, for example, mostly consisted of fighting between Doria and Spinola. On the convoluted relations between Guelf and Ghibelline, see the Introduction at fn. 13.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

noble families and political factions on a much more local level. Medieval Genoese society was unusually territorial, from the *compagne*, associations which divided the city into districts, to the *alberghi* of the nobility, neighborhood enclaves which housed the clan, their relatives, and clients, and could be barricaded in times of unrest.[23] The rise of the popolo in 1257 and the election of Guglielmo Boccanegra (from a wealthy but non-noble family) as capitano has been directly linked to the inability or unwillingness of the Genoese nobility to put the city's welfare above their factional quarrels. Boccanegra achieved much with his reforms, but the intransigence of the nobility forced him into exile after only five years in power, and periods of civic unrest and factionalism only increased through the rest of the thirteenth century; one particularly destructive episode (in 1296-7) will be discussed later in this chapter.[24]

Given the obstacles to Genoa's successful governance that were posed by factionalism and frequent changes of regime, it may be the more surprising that there were certain subjects on which most factions were agreed, and certain policies that appear to have been pursued no matter which family or faction was in power. The various councils and other offices of the city bureaucracy certainly seem to have functioned regardless of which type of leader (capitano or podestà) occupied the main executive

---

[23] The Genoese commune of 1098 may have been a newly-formalized union of the older neighborhood *compagne* into a city-wide *compagna comunitatis*; on territoriality, see Hughes (1977). Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 225-9, also has an interesting socio-architectural study of the side-by-side alberghi of the Spinola and Grimaldi families in the neighborhood of San Luca.

[24] Epstein (1996), 135-52. Jacopo da Varagine describes how "general and universal peace was made in the city of Genoa between those known as Mascherati, or Ghibellines, and those known as Rampini, or Guelfs"; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 502. The Ghibelline Mascherati were the Doria and Spinola factions, and the Guelf Rampini were the Grimaldi and Fieschi factions; the peace to which Jacopo refers lasted less than a year.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

position. The tradition of sponsoring a municipal chronicle, an official literary account of the city's fortunes which had been started in 1097 under Caffaro, for instance, continued uninterrupted for almost two hundred years from 1099 up to 1294, despite changes of regime.[25] Between 1257 and 1312, communal officials in general appear to have been primarily concerned with improving the city and consolidating Genoese power in the contado. The capitani del popolo and the various podestarial officials spent a great deal of tax money in the second half of the thirteenth century, buying up property throughout Liguria.[26] Instead of establishing Genoese domination with expensive occupying troops (of which Genoa, as a maritime power, had very few), they pursued a policy of purchasing feudal properties from a debt-ridden territorial nobility, which expanded their control of Liguria at the same time as it funneled funds back into the local aristocracy.

Furthermore, starting with Guglielmo Boccanegra's rule as capitano in 1257, the Genoese commune showed a concentrated interest in city improvement. Building projects begun in the 1260s include the Palazzo San Giorgio, the town hall begun by Boccanegra that is still a chief ornament of the city center; see figure 25.[27] Its location along the main commercial wharf not only shows a keen appreciation of the mercantile underpinnings of the city's political success, but an implicit commitment to preserve them for the future. Boccanegra also arranged for the rebuilding of the harbor jetty and new wharves along the waterfront. From the 1270s, the capitani Oberto Doria and Oberto Spinola jointly oversaw the construction of a complex known as the Palazzo del

---

25 See fn. 17, above.
26 Epstein (1996), 133-7; more generally, see Stringa (1982) and Airaldi (1986).
27 See Cabona (1991) and Ferrando Cabona and Lagomaggiore (1998).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Comune, which contained both a Palazzo del Podestà for the chief executive, and a Palazzo Pubblico for council meetings.[28] And at some point in the second half of the thirteenth century, an aqueduct was built to bring fresh water to the docks and the western part of the city.[29] It is perhaps an indication of Genoa's good relations with its neighbors, and the relative concord of its contado, that all public improvement taking place in this period was oriented either toward the Genoese government itself or toward the sea: despite significant population growth, the twelfth-century city walls built to resist a besieging Frederick Barbarossa (figure 26) were not replaced until the mid-fourteenth century.

The civic government in its various incarnations enjoyed an unusually close relationship with the local church—in this case, the archbishopric of Genoa, which had been established by papal decree in 1133.[30] Church income was high due to special taxes on mercantile endeavors, but in the later thirteenth century these were regularly appropriated for public (i.e. communal) works.[31] To confuse the issue further, however, the commune was also in charge of the *Opera del duomo*, or cathedral works, for which the same funds were used. Major work on the cathedral of San Lorenzo took place periodically throughout the early thirteenth century, such as decorating the cathedral façade, adding on the chapel of St. John the Baptist to house relics brought back from the Holy Land, and frescoing the cathedral canons' cloister.[32] Moreover, two communal officials named Niccolo di Goano and Pastono di Negro oversaw the reconstruction and

---

28 Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 106-9.
29 Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 104 and 129, fn. 39.
30 On the church in Genoa and Liguria generally during this period, see Polonio (2002).
31 Di Fabio and Besta (1998), 223.
32 Di Fabio (1979), 97-107.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

refurbishment of large parts of the cathedral between 1298 and 1312, after a serious fire during riots in 1296-7.[33]

Genoa did not yet have a university in the mid-thirteenth century, despite its size, but congruent with its long-standing religiosity and sizable Guelf partisanship, it was a strong base for the mendicant orders. The Dominican convent in the city taught law, theology, and medicine, and was elevated to the status of a *studium generale* (the same status as Padua's larger university) at the beginning of the fourteenth century.[34] In 1286, a local Dominican named Giovanni Balbi finished the *Catholicon*, a comprehensive dictionary in the medieval scholastic tradition; its fame spread quickly throughout Europe.[35] (That it would later be one of the first works to be printed indicates its popularity as a reference work even into the fifteenth century.[36]) The Dominican intellectual tradition intersected impressively with the long-standing Genoese chronicle tradition in the late-thirteenth-century work of Jacopo da Varagine, who is most famous as the author of the *Legenda Aurea* (a collection of saints' lives written in the 1260's), but who was also a successful administrator within the Dominican order, an ambassador, a civic historian—and archbishop of Genoa.[37]

On a general level, the overlaps between civic and religious bureaucracy may partly explain the persistence of Latin as an official language in Genoa, long after other

---

33 This reconstruction will be discussed in greater detail further on.

34 Petti Balbi (1984), 133; see also Imperiale di Sant'Angelo's introduction to Jacopo Doria (1929), xxxv, on young Jacopo's education.

35 Epstein (1996), 162-3.

36 The Mainz edition of 1460 has been reproduced in facsimile in Giovanni Balbi (1971), but see also Stillwell (1936).

37 See Jacopo da Varagine (1993) and (1998).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Italian cities had switched to using the vernacular for all but the most formal written documents.[38] Other factors may include both the usefulness of Latin as a universal language in long-distance trade and the difficulty of the local Genoese dialect, considered obscure by other Italians already in the thirteenth century (and still so considered, according to Italian sources). Thus, although Genoa lacked the intellectual brilliance of Bologna or Padua, its complex maritime economy fostered a relatively high educational standard: from the practical necessities of educating successful-merchants-in-training to the broad use of Latin as a bureaucratic language.[39]

Steven Epstein has noted that "this period of Genoese history [1257-1311] is usually depicted as the most brilliant phase of the city's prosperity and influence."[40] Certainly the image that Genoa presented to the outside world was extremely confident: it showed a city whose extraordinary and broadly-based economic success was backed by a skilled navy and long-standing treaties with most of the major powers in the Mediterranean, both Christian and Muslim. Genoese diplomatic skills were also evident in the way the city's leaders balanced Guelf and Ghibelline partisanship on the Italian peninsula, preserving their political autonomy while at the same time remaining on good terms with both papacy and Empire. The many and various works of public improvement undertaken in this period demonstrate a cordial collaboration between church and communal authorities, and the literary efforts on both sides (lay and

---

38 Epstein (1996), 161-2 and 176; see also Borlandi (1963) and Petti Balbi (1979). On the position of Genoese notaries "between prestige and power" (as his title says), see Costamagna (1970).

39 Pistarino (1961) has published the later-fourteenth-century booklist of the cathedral of S. Lorenzo; it contains a number of classical authors such as Caesar, Cicero, Sallust, and Vegetius as well as historical sources like Eusebius and Isidore.

40 Epstein (1996), 140.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

religious) show both remarkable ability and a desire to use that ability in the service of the *civitas*. More than anything else, the existence of a continuous city chronicle tradition lasting from the years of the First Crusade suggests the value that the Genoese placed first on themselves, and secondly on maintaining an official account of their city's rise to glory.

From the perspective of the later thirteenth century, therefore, Genoa's accomplishments in the Mediterranean were significant on a military-political level as well as an economic one. At the same time, one historian has remarked that Genoese civic unity in the later Middle Ages seems to have been inversely proportional to its external success—its serious internal divisions became more pressing as external threats to the republic's survival were neutralized.[41] The removal of a common enemy frequently reminds people of grievances that were put aside to fight that enemy in the first place: or, possibly, the removal of external threats means that people are reduced to directing their hostility at each other. During the years between 1257 and 1312, as Genoa's place as a dominant force in the Mediterranean became ever more established, these internal divisions threatened ever more seriously to collapse the city-state from within.

Genoa, the City of Janus

The publicization of Janus as the founder of Genoa in this period was less a response to external threats, as in Padua, but rather an attempt to persuade Genoese citizens to put aside their petty factionalism and establish some kind of lasting civic unity. The legend derives from the fact that Genoa (modern Italian *Genova*) was known

---

[41] Epstein (1996), 138; see Caro (1967) for the basic political history.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

in medieval Latin not as *Genua*, which was the Roman name for the town, but as *Janua*.[42] This resulted in a symbolic connection (at least from the twelfth century[43]) with the Latin word *ianua*, meaning door, gate, or threshold. Monumental city gates appear on the city seal and Genoese money from 1139; Petti Balbi argues that this is a conscious means of portraying the city's power and resources against the threat of Emperor Frederick Barbarossa, in defense against whom Genoa rebuilt its city walls at the same time; see figure 26.[44] Given the city's previous appropriation of *ianua* as gate, the logical leap from Janua to the "city of Janus" was minimal, particularly as Janus was the Roman god of *ianuae*. Already in the early thirteenth century, the historian and poet Ursone da Sestri referred to Genoa as "the city of Janus" in his section of the Genoese municipal chronicle.[45]

The biggest problem with adopting and promoting the classical Janus as the founder of Genoa was that the ancient sources were not terribly forthcoming on the subject. In fact, the little information they gave was so disparate in subject as to give the appearance that there were a multitude of Januses to choose from: and none of them was positively identified as the founder of Genoa. Medieval Genoese looking for evidence about their supposed founder, therefore, lacked a unified tradition narrating the actions

---

[42] Medieval sources usually refer to the city as *Ianua*, but I have chosen throughout this chapter to use a J for the Latin consonantal I, giving *Janua* for *Ianua* to accord better with the English *Janus*. Sources are cited as written.

[43] Di Fabio (1979), 37-41, and Petti Balbi (1991), 315, are the best analyses of Genoese mythmaking and ideology; Petti Balbi (1991)'s chapter on "the civic myth" (*Il mito cittadino*), 311-26, repeats much of the material in Petti Balbi (1989) but provides a better overall view.

[44] Petti Balbi (1991), 315, and Pavoni (1983). The Porta Soprana, a monumental gate built in the twelfth century as part of the defenses against Barbarossa, is still a major city landmark; see Dufour Bozzo (1988).

[45] Petti Balbi (1982), 57-8. For a general account of local foundation legends, including those of Janus, see Scovazzi (1932).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

of a famous person (as, for instance, with Antenor); this forced them to employ their own creativity to fill in the gaps.

Solinus and Isidore, the obvious authorities for anyone looking for information on the founding of cities, talk around the subject of Janus as founder rather than directly to it, dwelling chiefly on Janus in his various capacities as Roman deity. Isidore, for instance, says merely on the subject of cities that "in Italy, moreover, Janicula was founded by Janus and Saturnia and Latium by Saturn", which after its Virgilian model establishes Janus as a founder—but not necessarily of Genoa.[46] Solinus says much the same.[47] Isidore then goes on to connect the god Janus with portals, explaining that "[d]oors were called after that Janus with whom pagans sanctified every entrance and exit."[48] In this manner, Isidore mentions Janus in two other contexts, one in connection to the naming of the month of January, and the other on the god himself:

> The month of January is called after Janus, to whom the pagans sacrificed; because it is the frontier or threshold of the year. And thus Janus is depicted bifrontally, so he demonstrates both the entering and the exiting of the year.[49]
>
> They call Janus the door of earth and heaven, or of the months; he has two faces, oriented to east and west. Indeed, when he is shown four-faced and called Janus-the-twin, this refers to the four regions of the earth, or to the four elements or ages.[50]

Thus Isidore connects the Roman god Janus with his usual bifrontal representation, his association with portals and thresholds, and his eponymous link with the month of

---

[46] *In Italia autem a Iano Ianiculum, a Saturno Saturnia atque Latium conditum*; Isidorus (1911), 15.1.50.

[47] Solinus (1864), 2.4.

[48] *Ianua a Iano quodam appellatur, cui gentiles omne introitum vel exitum sacraverunt;* Isidorus (1911), 15.7.4.

[49] *Ianuarius mensis a Iano dictus, cuius fuit a gentilibus consecratus; vel quia limes et ianua sit anni. Vnde et bifrons idem Ianus pingitur, ut introitus anni et exitus demonstraretur;* Isidorus (1911), 5.33.3.

[50] *Ianum dicunt quasi mundi vel caeli vel mensuum ianuam: duas Iani facies faciunt, propter orientem et occidentem. Cum vero faciunt eum quadrifrontem et Ianum geminum appellant, ad quattuor mundi partes hoc referunt, vel ad quattuor elementa sive tempora;* Isidorus (1911), 8.11.37.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

January. These references provide good precedent for naming things after Janus, but none of them specifically associates him with the city of Genoa/Janua.

The connection of Janus and Saturn, moreover, goes back to the *Aeneid*, where Virgil mentions an ancient *pater* named Janus several times, in the context of King Latinus and a pre-Trojan Rome. The bifrontal Janus appears at *Aeneid* 7.180 among a series of statues depicting Latinus's forebears and early rulers of Italy, but Janus also appears specifically as a founder at 8.358:

> Moreover, in these two towns, with walls o'erthrown, thou seest the relics and memorials of men of old. This fort father Janus built, that Saturn; Janiculum was this called, that Saturnia.[51]

These references seem to refer to a legend, which also appears in the Eusebius-Jerome chronicle tradition, that Janus was an early king of Italy, who founded a city that was called Janiculum after him.[52] Janus, Saturn, and their descendents—Picus, Faunus, and Latinus, whose daughter Lavinia married Aeneas—thus represent the native Italian half of the Roman Aeneas myth. Paul the Deacon's eighth-century *Historia Romana*, which is largely based on Jerome's chronicle, begins with this legend: "[a]s some say, Janus reigned first in Italy"; his work then goes on to explain Saturn's arrival and his descendents.[53]

---

[51] *Haec duo praeterea disiectis oppida muris,*
reliquias veterumque vides monumenta virorum.
hanc Ianus pater, hanc Saturnus condidit arcem;
Ianiculum huic, illi fuerat Saturnia nomen; Virgil (1918), 8.355-8.

[52] This *Janiculum* as mentioned in the ancient sources is most likely the Janiculan hill in Rome, above Trastevere on the south side of the river. As the epigraph to this chapter indicates, however, Roman *Janiculum* and Ligurian *Janua* were frequently combined in the Middle Ages: either as two cities both founded by Janus, or a single city with various appellations, as is implied by Jacopo da Varagine's explanation of how *Janicula* is merely a diminutive for *Janua*.

[53] *Primus in Italia, ut quibusdam placet, regnavit Ianus*; Paulus Diaconus (1914), 5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The Janus/Saturn myth appears in a number of late Roman sources, like the *Origo gentes Romanae* by Pseudo-Aurelius Victor and various chronicles based on Jerome.[54] Macrobius's *Saturnalia* gives the most detailed account:

> According to Hyginus, who was following Protarchus of Tralles, Janus ruled over the country now called Italy, and he and Cameses, who was also a native of it, held the land in joint sovereignty, the country being called Camesene and the town Janiculum.
>
> Later the kingdom passed to Janus alone. Janus is believed to have had two faces and so could see both in front of himself and behind his back—a reference, no doubt, to the foresight and shrewdness of the king, as one who not only knew the past but would also foresee the future, just as *Antevorta* [Foresight] and *Postvorta* [Hindsight] are worshipped at Rome as the deities most fittingly associated with divination.
>
> When Saturn arrived by ship, Janus received him here as his guest and learned from him the art of husbandry, thereby improving a mode of life which, before men understood how to make use of the fruits of the earth, had been brutish and rude; and he rewarded Saturn by sharing his kingdom with him. Janus was also the first to strike coins of bronze, and in this too he showed his high regard for Saturn; for on one side of a coin he stamped the image of his own head but on the other side a ship, that posterity might preserve the remembrance of Saturn, whose coming had been by ship. And that the bronze coinage was so marked is evident even today from the game of chance in which boys throw pennies in the air, calling "heads" or "ships", for the game bears witness to the old usage.
>
> Janus and Saturn ruled together in harmony and built two neighboring towns by their joint endeavors, as is clear not only from the line in Vergil which runs: *This fortress town bore the name Janiculum, that one Saturnia* [*Aeneid* 8.358] but also from the fact that later generations dedicated two successive months to these personages, December having in it the festival of Saturn and January embodying the name of Janus.[55]

---

[54] E.g. Pseudo-Aurelius Victor (1983) and Macrobius (as below).

[55] *regionem istam, quae nunc vocatur Italia, regno Ianus optinuit, qui, ut Hyginus Protarchum Trallianum secutus tradit, cum Camese aeque indigena terram hanc ita participata potentia possidebant, ut regio Camesene, oppidum Ianiculum vocitaretur. post ad Ianum solum regnum redactum est, qui creditur geminam faciem praetulisse, ut quae ante quaeque post tergum essent intueretur: quod procul dubio ad prudentiam regis sollertiam que referendum est, qui et praeterita nosset et futura prospiceret; sicut Antevorta et Postvorta, divinitatis scilicet aptissimae comites, apud Romanos coluntur. hic igitur Ianus, cum Saturnum classe pervectum excepisset hospitio, et ab eo edoctus peritiam ruris, ferum illum et rudem ante fruges cognitas victum in melius redegisset, regni eum societate muneravit. cum primus quoque area signaret, servavit et in hoc Saturni reverentiam ut, quoniam ille navi fuerat advectus, ex una quidem parte sui capitis effigies, ex altera vero navis exprimeretur, quo Saturni memoriam in posteros propagaret. aes ita fuisse signatum hodieque intelligitur in aleae lusu, cum pueri denarios in sublime iactantes capita aut navia lusu teste vetustatis exclamant. hos una*

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Like Paul the Deacon, most universal histories and chronicles of the Middle Ages that begin this far back include the legend of Janus and Saturn. Thus the sources at the disposal of the Genoese told the story of a historical "king Janus", the first ruler of Italy, as well as that of a two-faced god worshiped by the Romans. These two were rarely equated or merged consciously, but as the passage from Macrobius shows, there was frequent overlap between the two legends. The *Saturnalia* deals chiefly with Janus, king of Italy, but Macrobius attributes the bifrontal tradition to King Janus's omniscient leadership, and says furthermore that his supreme wisdom in ruling was the cause of his veneration by the Romans.

The traditional authorities, therefore, were full of stories about someone (king, god, hero) named Janus—but the accumulated evidence was decidedly vague on the subject of his precise accomplishments, how they all fit together, and how (or indeed whether) they had any link with the founding of Genoa. The only source that clearly dealt with Genoa itself was Livy's *Ab urbe condita,* which discussed Roman Genoa's role in the Punic Wars (under the Roman name *Genua*, naturally), but never addressed the city's origins.[56] When the thirteenth-century Genoese looked for sources about the founder and early history of their city, therefore, they found a number of disconnected traditions, all of them frustratingly silent on the subject they were most interested in: the founding of the city of Genoa.

---

concordesque regnasse vicinaque oppida communi opera condidisse praeter Maronem, qui refert: Ianiculum huic, illi fuerat Saturnia nomen etiam illud *in promptu est quod posteri quoque duos eis continuos menses dicarunt, ut December sacrum Saturni, Ianuarius alterius vocabulum possideret*; Macrobius (1963), 1.7.19-23, and (1969), 58-9 [slightly modified].

[56] Livy (1919), 21.32 and 28.46.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Aside from the brief mention of Janus by Ursone da Sestri, the first Genoese citizen to show a real interest in these matters was the historian Jacopo Doria, the last official chronicler of the city. For reasons which are still unclear, the annalistic tradition begun by Caffaro in 1099 ended with Doria; he presented his work (covering the years 1280-1293) to the commune in 1294 shortly before his death, and no other chronicler was appointed. In any event, one of the most interesting features of the myth of Janus in Genoa is that discussion of the city's origins appears in Doria's section at the end of the chronicle, rather than in Caffaro's section at the beginning. Caffaro's chronicle plunges right into contemporary events, starting with the participation of the Genoese in the First Crusade in 1099, without going any further back in the city's history, and the chroniclers appointed after him followed his lead, each picking up where his predecessor left off. The exception is Doria, who felt it necessary to go back to the beginning and revisit Genoa's origins before continuing on to his part of the contemporary chronicle. As he explains in his preface:

> Before I turn to my proposed material, I will relate in these writings what I have found regarding the city of Janua in certain histories and ancient legends, and afterward I will be certain to return to my subject.
>
> For when I did not find anything written before the time of the noble Caffaro, citizen of Genoa, who began the work of the present chronicle in the year of Our Lord 1097 (as is found in the beginning of this chronicle), nor could I learn of the construction of this city in other books, when nonetheless the founders of many other cities in Italy and other parts of the world are treated in the writings of Isidore and Solinus and other historians; moved by admiration, I began to think with silent and persistent mind how I could discover anything of ancient times; but I could not find anything of [Genoa's] founder up to now in other written authorities, on account of [the story's] great antiquity.[57]

---

[57] *...antequam ad propositam accedam materiam, redigam in scriptis quedam que inveni de civitate Ianue in quibusdam ystoriis et legendis antiquis, et postea ad meam materiam redire curabo.*

Nam cum non inuenirem aliquid scriptum ante tempus Caphari nobilis ciuis Ianue, qui opus presentis cronice incepit anno Domini .mlxxxxvii., prout in principio huius cronice inuenitur, nec constructionem huius

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

As Doria relates his ineffectual search to find out more about the distant origins of his city, he expresses his surprise, first, that Caffaro himself did not address the subject, and second, that few other historical authorities (such as Isidore and Solinus) mention the early history of Genoa. Narrowing his search, Doria is particularly put out at finding nothing about the *founding* of Genoa, an event which holds a significance for him beyond just "early history". He describes his search specifically as looking for details about the *constructionem huius civitate*, or "building of this city", and complains that tales of the *edificatores*, or founders of other cities, are easily found. As words, *constructio* and *edificator* refer literally to physical construction; both, however, also allude to the more symbolic establishment of a people by a mythic hero, who founds the human component of the city, as much as or even more than the physical.[58] Given his city's contemporary success, Doria is hunting for evidence of an equally brilliant founding hero for the Genoese people, and his failure to find one baffles him, when the histories treat the origins of other (implied: less prominent) cities in detail. He assumes not only that contemporary prominence must be the result of a illustrious past, or specifically, an illustrious beginning, but also that having a written history is a significant part of the glorification of a city. For Doria, this is an area in which Genoa is not properly appreciated—and his tangential prologue is intended to correct the defect, at least partially.

---

ciuitatis in libris aliquibus reperirem, cum tamen de multis aliis ciuitatibus Ytalie et aliarum partium mundi per Ysidorum et Solinum et alios ystoriographos edificatores ipsarum scriptum inueniatur, admiratione motus cepi tacita ac vigili mente pensare, qualiter ab antiquo tempore possem aliquid inuenire; set constructorem ipsius in libris aliquibus autenticis non potui usque nunc inuenire, forte propter antiquitatem ipsius; Jacopo Doria (1929), 3-4.

[58] Cf. Giovanni Villani's account in chapter 3 of the building and early settlement of Florence—its composition with respect to both buildings and people.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

However, the history of the founding of Genoa that Doria then proceeds to tell is, curiously, one not supported by any of the ancient sources; in this legend, popular with the *vulgo*, or common people, Genoa was founded by a Trojan prince fleeing the sack of Troy:

> But common opinion in the city of Genoa holds that after the destruction of Troy a certain noble Trojan by the name of Janus came to these parts, and landed in a place now called Sarzano, that is, *saltus Iani*, or Janus's landing; and it is said that he built a fortress in the place now called Castello, where the archiepiscopal palace is today, and he named the city of Genoa after his own name, that is, Janus. And indeed, I found some mention of our city in the book of Titus Livius, who was a great historian of the city of Rome, which partly demonstrates its antiquity; therefore I will write his words word for word in the present work, followed by similar things which I have found in other ancient books.[59]

Most historians have understood Doria's use of *vulgo* to be pejorative, that is, to indicate that he is relating a legend popular with the "common herd", to which he himself does not subscribe.[60] I would argue the contrary, that his use of the phrase *opinio vulgaris* is intended to indicate the widespread dissemination of the Trojan legend in the Genoa of Doria's time. This interpretation makes more sense given his transition to his next point: common opinion holds that Genoa was founded by a Trojan prince, and indeed (*verum quia*) the city appears in Livy's account of the Punic Wars, so its antiquity is corroborated at least that far back.[61]

---

[59] *...set vulgaris tenet opinio in ciuitate Ianue, quod post destructionem urbis Troiane quidam nobilis Troianus nomine Ianus applicuit ad has partes, et in loco ubi nunc dicitur Sarçanum, id est saltus Iani, descendit, castrumque in loco ubi nunc Castellum dicitur, ubi est domus archiepiscopalis modo, hedificavit, et ciuitatem Ianue a suo nomine scilicet Iano denominauit. uerum quia in libro Titi Livi, qui fuit magnus ystoriographus urbis Rome, quedam de ciuitate nostra inveni, que antiquitatem ipsius in parte demonstrant, ideo verba ipsius de uerbo ad uerbum in presente opere scribam, et postmodum similiter que inueni in aliis antiquis scripturis*; Jacopo Doria (1929), 4.

[60] See e.g. Monleone's introduction to Jacopo Doria (1929), xxxv. Epstein (1996) translates as "'vulgar opinion', an unreliable source", 165.

[61] See fn. 56, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Although the Trojan legend of Janus does not appear in the ancient sources, it is easy to see whence it derives, given the prominence of the legends of Aeneas and Antenor both as Trojan refugees and as founding fathers of Italian cities. Doria's account of the Trojan Janus repeats many of the same tropes used for Aeneas and Antenor: emphasizing his noble descent, for instance, or building the first fortress in the center of the city that would later bear his name, on the site-to-be of some prominent contemporary (medieval) edifice—in this case, the archiepiscopal palace. Doria recognizes that nothing in his sources supports this story, so he attributes the legend to as wide a support base as he can (*opinio vulgaris*), and then demonstrates that the ancient sources at least circumstantially support the notion of a Trojan origin, even if they do not address it directly.

Finally, after a series of quotations about Genoa from Livy, early medieval chronicles like the *Historia Longobardorum*, and saints' lives, Doria turns to the question of why some ancient sources refer to the city as *Genua* and others as *Janua*. His discussion of this subject is unoriginal, being largely based on Isidore's definitions of *genua* and *ianua* in the *Etymologies* (book 20), but he does address the various attributes of the Roman god Janus, finally concluding firmly that:

> Janua [Genoa] is called after Janus. This Janua, which is a gate, is the first entrance and access, because Janus is the god of beginnings, to whom the ancients consecrated every entrance and exit. And therefore, as a gate is the entrance and exit to a house, in the same way our city is the entrance and exit to all Lombardy. And Janua is called after Janus, the god of beginnings, who is depicted as having two faces, that is, forward and back; thus the city of Janua overlooks the sea before and the earth behind; and as he is said to have two *faculas*, that is two portals, east and west, thus the city of Janua has two gates, namely, a gate to the sea, and a gate to the land.[62]

---

[62] *Ianua a Iano dicitur. hec Ianua, id est porta, primus ingressus, primus introitus, quia Ianus est deus principiorum, cui antiqui omnem exitum et introitum consecravuerunt. unde sicut porta est introitus et exitus cuiuslibet domus, ita ciuitas nostra est introitus et exitus totius Lonbardie. vel dicitur Ianua a Iano deo*

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In these few paragraphs, Doria has accounted for his city's glorious past in a number of different and complementary ways: the "popular" tale of a noble founder provides the city with a mythic heritage linked to that of Troy and Rome. This legend is vouched for by written authorities which attest to Genoa's prominent role as a Roman city in the Punic Wars (in the third century BC) and an early Christian city under the Lombards and Carolingians (c. 400-900 AD). Finally, Doria adduces an etymological explanation of Genoa's various Latin names (*Genua* and *Janua*): both of which, in the end, glorify the city. Thus he approaches the subject from two different directions: both the mytho-historical and the etymological. At the same time, Doria uses evidence from several different types of sources: the popular story of the *vulgaris opinio*, the longstanding authority of the *antiquis scripturis*, and the etymology of the word itself.

This wide-ranging account of the city's origins serves a number of purposes. The adoption (or invention) of Janus the Trojan prince provides a mythic founder, himself of illustrious lineage, to serve as a founding father for the contemporary Genoese: a moral ideal to assure them of their own importance in the larger scale of human history, and to encourage them to live up that heritage. The evidence of the *scripturis antiquis* bolsters the Trojan origin myth with the weight of written authority, as well as proving Genoa's importance in the times between the city's founding and its present. Finally, the etymology of its name suggests the inevitability of Genoa's role in human history: that its founder, Janus, who was worshiped by the Romans as a god, named the city after himself *and* for qualities inherent to the name *Janua*—like being the gateway to all Lombardy.

---

principiorum, qui pingitur habere duas faties, scilicet ante et retro, sic ciuitas Ianue prospicit ante mare, et retro terram; et dicitur, habere duas faculas, id est duas portas, oriens et occidens, sic ciuitas Ianue habet duas portas, uidelicet portam maris, et portam terre; Jacopo Doria (1929), 8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Doria not only provides his city with a glorious early history, but also introduces a sense of destiny to its progress, from its early beginnings up to the contemporary Genoa of the late thirteenth century. The didactic implications are clear: Doria's fellow citizens have a responsibility, inherent in the very name of their city, to maintain its fame and authority in future years.

As the subscription in the official manuscript asserts, Jacopo Doria presented his portion of the municipal chronicle to the officials of the commune in the summer of 1294, at which time the archbishop of Genoa, Jacopo da Varagine, had already conceived of writing his own chronicle of Genoa. Jacopo da Varagine was already an author well-known for his compilation of the *Legenda Aurea* (finished c. 1267), a long collection of saints' lives which gained immediate and widespread popularity throughout western Europe.[63] He came from a local Ligurian family, however, and he had been elected to the archbishopric of Genoa in 1292.[64] His preface states that his aim was to write a history of Genoa rather than a chronicle in the fashion of Caffaro, situating the history of Genoa in the larger context of universal history.[65] Da Varagine's work is divided into twelve thematic sections rather than being written annalistically, dealing in turn with the foundation of the city, its early history and appearance, and its secular and ecclesiastical

---

[63] See fn. 37, above.

[64] See Bertini Guidetti's introduction to Jacopo da Varagine (1995) as well as Airaldi (1988) and Bertini Guidetti (2001).

[65] Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 337-8. On Jacopo's chronicle, see Bertini Guidetti's introduction to Jacopo da Varagine (1995) as well as her various articles: Bertini (1994), and Bertini Guidetti (1997a) and (1997b). Bertini Guidetti (1998) is an interesting if somewhat unfocused collection of articles on Jacopo and his work.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

governance. Da Varagine spent the years 1295 to 1297 working on his history, and it seems to have been left mostly completed at his death in 1298.[66]

Like Jacopo Doria, Jacopo da Varagine expresses great surprise and indignation at the absence of any mention of Genoa in the ancient sources and early chronicles:

> Thinking, therefore, and considering with careful thought, how there are many cities in Italy of which the ancient historians make much mention, we are amazed that so very little can be found written by them on the city of Genoa, as renowned, noble, and powerful as it is.[67]

His explanation for this is that Genoa was a smaller city back then, and the historians were only concerned with writing about large and famous cities; nevertheless, he has taken the liberty, here in his work, of collecting all the references he could find to Genoa's founder and its early history.[68] Da Varagine situates the origins of Genoese history by beginning his account not with the founding of Genoa but with the "first founders of cities" (*primi fundatores civitatum*).[69] This not only contextualizes the founding of Genoa but justifies focusing on cities by explaining their particular significance in human history. He points out that: "every city, therefore, has two founders: the chief one, namely, God himself; and another secondary one, namely, a human being."[70] Cities are a work of God just as man himself is, and he traces their

---

66 On the chronicle and its composition, see Bertini Guidetti's introduction to Jacopo da Varagine (1995) as well as Monleone's introduction to Jacopo da Varagine (1941).

67 *cogitantes igitur et sedula meditatione volventes quod multe civitates in Ytalia sunt de quibus antiqui ystoriographi magnam faciunt mentionem, mirati sumus quod de civitate Ianuensi tam inclita, tam nobili, tam potenti, satis modica ab ipsis invenientur expressa;* Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 337.

68 Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 337-8.

69 Ibid., 340.

70 *habet igitur civitas quelibet duplicem constructorem: unum principalem, scilicet ipsum Deum; alium secundarium, scilicet aliquem hominem terrenum;* Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 341.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

development through early Biblical history.[71] Having explained how Nimrod built the first city after the flood, as well as the city of Babylon, he then explains how the world was populated, as people set out from the Holy Land to found cities elsewhere, "one of whom was Janus."[72] This brings him to the core of the first half of his narrative.

Jacopo da Varagine's treatment of the Janus legend shows the renowned Dominican penchant for intellectual organization: instead of trying to combine all of his sources' disparate references to Janus into a single civic founder, thus creating a bit of a mess (as might perhaps be said of Doria), da Varagine sorts them all out and proclaims proudly:

> It must be noted that there are supposedly three Januses. The first is Janus, who came from the East to Italy, and first reigned there. The second is that prince, who was a citizen of Troy, who came to Italy after the destruction of Troy. The third is the king of the Epirotes [from Epirus, in Greece], who came to Rome; and whom, after his death, the Romans deified and venerated as a god.[73]

He then goes on to tell the story of each of these founders of the city, using them to build on each other. As his chapter titles divide the material: the first Janus founded the city of Genoa (*construxit et hedificavit*); the second made it bigger and better (*ampliavit et melioravit*); and the third was honored in Genoa for his role among the Romans (*in Ianua colebatur*).[74] In this manner da Varagine constructs a civic myth which combines all three extant Janus traditions into one: Janus-the-first-king-of-Italy (of the Janus and Saturn myth, as elaborated in Macrobius), Janus-the-prince-of-Troy (as told in Jacopo

---

[71] According to da Varagine, Cain built the first city, and it took part in his sin since he retired there to defend himself after having slain his brother Abel: thus were the first walls put around cities; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 341.

[72] *de quorum numero fuit Ianus*; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 342.

[73] *notandum est quod tres fuisse Iani dicuntur. primus est Ianus, qui de partibus Orientis in Ytaliam venit et ibi primo regnavit. secundus est quidam princeps, qui fuit civis Troie, qui post destrutionem Troie ad Ytaliam venit. tertius est rex Epyrotarum, qui Romam venit et post mortem suam Romani ipsum deificaverunt et tanquam deum coluerunt;* Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 342.

[74] Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 338.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Doria's chronicle), and Janus-worshiped-by-the-Romans-as-a-god (as appears in all the Roman sources, but especially in Isidore).

In the end, da Varagine's explanation is even more comprehensive than Doria's; he fits three different Januses in neat succession into the early history of Genoa before moving on to the Livian account of the Punic Wars and the conversion of the city to Christianity. In this sense his account is an extension of Doria's, since it has the same underlying assumptions: the necessity of knowing one's civic origins, for instance, and the importance of having a written history to elaborate those origins. But da Varagine's account is more systematic, organized, and all-inclusive than Doria's—even if to a modern ear it sounds ridiculous for a city to have three different official founders, all of whom happen to have the same name. But if we enquire into why da Varagine put each of these stories into his history of Genoa (aside from a desire to be thorough in his use of sources), it becomes clear that all three of them address the cultural importance of the Genoese in relation to the Romans (who set the standards for republican ideology). His nicely composite civic myth accomplishes three purposes: firstly, it claims a certain superiority for Genoa over Rome (and, by extension, every other city in Italy) because it was founded by the first king of Italy long before the foundation of Rome; secondly, it equates the history of Genoa with that of Rome by claiming a noble Trojan origin for the city, equivalent to that of Rome (or better, since Aeneas didn't actually found Rome itself); and finally, it establishes Genoa's participation in Roman civilization via shared gods and customs.[75] While attempting to claim superiority and close association at the

---

[75] These are precisely the same ways of establishing a historical association with Rome identified in chapter 3.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

same time may seem a bit strange to modern ears, Jacopo da Varagine seems to have been more interested in thoroughness than consistency.

Da Varagine's reliance on Roman models extends into the rest of his chronicle, suggesting that for him, as for many of his contemporaries, the idea of Rome as *Urbs,* or The City, was not just a figure of speech. Ancient Rome was the standard by which the success or failure of contemporary cities as socio-political entities was judged; further, the comparison extended from the mytho-historical realm into a more concrete political one. The central core of da Varagine's history is parts six through eight (of twelve), which define and describe the Genoese political system (part six), the qualities appropriate to its rulers (part seven), and the qualities appropriate to its citizens (part eight). Da Varagine's ideal political system is that of consuls, as in the Roman republic (and the Genoese commune as originally constituted in 1098), and his ideal political qualities are essentially Roman ones with a Christian overlay. For instance, his argument for considering the common over the individual good points out that "Roman judges and consuls were more concerned with the state than with their own affairs."[76] Although he frequently phrases abstract virtues—piety, justice, mercy—within a Christian framework, most of his practical examples are couched in Roman terms; similarly, most of these examples come from Roman sources like Cicero, Livy, Vegetius, and Valerius Maximus.[77]

Thus the connections that Jacopo da Varagine draws between his own city's history and that of Rome are both historically and culturally significant. His account of Genoa's origins proves Genoa's greater antiquity and significance in the grand scheme of

---

[76] *Romani iudices et consules plus rem publicam quam propriam zelabant*; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 402.

[77] Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 31-44.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

human history, beyond Rome, being the city founded by the first king of Italy—even, by implication, the first city ever founded in Italy. At the same time, he acknowledges Genoa's cultural associations with, and reliance on, the ancient Romans. This supports the broadest purpose of his history, which, as with Jacopo Doria, is didactic. Formulating Genoa's predecessors as he does means that that the ancient Romans appear as a logical and historically precedented model for the contemporary citizens of Genoa and, furthermore, implies that Genoa's older and more illustrious history should inspire the Genoese to surpass the Romans in the political and economic spheres. Here again we see the equating of illustrious past with illustrious present, which as we have seen is (culturally speaking) a two-way exchange. A successful present causes people to look for an illustrious past to explain it, and illustrious pasts can be used to inspire contemporaries to an even more successful present.

Having received such eloquent literary explication at the hands of both the official representative of the Genoese commune in the 1290s, and the official representative of the Genoese church in the 1290s, therefore, the appropriation of the classical Janus as the official founder of Genoa was publicly monumentalized about a decade later. The cathedral of San Lorenzo had been badly damaged by fire in a period of rioting in the winter of 1296-7, and the communal officials in charge of the restoration integrated the legend of Janus into the newly reconstructed nave.[78] The introduction of communal propaganda into a sacred, albeit public, space was not unprecedented: a

---

[78] Discussed as the "baptism" (*battesimo*) of Janus in Petti Balbi (1991), 319-20, and Di Fabio (1979), 39.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

bronze statue of a griffin had been commissioned by the commune for the cathedral in 1226.[79] The griffin was one particularly apt symbol of the city, being an uneasy combination of lion and eagle, the symbols respectively for the Guelfs (the papal lion) and the Ghibellines (the imperial eagle).[80] Part of the post-1297 reconstruction included the recommissioning of the griffin in marble rather than bronze, presumably because the bronze one had melted, or at least been badly damaged, in the fire.[81] Similarly, the twelfth and thirteenth centuries had seen the decoration of the cathedral façade with a considerable number of Roman sarcophagi (figures 27 and 28).[82]

A few streets away, the exterior of the Doria family church of San Matteo had been decorated with a number of not-especially-religious inscriptions commemorating recent Genoese naval victories over Pisa and Venice; see figure 29.[83] Teofilo de Negri has commented that Genoa's population density in the later Middle Ages left few large public spaces for communal monuments[84]—the Genoese had nothing like the two large piazze on either side of Padua's Palazzo della Ragione, for example, and certainly nothing like Siena's famous Campo. As the only large gathering spots and monumental spaces in the city, therefore, the city's churches became the repositories of secular memorials as well as religious ones.

---

79 Di Fabio and Besta (1998), 196-99.

80 On the griffin as civic symbol, see Bernabò di Negro (1983), Cellerino (1988), and Petti Balbi (1991), 315-6. The standard work on Genoese money (which shows both gates [*ianuae*] and griffins) is Pesce and Felloni (1975).

81 Along with Di Fabio and Besta (1998), 196-99, see Cellerino (1988).

82 Di Fabio and Besta (1998), 361-4. Dufour Bozzo (1967) relates the fortuna of Roman sarcophagi in Genoa more broadly; they were used as planters and bathtubs as well as decorative wall insets.

83 Silva (1987), #122 (1284; battle of Meloria, a Genoese victory over Pisa under Oberto Doria); #123 (1290; destruction of the Porto Pisano by Genoese under Corrado Doria); and #125 (1298; battle of Curzola, a Genoese victory over Venice under Lamba Doria). Further inscriptions (Silva, #132, #134, and #139) date from 1323, 1353-4, and 1379.

84 Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 106.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The Genoese cathedral renovations included the complete restructuring of the arches on either side of the central nave, and it is here that we find the monumentalization of the Janus legend. The reconstruction of the left side of the nave was completed first, in 1307, and between the two levels of arches, the restorers put an inscription: "1307: Pastono di Negro and Niccolò di Goano had this structure renovated with the legates' tithe" (see figures 30-2).[85] As also occurred in twelfth-century Rome, this echoes the ancient Roman practice of putting inscriptions on public works, naming the magistrates in charge of their execution.[86] It is certainly related to the medieval practice of putting inscriptions in chapels or on tombs, naming their donors, but differs in the sense that here, Niccolò di Goano and Pastono di Negro were using the city's funds rather than their own to accomplish their task. The inscription therefore commemorates their leadership and supervision rather than their financial sponsorship. (Ancient Roman magistrates, of course, had to use their own money, so Nicolò and Pastono were lucky—they received all the credit but incurred none of the personal expense.)

The connection goes further, however: on one of the columns above the inscription, near the front of the nave, the same restorers put a large carved head of Janus (slightly two-faced) above another explanatory inscription. Both head and inscription are

---

[85] † M°CCCVII PASTONVS DE NIGRO · ET NICOLETUS DE GOANO · FECERUNT RENOVARI HOC OPUS · DE DECENO LEGATORUM †; *1307: Pastonus de Nigro et Nicoletus de Goano fecerunt renovari hoc opus de deceno legatorum*; Silva (1987), #25. Although I give Silva's catalogue numbers for fullness of reference, the transcriptions and texts given throughout are my own; her transcriptions are not always accurate.

[86] For this practice in medieval Rome, see Krautheimer (2000), 198. Inscriptions of 1157 and 1191-3 survive; Brezzi (1947) reproduces the former as fig. 14, opposite p. 384.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

easily visible from the nave (see figure 31): "Janus, first king of Italy, of the lineage of giants, who founded Genoa in the time of Abraham."[87]

This commemorates the first Janus of Jacopo da Varagine's account, the first king of Italy and a descendant of Noah's grandson Nimrod.[88] The qualification *tempore Abrahae* is particularly suggestive given the inscription's presence in a church, where other images would have been available to remind the viewer of how very long ago "the time of Abraham" was. The carved head, reminiscent of an Old Testament prophet or king, would have provided a similar visual referent. And the connection would have been a source of pride to any Genoese citizen who beheld it, knowing that his city was founded so long ago, by such an eminent figure.

Five years later, in 1312, the same officials oversaw the completion of the restoration of the arches on the right side of the nave. They started with their previous idea of inscribing their own names and the date, but instead of adding another piece of sculpture, they continued their homage to their city's founder in a different way, by extending their inscription down the nave (see figure 33):

> 1312: Filippo di Negro and Nicolò di Goano, restorers of this church, had this renovation done from the legates' tithe. Janus, a Trojan prince experienced in astrology, sailing in search of a safe, healthy, and defensible place to live, came to Genoa—which had already been founded by Janus, king of Italy, great-grandson of Noah—and seeing it well-protected by the mountains and the sea, increased its name and power.[89]

---

87 IAN⁹ P^IM⁹ REX / YTALIE·DEꝑ / GENIE GIGAN / TIŪ·Q^IFŪDA / VIT IĀN·TPR / ABRAHE; *Ianus primus rex Ytalie, de progenie gigantium, qui fundavit Januam tempore Abrahae;* Silva (1987), #53.

88 Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 341-2.

89 MCCCXII · FILIPP⁹ ŏ NIGRO · 2 NICOLAŪ ŏ GOANO REPARATORES HUI⁹ ECCL⁹IE · FECERT RENOVĀĪ HOC OP⁹ · ŏ ŏCENO LEGATO⁊ ·:· IAN⁹ PRĪCEPS TROIAN⁹· ASTROLOGIA PERIT⁹ · NAVIGĀDO AD HABITĀDŪ · LOCŪ QUERĒS SANŪ D[OMI]NABILĒ 2 SECURŪ IANUA IĀ FŪDATĀ A IANO REGE YTALIE ꝑNEPOTE NOE VENIT · ET EĀ CERNĒS MARE 2 MŌTIB⁹ TUTISSIMĀ · ĀPLIAVIT NŌĒ 2 POSSE; *mcccxii: Filippus de Nigro et Nicolaus de Goano reparatores huius ecclesie fecerunt renovari hoc opus de deceno*

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This inscription, being much longer than the other, extends almost the entire side of the nave. The Janus referenced here is not da Varagine's first Janus but his second, the prince of Troy who improved the previously-founded-but-still-very-small city of Genoa. As with their previous inscription, the details all come from Jacopo da Varagine's chronicle—but the inscription on this side of the church also cross-references that on the other side of the church with its reference to "Genoa, already founded by Janus, king of Italy, great-grandson of Noah."[90] Any citizen standing in the main nave of the cathedral would have these inscriptions and the head of Janus on either side of him, high enough up to be visually imposing but not so high as to be illegible. The result, still apparent today, creates a feeling of being virtually surrounded by the illustrious origins of the city. Janus, king of Italy, on the left side, balances out Janus, prince of Troy, on the right. (The inclusion of Janus, the Roman god, was presumably harder to justify in a Christian cathedral—and he was in any case less essential as a founding figure than the other two.) Complemented by three different explanatory inscriptions, the regal face of Janus looked sternly down on his descendants, encouraging them to live up to their heritage. The monument's location in the cathedral is also significant, given the church's status as a place of sanctuary and peace, a gathering place for the entire Genoese community.

Thus the monumentalization of the Janus legend in San Lorenzo serves exactly the same purpose as Doria's and da Varagine's texts, but in a more permanently available public forum—and one which, as a church, was the medieval city's most common forum for providing moral exemplars and leadership to its people. Conforming to the ancient

---

legatorum. Janus princeps Troianus astrologia peritus navigando ad habitandum locum querens sanum dominabilem et securum Janua iam fundata a Jano rege Ytalie pronepote Noe venit, et eam cernens mare et montibus tutissimam ampliavit nomen et posse; Silva (1987), #25.

[90] *Janua iam fundata a Jano rege Ytalie pronepote Noe*; see previous note.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Roman definition of written history, each of these three expressions of the Genoese foundation legend was designed to educate the Genoese people about their past, and to provide a past worthy of their present late-thirteenth-century success. More than that, each one sought to provide a standard for present behavior, encouraging individual morality and civic unity at the same time. In this way the Janus legend explicitly addresses the main problem plaguing the Genoese in the late thirteenth century, that of internal factionalism. In publicizing the illustrious origins of their city, Doria and da Varagine—and di Negro and di Goano—stress the importance of the civic over the individual good. For contemporary Genoese citizens, the myth of Janus recalled their shared ancestry and encouraged them to live up to its examples: two kings, one prince, two city founders, and one savior of Rome, later deified. All of these were founders, creators, people concerned with the good of the city over their own interests; in fact, their great fame rested on their service to the city. As such they provided powerful counter-examples to the destructive actions of the contemporary Genoese, who threatened to destroy the city with their personal rivalries and petty strife. As da Varagine's examples of republican Rome were intended to demonstrate, the citizens of Genoa had to consider the common good, the *res publica,* over personal gain or grievance if their city was to achieve its highest potential.

Agents Provocateurs

The public nature of the media in which the Janus legend was disseminated in the years around 1300, two widely-known literary works and one public monument, do a great deal to prove that Jacopo Doria and Jacopo da Varagine were not a couple of

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

scholars incidentally interested in curious old legends. At the same time, an inquiry into their respective roles in Genoese society and how they saw them may clarify the ideological workings of the Genoese state. How did the Janus legend go from Doria's *vulgaris opinio* to a material personification in stone in the Genoese cathedral, and why did it happen in this period specifically? We have already argued that Genoa's biggest problems in the years around 1300 were internal rather than external, and that the elaboration of the Janus legend was in large part an attempt to address Genoa's internal divisions; who were these men that they were appointed—or appointed themselves—to solve the city's problems?

Jacopo Doria, for his part, filled the same role in the Genoa of the late thirteenth century as Lovato Lovati or Albertino Mussato did for Padua in the same period, being a member of the ruling elite with literary, even classical interests. The Doria name reveals his membership in one of Genoa's leading noble families, which dominated Genoese history and politics for several hundred years both before and after Jacopo's own time.[91] Jacopo himself was never a prominent city official or military leader, but his brother Oberto was one of the most renowned capitani del popolo of the thirteenth century; he ruled Genoa jointly with Oberto Spinola for a number of years after the Ghibelline revolt of 1270, and oversaw the construction of the Palazzo del Comune complex in Genoa.[92] The Doria family church is where we also saw the posting of several plaques commemorating the Genoese naval victories of the late thirteenth century.[93] So the Doria family in general, and Jacopo and Oberto's generation in particular, was intimately

---

91 See chapter 4, fn. 25, as well as Fusero (1973).
92 DBI 41.424-31 and Epstein (1996), 156-78; also Grossi Bianchi and Poleggi (1979), 169.
93 See fn. 83, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

involved both with the workings of Genoese government and with its self-advertisement in the late thirteenth century.

Compared to his brother, Jacopo must have been rather shy and retiring, preferring analysis and rear-echelon bureaucracy work to a position in the public eye. His occupation for most of his adult life seems to have been that of historian and archivist (Latin *custos*) to the Genoese commune, organizing and keeping the city government's multitudinous records.[94] His role in continuing Caffaro's chronicle is a direct result of this employment. He also redacted the first volume of the Genoese *Libri iurium*, or "books of laws", in which laws, treaties, and other official documents were recorded.[95]

His attempt at the beginning of his part of the municipal chronicle to find evidence of Genoa's historical origins is therefore hardly surprising. A lifetime of dealing with written documents such as international treaties, charters, claims of property rights and traditional usages—not to mention mercantile investment contracts—provides broad context for a desire to find literary evidence of a city's early history—not to mention a determination to remedy the deficiency if sufficient evidence does not pre-exist. But just as Lovato was not only a judge and a prehumanist, Doria was not only an archivist: he actively participated in the governance of his city, if not on the same level as his more famous brother. He served as a representative of the commune on at least two ambassadorial missions (in 1256 and 1271), and at least once held the office of *anziano*,

---

94 Monleone in Jacopo Doria (1929), xvii.

95 Monleone in Jacopo Doria (1929), xv-xviii; these have been edited in Puncuh and Rovere (1992).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

or councilmember, in the Genoese government.[96] Thus, in a pattern that we have seen before, Jacopo Doria was a member of the ruling class (here, from the nobility, who were much more involved in the Genoese government than their counterparts in Padua); along with his close friends and relatives, he was intimately involved in the government of his city, as well as with its public image on both an internal and an external level, be that via commemorative plaques, municipal histories, or ambassadorial missions. Separating out his personal interest in Genoa's classical past from his public persona as an official of the regime would seem like an artificial division; rather, the two complemented and built upon each other.

A similar argument can be made for Jacopo da Varagine, who was clearly well-educated (as a prominent Dominican) and interested on an intellectual level in historical legends and the past (as is obvious in his *Legenda Aurea*). But as archbishop of Genoa from 1292, he played a prominent role in city politics and society; in 1295 he even served as one of the Genoese ambassadors to the pope (a role which would require deft handling in order to avoid charges of conflict of interest).[97] The circumstances in which his history of Genoa was written would suggest, however, that the work had much more social relevance than a mere historical exercise. Da Varagine began to write his chronicle in 1295, a year in which, as he himself narrates: "in the month of January, general and universal peace was made in the city of Genoa between those known as Mascherati, or Ghibellines, and those known as Rampini, or Guelfs."[98] This peace ended a major feud

---

96 DBI 41.391-6; Epstein (1996), 163-6; and Monleone's introduction to Jacopo Doria (1929), xxix-lxi.

97 Monleone in Jacopo da Varagine (1941), 68, and Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 380-1.

98 *de mense ianuarii, facta est pax generalis et universalis in civitate Ianue inter illos qui dicebantur Mascarati, sive Gibelini, et illos qui dicebantur Rampini, sive Guelfi*; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 502.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

that had lasted more than sixty years, and was much celebrated both by the commune and by the Genoese church—da Varagine himself, as archbishop, played a major role in the reconciliation. He then presided over the public declaration of the peace, an associated Mass, and a large communal meal, and gave everyone present the archiepiscopal blessing (one would imagine, most of the city population, for such a momentous event).[99] His history expresses all the more regret, then, that the peace so ceremonially enacted lasted less than a year: "what sorrow!", he says.[100] The riots that broke out between Guelf and Ghibelline in December resulted in multiple deaths, much damage to property, and, most symbolically, major fire damage to the Genoese cathedral.[101] Da Varagine was writing his history of the city during this highly charged moment in Genoese history, at a time when civic harmony and its obstacles were very much on everyone's minds. These concerns appear clearly in his work, not least in his formulation of the myth of Janus.

Furthermore, the surviving manuscript evidence suggests that da Varagine's readers were interested in the same sorts of issues as he himself was in writing the book. At least twelve copies of the work survive from the first hundred years after its dissemination (presumably from da Varagine's death in 1298); many of these are

---

99 Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 502-3.

100 *...proh dolor!*; Jacopo da Varagine (1995), 503.

101 These riots lasted for approximately forty days from the end of December to early February: "they fought armed battles in the streets and the piazzas, and struggled amongst themselves for many days like enemies. From this came the slayings of men, grave injuries to many people, homes set on fire, and the theft and looting of property" [*per vicos et plateas manu armata confligerent et diebus multis ad invicem hostiliter dimicarent. ex quo secute sunt neces hominum, vulnerationes multorum, domorum incendia, rerum exspoliacio et rapina*]; Jacopo da Varagine (1995). For more on the riots and (especially) the damage done to the cathedral, see Di Fabio and Besta (1998), 223-53.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

carefully copied and decorated, and some are illustrated and/or illuminated.[102] More specifically, in his 1941 edition of the history, Giovanni Monleone published an alphabetical list, or index, found at the back of the one of the most important early manuscripts of da Varagine's history, a copy made in Genoa around 1320 (Monleone's MS B; now in the Civica Biblioteca Berio), and which itself served as the archetype for a number of other manuscript copies.[103] The index consists of a short list of fifteen *distinctiones*, all associated with ideas of good governance and almost all referencing the Roman examples offered by da Varagine in his text. A representative sampling of these:

> Greedy: the consuls of the Romans were not [greedy], and therefore the republic was governed well and grew; book 7, chap. 4.
>
> Afflicted friends: we ought to assist [them]. For example, the Romans, who rebuilt Genoa after its destruction by the Africans; book 2, chap. 3.
>
> Trust: ought also to be extended to enemies. For example, the Romans, who governed according to law and trust, even with their enemies, and never broke treaties, were always victorious, and subdued the whole word under them; book 8, chap. 2.
>
> Modesty: ought to be sought by every ruler and victor, so that his victory does not lead him to the sin of pride; an example from the Romans, book 6, chap. 3.
>
> The common good: ought to be placed before one's own good. Example of the Roman Marcus Regulus; book 8, chap. 3.[104]

---

[102] The "vast" manuscript tradition of the *Chronica* is discussed by Monleone in Jacopo da Varagine (1941), 1.343-7, and the five early codices chosen to form the basis of his edition are described at length on 1.351-96. One page from each codex is reproduced in vol. 2 as plates 1-5. The Latin text of the *Chronica* printed by Bertini Guidetti in the appendix to Jacopo da Varagine (1995) is a reprint of Monleone's Latin text.

[103] MS B (Civica Biblioteca Berio MS m.r.cf bis.4.2, *olim* D bis.7.6.20) is described in Jacopo da Varagine (1941), 1.366-73; copies deriving from this codex are discussed at 1.429-44; and the text of the index is given at 2.414-22.

[104] *Avari non erant Romanorum consules et ideo Res publica bene gubernabatur et augmentabatur, lib. VII, cap. IIII.*

Amicis aflictis debemus subvenire. exemplum in Romanis, qui rehedificaverunt Ianuam ab Affricanis destructam, lib. II, cap. III.

Fides etiam inimicis debet servari. exemplum de Romanis, qui propter legalitatem et fidem, quam inimicis suis servabant et numquam pacta frangebant, fuerunt semper victores, et totum mundum sibi subiugaverunt, lib. VIII, cap. II.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This list shows an interest not only in civic ideals (selflessness, magnanimity, trust, modesty, and the common good, as appear above) but also in the specific examples linking those ideals with Roman practice. The fact that it was made as a reference tool in a manuscript of da Varagine's chronicle suggests not only that da Varagine's readers were interested in comparing contemporary Genoa with republican Rome, but that at least some of them actively used his text as a handbook, learning how to improve the governing of their city by comparing it with the way things were done in ancient Rome (as filtered through da Varagine). Da Varagine's text provides the Roman model, but the index demonstrates that people actually accepted his comparison of contemporary Genoa with ancient Rome, and made use of it on a practical basis.

Thus we can see that the trend toward city improvement and civic peace, of which the propagation of the myth of Janus formed a large part, was a widespread effort with effects at a number of different levels. The rulership of the commune and the Genoese church were both involved, specifically in the case of Jacopo Doria and Jacopo da Varagine, but also more broadly, considering the commune's efforts on various civic improvement projects. The promotion of civic peace was something that concerned both secular and religious leaders, and these seem to have collaborated closely in numerous spheres: we see communal officials in charge of cathedral improvements and the archbishop serving as a Genoese ambassador to the pope. I would argue that all of these men were very conscious of the church's role in maintaining peace in the city of Genoa

---

Humilitatem debet pretendere quilibet rector et quilibet victor, quapropter victoriam non debet in superbiam elevari, exemplum habes de Romanis, lib. VI, cap. III.

Utilitati proprie preponenda est communis utilitas. exemplum de Marco Regulo Romano, lib. VIII, cap. III; Jacopo da Varagine (1941), 2.414-22.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and uniting the city's population. Thus Janus, the founder of Genoa, who reminded the Genoese of their shared ancestry while also serving as an important moral example, was adopted not only by the Genoese commune but also by the Genoese church. In this sense the monumentalization of the Janus tradition on the walls of San Lorenzo is an appropriate culmination of the civic myth. The text on which the sculptural head of Janus and its attendant inscriptions were based was written by Genoa's own archbishop—and the reason the church needed to be restored was because of the damage caused in riots, the outbreak of which had inspired Jacopo da Varagine's historiography in the first place. It therefore seems fitting that the secular officials overseeing the restoration of the cathedral should have included a monument to the city's founder, at once recalling the city's collective illustrious heritage and reminding its populace of the dangers of internal factionalism.

Genoa's astronomic success in the late medieval Mediterranean economy and its diplomatic success balancing between pope and emperor in the slippery world of thirteenth-century Italian politics belied an uneasy balance of partisan politics at home. As Genoa's prominent place among the states of late medieval Italy grew more assured, its domestic situation grew increasingly more fraught with tension. As a result, most of the policies pursued by secular and ecclesiastical authorities in the city of Genoa in the late thirteenth century were aimed at fostering a sense of civic pride and unity, from the successful captaincy of Guglielmo Boccanegra in the late 1250s to the increasingly ineffective hold on peace of the swiftly-changing authorities of the early 1300s. Policies

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

included the building of a number of communal palaces and expanding the city's waterfront area, all symbols of the city's independence and economic success. These would have been visible to visitors, vaunting the city's influence and resources as befit one of the most powerful presences in the international, late-medieval Mediterranean. As elsewhere in Italy, the promotion of the classical figure of Janus imbued the city of Genoa and its ruling regime with a sense of political legitimacy and great antiquity, bolstering its ideological claims against such rivals as Pisa and Venice. In these particular circumstances, however, the more important audience was the community of Genoese citizens themselves; the figure of Janus both provided them with a far-reaching civic history, a sense of collective ancestry, and a number of models on which to pattern positive civic behavior. These are taken variously from the Bible, early Christian sources, and the legend of Troy, but also, and above all, from republican Rome, which is presented in Jacopo da Varagine's history of Genoa as a functional and relevant model of republican life. The culminating monumentalization of the Janus tradition in the cathedral restorations of 1307 and 1312 therefore reveals the success of these efforts at civic unification as well as their failures: they demonstrate the influence and power of suggestion that the Janus legend supposedly had by the turn of the fourteenth century, that communal officials should include a sculpted head and inscriptions in their restoration plans for the cathedral. At the same time, the necessity for the restoration suggests the growing chaos of Genoese life—and in fact, 1312, the year in which the cathedral restoration (with its final Janus inscription) was finished, was a year after the Genoese had surrendered the autonomy of the city to Emperor Henry VII,

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

in hopes that an external emperor could establish order where the civic government could not.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Romulus and Remus Revisited: Siena, 1287-1355

Chapter 7

> Anyone who climbs up to the Campidoglio today can see the two live wolves that the City of Rome keeps as a symbol of the Eternal City. This was also a custom in the Middle Ages. And like neighboring Florence, which kept a live lion near the gate of their civic palace [in the fifteenth century], the Sienese started keeping wolves as much as two centuries earlier, because they symbolized the city's Roman origin.
>
> —A. Lisini, *Miscellanea storica senese*, 1893[1]

Introduction

According to a local legend, the city of Siena was founded by a pair of twins named Aschius and Senius. When they were very young, their wicked uncle murdered their father and usurped his throne, so they fled into the forest on two horses, one white and one black. There the two young boys survived by being suckled by a she-wolf, and when they grew up they founded a city called Siena, after Senius; they took the she-wolf as the symbol of their city, and the colors of the horses as their banner.[2] The legend has proved extremely resilient: the she-wolf is a vivid presence all over the city of Siena even today, and the half-white/half-black *balzana* still takes pride of place as the city's standard during the Palio, the traditional horse race run in the main square of Siena twice every summer (see figure 34). That said, the story will sound eerily—even comically—familiar to readers acquainted with Roman history, since it mimics in almost every detail the famous legend of the founding of Rome (as narrated, for example, in

---

1 *Chi sale anche oggi in Campidoglio può osservare due lupi viventi che il Comune di Roma tiene come simbolo della eterna città. Questa costumanza fu assai nel medio evo. E come la vicina Firenze teneva un leone vivente presso la porta del Palagio pubblico, così i senesi fino a due secoli fa, vi tennero qualche lupa perchè stesse a simboleggiare la loro origine romana*; Lisini (1893), 28.

2 The legend is described in Douglas (1902), 6-7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Livy's *Ab urbe condita*).[3] Only the horses are lacking in the Roman version: Romulus and Remus, the heirs of the city of Alba Longa, were hunted from the city by their wicked great-uncle Amulius, who killed their grandfather Numitor and usurped his throne. Abandoned in the wilderness, they were suckled by a she-wolf, and when they grew up they founded the city of Rome. According to the Roman legend, the twins then quarreled, and Romulus killed Remus—which is where the two legends merge, because according to the Sienese, history repeated itself in the younger pair of twins. Aschius and Senius were the sons of Remus, who were forced to flee because their uncle Romulus had killed their father.

The later medieval history of Siena lacks the great historiographical tradition of the Genoese or the Florentines: there is no written version of this very strange legend predating the fifteenth century (though its dating has been hotly debated), and only a few scattered fourteenth-century chronicles survive to narrate the earlier history of the city.[4] While much of the evidence for the Genoese legend of Janus is literary and historical, in Siena the overwhelming majority of examples are visual: *lupae* (she-wolves) appear in Sienese sculpture, frescoes, city seals, graffiti, and mosaic—not to mention in the flesh. As the example adduced in the introduction to this dissertation shows, the she-wolf was a sufficiently potent and recognized symbol of Siena in the later Middle Ages

---

3 Livy (1919), 1.4-7.

4 These are edited in Lisini and Iacometti (1931-9). The dating problem with the Aschius and Senius legend lies in the fact that its earliest incarnation is in a fifteenth-century chronicle which claims to have taken its information from certain much older chronicles written by a "Tisbo Colonnese". Banchi (1882) asserted that the legend was of fifteenth-century origin, but Rondoni (1886) argued, based on its diction, that it dated at least from the fourteenth century, if not earlier. In their preface (esp. x-xiii), Lisini and Iacometti disagree with Rondoni on the diction, and make a good case for placing the chronicle in the fifteenth century.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

that a live wolf could be used to cement a diplomatic alliance with the city. And although a written account of the legend is lacking before the fifteenth century, the appearance of the wolf in so many other media testifies to the fact that the legend of the *lupa* was a strong and vivid presence in Siena as far back as the thirteenth century. This chapter will argue that the ruling regime of the *Nove*, or Nine, whose rule lasted from 1287 to 1355, consciously cultivated the Romanizing legend of Aschius and Senius to glorify the Sienese state and their civic ideals, using it to create a sense of republican civic identity which persisted long after the fall of the regime itself. During increasingly troubled times on the Italian peninsula—with threats ranging from famine and plague to the attacks of the great lords and mercenary generals—the Nine showed themselves extremely aware of the importance of fostering a sense of well-being and unity in the city over which they ruled.

Growth and Civic Improvement

The city of Siena is located in central Tuscany in a hilly area along the Via Francigena, a major medieval trade and pilgrimage route which led from France and northern Italy down to Rome.[5] At the height of the government of the Nine, around 1340, the city controlled a contado reaching approximately thirty miles in every direction from the city itself, an area of nearly three thousand square miles.[6] The land supported mostly pasturage and crops but also held a number of valuable salt and

---

[5] On the Via Francigena, see Stopani (1998) and Guidoni and Maccari (2000); additionally, there is a good map showing its path in Ascheri (2001a), 115.

[6] Bowsky (1981), 4; on the Sienese contado and its governance, see Ascheri (2001a), chap. 3 and 7, which also contain several useful maps (as in the previous note).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

mineral deposits, especially in the Maremma, the wild marshy area to the west and south of the city down to the sea.[7] One of the major objectives of the Nine as a regime was extending Sienese control throughout the Maremma. At the height of its expansion in the 1340s, the Sienese state may have contained about 100,000 people, of whom about half lived in the city itself; this is a considerable jump from an estimate of about 65,000 people in the 1290s, attributable to immigration and natural population growth as well as territorial expansion.[8]

Siena was therefore about half the size of its close neighbor and rival Florence, a fact which its citizens felt keenly on an ideological level as well as a practical one—it is probably not a coincidence that the Nine fixed the edge of the Sienese contado at a distance of thirty miles from the city, and Florence is almost precisely thirty miles from Siena. The Sienese and the Florentines were allies, most of the time. Both cities belonged throughout this period to the various Tuscan Guelf leagues that were set up to counterbalance aggression from the papal party in Rome and imperial claimants in the north, as well as smaller but more immediate threats like the Visconti archbishops of Milan.[9] But quarrels did occur: the Sienese defeated the Florentines at Montaperti in 1260; the Florentines defeated the Sienese at Colle di Val d'Elsa in 1269 and again in 1357. The cities were close rivals through the early thirteenth century, both supported economically as they were by the twin powerhouses of banking and cloth production.

---

[7] See Ascheri (2001b), especially the article by Borracelli, 115-78. Redon (1982) includes a number of interesting legal-political studies of the Sienese contado, and Bowsky (1970), esp. 1-15 and 47-68, analyzes the Sienese state's financial arrangements.

[8] Bowsky (1981), 7-8. Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 48, estimates the population of Siena at 12,000 in 1200 and 50,000 in 1300.

[9] Bowsky (1981), 159-74, gives an extensive discussion of Sienese foreign relations under the Nine, and in particular their interactions with Florence.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The lack of a close water source, however, hampered extensive Sienese development in the latter area, and from the mid-thirteenth century Florence was considerably the more successful economically.[10] Florence was built right on the river Arno, which provided it with fresh water, mill power, and drainage. Siena, however, had no nearby river, as it had been built at the top of three intersecting hilly ridges.[11] Thus the biggest problem for Siena as a city in the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries, both economically and in terms of quality of life, was its distance from water. This became one of the biggest concerns of the Nine during their tenure; they addressed Siena's exclusion from maritime trade, for instance, with the purchase of the port of Talamone on the Tyrrhenian Sea in 1303, and one of the most celebrated city improvements of the 1340s was the building of an aqueduct to supply fresh water to the city, with a public fountain on the city's main piazza as its outlet.[12]

The government of the "Nine Governors and Defenders of the City of Siena" was formed in 1287 as a Guelf regime replacing a series of Ghibelline regimes which had ruled earlier in the century. The Ghibelline cause had lost a great deal of ground with the deaths of Frederick II and his three heirs Conrad, Manfred, and Conradin between 1250 and 1268, and the shift of regime in Siena mirrored those which occurred in a

---

10 Bowsky (1981), 5 and 11.

11 Glasfurd (1962), 187, provides a good map of late medieval Siena; the fold-out map at the end of Bowsky (1981), reproduced from a 1599 engraving, gives a birds' eye view. Bortolotti (1983) contains a number of maps showing the city's urban development.

12 On Siena's problems with the port of Talamone, see Bowsky (1981), 175-6; on the aqueduct, see Bargagli-Petrucci (1906), 33-46. An adequate water supply was a major concern, and the commune sponsored a number of projects to address it. Along with the acqueduct, the city also had a network of tunnels almost twenty-five kilometers long running under the city called *bottini* which collected water; on these, see Balestracci, Lamberini, et al. (1993).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

number of central Italian cities in the same period.[13] The Nine were essentially the most powerful citizen council in a podestarial regime similar to those found elsewhere in Italy in this period. Siena's political structure had moved from the earlier consular regime to a podestarial one in the late twelfth century, and the podestà in the early to mid-thirteenth century seems to have had a great deal of power. By the later thirteenth century he was supported in his duties by an official entourage of judges, notaries, squires, policemen, and a seneschal—but his responsibilities were a bit more circumscribed, since the city had acquired two other executive officers as well: the capitano del popolo, and the *maggior sindaco* (chief justice). These three were all foreigners, not Sienese citizens, elected every six months.[14]

Effective power, however, lay in the Concistoro, or citizen councils, of whom the Nine were the chief and most important. The Nine were an executive committee (of nine men, unsurprisingly) who were elected every two months from a pool of qualified citizens. Thus, although the number of qualified citizens was closely circumscribed—candidates were required to have lived in the city for a certain number of years, to own a certain amount of property, and not to be known Ghibellines—Siena was more republican than many cities of the time in that, in a given year, up to fifty-four different citizens could sit on the city's executive council.[15] For the two months which each group of Nine spent in office they were sequestered in quarters in the Palazzo Pubblico, to increase their impartiality. Their decisions were aided by the four *Provveditori* of the

---

[13] On the factions of Guelf vs. Ghibelline on a broader Italian scale, as well as the fortunes of Ghibellinism in the later thirteenth century, see Waley (1988), 205-7, and fn. 13 of the Introduction.

[14] Bowsky (1981), chap. 3 (23-85), deals at length with the holders of these offices and their duties.

[15] The oath of office administered to each group of Nine is reproduced in English translation in Bowsky (1981), 55-6.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Biccherna (ministers of finance), four consuls of the *Mercanzia* (heads of the merchant guild), and three consuls of the knights, or "Captains of the Guelf Party."[16] These officials, including the Nine, were all elected from the city's general council, or Council of the Bell. But, as Bowsky points out, "there is hardly a conceivable action involving communal government in which the Nine are not intimately involved."[17] They served as the first-response group on virtually every issue, domestic and external, and the rest of the structure of Sienese government seems to have been more or less auxiliary to them.

If the Nine were involved in all aspects of communal government, then communal government was likewise involved in all aspects of Sienese life in this period. Particularly after the adoption of the Virgin Mary as the city's patron on the eve of the battle of Montaperti in 1260, the commune took an active part in civic devotion to the Virgin, as well as the maintenance of the Sienese cathedral.[18] Just as civic festivals always had strong religious overtones, so too the main religious festivals of Siena had strong political overtones: all of Siena's subject territories, for instance, were required to take part in the processions and public ceremonies attendant on the festival of the Assumption, the chief city festival in celebration of the Virgin.[19] Similarly, the Palio (or biannual horse race) was also strongly politicized; referring to both of these festivals, William Bowsky notes: "that the celebrations increased in size and splendor throughout the rule of the Nine despite famines, wars, and rising government expenses, suggests that the ruling oligarchy recognized that these religio-political festivals served to affirm the

---

16 Bowsky (1981), 23.
17 Bowsky (1981), 56.
18 Norman (1999), esp. 1-43, addresses communal patronage and civic devotion; see also Carli (1979) and Van der Ploeg (1993) on the Sienese cathedral.
19 Bowsky (1981), 58.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

power of the commune."[20] At the same time, the Nine intervened in a number of civic projects which in other cities were run chiefly or entirely by the church. They ran the town's chief hospital for the elderly, poor, and infirm, which was located immediately across from the cathedral, and they extended communal sponsorship over the city's nascent *studium*, or university.[21] They funded professorial salaries, provided housing, and offered a number of privileges designed to attract professors and students from nearby Bologna.

As has been pointed out most eloquently by Randolph Starn and Loren Partridge in their book on halls of power, therefore, the Sienese—and especially their ruling class—were keenly aware of the necessity for ideological support as well as practical aggrandizement. Many of their efforts during their regime were directed toward beautifying the city, improving its amenities, and expanding the control of the Sienese state, thus giving their attention at once both to the city and its contado. Over the course of their seventy-year rule, the Nine authorized the building of new towns and villages in the contado, and new suburbs to the city of Siena itself. They encouraged land reclamation and improvement, particularly in the Maremma, and oversaw the improvement of water and road systems. These were particularly important due to the

---

[20] Bowsky (1981), 276. See Ceppari Ridolfi, Ciampolini, et al. (2001), 64-7, for the early history of the Palio.

[21] On the hospital, see Norman (1999), 87-103. For the Sienese university, the classics are Zdekauer (1894), which publishes a number of related documents, and Prunai (1949) and (1950), which expand on many of Zdekauer's points. Recent studies include Ascheri (1992), a broad history, and Nardi (1996), which focuses on the higher faculties. "Maestri e scolari" (2004) is the website for a prosopographical study of students and masters at the universities in Siena and Perugia between 1250 and 1500; the Sienese half of the project contains a brief history of the university (with a sizeable bibliography) as well as searchable lists of masters and students, arranged both alphabetically and by subject.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

central role of trade to the city's economy. Apart from the purchase of the port of Talamone in 1303 and the building of the city aqueduct, the Nine also oversaw the improvement of canals, bridges, and roadways throughout the contado. Many of these were required to be built and maintained by the lords and communities who owned the land on which they were built, but the Nine themselves paid for the maintenance of all bridges on the major roads of the contado.[22] At least two officials were appointed to oversee these works: in 1292, a "judge of the roads" was appointed to see that works were completed and that allotted monies were spent wisely. Similarly, in 1308 the single office of the *scorridore*, or scourer of the roads, was eliminated, and the job of ensuring that the roads were safe for merchants and travelers was reassigned to a larger group of the podestà's knights and their supporting infantry.[23] All of these actions increased the power and prestige of the state throughout the contado, while at the same time ensuring the safety of trade and the easy provisioning of the city.

In a pattern we have seen elsewhere, the Nine consistently pursued improvements within the city itself while they were extending the control of the city in its surrounding territories. Most unrealistically, in 1322 the Nine sponsored a notorious plan to improve the Sienese cathedral by turning the existing nave into the transept of a much larger cathedral, which when completed would be the largest church in Western Christendom.[24] Daniel Waley has observed that this decision was almost certainly a reaction to the beginning of construction in the late thirteenth century on new cathedrals

---

22 Bowsky (1981), 200; on roads generally, see Szabó (1975) and Bowsky (1981), 191-201. Szabó (1975) contains a fold-out map showing the network of roads in the Sienese contado around 1300, which is reproduced in Ascheri (2001a), 88-89.

23 Bowsky (1981), 198-9.

24 See the diagrams in Carli (1979), 12, and Benton (1995), plate 163 (p. 133); the latter is a much clarified version of Pietramellara (1980), plate 19 (XIX).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

at Florence and Orvieto.[25] Work on the project began in 1339, but only one wall of the larger church (still extant) was completed before structural defects, inferior workmanship, and a lack of workers and funds dating from the 1348 plague caused the final abandonment of the project in 1356.[26] Most of the plans formulated by the Nine were more successful, however. New gates to the city, for instance, were all built in the 1310s and 20s.[27] The commune commissioned an immense altarpiece featuring the Virgin and Child from painter Duccio di Buoninsegna in 1308, and the completed work was installed in the cathedral in a great civic ceremony in 1311.[28] Closer to the commune's own quarters, the Nine oversaw the monumentalization of the secular heart of the city, the Palazzo Pubblico and main piazza, or Campo. The construction of the Palazzo Pubblico was approved in 1288 "for the honor and glory of the city", as the statute says; work was begun in 1297, and the main section was completed in 1310.[29] Its bell tower, the famous Torre del Mangia, was completed in 1349. During this time, the Campo was also paved in its characteristic semi-circular shell shape[30], and a monumental

---

25 Waley (1988), 158.

26 The best accounts of the fourteenth-century plans for cathedral improvement are in Carli (1979), 11-28; Van der Ploeg (1993), 97-120; and Benton (1995).

27 Ascheri (2000), 94-5, gives a good diagram of the "great building projects and definition of the urban fabric" (my translation) which occupied the city at the turn of the fourteenth century, including fountains and churches as well as city walls and gates.

28 On Duccio and his work, see Bellosi (1998); the procession and celebration which surrounded the placement of the finished work is described by chronicler Agnolo di Tura in Lisini and Iacometti (1931-9), 313-4, and discussed at length in Norman (1999), 20-43.

29 Larner (1971), plate 11 (opposite p. 129), has a good diagram showing the different stages in which the Palazzo was built; more generally, see Cairola and Carli (1963), esp. 7-68, and Brandi (1983) on the Palazzo's construction.

30 Guidoni (1971), 75-7; he notes also (as one sees in contemporary documents like Agnolo di Tura's chronicle and the Sienese council minutes) that through the end of the thirteenth century, the Campo was usually referred to as the *campus fori*, echoing the classical *forum*.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

public fountain was built as an outlet to the new city aqueduct (completed in 1343).[31] Both of these projects (Palazzo and Campo) were specifically designed to display the grandeur and power of the ruling regime: it is no accident that the Palazzo Pubblico as built in 1310 has nine merlons, or crenellations, to each side of its central battlement[32], while the Campo has nine geometric wedge sections to its shell, all converging on the entrance to the Palazzo Pubblico; see figures 35-6.

To complement the architecture of their new hall, the Nine also commissioned a number of artists to decorate it; even today, the Palazzo Pubblico is a veritable Who's Who of fourteenth-century painters.[33] The two painters whose work is best represented are Simone Martini and Ambrogio Lorenzetti, both of whom also worked on the basilica of St. Francis at Assisi. Martini painted his great *Maestà* on the wall of the main council chamber in the Palazzo Pubblico in 1315; depicting the Virgin and Child with the four patron saints of Siena, the fresco addresses its political milieu and audience with the words of the Virgin, who advises: "Love justice, all you who rule the earth."[34] Similarly, Lorenzetti was commissioned to paint "Roman scenes" (now lost) in the Palazzo in 1337, followed by his great Allegory of Good and Bad Government (1337-40) in the *Sala della*

---

31 The aqueduct was a monumental undertaking which took six years longer to finish than the three years that the original engineer (a Jacopo di Vanni Ugolini, a master stoneworker) had originally projected; the celebration at its completion, then, was probably the more heartfelt. See the works cited in fn. 12, above.

32 The third story of the Palazzo on either side section is late-seventeenth-century work, and the two small belfries on top of the main section date from the eighteenth century. The Palazzo as completed in 1310 consisted of the four-story main section, with nine merlons along its top edge, and both two-story side sections, with merlons above them as well (since removed). The architectural molding that supported these lost merlons is, however, still visible, and the second-story merlons still exist on the left wing of the palace, which was added in 1325-1341 to support the Torre del Mangia; see the works cited in fn. 29, above, esp. the diagram in Larner (1971).

33 Cairola and Carli (1963), 71-186, and Southard (1979a).

34 See Leone De Castris (2003), esp. 12-24, and Norman (1999), 48-65; Southard (1988) is also useful.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Pace (Hall of Peace), the council chamber of the Nine themselves.[35] This is usually interpreted as didactically depicting the effects of good and bad government on a city, but the city depicted is clearly Siena. Other frescoes included Lorenzetti's *Mappamondo* (a map of the entire Sienese state, now lost), various depictions of conquered territories and Martini's fresco of the condottiere Guidoriccio da Folignano.[36] All of these frescoes added in various ways to the political grandeur and consequence of the Nine, and by extension, of Siena itself. Interestingly, however, the artistic commissions did not stop with frescoes: the official city accounts kept by the Gabella and Biccherna all have painted wooden covers, as does the *Caleffo d'Assunta*, or official book of rights and privileges pertaining to the city; these depict the city of Siena in more or less symbolic fashion, or the Sienese bureaucracy at work.[37]

All of these efforts to improve the physical fabric and appearance of the city paralleled less apparent but equally important attempts to organize and define the authority and rights of the Sienese commune. The legal tradition in Siena is considerable and well-documented: the century following the year 1250 alone saw the production of the *Breves* of 1250, the Constitutions of 1262, and the vernacular statutes of 1309-10 and 1337-9—while codified council deliberations survive for almost this entire period.[38] The

---

[35] On Lorenzetti's "Roman scenes", see fn. 81, below. The literature on Lorenzetti's Allegory frescoes is vast; the best analyses are Starn and Partridge (1992) along with Skinner (1986) and (1999), revised versions of which have been recently published in Skinner (2002). Starn (1994) is a good introduction with many illustrations.

[36] See De Wesselow (2000) on this particular wall of the Sala, esp. 21-4 on the Mappamondo and 25-31 on Guidoriccio; see also Polzer (1987) and Leone De Castris (2003), 265-73, on Guidoriccio.

[37] Tomei (2002) has excellent plates of all of these; his introduction (esp. 35-53) is particularly helpful; see also discussion at fn. 76, below.

[38] The *Breves* of 1250 are edited in Banchi (1866); the Constitutions of 1262 are edited in Zdekauer (1897), and those of 1309-10 in Lisini (1903). Those of 1337-9 remain unpublished; they are Archivio di Stato, Statuti, Siena, 26. The council deliberations (*Deliberazioni del Consiglio generale*) are also unpublished; on both of these, see *Guida-inventario* (1951).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

statutes and deliberations display the concern of the Nine with the well-being of their city on virtually every level; along with decisions on economic policy, diplomatic alliances, and civic institutions, they also issued decrees on the maximum width of overhanging balconies in city streets, for instance, or on the places in which prostitutes could and could not practice their trade.[39] Officials were appointed to enforce sumptuary laws and rules of public hygiene. The palazzi in and around the Campo were all made to conform architecturally to the Palazzo Pubblico and Campo, so as to create a uniform visual effect.[40] These "quality of life" issues were considered to be important enough that the lapsed office of praetor, an official in charge of public order and city beautification, was revived in 1346.[41] In the same vein, the Nine made conscious efforts to improve and expand the city's university, which had been founded in the early thirteenth century, but which remained an essentially Sienese institution. The commune exerted itself to attract scholars in the Bolognese emigration of 1321, offering huge publicly-funded salaries and perquisites.[42] Similarly, starting in 1338, the Sienese spent a great deal of money trying to gain the papal privileges of a *studium generale* from the pope, a desire not accomplished until 1357, two years after the fall of the Nine—and even then the privilege came from the emperor rather than the pope.[43]

---

39 On road legislation and maintenance, see Ciampoli and Szabò (1992), esp. the discussion 3-67; on prostitution and further statutes related to urban planning, see Bowsky (1981), 294-6, and Maginnis (2001), 172.

40 Maginnis (2001), 170-3, discusses this example and others as they relate to the broader concepts of "beauty" and "order" in trecento Siena.

41 The praetorship (the duties of which had very little in common with its Roman namesake) had been reinvented several times in the thirteenth century, as discussed in Zdekauer (1900). The 1346 bill to revive the office again is translated in Bowsky (1981), 295; he notes that it passed 181 for to 40 against.

42 See fn. 21, above.

43 Bowsky (1981), 278.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Thus the Nine ruled over a relatively peaceful and prosperous city; the Sienese never showed the penchant for killing each other that the Genoese did, and their political position was (at least in theory) more secure than that of the Paduans in the same period. When the regime was formed in 1287, the Sienese were still exhilarated from having defeated the Florentines at Montaperti in 1260 (even though the Florentines had gotten their own back by defeating them in 1269; arguably, the Sienese are still holding on to that exhilaration). But despite relative economic success and a significant population increase in the eleventh through thirteenth centuries, the city's geographical position and its resources (or lack thereof, as with water) hampered the substantial growth seen in Florence from the early thirteenth century. The main concerns of the Nine during this period were related to the fear that the city was losing its competitive edge—and the council was correspondingly hypersensitive to issues touching the "honor and glory of the commune".

Despite the policies of the *Noveschi*, for example, their Florentine rivals had almost entirely replaced the Sienese bankers at the papal court in Avignon by the 1320s, the Sienese banking industry having been badly hurt by a number of bankruptcies during the first two decades of the fourteenth century.[44] The Nine were also increasingly troubled by political threats: Siena suffered considerably from the Guelf wars with Castruccio Castracani, for instance, in the 1320s; but the Nine also put down a rebellion in 1318 and a conspiracy in 1346, even before the city's population was more than halved

---

[44] English (1988) provides a good analysis of the rise and fall of Sienese banking, centred on the major *compagnie* of the Bonsignori (which failed c. 1300-10) and the Tolomei (which failed c. 1310-20). See also Cardini and Cipolla (1987), especially the article by Cassandro (109-60). Bowsky (1981) contains a detailed discussion of how the Sienese government dealt with bankruptcy (247-58).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

by the Black Death in 1348.[45] Arguably, the city never recovered from that disaster and the public disorder attendant upon it. Its smaller size and more limited resources made Siena, much more than Florence, a target for military takeover and aggressive signorial expansionism, especially after the plague. Following the fall of the Nine in 1355, the Sienese suffered a decisive defeat at the hands of the Florentines in 1357; several different governments formed and unformed in rapid succession—and in 1399 the city lost its independence entirely, to the Visconti *signori* of Milan.[46]

In its economic base, its worries about its political position in the rapidly changing world of central Italy around 1300, and its desire to extend its contado as far as possible and assure its independence and self-sufficiency, Siena was a city very like its neighbors. What makes it unique for the purposes of this dissertation is, firstly, the level of control wielded over every aspect of Sienese life by the ruling class from which each group of Nine were chosen: the Nine issued decrees on everything from politics to economics, religion, and education—even aesthetics and public health. Secondly, William Bowsky has observed the interesting fact that one major difference between Siena and Florence in this period was that in Siena, display and luxury took almost exclusively public forms: improvements for the cathedral, the Palazzo, the Campo, the streets, the aqueduct, and the university. In Florence, on the other hand, at least some of that money and effort went into more private forms of display: "By the period of the cultural efflorescence of

---

[45] Bowsky (1964) estimates that "the population loss in Siena was at least fifty per cent, and probably more" (18), based on a pre-plague population of "over 50,000" (11). He reaffirms these estimates in Bowsky (1981), 7.

[46] On the fall of the Nine and the fortunes of the city after 1355, see e.g. Ascheri (2000), 88-109 and cited bibliography, and the end of this chapter.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the late thirteenth and early fourteenth centuries... the Sienese had a greater tradition than their neighbors of cultural investment through government and civic rather than private display."[47] Fourteenth-century Siena had no elaborate private chapels belonging to the nobility or great merchant families, for example, such as decorate the major Florentine churches, especially Santa Maria Novella and Santa Croce, the mendicant churches which were in vogue in the fourteenth century. Part of the reason for this may be, as Bowsky goes on to argue, that the structure of Sienese government was more inclusive of the major groups in society than Florence's was: it involved more citizens per year, but also gave high positions to members of groups like the nobility, who were excluded from office in Florence. Hence a larger number of Siena's citizens were invested in the regime, working for instead of against it. Finally, and most importantly, the mental equation of the physical and the ideological substances of the city—the idea that a city's physical appearance mirrors its inner harmony (or disharmony), and vice versa—is more explicitly stated in the decrees of the Nine than in those of any other city in Italy in this period.[48] The Nine were extremely conscious that the purpose of their various civic improvement projects was at least partially to express their abstract ideals about what a city should be in physical reality. Thus it made perfect sense to order, for instance, the newly subject territory of Giuncarico painted on the wall of the main council chamber: the painted reality inside the Palazzo Pubblico was intended to mirror the actual reality outside it. As Starn and Partridge point out, the frescoes in the Palazzo Pubblico reflect the reality of the Sienese state at the same time as they prescribe an ideal;

---

47 Bowsky (1981), 293, and Maginnis (2001), 196-7.
48 See fn. 40, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and in so doing they force a mental comparison between the way things are and the way they ought to be.[49] If the two do not mesh, the frescoes would imply to their chief audience of nine council members: you know what needs to be done.

Taming the Roman She-Wolf

Unlike in Padua and Genoa, both of whose late medieval mythographers had classical source material to work with when appropriating and reformulating their classical foundation legends, there is no ancient evidence, even circumstantially, for the myth of Aschius and Senius. The story of Romulus and Remus is of course well known and told in many of the ancient sources (most obviously by Livy in the first book of the *Ab urbe condita*), but nowhere is it ever suggested that Remus had fathered sons, much less sons who went out into the wilderness and were suckled by a she-wolf.[50] There was certainly some tradition that the city of Siena had an ancient foundation, since one of the earlier medieval formulations of the city's name on its coinage (from at least the twelfth century) calls it *Sena vetus*, ancient Siena.[51] But there were no ancient ruins anywhere in the town, as occurred elsewhere (like in Padua), and the classical sources were strangely mute on the subject.

---

[49] Starn and Partridge (1992), 57-8.

[50] The assertion that Remus had children does not appear in the ancient sources, that is; on the classical legend of Remus, see Wiseman (1995). Several other medieval foundation legends, many of them French, rested on the same pretext: for instance, one legend about the founding of the city of Rheims claims that Rheims was founded by Remus himself, only after which he went back to Rome and was killed by his brother. For this, Remus's son killed Romulus and reigned in his place; Rondoni (1886), 25-7; Graf (1923), 79; Wiseman (1995), 150.

[51] The legend *Sena vetus* appears on twelfth- and thirteenth-century coins in Paolozzi Strozzi (1992), 80-1 and figs. 6, 7, and 10. Sometime in the first half of the fourteenth century, the prevailing trend in coins expanded to *Sena vetus civitas virginis*, in a variation of the acronym CSCV (*Comune senarum civitas virginis*) that appears in Lorenzetti's frescoes in the Palazzo Pubblico; see Frugoni (1991), 125, and fn. 72, below.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Unfortunately for the Sienese, the most widely-known story of the foundation of Siena came from the twelfth-century *Policraticus* by John of Salisbury, an Englishman, and it linked the Sienese not to the Romans or any other native Italic people—but to the French and the British. Siena was held to have derived its name from its founding by a group of ancient Gauls called the *Galli Senones.*[52] John of Salisbury narrates as follows:

> In his twentieth book, Pompeius Trogus recounts that when the Senonese Gauls, soldiers of Brennus [leader of the *Galli Senones*], came into Italy, they exiled the Tuscans from their homes, and founded grand cities there: Milan, Corneto, Brescia, Verona, Bergamo, Trent, and Vicenza. And they built the city of the Sienese for those that were old or weak, and for their herdsmen. The truth of this is not only in the histories, but in a well-known tradition (which is therefore more reliable), that the Sienese seem more similar in the proportions of their limbs, the beauty of their faces, the fairness of their coloring, and their customs to the Gauls and Britons, from whom they can trace their origin.[53]

Classical history recounts two Gauls named Brennus, one who led the Gallic sack of Rome in 390 BC, and the other who invaded Greece in 278 BC; the Senones were a Celtic tribe originally from the Seine basin.[54] As far as we know, Pompeius Trogus's text referred to the latter Brennus's adventures in Greece, but does not mention his presence in Italy or the establishment of Gallic cities there.[55] John's sources remain unclear, since the story does not appear in any of the late antique or early medieval histories. In the

---

[52] This derivation seems to have arisen from the confusion of Sena (modern Siena) with another Italian city called Senigallia.

[53] *Apud Trogum Pompeium in vicesimo reperitur, quod Senones Galli, commilitones Brenni cum in Italiam venissent, Tuscos a suis sedibus expulerunt, in ea condiderunt urbes egregias, Mediolanum, Cornum, Brixiam, Veronam, Bergamum, Tridentum atque Vincentiam. Nam quod urbem Senensium senibus suis, et valetudinariis, armentariisque, construxerint, non modo fides historiae, sed celebris traditio est, ex eo quidem validior, quod Senenses et lineamentis membrorum, venustate faciei, et coloris gratia, moribus quoque ipsis ad Gallos et Britones, a quibus originem contraxerunt, videntur accedere...*; John of Salisbury (1844-55) 6.17, c. 613A.

[54] In the *Gallic War*, Caesar refers to the Senones as "a state of prominent power and great authority among the Gauls" [*civitas in primis firma et magnae inter Gallos auctoritatis*]; Julius Caesar (1917), 2.2. Their name survives in the modern French city of Sens.

[55] *Historiae Philippicae* 24; Seel (1956), 140-1, collates the remaining fragments of Pompeius Trogus (as preserved in collections like that of Valerius Maximus) with Justinus' third-century epitome.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

end, it may not have mattered a great deal to John of Salisbury whether the Sienese were descended from Romans or from Gauls, but in an Italy where most cities could name at least one classical founder (including most of those in John's list), to be descended from Gauls—from the despised *French*—was perhaps less than desirable.

Their ancestry would therefore have mattered a great deal to the Sienese, and therefore the creation of their Roman origin, the legend of Aschius and Senius, was a larger task than we have yet seen. This was not a case of appropriating and promoting some already-extant classical source; rather, the Sienese were forced actively to overcome an already well-known but undesirable foundation legend, replacing it with one more becoming to their consequence. John of Salisbury's story was the more damning and difficult, because it does not just affirm (as with Milan or any of the others) that the Galli Senones founded the city: instead, John says that they founded it specifically for their elderly, invalids, and herdsmen.[56] Furthermore, he argues that the fair coloring and the customs of the Sienese—features integral to the Sienese sense of self—corroborate his story. All this "negative history" provided potent fodder for those who might wish to denigrate the Sienese—like the Florentines, as we will see later.

On the other hand, the connection of Siena with a legend involving a she-wolf reaches back at least to the mid-thirteenth century. A statute of 1262, for instance, offers a reward to anyone who captures and brings in a live wolf.[57] Similarly, an artist was fined

---

56 *...senibus suis, et valetudinariis, armentariisque*; John of Salisbury (1844-55) 6.17, c. 613A.

57 "Whoever captures a male or female wolf outside the city of Siena, in the territory and jurisdiction of Siena, shall receive for each female wolf 10 solidi, and for each male wolf 5 solidi, and for each pup 3 solidi" [*Et quicunque ceperit lupum aliquem vel lupam extra civitatem Senensem in comitatu et iurisdictione Senensi, dabo vel dari faciam pro qualibet lupa .X. sol., et pro lupo .V. sol., et pro quolibet lupicino .III. sol.*]; Constitutions

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

in 1264 for painting a graffito showing a lion (the symbol of the *popolo* rather than the ruling regime, but also the symbol of nearby Florence) fighting and defeating a wolf.[58] As I mentioned earlier, no written account of the Aschius and Senius legend exists from before the fifteenth century, but the popularity of the wolf as a symbol suggests that the story predates its first written version (as for instance, was argued by Jacopo Doria in his account of the founding of Genoa).[59] Furthermore, the popularity of classical history, law, and even art in Siena in the same period also suggest that the wolf symbols propagated by the government of the Nine from the beginning of their tenure refer specifically to a Roman foundation legend. The ruling classes that supplied men for the Nine and other city councils displayed a widespread knowledge of Roman history and literature, along with a consciousness of their relevance to contemporary circumstances.

The earliest example of the Sienese adopting the wolf—or specifically, the she-wolf—as their civic symbol dates from the thirteenth century. The eighteenth-century Sienese diarist Girolamo Gigli recounts how the Sienese kept a live wolf (or wolves) in the Palazzo Pubblico as a mascot in the early thirteenth century:

> You can see a torn remnant on the walls of a great map of the Sienese state, put there for demonstrations of what was happening in subject territories, and it is said that it was badly treated in some way, and harmed by a particular domesticated wolf, which at one point was kept in that room.[60]

---

of 1262, ed. Zdekauer (1897), 80 (*Distinctio* 1.196). One might be tempted to venture that it was the city's ideological connection with she-wolves that might have made the reward for a female twice that of a male, but the practical consideration that male wolves do not reproduce might make them less valuable.

58 Zdekauer (1896), 57.

59 Rondoni (1886),15 and 24-8. For Doria and Genoa, see chapter 6.

60 *Vedesi nelle muraglie un lacero avanzo d'una gran carta topografica dello Stato Sanese, posta quivi per ogni dimonstrazione, che accedesse fare del sito de' luoghi soggetti, e dicesi, che in tal guisa fosse mal menata, e ridotta da certa Lupa domestica, che una volta in questa Sala si teneva*; Gigli (1723), 2.223.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This was not an unusual practice for the time: both the Florentines and the Venetians are known to have kept lions as civic mascots. In addition, the reward offered in Siena in the 1260's on live wolves corroborates Gigli's story; as far as we know, wild wolf attacks were never a big enough problem to warrant placing a bounty on them; and the insistence on having them live rather than dead indicates a purpose beyond simply reducing their populations.[61] Furthermore, Siena's penchant for keeping live animals as its mascot must have become well-known over time. It seems unlikely that the commune of Montelupo would have sent a wolf as a diplomatic gift to the Sienese in 1410 without some larger cultural context for doing so—some reason to believe, for instance, that the Sienese would know what to do with the animal and have a place to keep it.[62] And the Montelupesi must have had some reason to believe the Sienese would welcome it as a gift. Probably the practice was not continuous in Siena from the early thirteenth century to the early fifteenth century and beyond, but rather depended on the (fairly slim) availability of wolves.

Furthermore, the likelihood that that live wolves had some presence in the Palazzo Pubblico from the early thirteenth century contextualizes the use of the wolf as a symbol around Siena. Live wolves would have provided a physical reality to which the symbolic wolf could be connected; the "Sienese wolf" would have been something real and meaningful for the civic population rather than a randomly-chosen heraldic symbol. Real wolves would have promoted a Romanizing foundation legend over any written chronicle involving Gauls. For example, the main section of the Palazzo Pubblico, which

---

61 See fn. 57, above.

62 Cf. the Introduction to this study.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

would have housed the live mascots as well as the government of the Nine and the various civic committees, was built (as discussed previously) between 1297 and 1310. We have already established that the architecture of the Palazzo was consciously designed to glorify the regime of the *Noveschi*, as for instance in the use of nine merlons on the Palazzo's façade, or the design of a civic campanile which was just barely higher than that of Florence. Similarly, an integral part of the design of the new Palazzo was its drainspouts, each of which was fashioned in the shape of a wolf nursing two infants. Two wolves appear on the main wing of the Palazzo, and eight more decorate the corners of the Torre del Mangia (completed 1349) on two different levels; see figure 37.

The drainspouts currently visible on the Palazzo are eighteenth-century copies, but two of the original drainspouts, much damaged, are kept on the ground floor of the Palazzo (figure 38).[63] These wolves are unusually naturalistic for the style of the period; art historians have tended to attach them to the work or workshop of the classicizing sculptor Giovanni Pisano, who is known to have been in Siena at the turn of the fourteenth century, acting as *capomaestro* for the new façade for the Duomo.[64] Perhaps more interestingly, the Sienese drainspouts (*lupe-doccioni*, as one historian has called them) are the earliest in the post-Carolingian period to present the image of the wolf suckling the twins as iconography.[65] They are made of local stone, and loom forward with wide toothy jaws from which the rain would run, in standard medieval drainspout fashion. But along with its general menacing appearance, each wolf has a row of teats from which suck two infants, one on either side of each wolf. Thus the Nine

---

63 There is a much better picture of one of these wolves in Paolozzi Strozzi (1992), 116, fig. 60.

64 See Venturi (1923) and White (1993), 114-22, as well as Brandi (1983), 57, which also gives a number of good illustrations in figs. 48, 50, 51, 54, and 55.

65 On the iconographical development of the wolf-and-twins symbol, see the Conclusion.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

incorporated the legend of the she-wolf and the twins into their biggest civic projects, from the very beginning of their regime. The appearance of the wolf-and-twins on the façade of the Palazzo Pubblico is as much a political statement as the division of the Campo into nine sections: it emphasizes the Roman origins of the city of Siena, and posits the Nine as the legitimate successors to Roman rule.

The image of the wolf and twins is not limited to the Palazzo Pubblico, however; it appears on a number of major civic projects all undertaken by the Nine in (approximately speaking) the first fifty years of the fourteenth century. The same sculpture, without the drainspout, appears on the Sienese *Porta Romana*, or Roman Gate, so-called since it guarded the road to Rome, which led out of town at the furthest southeast corner of the city walls (this common type of naming parallels the British practice of calling the road leading to Oxford "the Oxford Road"); see figure 39. As the road to Rome was part of the Via Francigena, the major trade route leading through Siena, the Porta Romana was therefore one of the two most significant and most used gates to the city. As befitted its importance, the gate was rebuilt in monumental fashion in 1327, to consist of a large walled entry space as well as a monumental gatehouse built into the city wall, from which the entry space opened into the city. Travelers arriving in the city and waiting for admittance in the entry space would therefore have been confronted with the sight of two stone she-wolves, each complete with a pair of twins, on top of and guarding the gate to the city (figure 40).[66]

---

[66] Maginnis (2001), 131-2 and 171, notes other improvements to the city gates: a park was built inside the Camollia gate in 1309 "for the delight and joy of citizens and foreigners", and images of the Virgin were added to a number of other gates between 1309 and 1346; these would all have added to the city's beauty and order, as well as having symbolic significance—like the she-wolf, the Virgin Mary was an "official" protector of the city.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The Porta Romana was considered an important enough symbol of the city that it appears as the city gate in Ambrogio Lorenzetti's fresco depicting the Allegory of Good Government in the council room of the Nine, back in the Palazzo Pubblico in the center of town (painted between 1337 and 1340); see figures 41-2.[67] The fresco depicts an idealized city and its contado at peace; at the same time, certain specific elements in the fresco identify the landscape specifically as Siena.[68] In the upper left corner of the fresco, the "idealized" city has Siena's cathedral campanile and dome.[69] Meanwhile, in the middle of the fresco, the monumental gate dividing the idealized city from its idealized contado is clearly the Sienese Porta Romana with its gatehouse, entry space, and overlooking wolf-and-twins. Thus the Porta Romana serves in Lorenzetti's fresco as one of the city's two major identifying monuments. (The Torre del Mangia had not yet been completed when Lorenzetti painted his fresco.)

Still, the sculpture on the Porta Romana is not the only—nor even the chief—appearance of the wolf and twins in Lorenzetti's fresco. An authoritative male figure dominates the allegorical political tableau which is both symbolically and spatially the center of Lorenzetti's work, and at his feet lies a she-wolf nursing two chubby curly-haired infants, one of whom she is carefully licking with her tongue (figure 43).[70] Precisely what the figure represents has been much debated by scholars; suffice it to say here that he is certainly meant to personify and idealize the ruling regime of the Nine.[71]

---

67 Reproduced in Starn (1994), 71, and Frugoni, Donato, et al. (2002), 237-8.

68 Frugoni (1991), 181-8, and especially Starn and Partridge (1992), 46-50.

69 Reproduced in Starn (1994), 32, and Frugoni, Donato, et al. (2002), 227-8.

70 Starn (1994), 66, and Frugoni, Donato, et al. (2002), 223.

71 This figure has been interpreted variously as the personification of the Sienese commune (Frugoni [1991], 119 [esp. fn. 3]), the Common Good (Starn and Partridge [1992], 50), and the ideal magistrate of communal government (Skinner [1986], 42-3); the debate continues in Frugoni (1991), 193 (an appendix to

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

His nearest accessories reinforce this attribution: he wears a black robe covered with a white mantle, representing him in half-white and half-black, which was already the banner of Siena (and possibly already connected to the Aschius and Senius legend, although there is no evidence to prove it). Four letters surround his head like a halo: C S C V, an acronym usually interpreted as *Commune Senarum, Civitas Virginis*, or "The Commune of the Sienese, City of the Virgin".[72] This was adopted as the official description of the city; Sienese coins from the year 1350 onward have a similar acronym on them.[73] The figure's gold shield, now mostly blank, contained a further image of the Virgin Mary.[74] Metaphorically supporting everything else, the wolf and twins sit at his feet. Like the other words and images associated with the figure of the Common Good or Good Commune (and I see no problem with his representing both), Lorenzetti therefore presents the image of the wolf and twins as a major identifying symbol of the city of Siena. In a sense, however, it also refers to the parallel Roman legend from which the Sienese story supposedly derives.[75] In this sense the Roman wolf and twins, appearing below the allegorical symbols of the city of Siena, are the literal as well as symbolic foundation on which the city of Siena was built. In this particular context,

---

the English translation); Donato (2001), and Skinner (2002), 39-117. These are extremely subtle distinctions: as Starn and Partridge point out, the figure contains visual parallels to the usual representations of saints, kings, and civic magistrates, and in any case we have already observed the theoretical equationo f the Common Good with the Good Commune (see chapter 2).

72 The letters currently read CSCCV, but the original inscription seems have lacked the third C. Cf. Skinner (1986), 42, fn. 1.

73 See fn. 51, above. The Constitutions of 1262 are titled the *Constitutum Comunis Senarum* (Zdekauer [1897], 25), 25), and the city's official designation as *Civitas Virginis* occurred shortly after the battle of Montaperti in 1260; on the city's Marian connections, see Southard (1979a), 48-9, and Norman (1999), esp. 1-17.

74 Southard (1979a), 274.

75 Frugoni (1991), 119 (fn. 4) denies this association: "although undoubtedly a replica of the she-wolf of Rome, this image had long since become the autonomous emblem of Siena, and its use betrays no intention, contrary to the opinion of Rowley, Ambrogio Lorenzetti, p. 99, of vaunting a filiation with the eternal city. The twins are not Romulus and Remus but Aschio and Senio..." I would agree that the twins *are* Aschio and Senio—but I would also argue that that in itself connects Siena ideologically with Rome.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

more than anywhere else, it becomes obvious that the wolf and twins was a semiotically useful symbol for the Nine, representing at once both the Sienese commune and its Roman roots.

This particular formulation of the Sienese commune, showing the seated male figure with all the city's civic symbols, was considered authoritative enough to have been used again, either by Lorenzetti himself or someone copying what he had done in the Sala della Pace. The image—with the letters CSCV, the seated figure, and the wolf and twins, but lacking all the accompanying allegorical figures which form the tableau in the Sala della Pace—appears on the cover of one of the books of the Sienese Biccherna for 1344.[76] This was one of the city's official account books; they had wooden covers which were usually covered with painted images and various kinds of decoration, most of it related to the work of the Biccherna: Sienese symbols, tax collection, images of banking and trade.[77] The use of the image from the Sala della Pace on this 1344 Biccherna cover shows that the image was considered, firstly, to function as a successful symbolic whole: all of the elements contributing to the allegorical portrayal of the city of Siena in the Sala della Pace fresco are reproduced on the Biccherna cover. Secondly, the reproduction of the image on the Biccherna cover confirms that the image was indeed considered to symbolize the state of Siena in some official capacity: it was not only sanctioned once but then reused by the ruling regime.

Finally, after a century of using wolves as mascots, and at least half a century of consciously using them as symbols of the city, in that same year of 1344 the commune

---

76 Tomei (2002), 150-1.
77 See fn. 37, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

adopted the wolf and twins on the official seal of the Sienese commune (figure 44).[78] An entry in the account book of the *Camarlingo* of the Biccherna for the twentieth of December, 1344, reads:

> Item, to Micchele ser Memmo, goldsmith, nine pounds, for the price of one silver seal which he made for the Lords Nine, on which is carved a wolf; this [was done] by order of the Lords Nine...£9.[79]

The seal combines the two major symbols or patrons of the city, secular and religious: the top half shows the *Madonna della misericordia*, a representation which invokes the Virgin Mary in her guise as intercessor and protector; she spreads her cloak to protect the people who appear below her. The bottom half shows the Sienese wolf suckling the two infants. With this the Nine adopted the wolf and twins as the official symbol of the city; henceforth it would represent the city on all official documents. The creation of the Sienese wolf seal is thus the culmination of a trend begun more than a century previously: the city, and the particular regime of the Nine, gradually adopted the image of the wolf-and-twins as an evocation of their particular version of Sienese reality and history. The figures' ubiquity in the city (statues, drainspouts, live wolves, frescoes, seals, and so forth) would only have reinforced the city's claims to a Roman past.

But causing the proliferation of wolves and sets of twins throughout the city was not the only means by which the Sienese ruling class asserted a Roman, rather than a Gallic, origin. Latin literacy was high in Siena, and more than one Sienese citizen was

---

[78] There are scattered rumors in the historiography that the Sienese adopted the wolf and twins on the arms of the commune in 1297—e.g. as mentioned in Larner (1971), 113, and Skinner (1986), 43—but I have found no direct evidence for it.

[79] *Item Miccheli ser Memmi aurifici novem Lib., pro pretio unius sigilli argentei quod fecit pro Dominis Novem in quo est sculta quadam* [sic] *lupa et hoc per apodixam Dominorum Novem, ... viiij lib.*; [Lisini] (1895).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

engaged in this period in translating the most famous of the Latin classics into the Italian vernacular for wider consumption (for example, Ciampolo di Meo di Ugurgieri, a member of one of Siena's most prominent families, who created one of the earliest translations of the *Aeneid* into Italian).[80] This relatively widespread knowledge of Roman history created an audience for not simply wolf-related but generally Romanizing efforts by the Nine during their tenure. In his 1958 book on Ambrogio Lorenzetti, George Rowley debunked the incredulity of earlier Renaissance historians:

> Under the year 1337 the chronicler Agnolo di Tura reports that Ambrogio painted Roman stories. This sounded so incredible that previous writers under the spell of the word Renaissance have doubted the chronicler's veracity. However,... the description is too specific to leave doubt that these frescoes were painted on an outside wall and for a new palace and not the Palazzo Pubblico, which was completed in 1310. The passage reads: 'After the Sienese had made the palace with the new prison, they made above the Council Hall the offices of the Signori and other officers in the hall of the middle of the palace, and they had the offices painted on the outside with Roman stories by the hand of Master Ambrogio Lorenzetti.' From the records we know that this palace, identified by the prison, was begun in 1327 and finished in 1342.[81]

Like Giovanni Pisano, Lorenzetti also used a number of Roman models in his frescoes for the Sala della Pace: art historians have discussed at length the stylistic precedents for the classicizing figures of Peace, Security, Dialectic, and Summer.[82] In fact, scholars have identified in the frescoes a dependence on Roman models at a number of different levels:

---

[80] On Ciampolo di Meo degli Ugurgieri, see chapter 4.

[81] Rowley (1958), 1.94. As Rowley notes, frescoes were discovered in the twentieth century in a village called Asciano, not too far from Siena, which appear to have based on Lorenzetti's "Roman" frescoes. They depict famous men of antiquity like Priam, Agamemnon, Scipio Africanus Aemilianus, and Cyrus; see Donato (1988) and Ascheri (2001a), which contains a good illustration. The fact that only one of these was technically Roman, and yet Agnolo di Tura identifies them as "Roman stories", may suggest the degree to which the late Middle Ages identified with and valued ancient history primarily for its "Romanness"—even the parts that weren't Roman.

Agnolo di Tura's text, which is translated in Rowley, reads: *Sanesi avendo fatto el palazzo co' la prigione nuova, e sopra la sala del consiglio fecero le camere de' signori e d'altri famegli nella sala del palazo del mezo, e fecelle dipegnare di fuore a storie romane di mano di maestro Anbruogio Lorenzetti di Siena*; Lisini and Iacometti (1931-9), 518.

[82] See e.g. Rowley (1958), 1.94-6, and Starn (1994), 60-1 and 70-1.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

from artistic style to conceptual program. Skinner, for instance, argues that the worldview presented by Lorenzetti is more Ciceronian than Aristotelian, as has been a popular view.[83] Starn and Partridge have analyzed the texts associated with the frescoes for a decidedly Romanizing rhetoric.[84] Furthermore, the Camarlingo di Biccherna for the twentieth of February, 1330, records the payment of Simone Martini for a fresco of the Roman patriot Marcus Attilius Regulus.[85] Thus the commissions of the Nine show Romanizing tendencies on a number of different levels: they appear to have valued not only Roman subjects for their commissions but also a Romanizing artistic style (as also with Giovanni Pisano) and broader conceptual programs based on Roman virtues and civic values. Considered together, these various projects would have created a clear philosophical parallel between Siena's Roman past and its modern adoption of Roman civic values. Classical Rome (and specifically the Roman Republic) was a highly relevant historical ideal which stood in this period for justice, longevity of regime, and the pursuit of the common good.

The extent to which the Nine identified and defined their rule with Roman models is perhaps best demonstrated by the story of the Lysippan Venus. At some point during excavations for civic improvements in the 1320s or 1330s, a statue of the classical goddess Venus was excavated which was labeled with the name of the great Greek

---

[83] Skinner (1986), 2-5. The more traditional view is that the frescoes emerge from the Aristotelian-Thomistic intellectual tradition; this is the view advanced by Rubinstein (1958), 182-9, and Frugoni (1991), 118-57. Starn and Partridge (1992) note cheerfully that "perhaps the clearest lesson to be drawn from these readings is that the frescoes lend themselves to a variety of learned interpretations—indeed, that they positively invite them" (39).

[84] Starn and Partridge (1992), 35-45.

[85] Wieruszowksi (1944), 28, and Southard (1979b). Hoch (1987) notes that Simone Martini used Constantinian *solidi* as models for his depiction of the Emperor Julian in the St. Martin chapel in the basilica of St. Francis in Assisi: "[Julian] is the earliest image extant in Italian painting possessing an identifiable source based on antique numismatic portraiture" (43).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

sculptor Lysippus (and hence, according to modern art historians, it was probably a Roman copy, since Lysippus never signed his work). The statue was greatly admired, and honored, and even a century later Lorenzo Ghiberti claimed to have seen a treasured scrap of paper belonging to a very old Sienese monk, which was a drawing of the Venus by Ambrogio Lorenzetti himself.[86] Therefore, when the project to bring water to the Sienese Campo was being completed in 1342 or 1343, and a fountain had to be built, the Nine decided to dedicate the fountain to the Virgin Mary and put this statue at the head of the fountain.[87] As far as can be determined, the fountain was actually designed to accommodate the statue since it lacked the full canopy usual to the design.[88] When the fountain was completed and the water arrived in the city, the Nine sponsored a huge civic celebration.[89] The statue presided over the Sienese Campo and its fountain for

---

[86] "[Another statue] was found in Siena: a great festival was held and the experts held it to be a marvelous work. It was signed on the base with the name of the excellent master, Lysippus... I know this statue only from a drawing by Ambrogio Lorenzetti, a very great Sienese painter, which was preserved with the greatest care by a very old Carthusian named Fra. Jacopo, a goldsmith like his father before him. Fra Jacopo was a draughtsman and took great pleasure in the art of sculpture and he undertook to tell me how the statue had been found during the digging of a foundation where the houses of the Malavolti now stand, and how all the experts and all those learned in the art of sculpture, the goldsmiths, and the painters ran to see this admirable statue, of such skill... so they set it on their fountain as a work of great eminence. They flocked to put it up with great pomp and honor and it was set magnificently above the fountain" [...*fu trovata nella città di Siena, della quale ne feciono grandissima festa et dagli intendenti fu tenuta maravigliosa opera, e nella basa era scripto el nome del maestro, el quale era excellentissimo maestro, el nome suo fu Lisippo... Questa non uidi se non disegnata di mano d'uno grandissimo pictore della città di Siena il quale ebbe nome Ambruogio Lorenzetti; la quale teneua con grandissima diligentia uno frate antichissimo dell'ordine de' frati di Certosa; el frate fu orefice et ancora el padre, chiamato per nome frate Jacopo et fu disegnatore et forte si dilettaua dell'arte della scultura et cominciommi a narrare come essa statua fu trouata, faccendo uno fondamento, oue sono le case de' Malauolti: come tutti gli intendenti et dotti dell'arte della scultura et orefici et pictori corsono a uedere questa statua di tanta marauigla et di tanta arte... Et con molto honore la collocorono a porla con grandissima festa et honore et muroronla magnificamente sopra essa fonte*]; Lorenzo Ghiberti (1912), 63, and (1948-67), 31.

[87] Rowley (1958), 1.94-5.

[88] Hanson (1965), 9. Figure 45 shows a parallel example (from Verona, 1368) of a classical statue erected onto a late medieval fountain.

[89] "The water for the fountain in the Campo came to the Campo on the __ day of June...; because of this the Sienese held a great festival for [all] Siena such that it is impossible to relate the wonderful things that were provided for everyone. For the Nine as well as for magnates, "ordinary people" and artisans of all kinds... [there were] new games and infinite variety, with great expense of candles, favors, solemn wines and foods, and meals, without any sense of shame—all of which was so constantly accompanied by songs, dances,

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

about ten years—but in 1357, after their embarrassing rout by the Florentines, the new regime concluded that their defeat was punishment for displaying an idolatrous and immodest figure so publicly. They ordered the Lysippan Venus pulled down off the fountain, broken up, and its pieces buried in Florentine territory.[90] The pride with which the classical statue was originally admired and erected, and the fierce superstition with which it was pulled down and buried in pieces in enemy soil, both indicate the intensity with which the Sienese regarded their civic symbols. They may also indicate the extent to which the classicizing tendency in Sienese society was regarded as associated specifically with the regime of the Nine.

---

and festive rejoicing for men, women, and children, as well as the religious and country folk, that it would be impossible to describe [*L'aqua de la fonte del Canpo di Siena vene la prima volta nel Canpo a dì... di giugno...; per la qual cosa i Sanesi per Siena si fe' gran festa e fu tale che è incredibile a scrivere e narare le magnificenze che per ognuno era fatto. Sì per li Nove e così per li grandi e popolari e artifici d'ogni arti... nuovi giuochi e belli e svariati infiniti con grande spendio di cera e confetti e solenni vini e mangiari e cene senza alcuna parola di scandolo, che senpre con canti e balli e gioia e festa omini, done e fanciulli e religiosi e contadini tanto, che sarebe incredibile a scrivare*]; Agnolo di Tura in Lisini and Iacometti (1931-9), 537.

[90] "They were suffering many reverses in their war with Florence and when the flower of the citizens met in council one of them rose and spoke of the statue, to this effect: 'Signori cittadini, considering that things have gone ill with us ever since we found this statue and considering that idolatry is forbidden by our faith, we must believe that God has visited us, for our errors, with these adversities. And in fact, ever since we honored this statue, things have gone from bad to worse. I am certain that while we keep it in our territory things will continue to go badly. I am one of those who advise taking it down and smashing it to pieces, sending the fragments to be buried in Florentine soil.' They all agreed with this and so the plan was put into execution and it was buried in our lands [Ghiberti was Florentine]" [*Auendo la terra moltissime auersità di guerra con Fiorentini et essendo nel consiglo ragunati el fiore de' loro cittadini, si leuò uno cittadino et parlò sopra a questa statua in questo tenore: 'Signori cittadini, auendo considerato dapoi noi trouam(m)o questa statua sempre siamo arriuati male, considerato quanto la ydolatria è proibita alla nostra fede, douiamo credere tutte le aduersità noi abbiamo, Iddio ce le manda per li nostri errori. Et ueggiallo per effecto che da poi noi honoramo detta statua, sempre siamo iti di male in peggio. Certo mi rendo che per insino noi la terremo in sul nostro terreno, sempre arriueremo male. Sono uno di quelli consiglerei essa si ponesse et tutta si lacerasse et spezassesi et mandassesi a soppellire in sul terreno de' Fiorentini.' Tutti d'achordo raffermarono el detto del loro cittadino et così missono in essecutione et fu soppellita in su el nostro terreno*]; Lorenzo Ghiberti (1912), 63, and (1948-67), 31.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Over the course of their seventy-year-long rule, therefore, the Nine seem to have adopted a conscious policy of promoting civic Roman ideas, values, and symbols in support of their regime. They themselves adopted a Roman symbol (*the* Roman symbol, if truth be told), the image of the wolf and twins, which equated their history with that of ancient Rome while at the same time linking the two via the Sienese legend of the sons of Remus. I would argue that the Sienese wolf and twins seem most likely to have represented Aschius and Senius from their first appearance in the city, since even the earliest representations include twins with the wolf—whereas if the Sienese were simply slavishly copying the Roman wolf in their own city, they would most likely have copied the Etruscan wolf, who at that date had no twins.[91] In any case, the Nine seem to have occupied themselves seriously in promoting both the wolf-and-twins symbol as well as other Roman motifs from the beginning of their rule. One unique feature of the civic improvements undertaken by the Sienese regime of the Nine, distinguishing it, for instance, from those of the Paduan commune, is the integration of their classicizing efforts with their public works. In Padua, the reconstruction of the monument to Antenor was obviously a different project from the building of the Palazzo della Ragione or the repairing of the city gates.[92] In Siena, on the other hand, there were no major projects specifically and only designed to glorify the city's founders. Instead, the symbol of the wolf-and-twins was incorporated into all the commune's major projects in smaller but much more ubiquitous ways: onto the face of the Porta Romana, the drainspouts of

---

[91] For the history of the Capitoline wolf, see Presicce (2000), esp. 93-8. On the medieval practice of keeping antiquities (including the wolf) at the Lateran Palace, see Krautheimer (2000), 191-7.

[92] See examples given in chapter 5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the Palazzo Pubblico, the frescoing of the Sala della Pace, and so forth. Even the keeping of live wolves was done as a matter of normal procedure: the wolves were kept on the ground floor of the Palazzo Pubblico, for instance, instead of having special quarters built for them.

On the face of things, it seems astounding that an oligarchic regime could maintain the same policy over a span of seventy years when the chief magistrates changed every two months. But, as already discussed, each set of Nine was elected from a relatively small ruling class who were unusually invested in the public fortunes of their city. Thanks to a strong tradition of Latin literacy and the growing strength of the Sienese university (a trend cultivated, of course, by the Nine themselves), these men were more and more aware of the sources of Roman history, and their relevance and value to their political position. Translations such as those by Ciampolo di Meo Ugurgieri broadened the availability of such sources even to those without a Latin education. By and large, however, the men who served on the Nine were more likely to be doing the translation than reading the end product. The nobility, along with Ghibellines, were excluded from serving on the Nine (although they were eligible for other offices), but most of Siena's prominent families had members who sat on the Nine at one point or another—including a number of nobles. They had similar concerns and goals for the commune of Siena, and seem to have identified in the Roman past a model on which to base their efforts toward reaching the idealized state depicted for them on two walls of their council room.

Luckily, the Nine were supported not only by men who knew their Roman history but men who were capable of depicting it in the ways they desired. The Nine

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

could instruct a sculptor that they wanted a wolf nursing a pair of twins, but only Giovanni Pisano (and perhaps a couple of his contemporaries) could have produced a result that closely imitated Roman models. Likewise with Ambrogio Lorenzetti: anyone could have produced an "allegory of good government", but only someone who had the desire to study Roman artistic styles, the ability to reproduce them, and the mental agility to associate form with function (a broader Roman significance) could have produced his frescoes in the Sala della Pace. The Nine clearly knew whom they were hiring, and for what purpose. Lorenzetti is a particularly interesting case since he was a Sienese citizen himself, and took part in civic government as well as performing commissions for the ruling regime. By all accounts he was a scholarly and learned man (unusual for painters of the day, since most painters were artisans rather than intellectuals), and many historians have attributed to him both or either of the complex internal program of the Sala della Pace, and its associated inscriptions.[93] Thus while Siena may not have had a homegrown circle of professional prehumanists, it did have an educated and engaged ruling class who knew where to find talent and how to use it in the best service of the commune.

The choice of projects, no less than the choice of artists, is revealing. Presumably the Nine were involved in planning the public works on which they were going to spend the city's money, and even the projects chosen show an acute awareness of the use of public images and propaganda. Starn and Partridge point out that it can be no accident that Lorenzetti's allegorical representation of the idealized commune, with its various figures like Justice, Charity, Mercy, Wisdom, and so forth, was painted on the far wall of

---

[93] Starn and Partridge (1992), 33-4.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the Sala della Pace, against and in front of which the Nine would sit.[94] They would thus appear practically as part of the fresco in the eyes of any petitioner or ambassador standing before them. The image of the wolf and twins would likewise appear in the center of the room, immediately over their heads, with all the other symbols of the city—arguably the most significant place in the entire Sienese state. The observer might therefore be inclined to reflect on the other instances of the same symbol: the frescoed wolf and twins appear in a room on the second floor of a palazzo protected by menacing stone *lupae*, in the center of a city protected at its gates by more *lupae*. And the depiction of the Porta Romana in Lorenzetti's fresco would remind one of that fact in almost circular fashion. Similarly, the choice to depict both the Virgin Mary and the wolf and twins on the city seal, and erect a classical statue on a fountain dedicated to the Virgin, sends a strong message that the ruling regime saw no contradiction between its Roman past and its Christian present. Instead, both topoi act as ideals that encourage—and symbolize in two different ways—the achievement of the highest possible good for the Sienese state. The Nine chose their projects, and the political messages contained in them, carefully.

All of the Nine's various projects, therefore, had the city population as their first audience. On a practical level, they improved the general standard of life in Siena: a peaceful and broadly-extending contado, roads safe for travel, protective city walls, a publicly available water source, clean and wide streets throughout the city, the grand seat of government fronting onto an aesthetically unified public gathering place. On a more

---

[94] Starn and Partridge (1992), 18-9.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

theoretical level, these improvements increased the population's pride in their city, for providing all of these amenities and looking after its people. Furthermore, as this chapter has demonstrated, the most public and significant of these improvements not only increased but also focused that civic pride into a form chosen by the Nine: one based on Sienese descent from a Roman foundation. The myth of Aschius and Senius provided an illustrious Roman heritage in place of an embarrassing Gallic one, thus increasing civic pride in itself—but it also provided a means through which to compare the ancient Roman state with the modern Sienese state. The symbol of the wolf and twins, because of the automatic ambiguity as to whether it refers to Romulus and Remus or Aschius and Senius, inspires an automatic parallel between early Rome and contemporary Siena. Thus the cultivation of the wolf (and its twins) as the mascot, or symbol, of Siena provided a Roman model of civic behavior. All of the activities of the Nine imply that this is their goal: their cultivation of the image, their similar cultivation of other didactic Romanizing projects like Lorenzetti's Roman stories or Martini's Marcus Regulus, and their obvious concern with providing a public standard by which the success of the city's rulers was to be judged. Lorenzetti's frescoes in the Sala della Pace are therefore the pictorial equivalent of the legal constitutions promulgated by the regime of the Nine; both of these provide positive and negative models by which the success of the Sienese state (and, by extension, its government) is to be judged. And, as has been demonstrated, the "ideal state" to which the Sienese aspired was one largely based on Roman models, both pictorially and philosophically. The adoption of the wolf-and-twins as the city's chief symbol cemented this particular conception of Sienese identity.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

As we might expect, however, the effects of the Aschius and Senius legend reached far beyond the city walls. Foundation by the sons of a founder of Rome was a decidedly more noble past than foundation by elderly Gauls, so the Romanizing legend would imbue the city with a much greater legitimacy in the grand scheme of Italian politics. Sienese diplomats could finally feel themselves the equals of men from Florence, Genoa, Milan, and other cities, each of which could point to a significant (and native Italian) foundation as a reason for its political predominance in a given area of late medieval Italy. A city's antiquity and illustrious past were significant factors in political maneuverings even among the Guelf cities of Tuscany; they were nominally allies but the political arena was cutthroat enough that any of them would jump at a chance to one-up its neighbors in any possible way. Their Romanizing origin legend, therefore, compared and linked the foundation of Siena with that of Rome, providing a direct descent from the classic Roman origin myth. As we saw in Padua, this posited not only the city of Siena but also its ruling government (in this case, the Nine) as the legitimate heirs of the Romans in their political sphere, legitimizing not only the city in the eyes of its citizens and external neighbors but also that particular regime.

This was particularly important during the regime of the Nine, the last years of the thirteenth century, leading into the first half of the fourteenth century. As we saw at the beginning of this chapter, the Sienese in these years were fighting a losing battle with their larger and dominating neighbor, Florence. Despite Sienese efforts to extend their contado and boost the economy, Florence was already a much larger city, and it was growing at a great rate. Despite the two cities' nominal alliance under the aegis of the Guelf League, the Nine could sense even at the beginning of their tenure that they were

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

rapidly losing political and economic ground to the Florentines. And it was all too obvious from the fortunes of other cities in central Tuscany, like Pistoia, that Florentine ascendancy led to Florentine hegemony—if not outright takeover.[95]

Moreover, this kind of diplomatic struggle was regularly fought on an ideological front as well as a political one. At the same time as we see the promulgation of the wolf and twins as the chief symbols of Siena, and by implication the promulgation of the Romanizing myth of Aschius and Senius as the "true" history of Siena, we may also observe, in opposition, the Florentine response to these efforts. Dino Compagni's chronicle of Florentine factionalism in the early years of the fourteenth century includes a reference to the *lupa puttaneggia, ciò è Siena*, or "whorish she-wolf, that is, Siena", in his account for 1303.[96] Although we may see in this reference the success of the Sienese attempts to associate their city with the emblem of the wolf, the Florentine Compagni is clearly trying to present the analogy in the worst possible light.

Perhaps the most ignominious portrayal of Sienese history in these years comes from Giovanni Villani. After having placed the foundations of Florence and its sister-city Fiesole in the earliest years of Italian history, Villani then takes about ten chapters of his chronicle to discuss the early histories of the other chief cities in his part of Italy.[97] On the whole, these accounts are not particularly pejorative, and repeat Trojan or Roman legends popular in Villani's day; of course, none of these legends is as illustrious or ancient as the legends Villani has provided for Florence, but that is only to be expected.

---

95 Brucker (1984), 167-73.
96 Dino Compagni (2000), 78.
97 Giovanni Villani (1990), 1.75-82 (book 2.9-2.19); Selfe and Wicksteed translate only one of these (on the city of Luni): Giovanni Villani (1906), 34-5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

It is only when Villani comes to chapter 56, "on the city of Siena", that he really becomes offensive. The passage on the founding of the city is worth quoting in full:

> The city of Siena is a relatively modern city, which was founded around the year of Christ 670, when Charles Martel, father of King Pipin of France, came with the French into the region of Apulia in service to the Holy Church, to fight a people who called themselves Lombards—pagans, heretics, and Arians—whose king was Grimaldo of Morona, who made his capital in Benevento, and persecuted the Romans and Holy Church. And the said host of the French and other ultramontanes [*oltramontani*: people from beyond the Alps], finding themselves in the place which is today Siena, left there all the old people, and those who were unwell, and those who were not able to bear arms, so as not to take them along into Apulia. And those remaining at rest in the aforesaid place settled there, and made themselves two habitations in the style of a castle, which is today the very highest part of the city of Siena, to make the place more secure. And the one dwelling with the other was called Sena, deriving from those who stayed behind on account of their old age. Then, as the inhabitants increased, they connected one place with another, and so according to grammar one declines it in the plural: nominative plural, *these Senae.*[98]

Villani's chief source for these scurrilous lies (as the Sienese would have viewed them) is clearly John of Salisbury, but it can be seen that Villani has taken each of John's points and exaggerated it to make it more insulting. John, for instance, said that Siena was founded by the soldiers of the Gallic leader Brennus, which would set it during the time of the Romans; Villani extrapolates this scenario into the soldiers of the French king Charles Martel in the seventh century AD: thus making the Sienese not only Gallic but

---

[98] *La città di Siena è assai nuova città, ch'ella fu cominciata intorno agli anni di Cristo 670, quando Carlo Martello, padre del re Pipino di Francia, co'Franceschi andavano nel regno di Puglia in servigio di santa Chiesa a contastare una gente che si chiamavano i Longobardi, pagani, e eretici, e ariani, onde era loro re Grimaldo di Morona, e facea suo capo in Benivento, e perseguitava gli Romani e santa Chiesa. E trovandosi la detta oste de' Franceschi e altri oltramontani ov'è oggi Siena, si lasciaro in quello luogo tutti gli vecchi e quelli che non erano bene sani, e che non poteano portare arme, per non menarglisi dietro in Puglia; e quelli rimasi in riposo nel detto luogo, vi si comiciaro ad abitare, e fecionvi due residii a modo di castella, ove è oggi il più alto della città di Siena, per istare più al sicuro; e l'uno abitacolo e l'altro era chiamato* Sena, *dirivando di quegli che v'erano rimasi per vecchiezza. Poi crescendo gli abitanti, si raccomunò l'uno luogo e l'altro, e però secondo gramatica si diclina in plurali: pluraliter, nominativo* hee Sene; Giovanni Villani (1990), 81-2 (book 2.19).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

French[99], and moving the foundation of the city up by centuries. This would of course destroy any Sienese claim to antiquity or even legitimacy among a group of cities all founded by the Romans, or even earlier. Moreover, all these other cities were founded by native Italians or classical Trojans rather than the French, whom Villani differentiates specifically with his phrase "the French and other ultramontanes"; everyone not from Italy is a breed apart (and, by implication, inferior). In the same fashion, Villani extrapolates John of Salisbury's statement on the founders of Siena from "the elderly, the weak, and the herdsmen" into "the elderly, the unwell, and the weak"—a fairly subtle change, but one with which the tone of the sentence takes a change for the worse.[100] Not mentioned by Villani is anything related to wolves or infants or Romans; leaving these things out this would clearly have been a conscious decision, since by the late 1330s the wolf and twins were well-known and widespread as the symbol of Siena.

Thus, during this time period, the Sienese propagation of their wolf symbol and its associated legends would have been doubly important in the face of Florentine aggression, both political and mythographical. The Florentines had a political stake in arguing that the city of Siena had been founded by the French only seven or eight centuries earlier, and the Sienese likewise had clear political reasons for arguing that their city was more than three times that old, and founded by the sons of a founder of Rome

---

[99] Although Villani uses the word *Francia* which to us implies what Thomas Bisson calls "Frankland", the land of the Franks in the period before the establishment of the kingdom we now call France, it is the same word he uses to imply the French kingdom of his own day, so his word choice clearly identifies the founders of Siena with the medieval French of his own day. Similarly, he calls Charles Martel's soldiers *Franceschi*, the vernacular Italian word for "French" (rather than the modern historical "Frankish"). Still, it is perhaps asking too much that a fourteenth-century Italian merchant show a historical awareness of the distinction between the Francia of the eighth-century Carolingians and the France of the fourteenth-century Valois.

[100] This is particularly true since *non bene sani* has distinct overtones of "insane": the word can mean *mentally* unwell as well as physically so.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

itself. The ubiquity of the wolf symbol in the civic projects sponsored by the Nine seems predicated on the knowledge that they would have to replace John of Salisbury's embarrassing French origin legend with their own Romanizing myth—and that the Florentines would do what they could to prevent it. Ironically, the Sienese distrust of Florentine aggression was to prove the city's undoing. In fact, it wasn't the Florentines to whom the Sienese eventually lost their independence in the chaotic years after the fall of the Nine, but the Milanese, to whom the Sienese had turned for protection against the Florentine threat in 1389.

In conclusion, we can see that the chief goals of the Sienese state under the regime of the Nine were the expansion, clear definition, and improvement of that state. These goals were accomplished by a variety of methods, from legislation to public works, military and diplomatic negotiation, the patronage of education, and, finally, the adroit use of mythography and symbolism. Each in its own way, these projects defined Sienese identity: what was and was not Sienese, both physically and intellectually. They increased the pride felt by Sienese citizens in their city, visible in the many citywide celebrations seen upon the completion of several of these projects, like Duccio's *Maestà* or the city aqueduct. At the same time, they increased the standing of the city in the eyes of its allies and enemies. The adoption and promulgation of the symbol of the wolf and twins played a major part in this physical and mental construction of the city of Siena. As the symbol of the city, it focused and directed the way that the city was viewed by the outside world. Dino Compagni's reference to the "whorish she-wolf" may have been insulting, but his comment nevertheless perpetuates Siena's ideological connection with

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the symbol of the she-wolf. Similarly, the image of the wolf and twins unified the citizens by reminding them of their shared past and present, as we have seen in other cities; in its subject, it also reminded them of the ideal "common good" toward which they were all supposed to be striving. The ferocious animal nursing the two infants provided a historical (i.e. Roman) parallel by which to judge present civic behavior, and imparted a useful dual personality to the city's rulers: nurturing toward its own progeny, but fierce in their defense. It was a vision of unexpected harmony in a harsh world. In the broadest sense, providing that harmony was the chief goal of the regime of the Nine; in their view, it was to be consciously sought on the model of Siena's Roman ancestors. The wolf and twins was the cornerstone of every "civic good" sought by the Nine during the seventy years of their regime.

The centrality of the wolf-and-twins to the regime of the Nine, and the essential equation of the two in the eyes of the Sienese population as well as the other cities of Italy may explain the virtual disappearance of the symbol in the years after the fall of the Nine in 1355. After a proliferation of civic projects in the first half of the fourteenth century, many of which showed Romanizing tendencies or included the image of the wolf-and-twins, Siena in the second half of the fourteenth century appears remarkably bare of ideological pretensions. Its increasingly difficult political position may explain this change: rather than claiming political and ideological equivalence among a number of cities in Guelf Tuscany, Siena was increasingly caught between the powerhouses of Florence and Milan. The city was faced with a new battle for survival, void of intellectual posturing. The battle was unsuccessful: Siena allied with Milan in 1389 as a matter of

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

protection against Florence, and officially lost its independence in 1399 after ten years of Milanese domination.[101]

Sienese independence was fortuitously restored in 1404, however, after the death of Giangaleazzo Visconti. With independence came a renewed and revitalized civic celebration of the city's Roman roots. All of the most famous examples of the Aschius and Senius legend date from these years: the sculptor Jacopo della Quercia was commissioned to rebuild the fountain in the Campo, bare since the scapegoating of the Lysippan Venus in the 1350s; he decorated the new fountain not only with multiple she-wolves (figure 46) but two female figures on the model of the Lysippan Venus who probably represent Rhea Silvia and Acca Larentia, the mother and foster-mother of Romulus and Remus.[102] Each woman holds an infant in her arms, thus referring both to the founding of Rome by the grown-up Romulus and Remus but also to the parallel fate of Aschius and Senius. Taddeo di Bartolo was commissioned to paint Roman heroes in the chapel of the Palazzo Pubblico.[103] And the wolf-and-twins appears everywhere: carved on chests, sculpted in relief onto great ceremonial dishes, and cast in bronze.[104] Most publicly, Giovanni di Turino was commissioned to cast a great bronze wolf in imitation of its Roman ancestor, which was then erected on a Roman column in front of

---

101 See fn. 46, above.

102 Hanson (1965), esp. 25ff., is the classic study; Ferretti (2001) also discusses the fountain's recent replacement and restoration (the fifteenth-century panels and figures are now in the museum of S. Maria della Scala).

103 Rubinstein (1958), 189-207.

104 Presicce (2000), 98-9, esp. figs. 6 (statue by Giovanni and Lorenzo Turino, 1429) and 7 (ceremonial plate by Giovanni Turino, 1427); Norman (1999), 5, fig. 6 (the illuminated title page of the *Libro dei Censi* [c. 1405], which depicts the wolf and twins prominently in the center of the bottom border); Paolozzi Strozzi (1992), fig. 59 (cast iron gate, 1437), 61 (intarsia panel by Domenico di Niccolò, mid-fifteenth-century) and 66-71 (Sienese coins showing the wolf and twins, sixteenth century).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the Palazzo Pubblico (figure 47).[105] And the Aschius and Senius legend was finally written down.[106] It cannot be a coincidence that the legend of Siena's Roman origin reappeared in these years of regained Sienese independence. In the seventy years between 1287 and 1355, the Nine had constructed a world in which an independent Sienese republic based its collective understanding of its own identity on its founding by the twin sons of Remus. Half a century later, when the Sienese had thrown off Milanese domination and were once again free to rule themselves, they simply picked up where the Nine had left off.

---

[105] This is the bronze wolf shown in Presicce (2000), 98, fig. 6; the original is now kept in a case inside the Palazzo Pubblico, and a replica stands on the column outside the Palazzo.

[106] See fn. 4 at the beginning of this chapter.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

A Lesser-Known Aeneas and His *Aeneid*: Perugia, 1255-1301

Chapter 8

> Boniface of Verona, master of astrology and poetry, has come to the city of Perugia and wishes to make a solemn work, a book of the ancient history and concerns of the Commune of Perugia, and to recall these antiquities to memory for the honor of the Commune of Perugia.
>
> —*Annali decemvirali* [Perugian council minutes], June 1293[1]

Introduction

Today, when we think of the great city-states of late medieval Italy, places like Florence, Venice, and Genoa come most readily to mind. Cities whose chief success was in the Middle Ages rather than in the Renaissance, like Umbrian Perugia, tend to escape notice—and yet, as Sarah Rubin Blanshei has pointed out, Perugia in the early fourteenth century was "one of the leading city-states dominating the political, economic, and cultural life of late medieval Italy."[2] In the Middle Ages, this medium-sized university town dominated all of Umbria, chiefly by virtue of having developed an economy based on industry and trade in a region which otherwise was still overwhelmingly agricultural.

Like the other oligarchies discussed in this study, the government of late-thirteenth-century Perugia worked to extend their economic pre-eminence into the political sphere, dominating Umbria *de iure* as well as *de facto*. As part of this effort at expansion and control, the Perugian commune sponsored many of the same types of public improvements we have observed elsewhere, expressing their ascendance in material and monumental terms throughout both city and contado. Although all of these

---

1 *Magister Bonifacium de Verona magister in Estroloia et in versificando venit ad civitatem Perusii et velit solempne opus facere et librum antiquitatum et negotiorum Comunis Perusii et antiquitates reducere ad memoriam pro honore Comunis Perusii*; Mazzatinti (1896), 559.

2 Blanshei (1976), 7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

projects inherently demonstrated and consolidated the city's control of its territory, the most important ones gave a narrative historical background to that control: the late-thirteenth-century commune also put significant amounts of money into promulgating the legend of Eulistes, the classical founder of Perugia. Eulistes—related but not identical to the more famous Odysseus/Ulysses of Greek epic—is a somewhat mysterious figure: he seems to have been manufactured wholesale for the use of the medieval commune, and relegated to obscurity once that commune's dominance was over. As such, his legend effectively demonstrates the importance of the classical foundation legend to late medieval city-states like Perugia. The city in this period was not facing major threats either internally or externally; rather, the government was consciously seeking to establish a public face for the city commensurate with its sense of the city's socio-political stature.

This chapter seeks to contextualize the myth of Eulistes in the period between the institution of the major office of the capitano del popolo (1255) and the creation of the new executive committee of the *Priori* (1301). An unusual number of extant medieval sources suggest that during this relatively stable half-century in Perugian history, the commune considered the promulgation of a classical founder's legend to be a natural part of their efforts to define and improve what it meant to be Perugian in late medieval Italy.

Growth and Civic Improvement

Like Siena, the city of Perugia is a land-locked city built at the intersection of several hills: five hills, in this case, rather than three. At first glance, the city's

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

commercial success seems the more surprising, in that Perugia has not even Siena's excuse of being located along the Via Francigena, a major trade and pilgrimage route; Perugia is not only located high on a ridge between rivers, but also between highways. This seems to have worked to the city's advantage, however—Perugia connected the major north-south highways of the Via Cassia (from Rome north to Florence and the Po Valley) and the Via Flaminia (from Rome northeast to Rimini and the Adriatic coast), and the major river valleys of the Tiber and the Chiana. Thus the city dominated the communication and trade routes of all upper Umbria, while serving as the nodal center of the regional road system.[3]

At its greatest extension, shortly after the year 1300, the Perugian contado stretched chiefly north and west of the city, and included the lakes of Trasimene and Chiusi. In the other direction, the Perugian commune always controlled some territory to the south and east, but exactly which was often disputed with the nearby cities of Assisi, Foligno, and Spoleto. In 1351, thirty-three subject communes participated in the annual ceremonies in honor of Perugia's patron saint Ercolano (or Herculanus), which does not seem to have been an unusual number.[4] Thus, at about the turn of the fourteenth century the Perugian contado consisted of about five hundred square miles.[5] This is relatively small in comparison to most of the cities we have considered (Padua, e.g., had a contado of approximately four thousand square miles), which indicates an unusually high population density in this period. The Umbrian hills were heavily settled,

---

3 There are good maps of medieval Perugia and its contado in Grohmann (1981a), vol. 3, and Neri (1977).

4 Neri (1977) and Grohmann (1981a), vol. 2, esp. chap. 3 and 10.

5 Blanshei (1976), 15.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and Perugia itself had a population of about 35,000 people circa 1300, equivalent to that of Padua or Siena.[6]

Perugia's commercial success, as well as its territorial expansion, dates back to the twelfth century. Trade and commerce, both local and long-distance, grew over the course of the twelfth century as it did throughout Italy, reaching their local apex in the late thirteenth century. The same is true of Perugian industry: merchants and bankers were unsurprisingly highly influential from an early date, but their economic and political power in the city came to be rivaled later on by more traditionally "industrial" guilds. By the mid-thirteenth century, for instance, the most influential guild in the city after the merchants and bankers was that of the shoemakers. Perugia thus had expanding industries in leather and metallurgy along with the more common industries like woolworking.[7] The lakes of the Perugian contado also served as important economic assets: as well as being a sizable source of fresh water, Lake Trasimene was renowned for its fish.

Given the significance of Perugian industry in the regional economy, then, and its expanding role in the period we are considering in this chapter, it should hardly be surprising to find that late thirteenth-century Perugia was more of a "guild republic" than any of the other cities we have considered. The city's guilds dominated the structure and membership of the various councils that made up the government, and political influence and representation were strongly slanted in favor of the artisanal middle

---

6 Bairoch, Batou, et al. (1988), 46, and Blanshei (1979), 601.

7 On medieval Perugian economy and industry, see Blanshei (1976), 16-21, Blanshei (1979), and Grohmann (1981a), vol. 1, chapters 5 and 7.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

classes.[8] This was true even in the twelfth century, when Perugia had a consular regime like so many other Italian cities, but it became more true over the course of the thirteenth century. By 1262, for example, the numerous councils of the early thirteenth century had evolved into several smaller councils on three different levels. Largest and least active were the two major citizen assemblies: the Consiglio Maggiore, which had about six hundred members, and the smaller Consiglio del Popolo, which had only about four hundred members but included heads of guilds. (Further adjustments between 1300 and 1305 would increase the guilds' control of these councils.) On a higher level, both of these larger councils incorporated the more powerful Consiglio Speciale e Generale (hereafter referred to as the CSG), which met independently on a regular basis, and made most of the everyday decisions of the Perugian commune. The CSG was technically two different councils (the *Speciale* and the *Generale*) consisting of fifty and a hundred members respectively, elected separately, but they usually functioned together as a single assembly. This group's activities were directed by, thirdly, the city's smallest and most powerful council, the Consoli delle Arti (consuls of the guilds), a group created in 1270 of five members elected by the Rettori delle Arti, or heads of the guilds. Along with supervising the CSG, these five men advised the executive branch, which after 1255 consisted of both a podestà and a capitano del popolo. These two figures, both foreigners with terms of a year, shared many duties, but—following the same trend seen in the councils—the capitano (as representative of the popolo, or middle classes) gradually took over most of the responsibilities originally allotted to the podestà.[9]

---

[8] Grohmann (1981b), especially chapter 2. See also works cited in fn. 9, below.

[9] On the various structures of Perugian internal politics, see Abbondanza (1962), Marcacci Marinelli (1975), Grundman (1992), and Giorgetti (1993). Blanshei (1976), 52-9, provides a good overall picture.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Thus Perugia's late medieval development parallels what we have seen elsewhere: the considerable urban development begun in the eleventh and twelfth centuries reached its greatest expansion in the mid- and late thirteenth century. The city used its economic resources and geographic position to extend its political influence in this period, expanding and consolidating its control over its contado. Although the city nominally owed fealty to the papacy (being one of the foremost cities of the "patrimony of St. Peter", or papal state), it was essentially autonomous. Effigies of unpopular popes and cardinals are known to have been burned in the city's main square; taxes were more often negotiated than handed over. In essence, papal sovereignty was reluctantly acknowledged but the urban classes tended to object forcefully when popes tried to enforce it in practice.[10]

Within the city, the citizens continually refined an oligarchic republican government, in which the guilds most representative of Perugian economic power took an increasingly controlling part.[11] Following the pattern we have observed elsewhere, the late thirteenth-century Perugian government was not only concerned with establishing control over its various holdings, but also with publicly establishing legal and historical authority for that control. Thus we will observe here the same patterns of improvement and city glorification as we have seen in Siena, Genoa, and Padua.

The tasks of maintaining the property and honor of the commune were originally delegated to the podestà, and when the office of the capitano was invented in

---

[10] On the papal state, see Partner (1972) and Waley (1961). Waley in particular gives a good account of the negotiations which took place between the papacy and each of its supposedly dependent communes, including Perugia (37ff.). The best-known case of effigy-burning took place in 1282 (Waley [1961], 37).

[11] See fn. 7, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1255, both officials together were made responsible for overseeing public works and maintenance. This included defensive projects like the building of a castle at Torciano in 1274 as well as the maintenance of public bridges and roads, important since Perugia's road system and nodal position in the Umbrian trade network were part of its commercial success.[12] The road system was the focus of work ongoing throughout the entire thirteenth century. Similarly, bridges were a major expense in the last thirty years of the century: five different bridges were built in different areas of the contado between 1270 and 1290, and two more were built at the northern edge of the contado near Umbertide in 1290 and 1297. Older bridges over the Tiber river were repaired in 1279 and 1280. Finally, in 1298 the commune established a special commission to oversee the maintenance of the various *castelli* in the contado, like that at Torciano, as well as the city gates and walls—the city's more immediate defenses. [13]

Parallel efforts were directed at the city itself. The Perugian commune never went as far as the Sienese in mandating the appearance of building façades, but they did, for instance, attempt to pave most of the city streets. The paving of the main city piazza, onto which the cathedral and the city hall both face, began in 1255, and in 1268 the project was extended to include the two main streets of the city, which intersected at the piazza. By 1294 these projects were successful enough, and far enough advanced, that the commune could order the paving of every street in the town. Thus the commune began in 1255 with the most visible and public area of the city, the main piazza; they then extended the project out to the main streets of the city, and finally to the entire

---

12 Fabretti (1850), 56-9.
13 Blanshei (1976), 38.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

city. Medieval Perugia was not a large place, but having paved streets instead of the more common packed earth would have made a substantial difference in the everyday experience of living and working in the city.[14]

Similarly, being in the same position as the Sienese, topographically speaking, the Perugian commune was equally concerned with the public water supply. In 1254 the council commissioned an otherwise unknown friar, Fra Plenario, to bring water via aqueduct from Monte Pacciano, three miles out of town, to a monumental public fountain to be built in the main piazza, replacing a small cistern already extant. (The decision to pave the piazza would come less than a year after this decision.) As Fra Plenario's commission never produced a workable plan, the councils became more concerned from 1260 about the need for a public water source, and they discussed a number of different options, including building new fountains and sinking wells. In 1276, after consultations with a number of experts and other cities, a contract was made with the local Franciscan friars to execute the original aqueduct plan—and the new fountain was in use by the end of 1278, having been overseen by one Fra Bevignate and sculpted by Nicola and Giovanni Pisano (Nicola at the height of his career, and son Giovanni just starting his); see figure 48. In the same period of the 1260s and 1270s, a number of smaller projects oversaw the renovation of aging fountains, or the building of new ones, throughout the rest of the city.[15]

---

[14] See Ugolini (1964), 145-54, Blanshei (1976), 24-6, and Fabretti (1850), 56-8. E.g.: "In 1253, the paving of the square of the Perugian Commune was begun: the bricks came from Castello della Pieve" [*1253, Si comenzò a mattonare la piazza del Comune di Perugia: vennero li mattoni da Castello della Pieve*]; Fabretti (1850), 56.

[15] See Gurrieri (1973) and Cavallucci (1993), 11-40. Also cf. Ugolini (1964): "1276: In this year, in the month of March, the aqueduct for water from Monte Pac[c]iano was begun, which came to the fountain at the head of the square... 1278: In this year, on the 13th day of February, the water came from Monte Pacciano to

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

In addition to these "quality-of-life" improvements, the commune undertook a number of other projects more strictly aimed at the glorification of the city and its ruling regime. Probably spurred by similar decisions made in Florence, Orvieto, and (as we have seen) Siena, the Perugian commune decided in 1300 that a new cathedral was needed to replace the small Romanesque cathedral they already had. Other projects took precedence, however, and the new cathedral was not started until 1345. One such project was building a city hall worthy of the city: plans for a new city hall were being discussed as early as the 1270s, but construction did not start until 1292. Once it began, however, the Palazzo Nuovo (now known as the Palazzo dei Priori, from the Priori who replaced the Consoli delle Arti early in the fourteenth century; see figure 55) was at least finished enough by 1297 for secondary decoration to begin: its earliest frescoes date from 1297-1300.[16] Given the speed with which the hall was completed, we may assume it was one of the commune's highest priorities in those years.

Finally, the commune concerned itself not only with material improvements to their city and its territories; rather, it reorganized the internal structure of the city at the same time as they renovated and improved its external appearance. Perugia's first unified set of statutes was issued in 1279, and archives of council minutes and tax records from the mid-thirteenth century onward attest to a developed system of written records and archiving from at least that time.[17] This was a deliberate effort to establish and preserve the commune's rights, privileges, and authority—as much an attempt to define

---

the fountain in the Perugian square" [*1276: In quisto millessimo, del mese del março, se començò el condutto de Monte Paciano per l'acqua, la quale venia ella fonte che stava en capo de la piaçça... 1278: In quisto millessimo, dì xiij de ffebraio, venne l'acqua de Monte Pacciano ella ffonte de la piaçça de Peroscia*] (154).

16 Cavallucci (1993), 146-52 and Riess (1981), 5-24.

17 See Abbondanza (1962) and (1973), and Bartoli Langeli (1983).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

what was "Perugian" as the establishing of geographical bounds and building castles in the contado. 1255 also saw the establishment of a city mint, and the striking of the first Perugian money as a statement of the city's economic success, independence, and resources.[18] In the intellectual sphere, the gathering of scholars from nearby Bologna and the same trends in political awareness resulted in academic negotiations, and Pope Boniface VIII's granting of the title of *studium generale* for a Perugian university in 1301.[19]

Thus, between the establishment of both the office of capitano and the city mint in 1255, and the formal commissioning of the city's university in 1301, the Perugian commune systematically set about enlarging its contado, consolidating its control, beautifying the city, and acquiring all the improvements considered necessary for a politically important and economically successful Italian city-state. The city's inhabitants may be considered to have been closely involved with these efforts—not only by their participation on city councils, but also because the later thirteenth century saw a great deal of independent patronage and city beautification, for example in the building or restoration of a significant number of churches.[20] At the same time, Perugia gained attention on a diplomatic level due to its importance as a papal city: the popes were in residence a number of times in the later thirteenth century. Pope Martin IV, for instance, died in Perugia in 1294, so in that year the city hosted the conclave which elected Pope Celestine V. Although the city's economic success gave them considerable

---

18 Vermiglioli (1816) and Pierotti (1981). Cf. Fabretti (1850): "1255: The minting of Perugian money was begun" [*1255: Si comenzò a batter la moneta di Perugia*] (57).

19 Ermini (1971), 8; chapter 1 in general is helpful on the development of the university as a civic institution.

20 Listed by Blanshei (1976), 24.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

leverage in their dealings with the papacy, papal patronage certainly increased the city's political consequence as well.[21]

These years at the end of the thirteenth century were the heyday of the Perugian commune: as the fourteenth century unfolded, the lack of a major water source would hamper Perugian industrial development as much as it did Siena's, and the removal of the popes to Avignon naturally reduced their patronage. In the second half of the thirteenth century, however, Perugia was politically influential, economically successful, and growing in every direction. The surviving decrees and council minutes of the late-thirteenth-century Perugian commune provide a unique perspective on how the regime and the city handled this growth—and where they directed it.

Heulixstes, Eulistes, and Ulixes

Antiquarians and scholars over the centuries have been understandably quick to link Eulistes, the legendary founder of Perugia, with the Homeric Greek hero Ulysses (or Odysseus). This connection has ranged from the comment that Eulistes' name is adapted from the more famous Greek's, to the implication that "Eulistes" is just a vernacular medieval spelling for Ulysses, who was therefore thought to have founded Perugia at some point during his many years of wanderings.[22] The variable spelling of the name does complicate matters: in standard quasi-vernacular Italian fashion, the mythical founder of medieval Perugia appears in the sources as "Eulistes", "Heulixstes",

---

21 See fn. 10, above.
22 See e.g. Mancini (1996), 329.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and several variations in between.[23] It would be only a small jump to assume that the intended word was "Ulixes" (as Ulysses' name was commonly spelled). Unfortunately, there is little documentary support for this theory: nothing in the ancient sources connects the Greek hero with the town of Perugia, and what little we know of the medieval Eulistes legend indicates that he was often thought to be Trojan rather than Greek. Luckily, a better solution presents itself.

The city of Perugia appears fairly widely in the classical sources, because of its status as one of the *Etruriae capita* (heads of the Etruscan cities allied against Roman expansion in the Italian peninsula) in the Samnite Wars, as well as its sack by Octavian (later Augustus) in 40 BC during the civil wars.[24] If we count the Etruscan stories as an implicit origin myth affirming that Perugia was an early, native Italian foundation, medieval readers generally encountered only one other early history for the city: Justinus' epitome of Pompeius Trogus asserts that the city was actually founded by Greeks, but without mentioning the Trojan War or the name of Ulysses. He says that "the Perugians take their origin from the Achaeans [Greeks]."[25] Neither of these legends goes into any detail, or concerns itself with the early history of the city.

Servius' commentary on the *Aeneid*, however, provides one fleeting reference. At two points in the *Aeneid* (10.207 and 12.290), Virgil refers to Aulestes, one of the native Tuscan kings who allies with Aeneas against Turnus. Virgil does not expand on Aulestes' family or affiliations beyond referring to him as Tuscan, but Servius' commentary on

---

23 "Heulixstes" appears on the Fontana Maggiore; "Eulistes" and "Heulistes" in the Eulistea; and "Ulisste" in the *Conte di Corciano e di Perugia*, a vernacular prose romance written later in the fourteenth century, on which see Mancini (1979).

24 The Samnite Wars are narrated by Livy in books 9 and 10 of the *Ab urbe condita* (1919, vol. 4); Perugia's role in the civil wars appears in Appian (1912-3), 5.32-49.

25 *Perusini quoque originem ab Achaeis ducunt*; Justinus (1972), 20.1.11.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Aeneid 10.198-200—which is really a discussion of Ocnus, son of Manto (another of Aeneas' allies)—reads as follows:

> Mantua is said to have been founded in this way, because [Ocnus] named it after the name of his mother: for he was the son of Tiber and Manto, the daughter of Tiresias, the Theban seer, who came to Italy after the death of her father. Others say Manto was a seer herself, the daughter of Hercules. Others claim that Ocnus was the son (or brother) of Aulestes, who founded Perugia: and, so as not to compete with his brother, he founded Felsina, which is now called Bologna, in the Gallic plain: and he allowed his army to build castles there, one of which was Mantua.[26]

As A. I. Galletti points out, it seems much more likely that the name "Eulistes" derives from the Virgilian-Servian Aulestes, founder of Perugia, than from the famous but distant Greek hero. Her estimation is that "probably the figure of the hero is a result of adapting the Servian mention of Aulestes... to the general characteristics of Ulysses."[27] Thus, if we combine the Livian discussions of Etruscan Perugia with the Virgilian tradition of the founding of the city by a native Tuscan king called Aulestes, there would have been considerable material with which to construct a medieval foundation legend for the city—even without bringing Ulysses into the matter.

Several historians have argued that the legend of Eulistes must have existed in oral tradition long before the figure ever appeared in any more lasting fashion, and this seems very likely—but the first documentable time Eulistes appears in the medieval Perugian landscape is as "Heulixstes", one of the twenty-four main sculptural figures framing the

---

[26] *Hic Mantuam dicitur condidisse, quam a matris nomine appellavit: nam fuit filius Tiberis et Mantus, Tiresiae Thebani vatis filiae, quae post patris interitum ad Italiam venit. Alii Manto, filiam Herculis, vatem fuisse dicunt. Hunc Ocnum alii Aulestis filium, alii fratrem, qui Perusiam condidit, referunt: et ne cum fratre contenderet, in agro Gallico Felsinam, quae nunc Bononia dicitur, condidisse: permisisse etiam exercitui suo ut castella munirent, in quorum numero Mantua fuit*; Servius (1881), commentary on Aeneid 10.198-200.

[27] *È probabile che la figura dell'eroe risulti da un adattamento della menzione serviana di Auleste.. ai caratteri consolidati del personaggio di Ulisse*; Galletti (1985), 77.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

top basin of the Fontana Maggiore, central Perugia's monumental public fountain (see figure 49).[28] We have already considered the Fontana Maggiore in its more practical guise, as a public improvement designed for the multiple purposes of bringing water to the center of the city, serving as the outlet for the impressive new municipal aqueduct, and being the glorious centerpiece of the city's main square. But the fountain's role in the expression and formation of civic ideology seems to have been as, if not more, important than its role as water source. Firstly, the fountain's iconographical program is wide-ranging and synthetic: the art historian John White has called it "a Perugian encyclopedia in stone."[29] In fact, it shows many of the same encyclopedic qualities as the Lorenzetti frescoes in Siena's Palazzo Pubblico, like a medieval academic *Summa* in stone.[30] As such it expresses the desires, ideals, role models, and principles of the regime who commissioned it; Alberto Grohmann comments that the fountain

> ...represents one of the most significant examples of international Gothic culture, where one perceives in tangible form the ideologies and models of a society at one of the greatest peaks of its development, neatly combining new political, economic, and social exigencies with the teachings of memory. [31]

As mentioned earlier, the project was first commissioned in 1254, but the aqueduct was not actually completed, and the fountain built, until 1276-1278. The Perugian commune consulted a number of experts on the subject of city aqueducts and public water sources, and commissioned Nicola and Giovanni Pisano to construct the body of

---

28 The secondary literature on the Fontana Maggiore is considerable; see e.g. Fasola (1951), Cavallucci (1993), Dozzini (1994), and Ottavi (1999).

29 White (1993), 70.

30 See chapter 7 on Siena.

31 *...rappresenta uno dei più significativi esempi nel panorama della cultura gotic internazionale, ove si percepiscono in forme tangibili ideologie e istanze di una società che raggiunge uno dei massimi apici di sviluppo, coniugando felicemente le nuove esigenze politiche, economiche e sociali con gli insegnamenti tratti della memoria*; Grohmann (1996), 50.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the fountain.[32] This consists of sculptures on two levels, plus a central group of three caryatids at top and center. The top level consists of twenty-four figures (twelve figures on the convex corners and twelve lesser figures on the concave corners) representing historical, mythical, and allegorical personages, including the figure of Eulistes, whereas the second level consists of reliefs depicting further historical and mythical personages along with Aesopic scenes, depictions of the months, and more traditional encyclopedic scenes. The fountain has been much restored over the centuries, and the original order and orientation of the figures and reliefs is not entirely certain, but there are a number of clues which enable modern scholars to reconstruct the intended appearance of the fountain with some certainty; the work of White here has been especially influential.[33]

Firstly, the choice and arrangement of the figures reveals a clear ideological program. Thanks to contemporary inscriptions—labels, essentially—attached to each representation, the identities of the various figures on the fountain are rarely in doubt. And despite the wide-ranging nature of the iconographical program, two trends are very clear in the fountain's iconography: a bias toward law, especially as applied in Perugia, and a bias toward Roman history, especially as related to Perugia. As reconstructed by White, the four figures on the fountain's main axes— north-south, oriented toward the cathedral and the future city hall, and east-west—are "Eulistes founder of the Perugian city" (north), "August Perugia" (south), "Rome, head of the world" (west), and St. John

---

[32] See Fasola (1941), chapter 4, and Cavallucci (1993), 11-28; the relevant municipal documents regarding commissions, purchasing, etc. have been published in Fasola (1951), 55-63.

[33] See White (1970) along with Hoffmann-Curtius (1968). Sproviero (1999) discusses the fountain's most recent restoration, in which the figures were replaced in the arrangement proposed by White; see esp. 60-63.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the Baptist (east).[34] Twenty other figures fill in between them, including Old Testament kings and prophets, Perugia's two patron saints, and the commune's two executive officials for 1278 (Hermanno da Sassoferrato, capitano, and Matteo da Correggio, podestà). Their arrangement has clearly been very carefully thought out: Eulistes, who is dressed similarly to the figures from the Old Testament, appears as a prophet and legislator, a veritable founding father.[35] He is flanked by the two "main" figures of the contemporary officials, drawing an explicit comparison between the legislators of the Old Testament, the legislator who founded the city in the first place, and the contemporary legislators who maintain it centuries later (see figure 50).

The classicizing personification of August Perugia is referred to by its traditional Roman epithet: the name *Augusta Perusia* had been engraved into the Etruscan arch in the city walls during the first century AD (figure 54). In appearance, Perugia greatly resembles the figure of Rome (also portrayed on the fountain), and she is likewise flanked on the convex level by its two patron saints, Saints Lorenzo and Ercolano (Lawrence and Herculanus; see figure 51). This presentation of Perugia clearly emphasizes the city's self-sufficiency; the figure's label reads "August Perugia, fertile in all these things".[36] The sculpture itself is based on classical personifications of abundance,

---

34 *Heulixstes Perusine conditor urbis* (N), *Augusta Perusia* (S), and *Roma capud* [sic] *mundi* (W), and Sanctus Johannes *Baptista* (E). King Solomon used to sit on the fourth axis point, but White argued convincingly that this arrangement could not be correct, based on the order of the various inscriptions. His explanation of the choice of John the Baptist for the fourth main axis point is that "to set St. John the Baptist opposite Rome... is to refer not only to the replacement of the old law by the new, but to the continuation and transformation of the antique pagan Rome in the new Christian Rome"; and that this choice makes much more sense than either of the other two options: Solomon (pre-1998 fountain) or St. Benedict (reconstruction by Cellini); White (1970), 81. White's explanation prevailed for the fountain's 1998 restoration.

35 Fasola (1951), 20 and 66, and Vermiglioli (1816).

36 *Augusta Perusia fertilis in omnibus his*; Fasola (1951), 65, and Bartoli Langeli and Zurli (1996).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

and holds a Roman-style cornucopia.[37] Continuing the trend, the "lesser" figures between Perugia and its protecting saints are the Lady of the Lake (*Domina Laci*, referring to Trasimene) and the Lady of Chiusi (*Domina Clusii*), which together signify the Perugian contado, and its wealth in fish and grain—the basic necessities of survival, according to the Gospels.[38]

The saints and prophets emphasize the main difference between ancient and contemporary Perugia: its Christianity. Both of the city's patron saints are accompanied by figures which recall their roles in the city's postclassical history; they are paralleled by the figures of St. Peter and St. Paul, which flank the figure of Rome. The figures of Theology and the Roman Church further emphasize the rise of Christian Rome at the expense of classical Rome, a change paralleled by the figures from Perugian history: Eulistes founded the city, but August Perugia is flanked by her patron saints. Thus these twelve main figures on the top level of the fountain are intended to embody medieval Perugia in all its chief aspects: religious, legislative, economic, and historical. The program is anchored by the four axial figures of Perugia, the city personified; Eulistes, her founder; Rome, the idealized city and source of legitimate power; and St. John the Baptist. Likewise, the points made and/or stories told by the twelve main figures are supported by the twelve concave figures, much as Perugia is flanked by the figures representing her contado. As a whole, they suggest that Perugia was formed as an amalgamation of her classical and Christian roots, exactly like the city of Rome.

---

37 Cavallucci (1993), 42-5, and Santini (1996).

38 The miracle of the loaves and fishes appears in Matthew 15:32-8; Mark 6:35-44; Luke 9:12-7; and John 6:5-14.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

These trends continue on the second tier of the fountain, which contain a series of fifty reliefs complementing the sculpted figures above them. The subjects chosen here expand on the Perugian- and governance-centered subjects in the upper tier, representing encyclopedic themes like the seven liberal arts, the months, scenes from Aesopic fable and the Old Testament, and Romulus and Remus. These serve two purposes: firstly, they reinforce the iconography in the upper tier—as for instance in the case of Romulus and Remus, the founders of Rome, who appear under the figure of "Rome, head of the world" (see figure 52). The reliefs come in pairs, so Romulus and Remus (or Remulus, as he is labeled) each get one panel: the boys are depicted as well-dressed noble youths, each with a bird of prey in his hand. But they do not appear alone: the set of panels to the right of Romulus and Remus depicts the Roman she-wolf with the twins, and Rhea Silvia, the *mater Romuli*.[39] Thus the scenes depicting the youth of the founders of Rome, in close proximity to the personified figure of Rome itself, emphasize the act of founding and parallel it with the founding of Perugia, whose founder likewise appears on the fountain.

Secondly, the broader scope of the scenes on the lower tier of the fountain also means that they enclose and contextualize the more pointed ideology of the figures on the upper tier. The scenes of the seven liberal arts, for instance, which appear on the fountain below the figure of Eulistes, may provide a more general view of the knowledge necessary for good governance, thus contextualizing the figure of Eulistes, the founder and first legislator of Perugia. Generally speaking, the liberal arts, months, and quotidian

---

[39] *Mater Romuli*: "mother of the Romuluses"; i.e. Romulus and Remus. The figures are illustrated in Cavallucci (1993), 121-31.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

scenes of Aesopic fable provide a panoramic view of the world in which to situate Eulistes, August Perugia, and the rest. This is reinforced by the two creation scenes depicted (or at least implied) on the lower tier: the creation of the world, with Adam and Eve, and the "creation" of Rome—the archetype of Italian urban life—by Romulus and Remus. Thus the scenes on the lower tier depict the world as a whole, and the figures on the upper tier depict the figures in that world who were or are important to the collective memory of the city of Perugia—the most central of which are the axial figures of Perugia herself, and her founder Eulistes.

Unlike its depiction of the founders of Rome, the Fontana Maggiore gives no account of Eulistes' history or the process by which he founded the city of Perugia. The inscription on the fountain merely describes him as "Eulistes, founder of the Perugian city." For his story, and the entire early history of Perugia, we must turn to a poem written fifteen years later for the commune of Perugia by a professional poet called Bonifacio da Verona. Bonifacio, a Veronese exile, was retained by the commune for this purpose in 1293, and in the space of about six months produced both a long poem on the subject of Perugia's history, followed by a prose version of the same text. The poem is known as the *Eulistea*, thanks to its first and foremost hero, but at the time it was normally referred to as the *Liber antiquitatum comunis Perusii*, or *Book of Antiquities of the Commune of Perugia*.[40] In nine books it narrates the history of the city of Perugia,

---

[40] Two manuscripts of the poem are known to exist, most significantly an early fourteenth-century paper MS in the Istituto della philologia romanza in the Università di Perugia, which contains both versions (poetic and prose). Another fifteenth-century manuscript in the Biblioteca Nazionale Centrale di Firenze contains only the poetic version. Mazzatinti (1896), 557, and Galletti (1985), 85 (fn. 6), together give a good account of the text's transmission.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

from its founding after the Trojan War up to the thirteenth century[41], and in so doing displays many of the same tendencies as we saw on the Fontana Maggiore. The poem was commissioned directly by the Perugian council, and it demonstrates the same view of Perugian history and politics apparent in the commune's other commissions—notably, but not exclusively, the Fontana Maggiore.[42] In her article on the Perugian foundation myth and its formulation in Bonifacio's poem, A. I. Galletti notes that "the poem caps a process of the construction of civic identity which has already seen the consolidation of a patron saint's cult, the making of the two great heraldic symbols of the city, the gryphon and the lion, the completion of the Fontana Maggiore: other media have already established the parameters for a synthesis of civic and political sentiment."[43]

A brief prose prologue introduces the poem with the usual platitudes about the importance of remembering significant events and the value of well-written literature, and then details the poem's subject: "it will narrate here the indignities of peoples, the excitements of furies and weapons, and the disgraceful attack of the peoples; its exposition will not even be silent on digression, harsh conflicts, and ruin."[44] With this

---

41 Most of the poem, with the exception of the first two books, was poorly edited in 1850 for the *Archivio storico italiano* by Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. A. I. Galletti of the Università di Perugia is preparing a new edition of both poetic and prose versions.

42 Galletti (1988), esp. 379-85, makes this point cogently.

43 *[I]l poema giunge a conclusione e sigillo di un processo di costruzione dell'identità cittadina che ha già visto il consolidamento del culto del santo patrono, la fabbrica dei due grandi simboli araldici della città, il grifo e il leone, il compimento della Fontana Maggiore: altri linguaggi hanno già posto le basi di una sintassi del sentimento civico e politico*; Galletti (1985), 76.

44 *Declarabit ibique indingnationes gentium furorum commotiones et arma flagitiosos utique inpetus populorum non silebit anfractus conflictos acerimos et ruinas*; Bonifacio da Verona (henceforth *Eulistea*), prose prologue, lines 16-18, page 1. Page numbers are from the Università di Perugia manuscript; citations from the published text of Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. (1850b) are provided where relevant. *Nota bene*: the palaeographical and philological difficulties of the *Eulistea* are such that my translations here must be considered conjectural in some places, although it is not possible for me to discuss these issues in detail.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

strikingly derivative epic description, Bonifacio introduces Eulistes: "For [this book] will begin from the coming of Eulistes, august founder of the city of Perugia, and it will recite his victories and his distinguished titles and offices."[45] As seen in these two examples, Bonifacio's Latin is painfully turgid in a way only a fourteenth-century Italian could love, but he does show a certain dexterity with his Latin, and a desire to emphasize the classical and Roman elements of his material.

His pun on the word august (*augusto*) here is typical: one would expect that it would modify *Perusia*, both from its position in the sentence and because it is Perugia's traditional Roman epithet (as "August Perugia", on the Fontana Maggiore). Instead, *augusto* modifies *fundatore*, creating "Eulistes, *august founder* of the city of Perugia" [my italics]. A change of ending (*auguste* to *augusto*) hence suggests an origin for Perugia's traditional epithet: that it comes from Eulistes himself. Bonifacio's consciously Romanizing words here and throughout the prologue suggest a close connection between Perugian history with Roman history. This effect is reinforced as the prologue ends, with a prayer in which Romulus appears as a kind of patron saint: "let us all remain sheep in Christ, and let the people of Romulus, together with their rulers, be worthy to enter into his sanctuary."[46] The historical approach that the poem will take is already visible in the poem's prologue: one laudatory of Eulistes and his establishment of the city, and one which will link Perugian history as closely as it can with Roman history.

---

[45] *Incipiet namque ab Eulistis evenctu urbis fundatore augusto Perusie, victorias eiusque titulos insingnitos recitabit et fasces*; *Eulistea* prose prologue, lines 20-22, page 1.

[46] *Et oves maneamus in Christo; et Romulidus populus cum suis rectoribus suum ingredi santuarium mereatur*; *Eulistea* prose prologue, lines 9-10, page 2.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

The description of Eulistes himself upholds this characterization: when Eulistes is introduced in Book I, at about line 75, Bonifacio immediately compares him to Aeneas, the founding father of the Roman people:

> There came a king from the Greeks, knightly and innately noble,
> His tongue no less brilliant than Ulysses of Ithaca;
> And likewise in his lineage, having been born from ancient origins.
> Eulistes was his name: a long time after the sack of
> Dardanian Troy, a good while after—
> Many years later, after the rule of Saturn,
> He came to Italy, driven by the fates;
> When powerful Aeneas had arrived—before Rome was founded,
> And his [Aeneas'] gods were established, and his walls were standing.
> Here [was] the first builder of the city, the Perugian fatherland;
> He was its founder, and the reason it was called that.
> Thus the city began: so much [Cassius] Dio tells us.[47]

Eulistes, like Aeneas and Antenor, was an exile who arrives in Italy driven by the fates (*fatis agitantibus illum*), where he founds and names a city. Whether he was a Trojan fleeing from the Greeks (fleeing *ex Daneis*), or a Greek king (descended *ex Daneis*) is unclear; as will be discussed momentarily, Bonifacio may not have cared which, as long as the connection was made. Galletti notes that the passage provides two of the basic features of any foundation myth: the birth of the founder and the establishment of a specific period in which the foundation occurred.[48] Namely, Bonifacio establishes that

---

47 *Rex fuit ex Daneis trabeatus et yndole clara,*
Non minus et lingua fulgens Ytacensis Ulixis,
Progenieque sua, priscis natalibus ortus:
Eulistes cui nomen erat, post dirupta longe
Pergama dardanicum, qui post et tempora multa
Postque annos mangnos Saturni postque potentis
Advenctum Enee, priusquam Roma fuisset,
Inciperent, eiusque lares, et menia starent
Venit in Ytaliam, fatis agitantibus illum.
Hic patrie primus, Perusine structor et urbis;
Fundatorque fuit et cur sic illa vocata.
Urbs fuerit, refert Dyo tot nuntia nostra; *Eulistea* 1.77-88, page 5.

48 *...la stirpe del fondatore e l'epoca di origine della città*; Galletti (1985), 77.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Eulistes was of ancient lineage, and that he lived in the years following the Trojan War, but before Rome was founded.[49] Bonifacio's description goes beyond these two facts, however: he recounts not only Eulistes' ancient lineage but his character and rank. Noble not only in birth ("a king", line 77) but in breeding ("knightly and innately noble", ditto), Eulistes is everything a city could want in a founder: he provided Perugia not only with an illustrious ancestry but a moral exemplar as well, a pattern for behavior. Bonifacio compares him immediately with Ulysses, the famous Greek hero. This not only compares Eulistes' deeds and lineage favorably with the well-known talents of Ulysses, but it also establishes a difference between the two, as if Bonifacio wants to ensure very early in the poem that none of his readers conflate the two men, or get them confused (as has in fact occurred over the centuries).

Furthermore, Bonifacio's mention of Aeneas not only draws attention to the parallel experiences of Aeneas and Eulistes (*fatis agitantibus illos*), but also adds Eulistes to the ranks of the early rulers of Italy, Aeneas and Saturn. We have encountered Saturn before as a mythical colleague of Janus's during the earliest settlement of Italy, and naturally Aeneas is most famous for his early founding of Roman civilization—not the city itself, but certainly its people.[50] This emphasizes Eulistes' early act of founding, and contrasts his actual founding with the more metaphorical foundations of Saturn and Aeneas, neither of whom actually *built* a city that endured.

Hence the description of Eulistes also highlights his constructive role: he is referred to as both *fundator* (founder) and the more literal *structor* (builder). These

---

[49] Of ancient birth: *priscis natalibus ortus*; and living *post dirupta...Pergama* (line 79), but *priusquam Roma fuisset* (lines 80-3).

[50] For Saturn: see chapter 2 on the available Roman sources, and chapter 6 on Genoa.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

words naturally contrast the *dirupta* (ruin, destruction, sack) used to modify Troy a few lines earlier. Finally, the words surrounding his founding action are all significantly evocative of ancient Rome: not only the *lares* (gods) and *menia* (city walls) mentioned in relation to Aeneas, but also: "here [was] the first builder of the city, the Perugian fatherland; / And he was its founder, and the reason it was called that."[51] *Primus* (first) obviously indicates the importance of the fact that Eulistes' founding occurred before that of Rome, but the word also recalls the first line of the *Aeneid* (...*Troiae qui primus ab oris*); similarly, *patrie* (fatherland) is a word that usually refers to the *Roman* fatherland. As discussed in chapter two, even *urbs* (city) is a word with distinct Roman overtones; when medieval writers used the word with no modifier, the city meant—the default, one might say—was always Rome. Tying this assortment of Romanizing words together are the essential words *fundator*, *structor*, and *Perusine*—indicating that the city and the founding being discussed are not those of Rome, but of Perugia.

The rest of Bonifacio's discussion of Eulistes centers around the two basic actions of his founding: the naming of the city and the choice of a location, and the city's actual construction. First, Bonifacio narrates the story of a she-bear (*ursa*), which Eulistes kills. The bear thereby provides a reason for the name and location of the future city:

---

[51] *Hic patrie primus Perusine structor et urbis / fundatorque fuit et cur sic illa vocata* (lines 86-7).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> And he killed the bear, leaving its remains, bones and meat
> to the wild birds on the field, and for this great triumph
> Eulistes ordered that the city be called thus, *perusina*,
> taking its name from the bear because he had conquered bears.
> And when this was known, the fates settled you here.
> Here in these peaceful regions are the seats of your people.
> Hence Eulistes took the name for the city from a bear,
> as befits your stature and your greatness.[52]

This explains the derivation of Perugia's name, and provides an explanation of why (unlike many other cities of the period, including Genoa and Siena), the city was not simply called after its founder. Rather, in a gesture reminiscent of Aeneas' experience with the white sow[53], Eulistes decides that the place where he killed the bear will be the site of his city, and that its name should accordingly recall the event (*Perusia, per ursa*). Having established a location for Perugia and a reason for its founding, Bonifacio discusses the actual building of the city:

> As these words have shown, Eulistes undertook to found
> the city here, and to connect the works of the walls in circuit,
> and thus were built the walls of this great city.[54]

As mentioned earlier, the words *menia*, *murorum*, and *urbs* all give the construction of the city of Perugia decidedly Roman overtones. And since the topoi of both medieval law and literature defined a city by its walls, it is fitting that Eulistes' founding of Perugia is

---

52 *Adnichilatque ursam, carnes et ossa reliquid*
Alitibus campi feris, tantoque triunpho
Eulistes iussit, sic urbs perusina vocari
Assumens ursis nomenque vicerat ursos.
Et quam audita fuit, tibi fata locarunt
Hic sedes gentique tue sunt, otia parta
Eulistes hic urbem ergoque nomen ab ursa
Accipiet, statues sic voluunt et tua mangna; *Eulistea* 1.169-76, page 7. The last four lines of my translation are conjectural; see fn. 44, above.

53 Virgil (1918), 8.82-3.

54 *Hec ut dicta patent Eulistes condere cepit*
Urbem, ac murorum fabricas conducere giro
Et sic constructe sunt urbis menia tante; *Eulistea* 1.190-2, page 8.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

essentially an act of wall-building. Thus Perugia came into existence on more than one level: its people acquired a genealogy reaching back to the Trojan War; the city acquired a *raison d'être*, and the city's very walls were imbued with an illustrious history.

Thus the founding of the city of Perugia is the main subject of book one; having established and chronologically located the city's earliest details, Bonifacio devotes most of book two to Perugia's considerable role in early Roman history. The beginning of book one carefully reminds the reader that Perugia, because it dates to the time of Aeneas, was therefore founded before Rome. Bonifacio reinforces this point on a larger level by devoting the entirety of Book I to the founding of Perugia, so that only in book two do we encounter Romulus, Remus, and the she-wolf. Book two begins:

> But as the Perugian city was built according to its laws
> and in this order—as the earliest writings recall
> and the stories relate—twin brothers were
> suckled and fed by a she-wolf, and then, as the tale tells,
> the Romuli then speedily built up their walls.[55]

Here Romulus and Remus repeat the same process the reader has just experienced with Eulistes and his city; Bonifacio first used the words *murus* and *condere* in Book I to describe Eulistes' acts. This strengthens the parallel being made between the two cities, as well as pointing out—again—that Perugia was there first. Furthermore, throughout Book II Bonifacio places Eulistes in what is essentially the role of Romulus and Remus' elder brother: they appeal to him for help when they run into trouble with the Sabines

---

55 *Ast ubi lege sua constructa ac ordine tali,*
Urbs perusina fuit, memorant ut scripcta primorum
Ac exempla diu recitant, lactatus uterque
Nutritusque lupa frater processi ut inqui[t]
Fabula Romuleos propere tunc condere muros; *Eulistea* 2.1-5, page 12.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

over the matter of female companionship, and the help that Eulistes and his followers provide establishes "love between the Romans and the Perugian camps."[56] These familial relations are reinforced when the Perugians help the Romans fight off the Gallic invasion under Brennus (traditionally identified as the one of 390 BC):

> From today the thriving cities of the Romans and Perugians
> shall be sister and mother and friend, to the end of days.
> The glory of the Romans and their nursling was always allied to [Perugia]:
> One's strength was given to the other, and they often called upon
> their pact of friendship, with their names connected throughout the world.[57]

It is unclear from the grammar whether the dominant party in these relationships is Perugia or Rome. Although one would normally identify Rome as the parent and Perugia as the offspring, Bonifacio at least implies the possibility of the reverse. Furthermore, both the events he narrates and the diction in which he presents them merge the two populations, implying that the Perugians and the Romans were on such close terms that it was barely possible to tell them apart. He reiterates this point so many times that, by the middle of Book III, a Perugian addressing his city's army inspires his fellow citizens by saying:

> ... So trust in Rome;
> You are all Romans, risen again after a long time:
> This fact the gates of the city and sculpted panels attest.
> And these preserve ancient Trojan models here.[58]

---

56 *...inter romanos amor et perusina castra*; *Eulistea* 2.47, page 12.

57 *Hinc hodie rome perusine †vigentem urbi*
Fit soror atque parens et amica in fine dierum
Gloria romulidum sibi senper et eius aluna
Illa sibi sic forte data socierat et arget
Fedus amititie, congnataque nomina mundo; *Eulistea* 2.90-4, page 14.

58 *... Hic credite Romam;*
Vos Romani estis, relevati tempore longo:
Hec urbis porte referunt, et pagina sculta:
Hec et Troya dum retinent exempla vetusta; *Eulistea* 3.224-7, page 27; Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. (1850b), 13.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

This not only parallels the histories of Rome and Perugia; in the end, it conflates the two. It gives Perugia a starring role in Roman history, the scope of which as medieval culture understood it was broad, almost universal. Riding on the eternal city's famous coat-tails, Bonifacio argues that everyone acknowledges the significance of Roman history—but no one has yet properly recognized the great significance of Perugia in Roman history. This thematic conflating of the two histories is reinforced throughout Bonifacio's epic, even the parts dealing with contemporary Perugian events, by his frequent use of diction specifically evoking ancient and Roman history. He refers to Perugia and Perugian things as ancient (*antiquus*); he uses Roman terms like *Romulidus, Quirites,* and *lares,* while he regularly refers to Perugian history in terms which are generally applicable, but also specifically meaningful in the context of Roman history, like *urbs, civis, lex, vates, provincia, fides,* and *patria.*[59]

In the end, it is this connection with classical Rome, and Perugia's claim of having preceded and helped foster it, that is Bonifacio's main point. He does this even at the expense of internal consistency, the most glaring example of which is obviously the ambiguity as to whether Eulistes was a Greek or a Trojan. As we saw earlier, Bonifacio says when introducing Eulistes that Perugia's founder came to Italy *ex Daneis*, "from the Greeks", thereby confounding the question of whether the character himself was Greek or Trojan. This ambiguity continues throughout the poem. In some places the poem clearly implies that Eulistes was a Trojan like his counterpart Aeneas, and the inhabitants

---

[59] *Romulidus* is a patronymic for Romulus, a "son of Romulus"; *Quirites* is an ancient term for the Roman people; and *lares* were the Romans' household gods. The others mean respectively: city, citizen, law, seer, province, faith, and fatherland.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

of his city are therefore (like the Romans) descendents of the Trojans. The speech quoted in the previous paragraph, for example, speaks of modern Perugia as preserving ancient Troy, which implies that the Perugians are descended from the inhabitants of the original Troy. (It would make little sense, after all, for the descendants of those who sacked Troy to attempt to recreate it elsewhere.) Other references, however, clearly refer to Eulistes as a Greek. Indeed, the epilogue to the poem summarizes:

> Noble Eulistes, founder of the Perugian city,
> Waged many wars against the Trojans.
> I am called the Perugian city, restored by the force of Rome;
> I am fertile and strong, free, and ready with good will.[60]

The reference to waging war *against* the Trojans naturally suggests that Eulistes was Greek, which would seem to contradict Bonifacio's earlier statements in the poem. We are left with three possibilities: first, that Bonifacio did not know the difference, which in someone otherwise so informed in matters of classical history seems extraordinarily unlikely. Second, it is remotely possible that Bonifacio was simply being sloppy, and did not bother to check his details, but this seems similarly improbable given that he had six months to write the poem, all the while knowing that his work would be examined by representatives of the commune once he was done. If we discount these two possibilities, then it must be the case that Bonifacio knew what he was doing, and did not care. And that likewise the judges who examined his work did not care. Having established that their city dated to the days of the Trojan War, it may not have mattered a great deal to

---

[60] *Nobilis Eulistes, Perusine conditor urbis,*
Contra Troianos bella multa tulit.
Urbs Perusina vocor, Rome reparata vigore;
Fertilis et fortis sum, libera, pronta favore; *Eulistea*, epilogue, page 70; Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. (1850b), 52. The diction clearly refers to the inscription accompanying the figure of Eulistes on the Fontana Maggiore; see fn. 35, above.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

them which side of the War their ancestors were on—and furthermore, not having to choose between Greek and Trojan meant that Bonifacio could use both sides in his epic. As we observed in the case of Jacopo da Varagine, comprehensiveness may have counted for more than consistency. In fact, at one point in Book 6 he does suggest that Eulistes' parentage is unknown:

> Here they say that Eulistes, who was a great king
> And terrible in war, founder of his fatherland and city...
> Possibly because he came entirely from Trojan blood.
> Others suppose that he came originally from Athens.[61]

Bonifacio admits the existence of some debate on the subject of Eulistes' origin—but, as hypothesized, it does not seem to faze him. The important matters are that, like Aeneas, Eulistes came from the Eastern Mediterranean in the years of the Trojan War, and that therefore Perugia was founded long before Rome. Anything else in the epic which permitted him, firstly, to show off his knowledge of classical history, and secondly, to conflate Perugian history with classical history was a bonus. Thus Bonifacio created an official history of the city of Perugia which provided it with a pre-Roman classical foundation, reasons for the city's name and location, and an early history closely linked to that of the city of Rome. This allowed Perugian history to bask in the reflected glory of the Roman past while at the same time claiming a certain superiority to it, since Perugia was founded first and (at least in Bonifacio's formulation) took the senior role in the fraternal relations between the two cities. Bonifacio solidified the historical links he

---

[61] *Hec Heuliste tenent, bello qui mangnus et acer*
Rex fuit, atque sue patrie fundator et urbis...
Et quamvis veniens Troyano sanguine purus,
Supponant alii, fuerit quod pinus Acthenis; *Eulistea* 6.186-92, page 49; Bonaini, Fabretti, et al. (1850b), 35. Galletti (1985) makes the interesting but palaeographically dubious claim that *purus* (191) and *pinus* (192) should both be read *Pirrus*, implying a connection to the Perus who also occasionally appears in medieval sources as the founder of Perugia (Latin *Perusia*).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

created by his regular use of Romanizing diction and his frequent reference in all contexts to the gryphon, the chief heraldic symbol of Perugia.

Bonifacio's work certainly seems to have been acceptable to the Perugian commune, since, following the terms of his original commission, the judges they appointed to assess its worth decided that he should be paid the significant sum of twenty-five gold florins for the effort, and that he should likewise be paid the same sum to produce a prose version of his poem. It is not clear whether the commune had a large role in determining the events of the poem in the first place, or whether they simply approved of it after it was already finished. In either case, we must recognize that, in the end, the ruling regime of Perugia approved of the "ancient history" constructed for the city by Bonifacio, and that the poem presented a vision of the Perugian past which they (the commune) wished to promulgate further. The commune first publicly sponsored the connection with Rome and the legend of the city's ancient history in the iconographic program of the Fontana Maggiore, and Bonifacio's *Eulistea* significantly developed these trends.

The commune did not limit their efforts at civic propaganda to these two large projects, however. The legend of Eulistes and the city's close relationship with Rome began to appear in other communal efforts as well. For instance, at the same time as Bonifacio was writing his *Eulistea*, the commune were in the early stages of overseeing the construction of a new city hall for Perugia—another step in the monumental aggrandizement of the main city piazza which began with the paving of the streets and the construction of the Fontana Maggiore almost half a century earlier. The New Palace

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

(*Palazzo Nuovo*), or Palace of the Priors (*Palazzo dei Priori*) as it has traditionally been called since the creation of the Priori in 1303, was built in the mid-1290s on the south edge of the piazza (facing the figure of August Perugia on the fountain). Certain aspects of the decoration of the palazzo, both external and internal, suggest that the commune wished to advertise the same historical "facts" described by Bonifacio in the city's political seat. The sculpted molding along the front of the Palazzo between its first and second floors, for instance, is clearly based on similar molding on the city's famous Etruscan arch (figures 54-7).[62] This was the city's largest and best-known remnant of the antique period, which had been prominently incorporated into the northern medieval city wall (figure 53). Most likely neither the designers of the Palazzo nor the members of the council who approved the design could identify the design as specifically Etruscan, nor would the word have meant much to them if they could—but they were clearly attempting to link the contemporary seat of government to the city's largest and oldest monument, thus reminding the observer of the city's long and illustrious history. This stylistic reference to Perugia's past would have been especially meaningful when considered in conjunction with the scenes on the fountain nearby.

The frescoes in the palazzo's main hall continue this tendency. The monumental main doors of the palazzo (considerably larger than the doors to the Romanesque duomo across the piazza) open into the *Sala dei Notai*, the palazzo's biggest meeting hall. The hall is held up and spanned by a series of eight massive elliptical arches, and the entirety of the hall is frescoed (see figure 58). These frescoes have been much restored and supplemented over the years, but the earliest of them were originally executed by an

---

62 Comune di Perugia (1999).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

unknown painter in the years immediately after (or even starting before) the palazzo was completed, about 1297 to 1301. Like the lower tier of the Fontana Maggiore, these frescoes depict a number of scenes taken from the Bible, astronomy-astrology, and Aesopic fable.[63] Jonathan Riess describes them as "representing a summa of the themes in [late-medieval] communal art."[64] He also emphasizes their underlying political program, showing how they promote the commune's political ideology as much as the Fontana Maggiore or the *Eulistea*.[65]

But the issue that concerns us here is less the main painted scenes than the heraldic shields which complement them: one scene appears on each spandrel (left and right) of each Romanesque arch, and to the inside of each narrative scene, as the available space on the spandrel shrinks rapidly, appears a roundel with a shield. Hence the room contains about thirty of these heraldic roundels. Most depict the arms of prominent families in and around the Perugian contado, but these are mingled with several roundels containing the medieval coat of arms of the city of Rome: that is, a red field crossed diagonally with the letters SPQR in gold (see figure 59). This was a well-known device in this period: the same shield, for example, is used to identify both ancient and medieval Romans in illustrations in early manuscripts of Giovanni Villani's Florentine chronicle.[66] On a strictly contemporary political level, these shields would identify the city of Perugia as a Guelf city allied with Rome, the traditional seat of the popes. Considered in context, however, with the historical program promulgated by the

---

63 Although the Perugian frescoes are not considered as artistically significant as (for example) the Lorenzetti frescoes in Siena, they encompass the same kind of encyclopedic themes. Compare Riess (1981), 5-17, with Skinner (1986) and Starn and Partridge (1992).

64 Riess (1981), xii.

65 Riess (1981), especially chapters 4 through 8.

66 E.g. BAV Chigi L.VIII.296; see Magnani (1936), 24.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

external decoration of the Palazzo and the sculpture on the Fontana Maggiore, the letters identify Perugia not only with contemporary Rome, but with ancient, classical Rome—and everything for which it was traditionally imagined to stand.

Thus the various projects funded by the Perugian commune in the last quarter of the thirteenth century—fountain, civic epic, palazzo—were, ideologically speaking, all directed toward the same ends: they established and elaborated an ancient origin for Perugia itself, based on the early founding of the city by the classical figure of Eulistes. They emphasized the historical parallels between the cities of Rome and Perugia, and stressed Perugia's significant role in the well-known events of early Roman history. Most of all, the universal or encyclopedic scope of most of these projects situated Perugian history, so established, in the larger context of universal history. The commune sought not only to set an "appropriate" origin and early history for the city, but also to articulate Perugia's role in the larger scheme of history, as known and experienced by her citizens.

Agents Provocateurs

Thanks to the preservation of the late-thirteenth-century minutes of the Perugian councils, and the scrupulousness with which the city's scribes recorded their deliberations and arrangements, we know more about the details of these projects, and the circumstances in which they took place, than we do for any of the other cities considered in this study.[67] When considering questions of design and agency—who instigated and propagated the city's classicizing ideology—the first thing worth noting is the

---

[67] The documents especially relevant to this study (on Bonifacio's *Eulistea*, the Fontana Maggiore, and the Palazzo dei Priori) have been published respectively in Mazzatinti (1896), Fasola (1951), and Blanshei (1976).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

involvement of a large number of Perugian citizens in making decisions about the public appearance of their city. All of the major projects with classicizing elements that we have considered were largely overseen by the *Consiglio Speciale e Generale.* As discussed above, the CSG was not the largest council of the city government, but rather the largest council that met regularly, consisting of roughly one hundred fifty to two hundred citizens of the city, overseen by the consuls of the guilds and the captain of the people. Rather than appointing a committee to supervise "city improvements" in general, or even one for each project, the CSG itself oversaw many of the details of each of these projects. They heard proposals, arranged the hiring of staff, and even approved reimbursements and the price of materials on a case-by-case basis.[68]

Thus a surprisingly large number of the inhabitants of Perugia were involved in these decisions; roughly two hundred people would have voted on the question of whether to commission Bonifacio da Verona to write the *Eulistea.* Secondly, among those two hundred were many educated men who would certainly have been aware of, and been able to assess, the political messages which would be sent by any public monuments commissioned by the council. Noblemen, notaries, and judges all appear in the extant lists of members of the CSG in 1277 and 1285.[69] Perhaps the best example would be Guido de Corgnia, one of the judges appointed to examine Bonifacio's completed work and recommend appropriate payment. Guido was a wealthy judge from the local nobility who, contrary to anti-magnate legislation, held a seat in the CSG in both 1277 and 1285. Furthermore, the records of the 1285 Perugian tax assessment

---

68 Most obviously in Fasola (1951), 55-7.
69 Blanshei (1976), 105-14.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

reveal that he was one of the five wealthiest members of the CSG (he was assessed at £2500, where the median assessment was £500, and the most commonly occurring assessment £100).[70] The presence of men like Guido in the highest levels of the Perugian government, and their involvement in communal projects like the Fontana Maggiore or the *Eulistea*, indicates a sophisticated awareness of the workings of civic ideology among Perugian citizens in this period. It also indicates that such concerns with the proper presentation of the regime and the city's history had a certain universality. The city's classicizing "public improvement" projects involved not only the city's wealthy intellectuals but its middle-class guildsmen and artisans; tax assessments in the membership of the CSG ranged from £25 to £8000.[71] The Perugian council and tax records thus reveal the extent to which these ideological, historiographical—even humanistic—concerns were considered a matter of general public interest.

For example, the records surrounding the construction of the Fontana Maggiore and its supplying aqueduct reveal the strong desire on the part of the CSG to get the best possible result from their investment. From the moment in 1276 that they made the decision to make the water supply a major public priority, the council brought in experts to advise them. On the fifth of May, for example, they sought opinions from the local heads of the Franciscan and Dominican orders, who were considered knowledgeable in matters of engineering due to the weight their orders placed on education.[72] Nine months later, on the sixteenth of February 1277, brother Alberico (a Franciscan), master Guido from Città di Castello, master Coppo from Florence, and don Ristoro from

---

70 Blanshei (1976), 102.
71 Blanshei (1976), 99-104.
72 Fasola (1951), 55, for Tuesday, May 5, 1276.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Santa Giuliana all appeared before the council with different proposals for the fountain project.[73] These ranged from building the aqueduct out of lead piping to constructing a new cistern on the fountain's site. Apparently unsatisfied with these suggestions, that same session of the CSG decided that an opinion should also be solicited from the Venetian master currently working on a fountain at Orvieto.[74] (This was Boninsegna da Venezia, who was given the commission on February twenty-sixth.) These masters were all paid for their travel, time, and advice, as for example:

> Item: paid to Master Guido of Città di Castello, for the 19 days in which he stayed in the city of Perugia to give his opinion on and examine the aqueduct... £6 [0]d.[75]

Thus the Perugian officials of the CSG spent a significant amount of time and money collecting different suggestions from experts from all over central Italy, and considering the various possibilities before the construction ever began on this important civic project. The commune's priorities are also evident in the fact that once the technical details were agreed upon, the project was completed in a matter of months. Boninsegna (the hydraulics expert) was appointed in February of 1277, and both aqueduct and fountain were finished by the end of 1278, as testified by commemorative inscriptions on the fountain.[76]

The council showed a similar concern with employing the best available artisans and artists. The fountain would after all be the centerpiece of their main square, the

---

73 Fasola (1951), 55, for Tuesday, February 16, 1277.

74 Fasola (1951), 56, for Friday, February 26, 1277.

75 *Item dedit et solvit magistro Guidoni de Civitate Castelli pro xviiii diebus quibus stetit in civitate Perusii occasione providendi et examinandi aqueductum... vi libr. den.* Fasola (1951), 55, for Tuesday, February 16, 1277.

76 Fasola (1951), 62-3: *Fontes complentur super annis mille ducentis / [s]eptuaginta [bis quat]t[uor] atque dabis.*

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

focus of the space directly between the city's seats of secular and spiritual authority. The main artisans employed on the project were hence all relatively well-known. The overall superintendent of the project, a Benedictine called fra Bevignate, was regularly employed by the commune; he came to the fountain project fresh from overseeing another Perugian project, the construction of a bridge over the Tiber at Deruta.[77] In succeeding years he would be employed on a number of similar projects, including improving the road system in the contado. As we have already seen, the chief engineer Boninsegna da Venezia was hired straight from his work on a similar fountain project at Orvieto. Rosso, the bronzesmith who built the massive bronze bowl which tops the fountain's second tier, is likewise known to have worked at Siena and Orvieto.[78]

Finally, and most significantly, Nicola and Giovanni Pisano, the father-and-son team who sculpted the stone panels which comprise the fountain's two main tiers, were among the best-known sculptors in central Italy at the time. Nicola, Giovanni's father, was at the height of his professional renown, having just completed his famous pulpit for the baptistery in Pisa, and his son Giovanni (probably aged about twenty at the time of the Perugian commission) was just starting an equally illustrious career. Over the span of their overlapping lives, the two worked all over central Italy, creating famous monuments not only in their native Pisa, but also in Bologna, Siena, and Pistoia as well as Perugia.[79] The classicizing style characteristic of their sculpture has often been cited by modern historians (not to mention Renaissance historians like Vasari) as "prehumanistic", prefiguring the art of the Renaissance in the realism of their modeling and their

---

77 Fasola (1951), 56, for March 5 and 22, 1277; and 62, for August 7, 1287.
78 White (1993), 91.
79 Cf. Fasola (1941) and White (1993), especially chapters 6 (Nicola) and 8 (Giovanni).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

dependence on classical models.[80] The accuracy or otherwise of such claims is not my focus here: I merely wish to note that, given the generally classicizing tendencies we have observed in the republican cities of north-central Italy, the popularity of a classicizing style of sculpture in which to express them is hardly surprising. Given what we have seen of their other commissions, the desire of the *Perugian* commune to hire artists with that reputation is even less so. Thus the Pisani are typical examples of the hiring practices of the Perugian commune: all of the artisans who worked on the fountain were well-known and considered experts in their field. Their work specifically supported the Perugian commune's tendencies toward firstly, a classicizing public ideology, and secondly, the material improvement of the city and its contado. In an unrelated but similar incident, the commune wrote to Emperor Charles of Anjou, the papal vicar in Rome, to request the services of Arnolfo di Cambio, also known to modern historians for his avant-garde classicizing style, on sculpture for another fountain, since demolished.[81] The citizens on the Perugian council were very clear in their preference for the best and most famous contemporary artists, working in the new classicizing style.

The same trends are visible in the archival entries recording Bonifacio's commission to write his Perugian *Aeneid.* Bonifacio was a native of Verona, who had originally been driven out by the tyranny of Ezzelino da Romano (whom we encountered in Padua). He seems to have lived as an exile in Italy, supporting himself on the strength of his literary training like a little-known Petrarch or Dante. Two other epic poems by

---

80 See the bibliography cited in White (1993), 659-60.

81 Fasola (1951), 58, for September 10, 1277. The fountain was finally finished and Arnolfo paid in 1281.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

him, the *Veronica* and the *Annayde*, are known, both dedicated to cardinals (Ottaviano degli Ubaldini and Guillaume de Braye) who presumably helped support him.[82] The Perugian records suggest that the idea for the work originated with Bonifacio himself, rather than with the commune, but that the commune adopted the idea and agreed quickly to Bonifacio's proposal. The two relevant entries read:

> Last Tuesday of June [1293]. With the Special and General Council [CSG] of the people of the city of Perugia gathered in the hall of the dwellings of the lords of Venzolo, in their usual way... Item: master Bonifacius of Verona, a master in astrology and poetry, has come to Perugia and wishes to make a solemn work, a book of the ancient history and concerns of the Commune of Perugia, and to recall these antiquities to memory for the honor of the Commune of Perugia, if it pleases the council that while he stays in the city of Perugia to assemble and complete the said work, he should have his expenses paid by the Commune, and, once the said work is finished, [some amount] shall be provided to him, as will seem appropriate to the Consuls for the time in question, and as the Council of the People recommends.[83]
>
> [Upon the reconvening of the council... it was decided and passed] that expenses for master Bonifacius and his son should come from the monies of the Commune of Perugia, while he remains [here] and is working on the book of antiquities of the Commune of Perugia; and the Consuls of the Arts will cause the aforesaid expenses to be paid as will seem appropriate to them, and once the aforesaid work is finished, payment for his effort will be provided to master Bonifacius as will seem appropriate.[84]

---

[82] Piastra (1954) and (1959). De Braye died in 1282; see chapter 4, fn. 42. Ubaldini (1214-72; familiarly known to contemporaries simply as "The Cardinal") was an notorious papal legate in charge of Romagna; he appears with Emperor Frederick II among the heretics in Dante's *Inferno* (canto 10).

[83] *Die martis ultima Junii. Congregato consilio speciali et generali populi civitatis Perusii in sala domorum domini Vençoli more solito... Item cum magister Bonifacium de Verona magister in Estroloia et in versificando venit ad civitatem Perusii et velit solempne opus facere et librum antiquitatum et negotiorum Comunis Perusii et antiquitates reducere ad memoriam pro honore Comunis Perusii, Si placet consilio quod dum stabit in civitate Perusii ad compilandum et conficiendum dictum opus, quod debeat habere expensas a Comuni et quod profecto dicto opere provideatur sibi quod videbitur Consulibus pro tempore existentibus et consilium populi consulatur. Annali decemvirali* for 1293, in Mazzatinti (1896), 559.

[84] *In reformatione consilii... stanciatum et reformatum fuit] quod de moneta Comunis Perusii fiant expense magistro Bonifacio et filio donec stabit et faciet librum de antiquitatibus Comunis Perusii et consules arcium predictas fieri faciant expensas ut eis videbitur convenire et perfecto opere predicto provideatur dicto Magistro Bonifacio pro remuneratione sui laboris sicut viderint convenire*; Mazzatinti (1896), 559.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Having arrived in Perugia, Bonifacio came before the CSG to make his proposal; this being 1293, the council were meeting in a hall owned by the lords of Venzolo (local nobility) since their own hall was under construction. And although the idea seems to have been Bonifacio's, the council certainly welcomed the opportunity, agreeing to all of Bonifacio's proposed terms: to support him while he wrote the poem as well as providing an extra sum for the completed work. The council even went beyond Bonifacio's proposed terms in agreeing to support both Bonifacio and his son.[85] Although we do not know of any other civic histories penned by Bonifacio, it is certainly indicative of a general mood in the cities of Italy in this time that Bonifacio saw any likelihood of success in pitching his poem idea—the "book of the ancient history and concerns of the Commune of Perugia", or *librum antiquitatum et negotiorum Comunis Perusii*—to the Perugian city council. To put it in modern terms, he had reason to think there was a market for such a thing. And in fact, all of the classicizing tendencies visible in the work itself also appear in the Perugian council minutes in highly concentrated form: the repetition of the word "antiquities" (*antiquitates*) has strongly classical overtones, and its combination with the phrase "concerns of the commune of Perugia" (*negotiorum Comunis Perusii*) implies strong historical continuity between the current Perugian government and Perugia as it was originally founded.

Aside from emphasizing the ancient nature of Perugian history, and linking it with the current oligarchic regime, the council minutes also emphasize the perceived importance of history to contemporary public life. The initial word "solemnly" (*solempne*) implies the importance of the undertaking, and the rest of the proposal only

---

[85] Excerpt two: *expense magistro Bonifacio et filio.*

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

underscores the serious nature of the matter. Bonifacio proposed "to recall these antiquities to memory for the honor of the Commune of Perugia" (*antiquitates reducere ad memoriam pro honore Comunis Perusii*), which phrasing explicitly articulates his belief that a city's present consequence—or lack thereof—is irretrievably linked to its history. A city's noble past must be publicly known and appropriately presented (by Bonifacio's own proposed poem, naturally). Similarly, the diction suggests that the city and its present regime are interchangeable; the poem was not simply to be written to increase the honor of the city in general, but for the honor of its commune, its ruling regime. The two reinforce and complement one another, since the commune is seen as the custodian of the honor belonging to the city as a whole. The speed with which the CSG adopted Bonifacio's proposal suggests their agreement with these premises, that a poem on the *antiquitates* of Perugia will enhance Perugia's honor, glory, and consequence—and, by extension, that of its ruling classes and their regime.

The commission was made at the end of June, 1293; the poem was done by the middle of November, at which point another spate of notices appear in the council minutes regarding Bonifacio's payment: one notice that the work is done and payment must be decided upon; another notice that two doctors of law, Guido de Corgnia and Tribaldo di Forte, have been appointed to examine the work and determine an appropriate sum; and finally a notice of the results of the examination. According to the account, Guido and Tribaldo examined the poem and consulted with seven other "men wise in the law", several of whom are also known to have been members of the Perugian councils:

> ...these men wise in the law, together with the others, have decided that master Bonifatius, for the work which he versified about the deeds of the Commune of

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> Perugia, should have from the credit of the Commune of Perugia, and from the Perugian Commune itself, twenty-five gold florins... And that master Bonifacius himself ought to divide and organize and compose that work in prose; for writing and organizing said prose work, when it is done, he should have for himself from the credit of the Commune of Perugia, twenty-five gold florins, and let them be paid to him from the credit of the Commune as payment for his effort and the aforesaid work, if it is done by him and organized as agreed; and he should give the said books to the Commune.[86]

These entries have several significant features: first, the fact that lawyers—judges, in fact—are assigned to examine the poem. This parallels the combined political and academic roles of judges and notaries that we observed in Padua, and suggests that members of that profession were considered most capable of evaluating works of historiography and epic poetry. Secondly, it is particularly interesting that Guido, Tribaldo, and their advisors commissioned Bonifacio to produce a second, prose version of his epic, for another twenty-five gold florins. The second commission naturally suggests that they approved of what Bonifacio had produced, but also that they thought a more popularly accessible version of the work (which would still be in Latin, however) would be useful to the commune and worth paying for.[87]

Finally, it is suggestive that the negotiations surrounding Bonifacio's work sound exactly like those surrounding the construction of the Palazzo Nuovo or the Fontana Maggiore. Bonifacio appears to have been treated like any other craftsman whose work is

---

[86] *...deliberarunt et ipsi sapientes iuris cum eisdem quod magister Bonifacius pro opere quod fecit suo dictamine de gestis Comunis Perusii habeat et habere debeat de avere Comunis Perusiiet a Comuni Perusine .XXV. flor. auri... Et quod ipse magister Bonifacius teneatur et debeat ipsum opus prosaice distinguere et ordinare et componere Et pro dicto opere prosayce faciendo et ordinando per eum cum factum erit habere debeat de avere Comunis Perusii .XXV. flor. auri qui sibi exsolvantur de avere Comunis pro mercede laboris et opere supradicto si per eum fiet et ordinabitur ut dictum est et dare debeat Comuni dictos libros*; Mazzatinti (1896), 560-1.

[87] It is probably indicative of the poem's impenetrability that it never reached a wide audience; as mentioned earlier, only two manuscript copies survive. Nonetheless, Zappacosta (1972), 69-70, gives some indication of the legend's afterlife, especially in the guise of a short poem by the sixteenth-century Perugian humanist Francesco Maturanzio, written to accompany a series of fourteen frescoes of famous Perugians, of which Eulistes was one.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

valuable to the "honor of the Perugian commune." The council minutes refer frequently to his work (*opus*) and effort (*labor*)—for example the "payment for his effort and the aforesaid work" (*mercede laboris et opere supradicto*).[88] Elsewhere the minutes refer to him as a *mercenarius*—literally, a hired worker or employee.[89] Rather than seeing him as a superior academic mind, the Perugian commune treated Bonifacio like any of the other people they hired to enhance the glory of their city, from the engineer who designed their aqueduct to a citizen's servant who carried a statue from one place to another. As an example: on the second of November 1277, the commune paid master Coppo, a Florentine, "for the work he did on the pipes, and his effort on our aqueduct."[90] Work (*opus*) and effort (*laborerio*) are the same diction used to describe Bonifacio's poem, suggesting that the *Eulistea* was seen by the commune in the same light as the Fontana Maggiore, the aqueduct, the Palazzo Nuovo, or even road improvements. It was a means of enhancing the city's honor and consequence, a "public improvement" which used words and stories rather than brick or stone.

Perugian citizens of the late thirteenth century were therefore surrounded by construction and city beautification projects; many of them would have been involved in commissioning them in one role or another. The improvement of the road system, the building of bridges and churches—not to mention the paving of the city, improvement of the water supply, and monumentalization of the city's main square—would have improved the lives of the city's inhabitants in practical as well as aesthetic ways. These

---

88 Mazzatinti (1896), 560.
89 Mazzatinti (1896), 560.
90 *...pro opere quod fecit in butinis et laborerio aqueductus hinc*; Fasola (1951), 58, for November 2, 1277.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

projects would have fostered pride and patriotic support for the regime which instigated them, as well as a sense of civic consciousness and unity. Public improvements to the glory of the Perugian city-state not only increased the city's glory but defined its state more precisely. From the outside, these improvements would have augmented the city's public image, the consequence of the Perugian state as perceived by others, demonstrating that Perugia was a city with the resources and good governance to accomplish such projects.

But, as we have seen many times, civic improvements also functioned on an ideological level. They defined the identity and history of the Perugian city and its people on a deeper level, telling them not only where they came from but providing them with ethical and political models relevant to the current day. The encyclopedic nature of the reliefs on the Fontana Maggiore and the frescoes in the Palazzo Nuovo defined not only the cosmos but Perugia's place within it; not only human history but the significant role of Perugian history within its larger sphere. They encompass the whole in order to show how Perugian geography, history, and knowledge fit into it. At the same time, these monuments demonstrate the relevance of history to contemporary experience. Just as Eulistes is framed by the contemporary rulers of medieval Perugia on the Fontana Maggiore, so the fountain's arrangement implies that the actions and principles of the historical and mythical figures portrayed on the fountain are eternally relevant. Thus, like Lorenzetti's frescoes in the Sienese Palazzo Pubblico, the Fontana Maggiore mirrors the contemporary Perugian world at the same time as it prescribes a

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

civic ideal for that world.[91] The *Eulistea*, for its part, provides an unbroken historical narrative of history from the founding of the city in the days of Troy up to the year of its composition, implying a strong historical continuity between the past and the present, and the relevance of certain values and principles in both cases. Furthermore, the emphasis on Roman figures and events in all of these projects, often paralleling Perugian ones, provided the contemporary audience with a particularly strong set of ethical principles based in historical experience. As expressed in these public works, Perugia's Roman roots were both a source of civic pride and a standard by which to improve present reality.

To an external audience, Perugia's new classical ideology would have increased its consequence, putting it on the same ideological level as—or higher than—every other city in north-central Italy with claims to an illustrious heritage. Bonifacio's *Eulistea* certainly claims that a close and exclusive relationship existed between Perugia and Rome from the founding of both cities, subconsciously if not explicitly denying other cities' similar claims. These claims of antiquity, along with the strong parallels drawn between ancient Perugia and contemporary Perugia, would have emphasized the age and inherent importance of the city, while imbuing its current regime with an aura of legitimacy as being the direct heirs of Eulistes himself.

Their ancient past may have been particularly useful to the Perugians in their relations with the papacy: being an important papal city was certainly a matter of considerable prestige, but the city's councillors most likely welcomed any suggestion that

---

[91] As argued by Galletti (1970), *Non era solo manifestazione; era anche e sopratutto giustificazione e persuasione*; "[The *Eulistea*] was not just a manifestation [of an ideal]; it was also and above all a justification and a persuasion" (323).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

the city was not defined solely by its relations with the papacy. A pre-Christian foundation and early civic history, not to mention political principles originally based on Roman rather than Christian models, may have served the Perugians well. It would have been a means of balancing their political relations with the papacy, asserting as it did that their association with the Roman church was voluntary rather than inherent.

The civic projects that we have seen sponsored and carefully supervised by the Perugian commune in the later thirteenth century were all part of a larger program designed to improve and display what it meant to be Perugian. Each project—fountain, palazzo, and poem—embodied different ways of defining civic identity, but all together created a surprisingly unified whole. Civic constitutions, public improvements, and the sponsorship of learning, art, and historiography all emphasized Perugia's long and glorious history and even more glorious present in slightly different ways, whether physically or intellectually. As Alberto Grohmann points out: "they become unified symbols of communal reality, 'public monuments' representative of what has been, what is, and what should be; they continually recreate both past and present, the imaginary and the actual, myth and reality."[92] They served both as ideals for the city's populace and as a way of impressing outsiders.

The variable dynamic between insider and outsider suggests another important point: the fluidity of the late medieval Italian culture in which civic myth-making occurred. Defying modern notions of medieval localism and innate conservatism, this

---

[92] *Divengono simboli unitari della realtà comunale, 'monumenti pubblici' rappresentativi di ciò che si è stati, si è e si vuole essere, ove passato e presente, immaginario e concreto, mito e realtà si fondono continuamente*; Grohmann (1996), 155.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

was a society in which people and ideas moved easily from place to place: like the Pisani, who worked in most of the major cities of central Italy over the course of their lives. It is thought that they may have come from Apulia (in southern Italy), but they came to Perugia from Pisa, and left there to go to Siena.[93] This indicates a widespread knowledge base from which such classicizing legends were manifested—that Roman and classical legends were relatively well-known even on a broad level. It cannot be a coincidence that so many cities became concerned with classical foundations and ancient history in these years. Perugia is a particularly telling case because, in contrast to Genoa (for example), none of the experts whom the Perugian council commissioned to create their Romanizing ideology were actually Perugian: Nicola and Giovanni were originally Pisan, hence Pisano; Bonifacio was Veronese; the engineer Boninsegna was Venetian, and several other experts consulted by the Perugians were Florentine. Arnolfo di Cambio was Florentine, but he was requisitioned from work in Rome. This array displays unusual mobility but also suggests the wide dissemination of these classicizing "prehumanistic" concerns. Even a city which had no local expert—no Lovato Lovati or Jacopo Doria—could recognize the utility of having a well-known classical founder, and could hire people to do the work for them.

To a certain extent, the cutthroat civic competition for which the Italian cities are so famous—what the Italians even today recognize and call *campanilismo*—is most likely at work here, as in so many other areas.[94] Maintaining one's place in the delicate balance of city-states and dynastic lordships was an omnipresent concern in historiography as in

---

93 White (1993), 88-91.

94 *Campanilismo* is closely related to that other axiom of Italian culture, *fare figura*: to make a good appearance, or present a good façade.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

architecture. Like the Sienese, who determined the height of the tower on their Palazzo Pubblico by the height of the one in Florence plus a few inches, late-thirteenth-century Perugians were clearly driven by a desire to keep up appearances, to ensure that their city's public image appropriately reflected their sense of its political and economic stature. When Boninsegna da Venezia arrived from his work in Orvieto to give his opinion on plans for the Perugian aqueduct, he claimed before the council that he could build a bigger and better fountain than the one in Orvieto.[95] The classicizing themes, both historiographical and ideological, which went onto that fountain, and appeared in so many other communal commissions in the same period, were a major part of improving Perugia's perceived position at its neighbors' expense. Perugia was a prosperous medium-sized city dominated by its middle-class guildsmen; its political regime was reasonably well established; it had a nascent university but no prehumanist circle. Far from manifesting the historiographical curiosity of a few wealthy intellectuals, therefore, the Perugian commune's adoption and promulgation of the classicizing story of Eulistes was an obvious and well-established means of publicly defining Perugian identity in a world of other cities doing exactly the same thing.

---

[95] *Il Consiglio ascolta il parere di maestro* Bonainsegna de Veneciis, qui fecit fieri fontem de Urbeveteri, *il quale disse di poter fare l'aquedotto* et etiam plus forte opus, plus securum quam non est illud opus fontis de Urbevetere; Fasola (1951), 56, for February 26, 1277.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Conclusion

The preceding pages have attempted to characterize a historical phenomenon, namely, the proliferation of classical foundation legends in the cities of northern and central Italy between the years 1250 and 1350 AD. Both in the broader scope of part 1, which approaches the subject thematically, and in the case-study chapters of part 2, I have tried to give some sense of not only the phenomenon itself, but also why it developed as it did—why so many civic leaders were interested in the classical past, and what role they saw it playing in the life of the late medieval *civitas*.

In part, it was a matter of respect. A classical foundation—the older, the better; as witnessed by Eusebian-style calculations of years and literary superlatives like *antiquissimus*—spoke for the *antiquitas* of a city, and *antiquitas* (perhaps best translated here as seniority, in the sense of being older *than* something else) provided a number of other intangible benefits such as *dignitas*, *maiestas*, and *auctoritas*. At the same time, age was practically useful, since, both logically and legally, it supported claims of political autonomy, territorial expansion, or both.

Romanizing foundation legends were particularly effective for these purposes because of their broader implications for the people of late medieval Italy. The peninsula's most glorious years had been those of Roman rule, and vicarious glory could be gained from association with them. More important, however, were the examples that Roman history provided to communities similarly engaged in republican self-rule: the pages of Cicero, Sallust, Lucan, and other classical authors—often in translation for the first time in this period—provided not only a model for republican governance but also the demonstration of what happens when such governance goes disastrously wrong.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Jacopo da Varagine's Roman glossary denounces ambition, factionalism, and personal greed on the same page as it praises magistrates who work for the common good.

The use and manipulation of classical materials for ideological purposes was facilitated by considerable overlap between political, financial, and intellectual spheres. Merchants, magistrates, and professors came from the same leading families, and formed an educated elite which, through their participation in civil society, benefited the entire urban population. Lovato Lovati, Jacopo da Varagine, Ambrogio Lorenzetti, and Bonifacio da Verona all held official positions in the commune, and Brunetto Latini and Albertino Mussato combined the personae of teacher, civil servant, poet, and historian into a single career. They were in a prime position not only to appreciate the relevance of Roman history for the circumstances in which they found themselves, but also to pass that knowledge on to others.

Given the labyrinthine networks of family, partisanship, civic allegiance, and feudal obligation that characterized Italian politics in the late Middle Ages, it seems logical that every city, no matter how small, should have a stake in the communal pot of civic honor: we have seen examples from cities the size and influence of Genoa and Venice (populations c. 100,000 in 1300) to much smaller towns like Todi (population less than 5,000). The adoption of civic foundation legends was therefore widespread and extremely variable: it was not unique to certain "culturally developed" cities like Florence and Venice, nor specific to a certain type of regime. In the interest of brevity, I have limited my study to republican city-states, but similar analyses could easily be done

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

for imperial or aristocratic ideologies in the same time period: Florence may have proclaimed its foundation by Julius Caesar, but so did the Colonna family in Rome.

Likewise, I have limited this study to a specific span of one hundred years. The propagation of Roman foundation legends is not limited to these years—there are fascinating examples from the eleventh and sixteenth centuries. Rather, this century was a crucial turning point for the republican cities on which I have focused, a period of rapid growth, fierce competition, and near-cataclysmic political upheaval. By 1400, the landscape had changed considerably: instead of numerous independent city-states connected by regional and partisan alliances, the powers of Florence and Milan faced off against a backdrop of subject and dependent territories.

The high-pressure socio-political situation of the century between 1250 and 1350 therefore produced particularly eloquent examples of civic ideology in central and northern Italy: the republican city-states promulgated classical foundation legends in this period that are carefully articulated, like the myth of Janus in Genoa, as well as broadly disseminated, like the imagery of the she-wolf in Siena. Whether written, painted, or built, they are conscious monuments to civic pride, honor, and glory, and as such have the same cultural function as other civic improvements of the same period.

For example, each of the four cities treated in part 2 was engaged in the same projects at approximately the same time, namely the turn of the fourteenth century: city walls and gates to protect its citizens; aqueducts to provide convenient running water; statutes to define the city's privileges and improve communal life; a university or studium for the education of future leaders; and a town hall that appropriately reflected the "honor and glory of the commune." As we saw in Perugia, the same research,

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

imagination, and attention went into the formulation of a civic foundation legend as into more concrete projects; art and literature were considered as crucial to the commune's success as utilities, architecture, and public institutions.

Civic competition and questions of honor were particularly vital not only because the political sphere was so volatile, but also because the urban network was so closely woven. Within the city, population density was extremely high, with much of everyday life taking place in public. Furthermore, merchants, magistrates, intellectuals, ambassadors, artists, and clerics moved around constantly: up and down the peninsula, as well as further afield. As attested by the various histories that collect lists of civic foundation legends, municipal improvements were certain to be seen and spoken of, and most legends were well-known outside "their" city walls.

The articulation of such a legend was therefore an engagement with the outside world as well as between a city's various groups and leaders, and in many cases these legends illustrate the transmission of certain images, ideas, and ideologies from city to city. The ideological dialogues between Padua and Venice, and Florence and Siena, are conspicuous examples; each city formulated its own civic myth not only *for* itself but also *against* its rival city, bolstering its civic honor at the other's expense. Yet the intersecting legends traced by this study have shown that cultural transmission is rarely so tidy: historical figures, symbolic images, and even physical monuments often have a richly intricate afterlife not apparent to the casual viewer.

Most visitors to the Capitoline in Rome today visit not the Roman commune's pet wolves, as they might have in 1893, but the famous bronze Capitoline wolf and twins. The twins were added to the wolf (a fifth-century-BC work of Etruscan origin) in the

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

1530s; in the thirteenth century, the famous *lupa* was standing with other classical trophies outside the Lateran palace in Rome. Being clearly a she-wolf, the bronze sculpture was already connected with the Romulus and Remus legend—but as a symbol, it lacked twins. Medieval representations of Romulus and Remus (from the ninth century on), on the other hand, usually focus on the twins themselves, relegating the she-wolf to secondary importance. To my knowledge, the earliest medieval representations of the wolf *with* the twins are on Nicola and Giovanni Pisano's reliefs for the Fontana Maggiore in Perugia, from 1278 (as in figure 52), and on the Palazzo Pubblico in Siena, c. 1300-10 (figures 37-8). One might theorize that the Pisani and their associates were the first to reuse the iconography of the wolf-and-twins in their work in Perugia and Siena, and that the Romans took the idea to add the infants to the Etruscan wolf in the sixteenth century from them: the development of these respective foundation legends may therefore have been much more culturally interdependent than has generally been assumed.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Epilogue

Although it has not seemed a productive line of analysis for this study, the reader may find him- or herself wondering whether any of the citizens of the cities discussed in this study actually believed the preposterous stories told by their chronicles, frescoes, and statuary. Did anyone in fourteenth-century Todi actually think that two of the gates of Rome were named after primeval Todese conquerors of Rome? How likely is it that Remus had twin sons who were also suckled by a she-wolf? In witness to the tenacity with which people cling to illustrious origins, however unlikely, and as an example of the central role that the mythical past plays in people's lives even today, I offer the following anecdote: on August 31st, 2003, the *Los Angeles Times* ran an article about Gerald Sherratt, the mayor of Cedar City, Utah.[1] In an effort to drum up tourist business for his town, he ran a series of faux-scholarly paid advertisements under an assumed name in a local newspaper, which reported the discovery of ancient Viking artifacts documenting a previously unknown local settlement called the kingdom of Himmelsk, which had been founded on April 1st (note the date), 935 AD, by Prince Knut Blodoks.

Despite the almost complete absence of ethnic Scandinavians in Cedar City, the articles created a buzz and rumors started flying. In an effort to extract himself from an increasingly sticky situation, the mayor published a further notice announcing that the artifacts had been claimed for the Smithsonian Institution in Washington. Unfortunately, Sherratt's announcement did not make the furor die down; the town hall was deluged with phone calls from locals anxious to retain such important fragments of

---

[1] Kelly (2003).

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

their illustrious heritage. The mayor has explained that it was all a joke aimed at improving tourism, but, as he said to the *Times*: "some don't believe us when we say it's a hoax, and they think there is some government cover-up going on. It boggles the mind."

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Figures

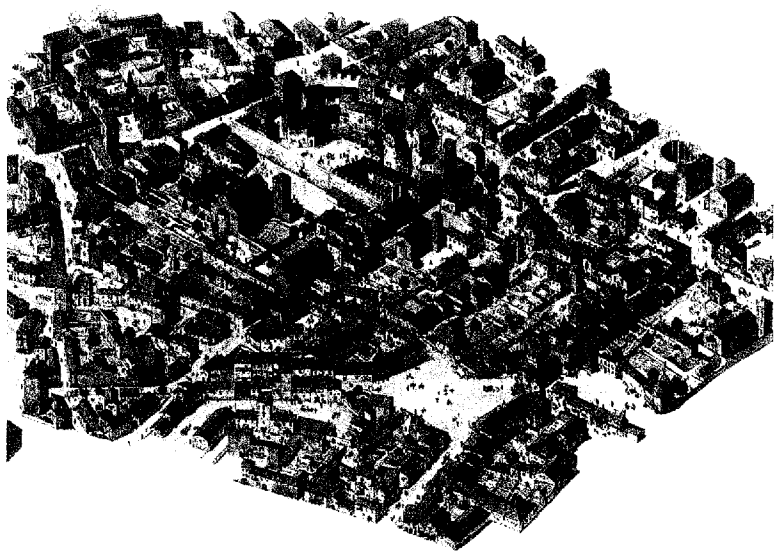


Figure 1. The area surrounding the 1st-century-BC Theatre of Pompey as it might have appeared in the 14th century AD. The theatre is visible in the semicircle of buildings above.

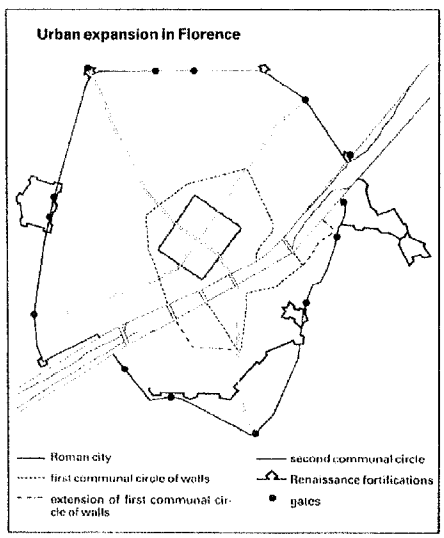


Figure 2. The urban expansion of medieval Florence: three sets of city walls (1st-century, 12th-century, and 14th-century).

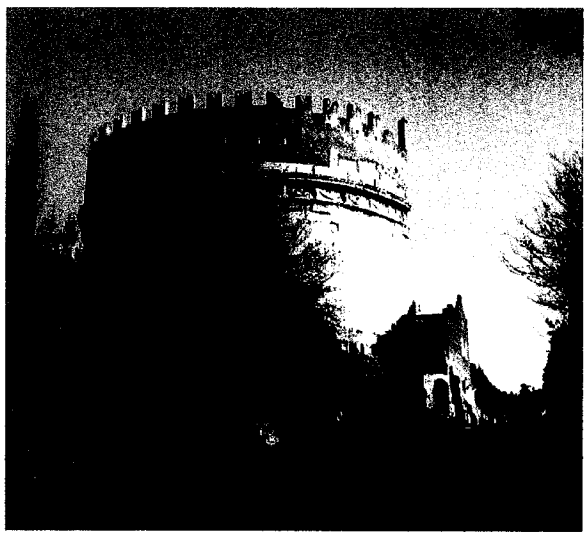


Figure 3. The republican tomb of Cecilia Metella on the Via Appia just outside the walls of Rome, incorporated into a Caetani family fortress; the brickwork on the tomb and the building attached in the rear date from the 14th century.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

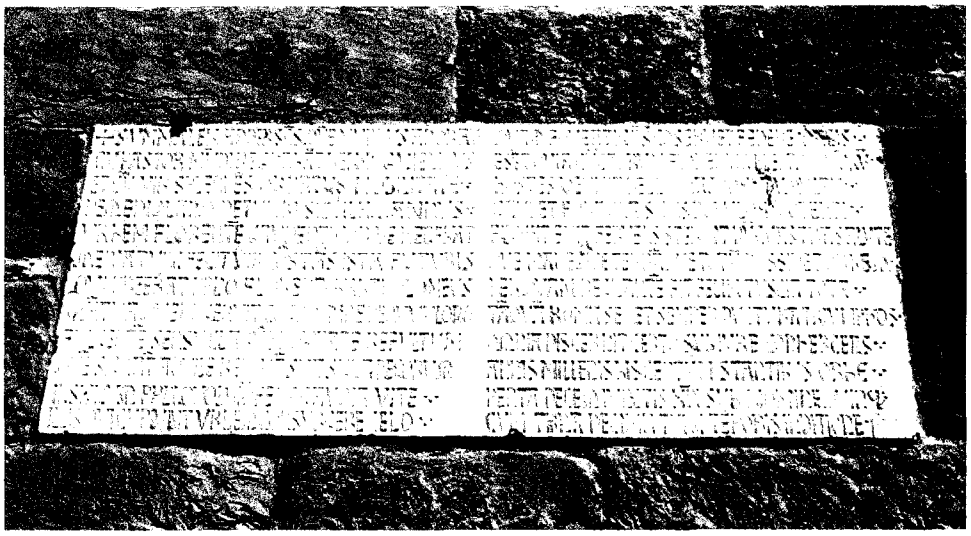


Figure 4. Inscription on the Bargello (Palazzo del podestà), Florence. c. 1255.



Figure 5. Arch of Augustus, with medieval crenellations, Rimini. 1st century AD.

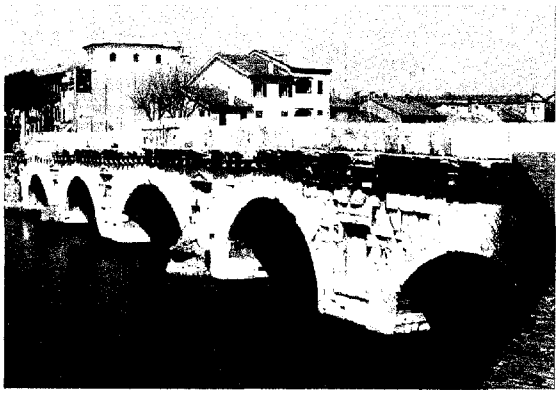


Figure 6. Bridge of Tiberius, Rimini. 1st century AD.



Figure 7. Marker on site where Julius Caesar allegedly gave his speech after crossing the Rubicon; this 15th-century marker probably replaced an older one.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 8 (left). Statue of Virgil, Mantua. 1227.



Figure 9 (right). [Etruscan?] bronze lion and griffin, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia.



Figure 10. City seal of Pavia showing the classical statue called the Regisol. 1341.



Figure 11. City seal of Fano showing the Augustan arch. 13th century.

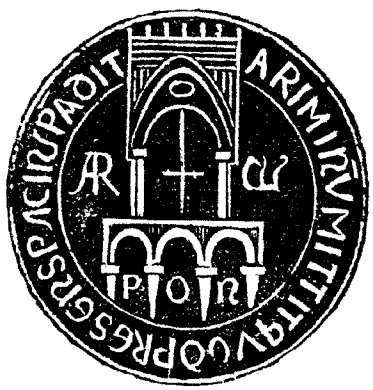


Figure 12. City seal of Rimini showing Augustan arch (above) and Tiberian bridge (below). 13th century.



Figure 13. City seal of Ravenna showing the Claudian Porta Aurea; the inner motto reads *Porta aurea de Ravenna*; the outer: *Urbis antique—Sigillum summe Ravenne.* Late 13th century.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 14. City walls of Viterbo, originally built in the 11th century but frequently added to and reinforced through the next three centuries.



Figure 15. Tomb of Rolandino Passaggeri outside the church of San Domenico, Bologna. c. 1300.

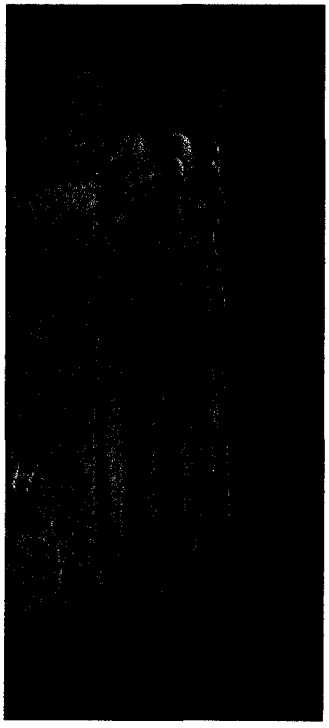


Figure 16. Matteo da Correggio, podestà of Perugia in 1278, as portrayed on Perugia's Fontana Maggiore, which was completed in that year.

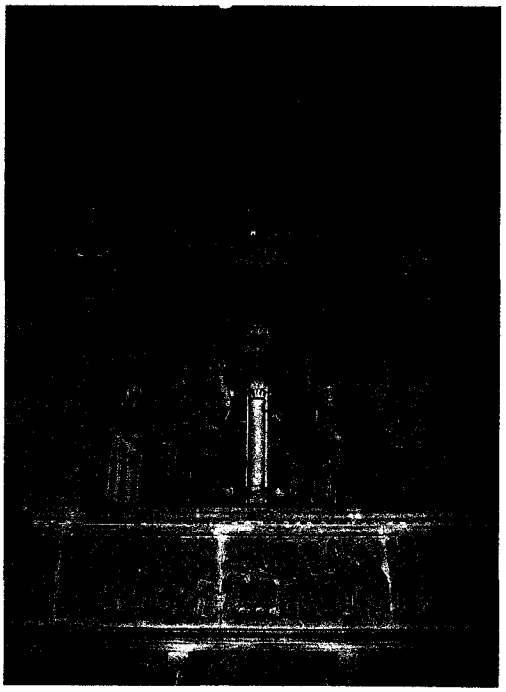


Figure 17. Tomb of Cino da Pistoia in Pistoia cathedral. c. 1340.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

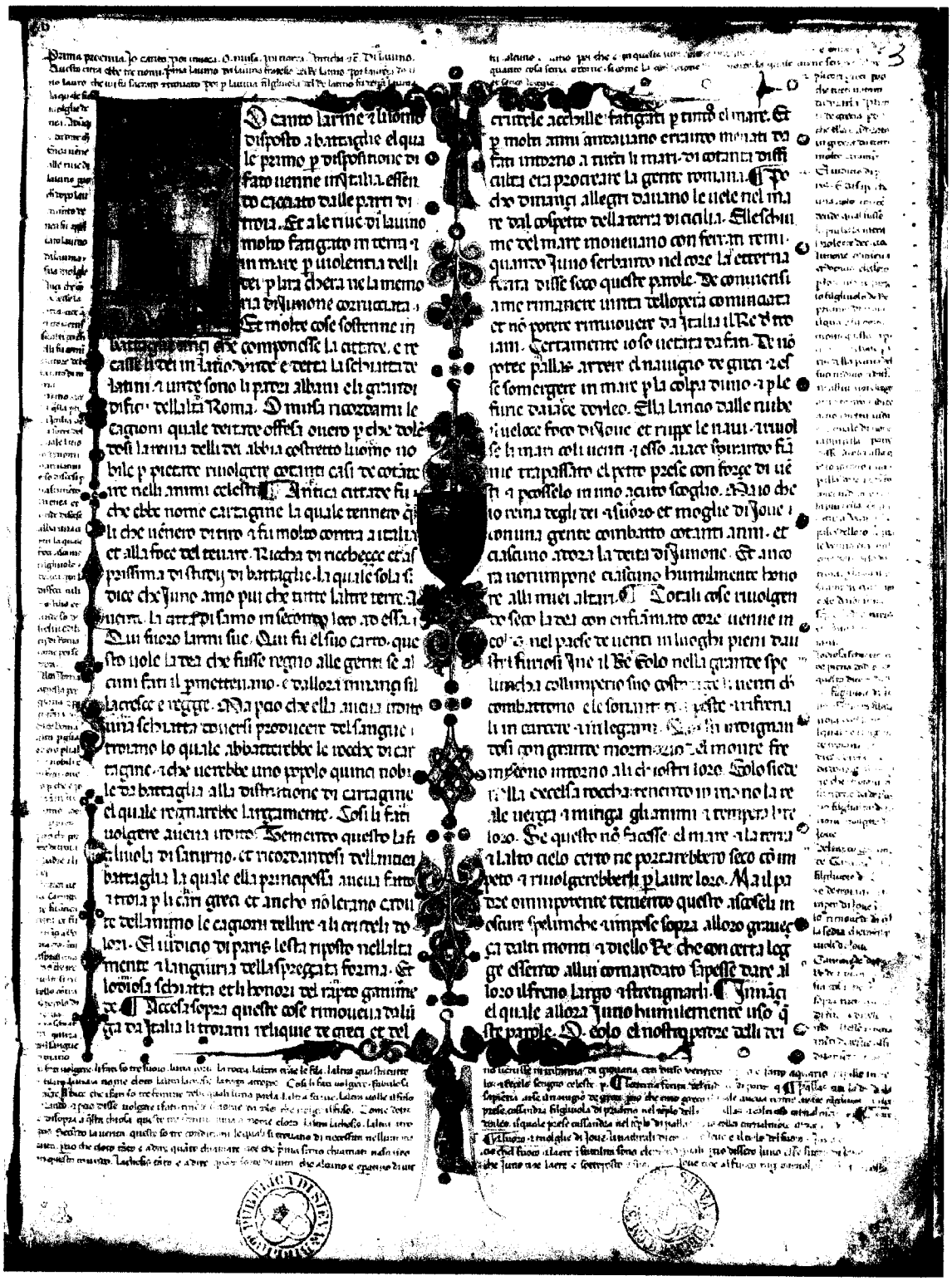


Figure 18. First page of Ciampolo di Meo Ugurgieri's translation of the *Aeneid* (Siena, Biblioteca Comunale S.IV.11, f. 1r). Early 14th century.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

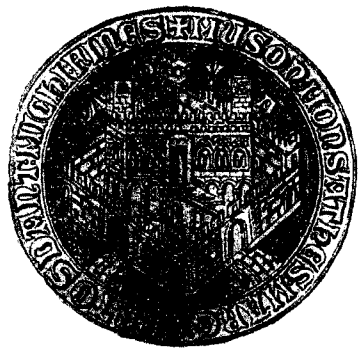


Figure 19. City seal of Padua showing the city walls; the inscription reads *Muson, Mons, Athes, Mare certos dant michi fines.* Late 13th century.

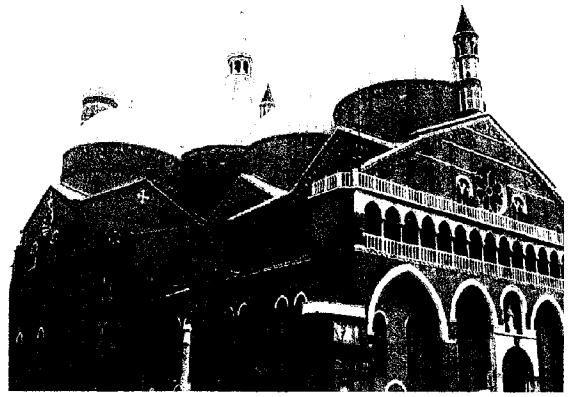


Figure 20. Basilica of St. Anthony, Padua. Completed c. 1310.

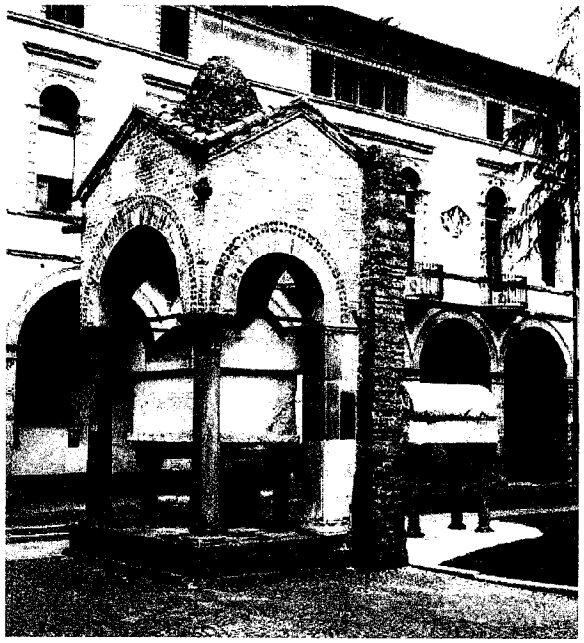


Figure 21. Tomb of Antenor, Padua. 1283.

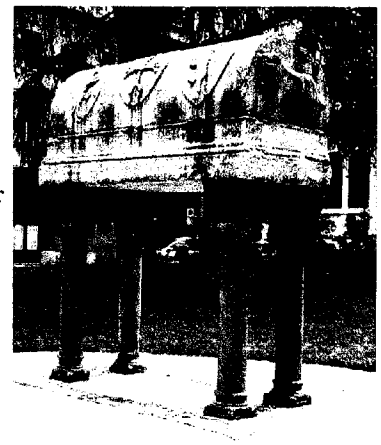


Figure 23. Tomb of Lovato Lovati in Piazza Antenore, Padua. c. 1310.

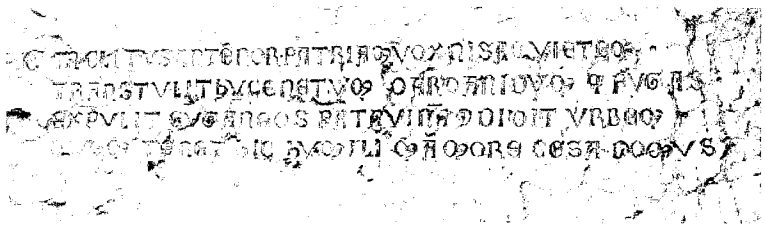


Figure 22. Verses composed by Lovato Lovati and inscribed on Antenor's tomb. 1283.



Figure 24. Tomb of Rolando da Piazzola outside the basilica of St. Anthony, Padua, c. 1333.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 25. 1257 wing of the Palazzo San Giorgio, Genoa.

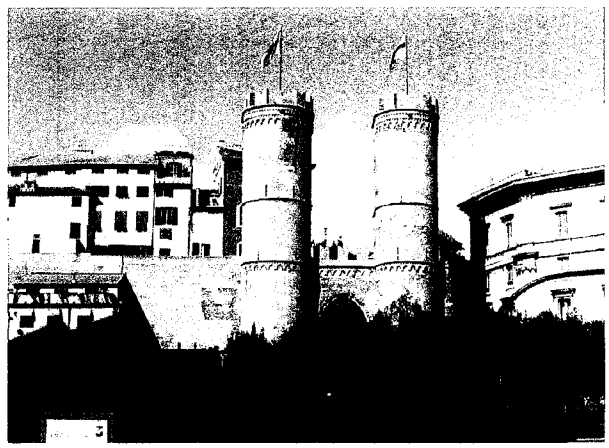


Figure 26. Porta Soprana, Genoa: the best-preserved section of Genoa's 12th-century city wall, erected in defense against the Holy Roman Emperor Frederick Barbarossa.

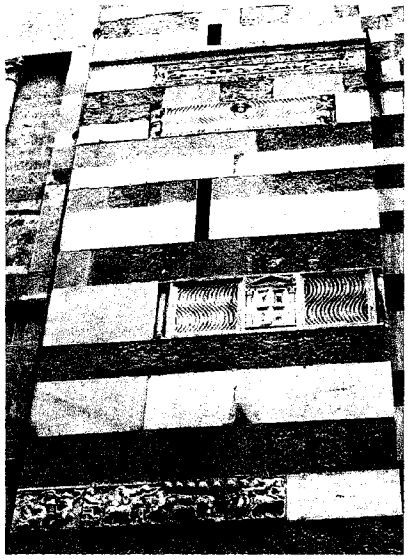


Figure 28. Roman sarcophagi on the cathedral façade, Genoa. 12th and 13th centuries.

Figure 27. West front of the cathedral of San Lorenzo, Genoa. 11th-14th centuries.





Figure 29. Doria family church of San Matteo, Genoa. The white bands to either side of the door contain victory inscriptions from the 13th and 14th centuries.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

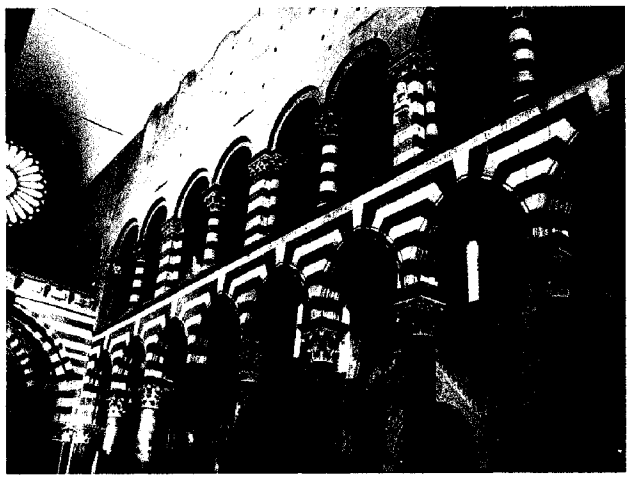


Figure 30. Left arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. Rebuilt 1307. Di Negro and di Goano's inscription runs along the top of the lower arcade, and Janus is at upper right.

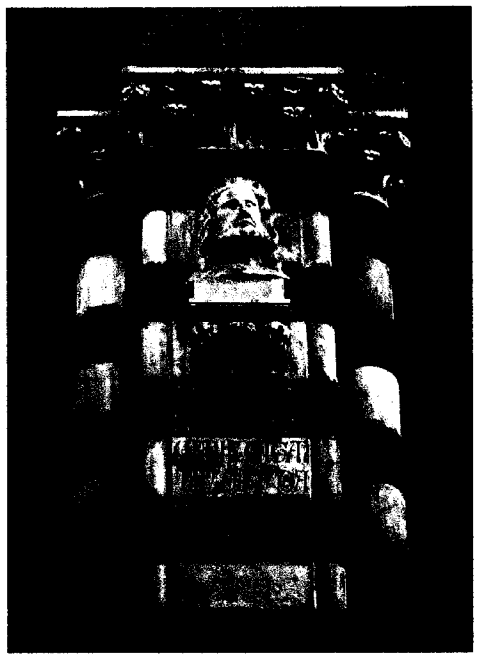


Figure 31. Head of Janus and accompanying inscription, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1307.

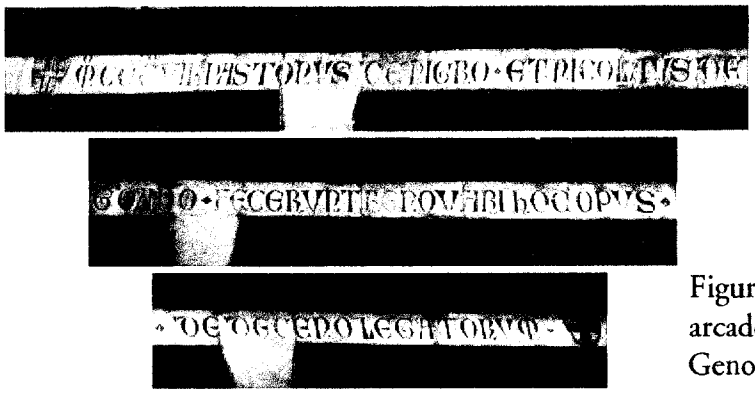


Figure 32. Inscription on left arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1307.



Figure 33. Inscription on right arcade of nave, San Lorenzo, Genoa. 1312.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

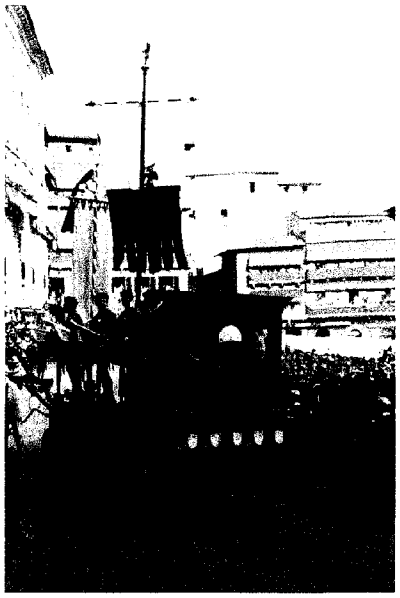


Figure 34. Sienese *carroccio* (military standard wagon) carrying the black and white *balzana* in the city's 2002 Palio.



Figure 35. Palazzo Pubblico and Torre del Mangia, Siena, from the top of the Campo.

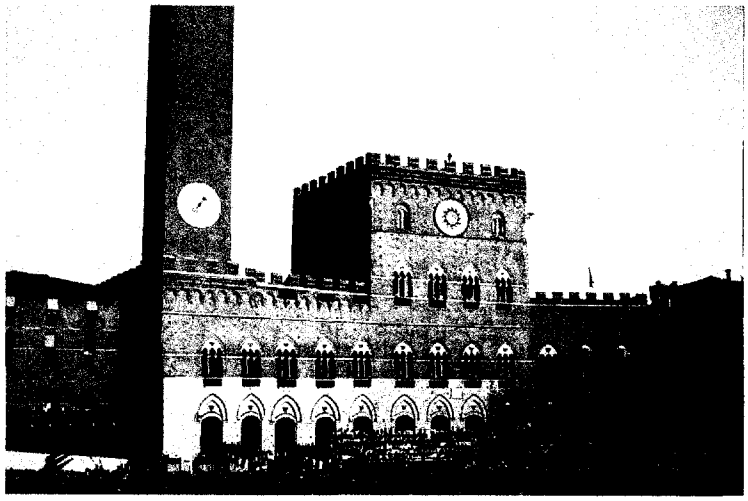


Figure 36. Palazzo Pubblico façade, Siena, as it would have appeared in 1310.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 37. Wolf drainspouts on the Torre del Mangia, Siena. c. 1340.

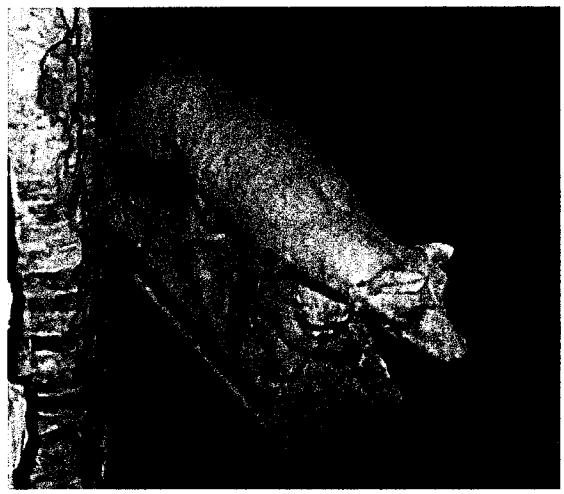


Figure 38. An original wolf drainspout, now kept on the ground floor of the Palazzo.

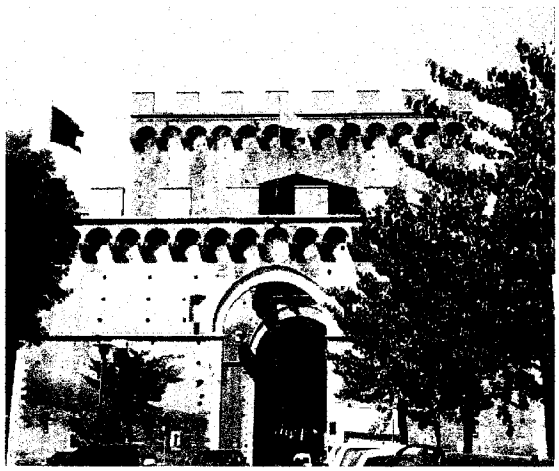


Figure 39. Porta Romana, Siena. Rebuilt c. 1327.



Figure 40. Wolf guarding the Porta Romana, Siena. c. 1327.



Figure 41. The Porta Romana as it appears in Ambrogio Lorenzetti's Allegory of Good Government. c. 1340.



Figure 42. Detail of Lorenzetti's Porta Romana. c. 1340.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 43. The Common Good/Good Commune of Ambrogio Lorenzetti's Allegory of Good Government, with the wolf and twins at his feet. c. 1340.



Figure 44. City seal of Siena, showing the Virgin Mary, its patron saint (above) and the wolf and twins (below). 1344.

Figure 45. A parallel to Siena's "Lysippan Venus": the fountain in Piazza dell'Erbe, Verona. 1368.



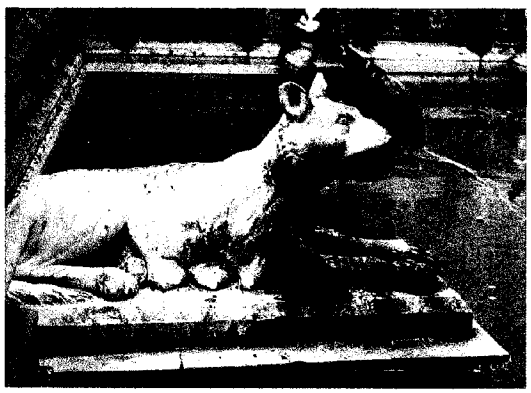


Figure 46. A wolf on the Fonte Gaia, Siena. c. 1410.



Figure 47. Bronze wolf by Giovanni di Turino on a classical column outside the Palazzo Pubblico, Siena. 1427.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.



Figure 48. Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.



Figure 49. Eulistes (*Heulixtes Perusine conditor urbis*) on the Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.

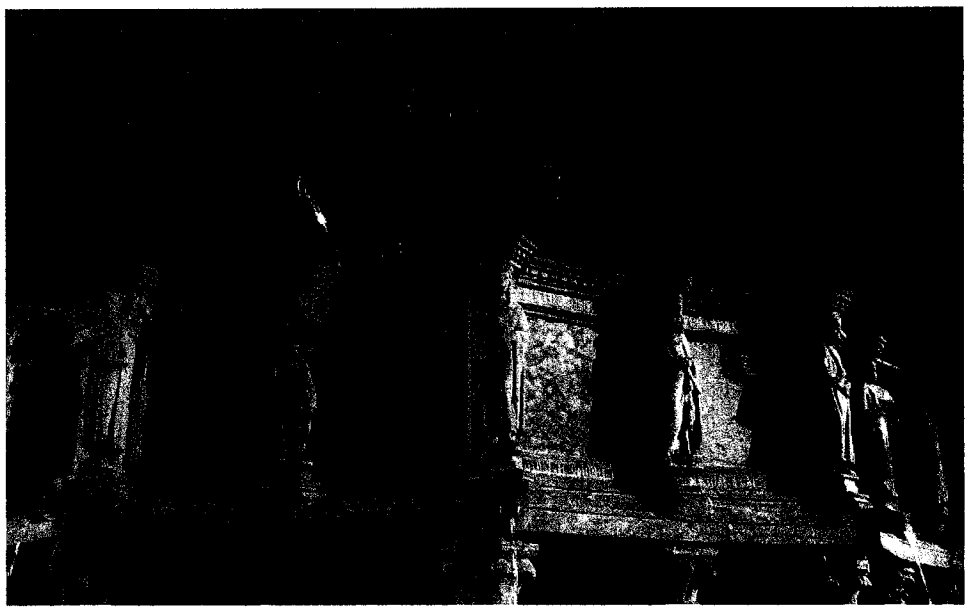


Figure 50. Eulistes flanked first by the Archangel Gabriel and the Old Testament king Melchisedech, and then by Matteo da Correggio (podestà for 1278) and Hermanno da Sassoferrato (capitano for 1278). Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

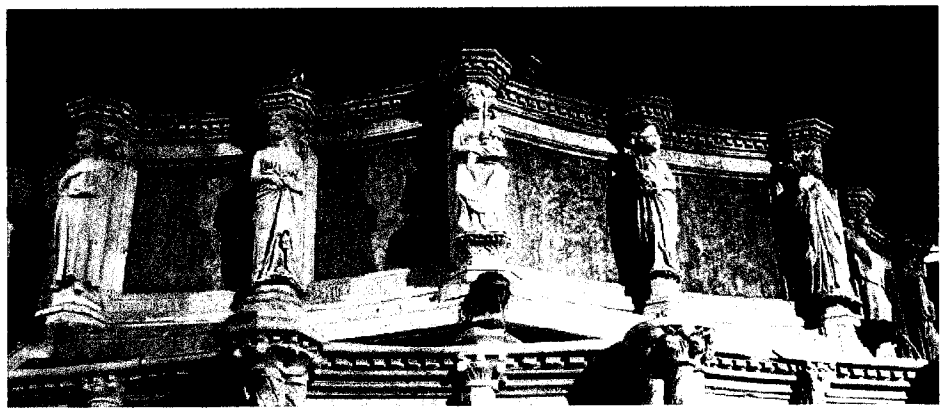


Figure 51. Perugia (*Augusta Perusia*) flanked first by the personifications of Chiusi and Lake Trasimene, and then by her patron saints, Lorenzo and Ercolano. Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.



Figure 52. Rome (*Roma capud mundi*) positioned over the four reliefs showing Romulus and Remus, the two boys with the she-wolf, and Rhea Silvia. Fontana Maggiore, Perugia. 1278.

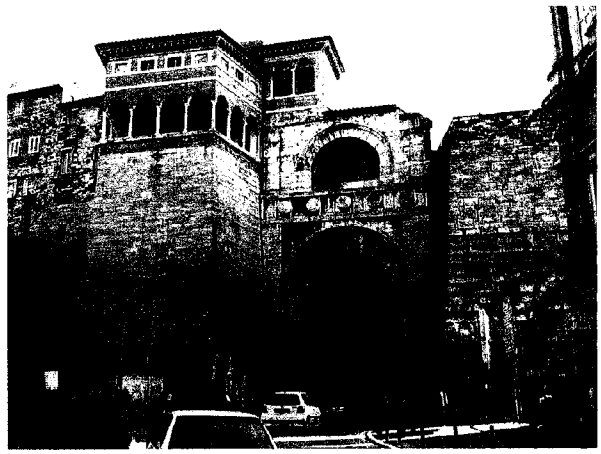


Figure 53. Etruscan arch in the medieval city wall, Perugia.



Figure 54. Detail of Etruscan arch, Perugia, with 1st-century-AD *Augusta Perusia* inscription.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

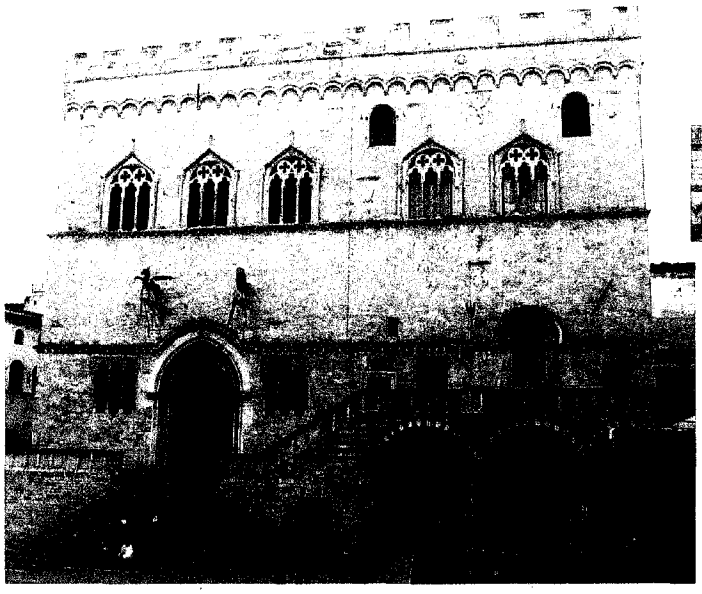
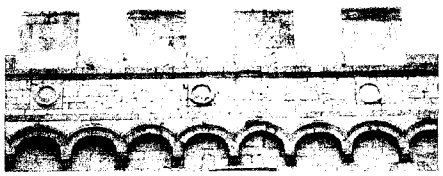


Figure 55. Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.





Figures 56 (above) and 57 (below). Etruscan-style molding on the Palazzo dei Priori façade, Perugia. c. 1300.

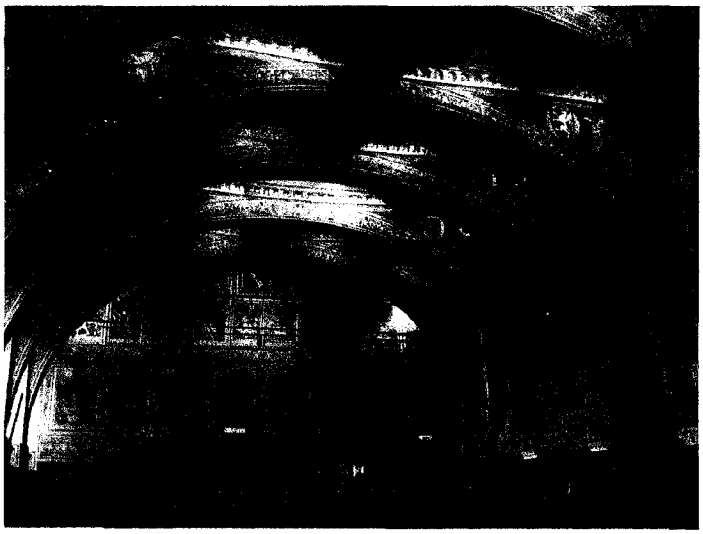


Figure 58. Sala dei Notai, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.



Figure 59. Frescoed SPQR shield in the Sala dei Notai, Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia. c. 1300.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Works Cited

Manuscripts

Florence, Biblioteca Medicea-Laurenziana, MS Gaddi rel. 71.

Florence, Biblioteca Medicea-Laurenziana, MS Gaddi rel. 95.

Florence, Biblioteca Nazionale Centrale, MS II.III.135.

Florence, Biblioteca Nazionale Centrale, MS Panciatichi 13 [12].

Genoa, Civica Biblioteca Berio, MS m.r.cf bis.4.2 (*olim* D bis.7.6.20).

London, British Library, MS Harley 2493.

Paris, Bibliothèque Nationale, MS Ital. 6.

Paris, Bibliothèque Nationale, MS Ital. 120.

Perugia, Istituto della philologia romanza, Università di Perugia. Unnumbered MS containing Bonifacio da Verona's *Eulistea (Liber antiquitatum comunis Perusii).*

Siena, Biblioteca Comunale Intronati, MS S.IV.11.

Vatican City, Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Barb. Lat. 3923.

Vatican City, Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Chigi VIII.296.

Vatican City, Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana, MS Ottob. Lat. 3336.

Printed Sources

Abbondanza, R. (1962). "Primi appunti sulla legislazione statutaria di Perugia dei secoli XIII e XIV." *Archivio storico italiano* 120: 461-8.

---, ed. (1973). *Il notariato a Perugia: Mostra documentaria e iconografica per il XVI Congresso nazionale del notariato (Perugia, maggio-luglio 1967). Fonti e strumenti per la storia del notariato italiano,* vol. 4. Rome, Consiglio nazionale del notariato.

"The Abraham Lincoln Birthplace National Historic Site." (2004). Website as of May 20, 2004: maintained by the National Park Service. http://www.nps.gov/abli/

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Abulafia, D. (1977). "Kantorowicz and Frederick II." *History* 62: 193-210.

--- (1988). *Frederick II: A Medieval Emperor.* London, Allen Lane.

Airaldi, G. (1986). *Genova e la Liguria nel Medio Evo.* Turin, UTET.

--- (1988). *Jacopo da Varagine: Tra santi e mercanti.* Milan, Camunia.

Albertino Mussato (1972). *The Tragedy of Ecerinis.* Ed. R. W. Carruba. State College, PA, Penn State University Press.

--- (1975). *Ecerinis.* Ed. J. R. Berrigan. Munich, Fink.

--- (2000). *Écérinide, Épîtres métriques sur la poésie, Songe.* Ed. J.-F. Chevalier. Paris, Les Belles Lettres.

Albini, G., ed. (1998). *Le scritture del comune: Amministrazione e memoria nelle città dei secoli XII e XIII.* Turin, Scriptorium.

Alexander, J. J. G., and M. T. Gibson (1976). *Medieval Learning and Literature: Essays Presented to Richard William Hunt.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Algazi, G., V. Groebner, et al. (2003). *Negotiating the Gift: Pre-Modern Figurations of Exchange.* Göttingen, Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht.

Anderson, B. (1991). *Imagined Communities: Reflections on the Origin and Spread of Nationalism.* 1983. Rev. ed. London, Verso.

AP1 =*Annales Patavini (First Redaction)* (1905). Ed. A. Bonardi. *Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 8.1. Città di Castello, Zanichelli.

AP2 =*Annales Patavini (Second Redaction)* (1905). Ed. A. Bonardi. *Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 8.1. Città di Castello, Zanichelli.

Appian (1912-3). *Roman History.* Reprinted 1990. Ed. H. White. 4 vols. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Arnaldi, G. (1963). *Studi sui cronisti della Marca Trevigiana nell'età di Ezzelino da Romano.* Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

--- (1964). *Testi per lo studio di Rolandino di Padova.* Padua, Pàtron.

--- (1966). "Il notaio-cronista e le cronache cittadine in Italia." In *La storia del diritto nel quadro delle scienze storiche.* Florence, Olschki. 293-309.

--- (1970). "Andrea Dandolo Doge-cronista." In *La storiografia veneziana fino al secolo XVI,* ed. A. Pertusi. Florence, Olschki. 127-268.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Arnaldi, G. (1976). "Il primo secolo dello studio di Padova." In *Storia della cultura veneta 2: Il trecento*, ed. G. Folena. Vicenza, Neri Pozza. 1-18.

--- (1984). "Il tempo delle cronache (Italia: secoli XII-XIII)." In *Le temps chrétien de la fin de l'antiquité au moyen âge, III-XIII siécles.* Paris, Editions du Centre national de la recherche scientifique. 531-9.

Artifoni, E. (1996). "I podestà professionali e la fondazione retorica della politica comunale." *Quaderni storici* 63: 687-719.

Ascheri, M. (1992). *L'Università di Siena: 750 anni di storia.* Milan, Silvana.

--- (2000). *Siena nella storia.* Milan, Silvana.

--- (2001a). *Lo spazio storico di Siena.* Milan, Silvana Editoriale.

--- (2001b). *Siena e Maremma nel Medioevo. Documenti di storia,* vol. 38. Siena, Betti.

Avril, F., M.-T. Gousset, et al. (1980). *Manuscrits enluminés d'origine italienne 2: XIIIe siècle.* Paris, Bibliothèque nationale.

Azzetta, L. (2001). *Ordinamenti, provvisioni e riformagioni del Comune di Firenze volgarizzati da Andrea Lancia, 1355-1357.* Venice, Istituto veneto di scienze lettere ed arti.

Bairoch, P., J. Batou, et al. (1988). *La population des villes européennes, 800-1850: Banque de données et analyse sommaire des résultats. Publications du Centre d'histoire économique internationale de l'Université de Genève,* vol. 2. Geneva, Droz.

Bak, J. M., H. Quirin, et al. (1987). *Medieval Narrative Sources: A Chronological Guide (With a List of Major Letter Collections).* New York, Garland.

Balard, M. (1989). *La mer Noire et la Romanie génoise: XIIIe-XVe siècle.* London, Variorum Reprints.

Baldi, A. (1975). *Guittone d'Arezzo fra impegno a poesia.* Salerno, Società editrice salernitana.

Balestracci, D., D. Lamberini, et al. (1993). *I bottini medievali di Siena.* Siena, Alsaba.

Balzani, U. (1883). *Early Chroniclers of Italy.* London, Society for Promoting Christian Knowledge.

Banchi, L. (1863). *Fatti di Cesare.* Bologna, Romagnoli.

--- (1866). "Breve degli officiali del comune di Siena, 1250." *Archivio storico italiano, 3rd series* 3(2): 3-104.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Banchi, L. (1882). *Le origini favolose di Siena secondo una presunta cronica romana di Tisbo Colonnese [pseud.]...* Siena, Tipografia all'Insegna di S. Bernardino.

Banker, J. R. (1974). "The *Ars dictaminis* and Rhetorical Textbooks at the Bolognese University in the Fourteenth Century." *Medievalia et Humanistica, NS* 5: 153-68.

Banti, O. (1963). "Studi sulla genesi dei testi cronistici pisani del secolo XIV." *Bollettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 75: 259-319.

Bargagli-Petrucci, F. (1906). *Le fonti di Siena e i loro acquedotti.* Reprinted 1974. 2 vols. Siena, Periccioli.

Baron, H. (1955). *The Crisis of the Early Italian Renaissance: Civic Humanism and Republican Liberty in an Age of Classicism and Tyranny.* Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

--- (1988). *In Search of Florentine Civic Humanism: Essays on the Transition from Medieval to Modern Thought.* 2 vols. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Bartoli Langeli, A. (1983). *Codice diplomatico del comune di Perugia: periodo consolare e podestarile (1139-1254).* 3 vols. Perugia, Deputazione di storia patria per l'Umbria.

Bartoli Langeli, A., and L. Zurli (1996). *L'iscrizione in versi della Fontana Maggiore di Perugia (1278).* Rome, Herder.

Bartolomeo da San Concordio (1725). *De origine civitatis Pisanae: Breviarium Pisanae historiae.* In *Rerum italicarum scriptores,* vol. 6, ed. L. Muratori. Milan, Societas Palatina in Regia Curia. cc. 163-5.

--- (1843). *Il Catilinario e il Giugurtino, libri due di C. Crispo Sallustio, volgarizzati per frate Bartolomeo da S. Concordio.* 2nd ed. Naples, All'insegna del Diogene.

--- (1857). *Ammaestramenti degli antichi, raccolti e volgarizzati per fra Bartolomeo da San Concordio.* Ed. V. Nannucci. Florence, Fraticelli.

Bascapè, G. C. (1953). "I sigilli dei comuni italiani nel medio evo e nell'età moderna." In *Studi di paleografia, diplomatica, storia e araldica in onore di Cesare Manaresi.* Milan, Giuffrè. 59-123.

Bate, A. K. (1986). *Excidium Troie.* Munich, Lang.

Battaglia, S. (1929). *Il Boezio e l'Arrighetto nelle versioni del trecento.* Turin, UTET.

Baxandall, M. (1988). *Painting and Experience in Fifteenth-Century Italy.* 2nd ed. Oxford, Oxford University Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Beaune, C. (1991). *The Birth of an Ideology: Myths and Symbols of Nation in Late-Medieval France.* 1985 (*Naissance de la nation France*). Trans. F. L. Cheyette. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Becker, M. B. (1967). *Florence in Transition.* 2 vols. Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press.

Belgrano, L., and C. Imperiale di Sant'Angelo, eds. (1890-1929). *Annali genovesi di Caffaro e de' suoi continuatori. Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 11-14 bis. 5 vols. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

Bellomo, S. (1980). "Primi appunti sull"Ottimo commento': I. Andrea Lancia 'ottimo' commentatore trecentesco della *Commedia*; II. Il codice Palatino 313, primo abbozzo dell"Ottimo commento'." *Giornale storico della letteratura italiana* 157: 369-82 and 532-40.

Bellosi, L. (1998). *Duccio: La Maestà.* Milan, Electa.

Benes, C. E. (1999). "Cola di Rienzo and the *Lex Regia.*" *Viator* 30: 231-52.

Bénéteau, D. P. (1997). "Per un'edizione critica dei 'Fatti dei Romani'." *Italianistica: Rivista di letteratur italiana* 26(3): 401-11.

Bennett, A., and N. Royle (1999). *An Introduction to Literature, Criticism and Theory.* 2nd ed. London, Prentice Hall Europe.

Bennington, G. (2000). *Interrupting Derrida.* London, Routledge.

Benoît de Ste-Maure (1904-12). *Le Roman de Troie.* Ed. L. Constans. 6 vols. Paris, Société des Anciens Textes Français.

Benson, R. L. (1982). "Political *Renovatio*: Two Models from Roman Antiquity." In *Renaissance and Renewal in the 12th Century,* ed. R. L. Benson and G. Constable. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

--- (1985). "'Libertas' in Italy (1152-1226)." In *La notion de liberté au Moyen Age: Islam, Byzance, Occident; Penn-Paris-Dumbarton Oaks Colloquia 4, Session des 12-5 octobre 1982,* ed. G. Makdisi, D. Sourdel, et al. Paris, Les Belles Lettres. 191-213.

Benton, T. (1995). "The Design of Siena and Florence Duomos." In *Siena, Florence, and Padua: Art, Society, and Religion 1280-1400,* vol. 2, ed. D. Norman. New Haven, Yale University Press, with the Open University. 129-43.

Benzo d'Alessandria (1890). "Bentii Alexandrini de Mediolano civitate opusculum." *Bollettino dell' Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 9: 15-36.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Benzo d'Alessandria (1967). *Chronicon*, chapters 136-67. In "Benzo d'Alessandria and the Cities of Northern Italy", ed. Berrigan. *Studies in Medieval and Renaissance History 4*: 125-92.

Bernabò di Negro, G. F. (1983). *L'araldica a Genova: Origini e significati di une realtà storica e sociale*. Genoa, Liguria.

Berrigan, J. R. (1967). "Benzo d'Alessandria and the Cities of Northern Italy." *Studies in Medieval and Renaissance History* 4: 125-92.

Bertazzo, L. (1997). *"Vite" e vita di Antonio di Padova: Atti del convegno internazionale sulla agiografia antoniana, Padova, 29 maggio-1 giugno 1995*. Padua, Centro studi antoniani.

Bertelli, S. (1978). *Il potere oligarchico nello stato-città medievale*. Florence, La nuova Italia.

Bertini Guidetti, S. (1997a). "Contrastare la crisi della chiesa cattedrale: Iacopo da Varagine e la construzione di un'ideologia propagandistica." In *Le vie del Mediterraneo: idee, uomini, oggetti, secoli XI-XVI, Genova, 19-20 aprile 1994*, ed. G. Airaldi. Genoa, ECIG. 155-81.

--- (1997b). "Iacopo da Varagine e le *Ystorie antique*: quando il mito diventa *exemplum* della storia." In *Posthomerica I: tradizioni omeriche dall'Antichità al Rinascimento*, ed. F. Montanari and S. Pittaluga. Genoa, Dipartimento di archeologia filologia classica e loro tradizioni, Università di Genova. 1-19.

--- (1998). *Potere e propaganda a Genova nel Duecento*. Genoa, ECIG.

---, ed. (2001). *Il paradiso e la terra: Iacopo da Varazze e il suo tempo; Atti del convegno internazionale, Varazze, 24-26 settembre 1998. Millennio medievale*, vol. 25. Florence, SISMEL edizioni del Galluzzo.

Bertini, S. (1994). "Il mito di Genova in Iacopo da Varagine tra storia e satira." *Studi umanistici piceni* 14: 63-9.

Berto, L. A. (2001). *Il vocabolario politico e sociale della "Istoria Veneticorum" di Giovanni Diacono*. Padua, Il poligrafo.

Beschorner, A. (1992). *Untersuchungen zu Dares Phrygius*. Tübingen, G. Narr.

Betti, S. (1820). *Osservazioni intorno l'opera d'Armannino giudice bolognese intitolata La fiorita*. Rome, Salviucci.

Biagi, G. (1915). *Lo Zibaldone Boccaccesco: Mediceo Laurenziano Plut. XXXI-8*. Florence, Olschki.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Billanovich, Giuseppe (1953). *I primi umanisti e le tradizioni dei classici latini.* Fribourg, Switzerland, Edizioni Universitarie.

--- (1959). "Dal Livio di Raterio (Laur. 63,19) al Livio del Petrarca (BM Harl. 2493)." *Italia medievale e umanistica* 2: 103-78.

Billanovich, Guido (1958). "*Veterum vestigia vatum* nei carmi dei preumanisti padovani." *Italia medioevale e umanistica* 1: 155-243.

--- (1976). "Il preumanesimo padovano." In *Storia della cultura veneta 2: Il trecento*, ed. G. Folena. Vicenza, Neri Pozza. 19-110.

Billanovich, M. P. (1969). "Una miniera di epigrafi e di antichità: Il chiostro maggiore di S. Giustina di Padova." *Italia medioevale e umanistica* 12: 197-293.

Black, A. (1992). *Political Thought in Europe, 1250-1450.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Black, R. (2001). *Humanism and Education in Medieval and Renaissance Italy: Tradition and Innovation in Latin Schools from the Twelfth to the Fifteenth Century.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Blanshei, S. R. (1976). *Perugia, 1260-1340: Conflict and Change in a Medieval Italian Urban Society. Transactions of the American Philosophical Society, New Series,* vol. 66, part 2. Philadelphia, The American Philosophical Society.

--- (1979). "Population, Wealth, and Patronage in Medieval and Renaissance Perugia." *Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 9(4): 597-619.

Blythe, J. M. (2000). "'Civic Humanism' and Medieval Political Thought." In *Renaissance Civic Humanism: Reappraisals and Reflections*, ed. J. Hankins. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 30-74.

Bodon, G. (1989). "L'immagine di Tito Livio a Padova nella tradizione artistica rinascimentale." *Bollettino del Museo civico di Padova* 78: 69-92.

Boje Martenson, L. (1999-2000). "The Diffusion of Roman Histories in the Middle Ages." *Filologia Mediolatina* 6-7: 101-200.

Bolisani, E. (1953-4). "Un importante saggio padovano di poesia preumanistica latina." *Atti e memorie dell'Accademia patavina di scienze, lettere ed arti* 66: 61-77.

Bolton Holloway, J. (1986). *Brunetto Latini: An Analytic Bibliography.* London, Grant and Cutler.

--- (1993). *Twice-Told Tales: Brunetto Latini and Dante Alighieri.* New York, P. Lang.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Bonaini, F., A. Fabretti, et al. (1850a). "Cronache e storie inedite della città di Perugia da MCL al MDLXIII (1150-1563)." *Archivio storico italiano* 16: 1-750.

--- (1850b). "De rebus a Perusinis gestis." *Archivio storico italiano* 16: 1-52.

Boncompagno da Signa (1999). *L'assedio d'Ancona (Liber de obsidione Ancone).* Ed. P. Garbini. Rome, Viella.

Bonifacio da Verona, *Eulistea.* See *Manuscripts*, above.

Bono Giamboni (1815). *Di Vegezio Flavio dell'arte guerra libri IV.* Florence, Marenigh.

--- (1849). *Delle storie contra i pagani di Paolo Orosio, libri VII, volgarizzamento di Bono Giamboni.* Ed. F. Tassi. Florence, Baracchi.

Bonvesin da la Riva (1974). *De magnalibus Mediolani (Le meraviglie di Milano).* Ed. M. Corti. Trans. G. Pontiggia. 5th ed. Milan, Bompiani.

--- (1987). *Volgari scelti: Select Poems.* Ed. P. S. Diehl. New York, Peter Lang.

--- (1998). *De magnalibus Mediolani (Meraviglie di Milano).* Ed. P. Chiesa. Milan, Scheiwiller.

--- (2000). *Expositiones Catonis: saggio di ricostruzione critica.* Ed. C. Beretta. Pisa, Scuola normale superiore.

Bordone, R. (1984). *La società urbana nell'Italia comunale: Secoli XI-XIV.* Turin, Loescher.

Borlandi, F. (1963). "La formazione culturale del mercante genovese nel medioevo." *Atti della società ligure di storia patria, NS* 3(2): 221-30.

Borra, A. (2000). *Guittone d'Arezzo e le maschere del poeta: La lirica cortese tra ironia e palinodia.* Ravenna, Longo.

Borracelli, M. (2001). "Lo sviluppo economico di Grosseto e della Maremma nei secoli XII e XIII nell'ambito dell'area economica senese." In *Siena e Maremma nel Medioevo*, ed. M. Ascheri. Siena, Betti. 115-78.

Bortolami, S. (1975). "Per la storia della storiografia comunale: Il 'Chronicon de Potestatibus Paduae'." *Archivio veneto, 5th series* 105: 69-121. Abbr. CPP.

--- (1995). "Da Rolandino al Mussato: tensioni ideali e senso della storia nella storiografia padovana di tradizione 'repubblicana'." In *Il senso della storia nella cultura medievale italiana (1100-1350); Atti del XIV Convegno di studi del Centro italiano di studi di storia e arte, Pistoia, 14-17 maggio 1993.* Pistoia, Centro italiano di studi di storia e d'arte. 53-86.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Bortolotti, L. (1983). *Siena*. Rome, Laterza.

Boscolo, A. (1978). *Sardegna, Pisa e Genova nel Medioevo*. Genoa.

Bosley, R., and M. M. Tweedale (1992). *Aristotle and his Medieval Interpreters*. Calgary, University of Calgary Press.

Bowsky, W. M. (1960). *Henry VII in Italy: The Conflict of Empire and City-State, 1310-1313*. Lincoln, NB, Greenwood Press.

--- (1962). "The *Buon Governo* of Siena (1287-1355): A Medieval Italian Oligarchy." *Speculum* 37: 368-81.

--- (1964). "The Impact of the Black Death upon Sienese Government and Society." *Speculum* 39: 1-34.

--- (1969). "Medieval Citizenship: The Individual and the State in the Commune of Siena." *Studies in Medieval and Renaissance History* 4: 193-243.

--- (1970). *The Finance of the Commune of Siena, 1287-1355*. Oxford, Clarendon Press.

--- (1981). *A Medieval Italian Commune: Siena under the Nine, 1287-1355*. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Braccesi, L. (1997). *La leggenda di Antenore: Dalla Troade al Veneto*. 1984. 2nd ed. Venice, Marsiglio Editori.

Brand, H., P. Monnet, et al., eds. (2003). *Memoria, Communitas, Civitas: Mémoire et conscience urbaines en Occident à la fin du moyen age*. Ostfildern, Jan Thorbecke.

Brandi, C., ed. (1983). *Il Palazzo Pubblico di Siena: vicende costruttive e decorazione*. Milan, Silvana.

Brentano, R. (1990). *Rome before Avignon: A Social History of Thirteenth-Century Rome*. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Brezzi, P. (1947). *Roma e l'impero medievale (774-1252)*. Bologna, Licinia Cappelli.

--- (1970). *I comuni medioevali nella storia d'Italia*. Turin, ERI.

Brown, P. F. (1996). *Venice & Antiquity: the Venetian Sense of the Past*. New Haven, Yale University Press.

Brown, T. S. (1993). "History as Myth: Medieval Perceptions of Venice's Roman and Byzantine Past." In *The Making of Byzantine History: Studies Dedicated to Donald M. Nicol*, ed. M. Beaton and C. Roueché. London, Variorum. 145-57.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Brucker, G. A. (1983). *Renaissance Florence.* Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

--- (1984). *Florence: The Golden Age, 1138-1737.* Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Brugnoli, G. (1995). *Curiosissimus excerptor: Gli additamenta di Girolamo ai Chronica di Eusebio.* Pisa, ETS.

Brunetto Latini (1948). *Li livres dou Trésor.* Ed. F. J. Carmody. 2 vols. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

--- (1993). *The Book of the Treasure (Trésor).* Trans. P. Barrette and S. Baldwin. New York, Garland.

Bruni, F. (1997). "Between Oral Memory and Written Tradition in Florence at the Beginning of the XIVth Century: Coppo di Borghese Domenichi, Andrea Lancia and Giovanni Boccaccio." In *L'Histoire et les nouveaux publics dans l'Europe médiévale (XIIIe-XVe siècles): Actes du colloque international organisé par la Fondation européenne de la science à la Casa de Velasquez, Madrid, 23-24 avril 1993*, ed. J.-P. Genet. Paris, Publications de la Sorbonne. 113-25.

Buchthal, H. (1971). *Historia Troiana: Studies in the History of Medieval Secular Illumination.* London, Warburg Institute.

--- (1987). *Historia destructionis Troiae (Bib. Bodmeriana, Cologny-Genève, Codex 78).* Munich, Legenfelder.

Buonocore, M. (1993-1994). "Quattro nuovi codici vaticani con il volgarizzamento delle *Heroides* di Filippo Ceffi." *Studi umanistici* 4-5: 259-67.

Burckhardt, J. (1990). *The Civilization of the Renaissance in Italy.* 1860. London, Penguin.

Burgess, R. W., and W. Witakowski (1999). *Studies in Eusebian and Post-Eusebian Chronography.* Stuttgart, F. Steiner.

Burke, P. (1987a). *The Historical Anthropology of Early Modern Italy: Essays on Perception and Communication.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

--- (1987b). *The Italian Renaissance: Culture and Society in Italy.* 2nd ed. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

--- (1992). *The Fabrication of Louis XIV.* New Haven, Yale University Press.

--- (1997). "History as Social Memory." In *Varieties of Cultural History.* Ithaca, NY, Cornell University Press. 43-59.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Burke, P. (2001). *Eyewitnessing: The Uses of Images as Historical Evidence.* Ithaca, NY, Cornell University Press.

Bynum, C. W. (1980). "Did the Twelfth Century Discover the Individual?" *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 31(1): 1-17.

Byrne, E. H. (1930). *Genoese Shipping in the Twelfth and Thirteenth Centuries.* Reprinted 1970. Cambridge, Mediaeval Academy of America.

Cabona, D. (1991). *Palazzo San Giorgio.* Genoa, Sagep.

Caesar, M. (1995). *Dante: The Critical Heritage.* New York, Routledge.

Cairola, A., and E. Carli (1963). *Il Palazzo pubblico di Siena.* Roma, Editalia.

Cambridge Italian Dictionary (1981). Ed. B. Reynolds. 2 vols. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Cammarosano, P. (1991). *Italia medievale: Struttura e geografia delle fonti scritte.* Rome, La nuova Italia scientifica.

Campana, A. (1933). *Il "cippo riminese" di Giulio Cesare.* Rimini, Arnaud.

Canal, A. A. (1981). *Il mondo morale di Guido da Pisa interprete di Dante.* Bologna, Pàtron.

--- (1997). "Venti anni di studi e dibattiti su Guido di Pisa." *Studi medievali* 38: 931-44.

Caputo, G. (1961). "La tradizione etrusca del grifo e l'emblema di Perugia." *Studi Etruschi* 29: 417-22.

Cardini, F., and C. M. Cipolla (1987). *Banchieri e mercanti di Siena.* Rome, De Luca.

Carile, A. (1970). "Aspetti della cronachistica veneziana nei secoli XIII e XIV." In *La storiografia veneziana fino al secolo XVI,* ed. A. Pertusi. Florence, Olschki. 80, 91-2.

--- (1987). "Il problema delle origini di Venezia." In *Le origini delle chiesa di Venezia,* ed. F. Tonon. Venice, Edizioni studium cattolico veneziano. 77-100.

Carile, A., and G. Fedalto (1978). *Le origini di Venezia.* Bologna, Pàtron.

Carli, E. (1977). *Giovanni Pisano.* Pisa, Pacini.

--- (1979). *Il Duomo di Siena.* Genoa, Sagep.

--- (1993). *Arnolfo.* Florence, EDAM.

Carmen in victoriam Pisanorum (1969). Ed. P. Loi. Pisa, Giardini.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Caro, G. (1967). *Genua und die Mächte am Mittelmeer: 1257-1311; Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte des 13. Jahrhunderts.* 1895-99. 2 vols. Aalen, Scientia-Verlag.

Carruthers, M. (1990). *The Book of Memory: A Study of Memory in Medieval Culture.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Carruthers, M., and J. M. Ziolkowski, eds. (2002). *The Medieval Craft of Memory: An Anthology of Texts and Pictures.* Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press.

Casella, M. T. (1982). *Tra Boccaccio e Petrarca: I volgarizzamenti di Tito Livio e di Valerio Massimo. Studi sul Petrarca,* vol. 14. Padua, Editrice Antenore.

Cavallari, E. (1921). *La fortuna di Dante nel trecento.* Florence, Società anonima editrice F. Perrella.

Cavallucci, F. (1993). *La Fontana Maggiore di Perugia: Voci e suggestioni di una comunità medievale.* Perugia, Quattroemme.

Cellerino, F. (1988). "Genova e il grifone." *Studi Genuensi, NS* 6: 109-13.

Ceppari Ridolfi, M. A., M. Ciampolini, et al. (2001). *L'immagine del Palio: Storia, cultura e rappresentazione del rito di Siena.* Siena, Banca Monte dei Paschi di Siena.

Cessi, R., ed. (1933). *Origo civitatum Italie seu Veneziarum (Chronicon Altinate et Chronicon Gradense). Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 73. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

Chabaille, F. A. P. (1878). *Il tesoro di Brunetto Latini volgarizzato da Bono Giamboni.* Bologna, Romagnoli.

Chase, R. (1996). "History and Poststructuralism: Hayden White and Fredric Jameson." In *The Expansion of England: Race, Ethnicity, and Cultural History,* ed. B. Schwartz. London, Routledge.

Chazelle, C. M. (1990). "Pictures, Books, and the Illiterate: Pope Gregory I's Letters to Serenus of Marseilles." *Word and Image* 6(2): 138-53.

Cherubini, G. (1974). *Signori, contadini, borghesi: Ricerche sulla società italiana del basso Medioevo.* Florence, La nuova Italia.

Chiàntera, R. (1956). *Guido delle Colonne.* Naples, Federico & Ardia.

Chiappelli, L. (1926). "La formazione storica del comune cittadino in Italia." *Archivio storico italiano, 7th series* 6: 3-59.

--- (1978). *Vita e opere giuridiche di Cino da Pistoia.* 1881. Bologna, Forni.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Chiappini, L. (1967). *Gli Estensi.* Milan, Dall'Oglio.

Chronica de civitate Ravennae (1725). In *Rerum italicarum scriptores*, vol. 1.2, ed. L. Muratori. Milan, Societas Palatina in Regia Curia. cc. 574-9.

Chronica de origine civitatis (1875-80). In *Quellen und Forschungen zur ältesten Geschichte der Stadt Florenz*, vol. 1, ed. O. Hartwig. Marburg, N. G. Elwert. 35-69.

Ciampoli, D., and T. Szabò (1992). *Viabilità e legislazione di uno stato cittadino del Duecento: Lo statuto dei viarii di Siena.* Siena, Accademia senese degli Intronati.

Ciampolo di Meo degli Ugurgieri (1858). *L'Eneide di Virgilio volgarizzata nel buon secolo della lingua.* Ed. A. Gotti. Florence, Le Monnier.

Cicero (1913). *De officiis.* Reprinted 1975. Ed. W. Miller. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

CIL=*Corpus inscriptionum Latinarum* (1862-). 17 vols. Berlin, Akademie der Wissenschaften.

Cimegotto, C. (1936-7). "La figura di Antenore nella vita, nella leggenda, e nell'arte." *Accademia patavina di scienze, lettere, ed arti: Atti e memorie* 53: 20-43.

Cino da Pistoia (1948). *Rime.* Ed. A. Tallone. Paris, Mansart.

--- (1998). *Lectura super Codice.* 1578. Ed. G. Polara. 2 vols. Rome, Istituto giuridico Bartolo da Sassoferrato: Il Cigno Galileo Galilei.

CLA=*Codices latini antiquiores.* See Lowe (1934-72).

Clanchy, M. T. (1993). *From Memory to Written Record: England 1066-1307.* 2nd ed. Oxford, Blackwell.

Clarence Smith, J. A. (1975). *Medieval Law Teachers and Writers: Civilian and Canonist.* Ottawa, University of Ottawa Press.

Cobley, P. (2001). *The Routledge Companion to Semiotics and Linguistics.* London, Routledge.

Coletti, L. (1935). *Treviso: Catalogo delle cose d'arte e di antichità d'Italia.* Bergamo, Libreria dello stato.

Collins, A. (2002). *Greater than Emperor: Cola di Rienzo (ca. 1313-54) and the World of Fourteenth-Century Rome.* Ann Arbor, University of Michigan Press.

Collodo, S. (1990). *Una società in trasformazione: Padova tra XI e XV secolo.* Padua, Antenore.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Comparetti, D. (1997). *Vergil in the Middle Ages.* 1885. Ed. J. Ziolkowski. Trans. E. F. M. Benecke. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Comune di Perugia (1999). *Palazzo dei Priori a Perugia: Un itinerario nella storia del comune. Interactive CD-ROM.* Brescia, OLTRE Multimedia.

Condren, C. (1975). "On Interpreting Marsilius of Padua's Use of St. Augustine." *Augustiniana* 25: 217-22.

Connerton, P. (1989). *How Societies Remember.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Costamagna, G. (1970). *Il notaio a Genova tra prestigio e potere.* Rome, Consiglio nazionale del notariato.

Cowdrey, H. E. J. (1977). "The Mahdia Campaign of 1087." *English Historical Review* 92(1977): 1-29.

CPP=*Chronicon de potestatibus Padue.* See Bortolami (1975).

Cracco, G. (1967). *Società e stato nel medioevo veneziano (secoli XII-XIV). Civiltà veneziana, Studi,* vol. 22. Florence, Olschki.

Cremaschi, G. (1945). *Mosè del Brolo e la cultura a Bergamo nei secoli XI-XII.* Bergamo, Società editrice S. Alessandro.

--- (1954). *Nuovo contributo alla biografia di Mosè del Brolo.* n. p.

Croizy-Naquet, C. (1999). *Ecrire l'histoire romane au début du XIIIe siécle: L'histoire ancienne jusqu'à César et Les faits des Romains.* Paris, Champion.

D'Ancona, A. (1891). *Studi sulla letteratura italiana de' primi secoli.* 2nd ed. Milan, Fratelli Treves.

Dante Alighieri (1970). *The Divine Comedy.* Ed. C. S. Singleton. 6 vols. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

--- (1996). *De vulgari eloquentia.* Ed. S. Botterill. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

"Dartmouth Dante Project." (2004). Website as of May 20, 2004: maintained by Dartmouth College and directed by Robert Hollander. http://dciswww.dartmouth.edu:50080/v3?db=7&conn=438263339&page=d

Davis, C. T. (1957). *Dante and the Idea of Rome.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

--- (1959). "Remigio de' Girolami's *De bono pacis.*" *Studi danteschi* 36: 123-36.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

--- (1960). "An Early Florentine Political Theorist: Fra Remigio de' Girolami." *Proceedings of the American Philosophical Society* 104: 662-76. Reprinted in Davis (1984), 198-223.

--- (1965). "Education in Dante's Florence." *Speculum* 40: 415-35. Reprinted in Davis (1984), 137-65.

--- (1969). "Il Buon Tempo Antico." In *Florentine Studies*, ed. N. Rubinstein. London, Faber & Faber. 45-69. Reprinted in Davis (1984), 71-93.

--- (1974). "Ptolemy of Lucca and the Roman Republic." *Proceedings of the American Philosophical Society* 118(1): 31-50. Reprinted in Davis (1984), 254-89.

--- (1975). "Roman Patriotism and Republican Propaganda: Ptolemy of Lucca and Pope Nicholas III." *Speculum* 50: 411-33. Reprinted in Davis (1984), 224-53.

--- (1984a). *Dante's Italy and Other Essays.* Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press.

--- (1984b). "Recent Work on the Malispini Question." In *Dante's Italy and Other Essays.* Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press. 290-99.

Davis, N. Z. (2000). *The Gift in Sixteenth-Century France.* Madison, University of Wisconsin Press.

Day, G. W. (1988). *Genoa's Response to Byzantium, 1155-1204: Commercial Expansion and Factionalism in a Medieval City.* Urbana, University of Illinois Press.

Dazzi, M. T. (1964). *Il Mussato preumanista (1261-1329): L'ambiente e l'opera.* Vicenza, Neri Pozza.

DBI=*Dizionario biografico degli Italiani* (1960-). Ed. A. M. Ghisalberti. Rome, Istituto della Enciclopedia italiana.

De Hamel, C. (1984). *Glossed Books of the Bible and the Origins of the Paris Booktrade.* Woodbridge, UK, D.S. Brewer.

--- (2000). *The Parker Library: Treasures from the Collection at Corpus Christi College, Cambridge, England.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

De laude civitatis Laude (1962). Ed. A. Caretta. Lodi, Biancardi.

De Matteis, M. C. (1965-7). "Il *De bono commune* di Remigio de' Girolami." *Annali dell'Università di Lecce* 3: 13-86.

--- (1977). *La "Teologia politica comunale" di Remigio de' Girolami.* Bologna, Pàtron.

De Negri, T. O. (1986). *Storia di Genova.* Florence, Martello.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

De Nino, A. (1970). "Ovidio nella tradizione popolare di Sulmona." In *Tradizioni popolari abruzzesi,* ed. B. Mosca. L'Aquila, Japadre. 9-54.

De Nolhac, P. (1907). *Petrarch and the Ancient World.* 1892 (*Pétrarque et l'humanisme*). Trans. D. B. Updike. Boston, Merrymount Press.

De Ridder-Symoens, H. (1992). *Universities in the Middle Ages.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

De Robertis, F. M. (1998). *Federico II di Svevia nel mito e nella realtà.* Bari, Editrice Tipografica.

De Wesselow, T. (2000). "The Decoration of the West Wall of the Sala del Mappamondo in Siena's Palazzo Pubblico." In *Art, Politics, and Civic Religion in Central Italy, 1261-1352,* ed. J. Cannon and B. Williamson. Aldershot, UK, Ashgate. 19-70.

Dean, R. J. (1948). "Cultural Relations in the Middle Ages: Nicholas Trevet and Nicholas of Prato." *Studies in Philology* 45: 541-64.

Dean, T. (1988). *Land and Power in Late Medieval Ferrara: The Rule of the Este, 1350-1450.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

---, ed. (2000). *The Towns of Italy in the Later Middle Ages.* Manchester, Manchester University Press.

Di Benedetto, L. (1944). *Rimatori del dolce stil novo.* Turin, UTET.

Di Carpegna Falconieri, T. (2002). *Cola di Rienzo.* Rome, Salerno.

Di Fabio, C. (1979). "Il 'mito delle origini' e il nome di Genova nel medioevo." *Bollettino Ligustico* 31: 37-44.

Di Fabio, C., and R. Besta (1998). *La cattedrale di Genova nel medioevo: secoli VI-XIV.* Genoa, Banca CARIGE.

Dimmick, J. (2002). "Ovid in the Middle Ages: Authority and Poetry." In *The Cambridge Companion to Ovid,* ed. P. Hardie. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 264-87.

Dino Compagni (1986). *Dino Compagni's Chronicle of Florence.* Ed. D. E. Bornstein. Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press.

--- (2000). *Cronica.* Ed. D. Cappi. *Fonti per la storia dell'Italia medievale: Rerum italicarum scriptores,* vol. 1. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Donato, M. M. (1988). "Un ciclo pittorico ad Asciano (Siena): Palazzo pubblico e l'iconografia 'politica' alla fine del medioevo." *Annali della Scuola Normale Superiore di Pisa, 3rd series* 18(3): 1105-271.

--- (2001). "Ancora sulle 'Fonti' nel *Buon Governo* di Ambrogio Lorenzetti: dubbi, precisazioni, anticipazioni." In *Politica e cultura nelle repubbliche italiane dal medioevo all'età moderna*, ed. S. A. Braccesi and M. Ascheri. Rome, Istituto storico per l'età moderna e contemporanea. 43-79.

Dotson, J. E. (1994). *Merchant Culture in Fourteenth-Century Venice: the Zibaldone da Canal.* Binghamton, NY, Medieval & Renaissance Texts & Studies.

Dotti, U. (1987). *Vita di Petrarca.* Rome, Laterza.

Douglas, L. (1902). *A History of Siena.* London, John Murray.

Doyle, Sir A. C. (1986). *A Study in Scarlet.* In *Sherlock Holmes: The Complete Novels and Stories*, vol. 1. New York, Bantam Classic. 1-103.

Dozzini, B. (1994). *La Fontana Maggiore di Perugia.* Assisi, Minerva.

Du Cange, C. D. F. (1954). *Glossarium mediae et infimae latinitatis.* Eds. P. Carpenter, C. Adelung, et al. Graz, Akademische Druck-U. Verlagsanstalt.

Dufour Bozzo, C. (1967). *Sarcofagi romani a Genova.* Genoa, Pagano.

--- (1988). *La porta urbana nel medioevo: Porta Soprana di Sant'Andrea di Genova, immagine di una città.* Rome, "L'Erma" di Bretschneider.

Duggan, L. G. (1989). "Was Art Really the 'Book of the Illiterate'?" *Word and Image* 5(3): 227-51.

Dyck, Andrew (1996). *A Commentary on Cicero, De officiis.* Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press.

Edwards, C. (1996). *Writing Rome: Textual Approaches to the City.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Eimerl, S. (1967). *The World of Giotto, c. 1267-1337.* New York, Time-Life.

Eisenhut, W., ed. (1958). *Dictys Cretensis Ephemeridos belli Troiani libri sex.* Leipzig, Teubner.

Eliade, M. (1963). *Myth and Reality.* 1963 (*Aspects du mythe*). Trans. W. R. Trask. New York, Harper and Row.

Enciclopedia dantesca (1970). Ed. U. Bosco. Rome, Istituto della Enciclopedia italiana.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

English, E. D. (1984). "Urban Castles in Medieval Siena: The Sources and Images of Power." In *The Medieval Castle: Romance and Reality,* ed. K. Reyerson and F. Power. Dubuque, IA, Kendall/Hunt. 175-98.

--- (1988). *Enterprise and Liability in Sienese Banking, 1230-1350.* Cambridge, Medieval Academy of America.

Epstein, S. (1996). *Genoa & the Genoese, 958-1528.* Chapel Hill, University of North Carolina Press.

Ermini, G. (1971). *Storia dell'Università di Perugia.* 2nd ed. 2 vols. Florence, Olschki.

Eulistea. See *Manuscripts,* above.

Eusebius (1923). *Chronici canones.* London, Humphrey Milford.

--- (1967). *Chronicorum libri duo.* Ed. A. Schoene. 2nd ed. Berlin, Weidmann.

Eutropius (1979). *Breviarium ab urbe condita.* Ed. C. Santini. Leipzig, Teubner.

Excidium Troiae (1944). Eds. E. B. Atwood and V. K. Whitaker. *Medieval Academy Publications,* vol. 44. Cambridge, Medieval Academy of America.

Fabretti, A., ed. (1850). "Brevi annali della città di Perugia dal anno 1194 sino al 1352." *Archivio storico italiano* 16(1): 53-68.

Fabris, G. (1932). "La tomba di Antenore." *Padova: Rivista del Comune* 6(7): 13-26.

--- (1932-9). "La cronaca di Giovanni da Nono." *Bollettino del Museo civico di Padova, NS* 8 (1932): 1-33; 9 (1933): 167-200; 10-11 (1934-9): 1-30.

--- (1937). "Le demolizioni di S. Lorenzo e la tomba di Antenore." *Padova: Rivista del Comune* 10(9): 1-14.

--- (1977). *Cronache e cronisti padovani.* Padua, Cittadella.

Fanfani, P., ed. (1851). *Compilazione della Eneide di Virgilio fatta volgare in sul principio del secolo XIV da Ser Andrea Lancia, notaro fiorentino. L'Etruria,* vol. 1. Florence, Stamperia sulle logge del grano.

Fantelli, P. L., and F. Pellegrini, eds. (2000). *Il Palazzo della Ragione in Padova.* Padua, Editoriale Programma.

Fasola, G. N. (1941). *Nicola Pisano.* Rome, Fratelli Palombi.

--- (1951). *La Fontana di Perugia.* Rome, Libreria dello Stato.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Fasoli, G. (1961). *Dalla 'civitas' al comune nell'Italia settentrionale: Lezioni tenute alla Facoltà di magistero della Università di Bologna nell'anno accademico 1960-61.* Bologna, Pàtron.

Federico II e l'antico: Esempi dal territorio (1997). Foggia, Comune di Foggia.

Fentress, J., and C. Wickham (1992). *Social Memory.* Oxford, Blackwell.

Feo, M. (1990). "The 'Pagan Beyond' of Albertino Mussato." In *Latin Poetry and the Classical Tradition: Essays in Medieval and Renaissance Literature,* ed. P. Godman and O. Murray. Oxford, Clarendon Press. 115-47.

Ferrai, L. A. (1889). "Benzo d'Alessandria e i cronisti milanesi del secolo XIV." *Bollettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 7: 97-137.

--- (1891). "Le cronache di Galvano Fiamma e le fonti della *Galvagnana.*" *Bollettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 10: 93-128.

Ferrando Cabona, I., and A. Lagomaggiore (1998). *Palazzo San Giorgio: Pietre, uomini, potere (1260-1613).* Milan, Silvana.

Ferreto Ferreti (1920). *De Scaligerorum origine.* Ed. C. Cipolla. *Opere di Ferreto Ferreti, vol. 3. Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 43 bis. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

Ferretti, M. (2001). *Fonte Gaia di Jacopo della Quercia.* Siena, Protagon Editori Toscani for Santa Maria della Scala.

Filippo Ceffi (1825). *Le Dicerie di ser Filippo Ceffi notaio fiorentino.* Ed. L. Biondi. Turin, Chirio e Mina.

Fischer, M., and W. Pedrotti (1997). *Le città italiane nel medioevo.* Colognola ai Colli, Demetra.

Fisher, C. B. (1966). "The Pisan Clergy and an Awakening of Historical Interest in a Medieval Commune." *Studies in Medieval and Renaissance History* 3: 144-219.

Fiumi, E. (1956). "Sui rapporti economici tra città e contado nell'età comunale." *Archivio storico italiano* 114(1): 18-68.

Florentie urbis et reipublice descriptio (1885). In *Die Loggia dei Lanzi,* ed. C. Frey. Berlin, Wilhelm Hertz. 199-223.

Flutre, L., and K. S. de Vogel (1938). *Li Faits des Romains.* 2 vols. Paris-Groningue, Droz.

Folena, G., ed. (1976). *Storia della cultura veneta 2: Il trecento.* 5 vols. Vicenza, Neri Pozza.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Foster, K. (1984). *Petrarch: Poet and Humanist.* [Edinburgh], Edinburgh University Press.

Francesco di Andrea (1969). "Croniche di Viterbo." In *Fontes rerum germanicarum,* vol. 4, ed. F. Boehmer. Aalen, Scientia Verlag. 686-722.

Frazer, R. M., ed. (1966). *The Trojan War: The Chronicles of Dictys of Crete and Dares the Phrygian.* Bloomington, Indiana University Press.

Frugoni, A. (1950). "Sulla Renovatio Senatus del 1143 e l'*Ordo equestris.*" *Bollettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 62: 159-74.

Frugoni, C. (1991). *A Distant City: Images of Urban Experience in the Medieval World.* 1983. Trans. W. McCuaig. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Frugoni, C., M. M. Donato, et al. (2002). *Pietro and Ambrogio Lorenzetti.* Milan, Le Lettere.

Fusai, L. (1987). *La storia di Siena dalle origini al 1559.* Siena, Grafica Pistolesi.

Fusero, C. (1973). *I Doria.* Milan, Dall'Oglio.

Gagliardi, A. (2001). *Cino da Pistoia: Le poetiche dell'anima.* Alessandria, Edizioni dell'Orso.

Galletti, A. I. (1970). "Considerazioni per una interpretazione dell'*Eulistea.*" *Archivio storico italiano* 128: 305-34.

--- (1979-80). "Sant'Ercolano, il grifo, e le lasche: Note sull'immaginario collettivo nella città comunale." In *Forme e tecniche del potere nella città (sec. XIV-XVII).* Perugia, Facoltà delle scienze politiche (Università di Perugia). 203-16.

--- (1985). "Materiali per una storia del mito di fondazione di Perugia." In *Renaissance Studies in honour of Craig Hugh Smyth,* ed. A. Marrogh. Florence, Giunti Barbèra. 75-87.

--- (1988). "Le scritture della memoria storica: Esperienze perugine." In *Cultura e società nell'Italia medievale: Studi per Paolo Brezzi,* vol. 1. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo. 367-92.

Galvano Fiamma (1727). *Chronica Mediolani, seu Manipulus florum.* In *Rerum Italicarum scriptores,* vol. 11, ed. L. Muratori. Milan, Societas Palatina in Regia Curia. cc. 537-740.

Gamba, B. (1831). *Diceria bibliografica intorno ai volgarizzamenti italiani delle opere di Virgilio.* Verona, Ramanzini.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Garbini, P. (1999). "I *Mirabilia urbis Romae* di Boncompagno da Signa." *Studi romani* 47: 13-24.

Gasparotto, C. (1979). "Alla origine del mito della tomba di Antenore." In *Medioevo e Rinascimento veneto, con altri studi in onore di Lino Lazzarini.* Padua, Editrice Antenore. 3-12.

Gauvard, C. (1996). *La France au moyen âge du Ve au XVe siècle.* Paris, Presses universitaires de France.

Geanakoplos, D. J. (1973). *Emperor Michael Palaeologus and the West, 1258-1282: A Study in Byzantine-Latin Relations.* 1959. Hamden, CT, Archon.

Geary, P. J. (2002). *The Myth of Nations: The Medieval Origins of Europe.* Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Gehl, P. F. (1993). *A Moral Art: Grammar, Society, and Culture in Trecento Florence.* Ithaca, NY, Cornell University Press.

Gellner, E. (1983). *Nations and Nationalism.* Oxford, Blackwell.

--- (1997). *Nationalism.* London, Weidenfeld & Nicolson.

Ghisalberti, F. (1946). "Medieval Biographies of Ovid." *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 9: 10-59.

Giani, G. (1913). *Ser Convenevole da Prato, maestro del Petrarca.* 2nd ed. Prato, Giachetti.

Giansante, M. (1998). *Retorica e politica nel Duecento: i notai bolognesi e l'ideologia comunale. Nuovi studi storici 48.* Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Gigli, G. (1723). *Diario sanese.* Reprinted 1974. Siena, Quinza.

Giorgetti, V. (1993). *Podestà, capitani del popolo e loro ufficiali a Perugia: 1195-1500.* Spoleto, Centro italiano di studi sull'alto medioevo.

Giovanni Balbi (1971). *Catholicon.* 1460. Westmead, UK, Gregg International.

Giovanni da Cermenate (1889). *Historia Ioannis de Cermenate, notarii mediolanensis.* Ed. L. A. Ferrai. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 2. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Giovanni Villani (1906). *Villani's Chronicle: Being Selections from the First Nine Books of the Croniche Fiorentine of Giovanni Villani.* Eds. R. E. Selfe and P. H. Wicksteed. 2nd ed. London, A. Constable & Co.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Giovanni Villani (1990). *Nuova cronica.* Ed. G. Porta. 3 vols. Parma, Fondazione Pietro Bembo/Guanda.

Girardi, G. (1909). *Rolando da Piazzola.* Padua, Fratelli Drucker.

Glasfurd, A. L. (1962). *Siena and the Hill Towns.* London, Benn.

Gloria, A., ed. (1873). *Statuti del Comune di Padova, dal secolo XII all'anno 1285.* Padua, F. Sacchetto.

--- (1884). *Monumenti della Università di Padova 1222-1318.* Venice, R. Istituto Veneto di scienze, lettere, ed arti.

Gnudi, C. (1959). *Giotto.* Milan, A. Martello.

Golinelli, P. (1995). "L'agiografia cittadina: dall'autocoscienza all'autorappresentazione (sec. IX-XII; Italia settentrionale)." In *Il senso della storia nella cultura medievale italiana (1100-1350); Atti del XIV Convegno di studi del Centro italiano di studi di storia e arte, Pistoia, 14-17 maggio 1993.* Pistoia, Centro italiano di studi di storia e d'arte. 253-74.

Gorni, Y. (1994). *The State of Israel in Jewish Public Thought: The Quest for Collective Identity.* New York, New York University Press.

Gorra, E. (1887). *Testi inediti di storia troiana.* Turin, Triverio.

Graf, A. (1923). *Roma nella memoria e nelle immaginazioni del medio evo, con un'appendice sulla leggenda di Gog e Magog.* 1882-3. Turin, Giovanni Chiantore.

Grande dizionario della lingua italiana (1973). Ed. S. Battaglia. Turin, UTET.

Green, L. (1972). *Chronicle into History: An Essay on the Interpretation of History in Florentine Fourteenth-Century Chronicles.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Greenhalgh, M. (1989). *The Survival of Roman Antiquities in the Middle Ages.* London, Duckworth.

Gregorovius, F. (1894). *History of the City of Rome in the Middle Ages.* Trans. A. Hamilton. London, G. Bell & Sons.

Grendler, P. F. (1989). *Schooling in Renaissance Italy: Literacy and Learning, 1300-1600.* Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press.

Griffin, N. E. (1907). *Dares and Dictys: An Introduction to the Study of Medieval Versions of the Story of Troy.* Baltimore, J. H. Furst.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Griffin, N. E. (1907-8). "Unhomeric Elements in the Medieval Story of Troy." *The Journal of English and Germanic Philology* 7: 32-52.

Grohmann, A. (1981a). *Città e territorio tra Medioevo ed età moderna: Perugia, secoli XIII-XVI.* 3 vols. Perugia, Volumnia Editrice.

--- (1981b). *Perugia. Grandi opere: Le città nella storia d'Italia.* Rome-Bari, Editoria Laterza.

--- (1996). "La Fontana Maggiore: sintesi dei fermenti economici e sociali della città a metà del Duecento." In *Il linguaggio figurativo della Fontana Maggiore di Perugia,* ed. C. Santini. Perugia, Calzetti-Mariucci. 49-60.

Grossi Bianchi, L., and E. Poleggi (1979). *Una città portuale del Medioevo: Genova nei secoli X-XVI.* Genoa, Sagep.

Grounds for Remembering: Monuments, Memorials, Texts (1995). Berkeley, Doreen B. Townsend Center for the Humanities.

Grundman, J. P. (1992). *The Popolo at Perugia, 1139-1309. Fonti per la storia dell'Umbria,* vol. 20. Perugia, Deputazione di storia patria per l'Umbria.

Guglielmo da Pastrengo (1991). *De viris illustribus et de originis.* Ed. G. Bottari. Padua, Editrice Antenore.

Guida-inventario dell'Archivio di stato di Siena (1951). 2 vols. Rome, Ministero dell'interno-Archivio di stato.

Guide to the Basilica of St. Anthony of Padua (1956). Padua, St. Anthony of Padua's Messenger.

Guido da Pisa (1834). *I fatti di Enea, estratti dalla Eneide di Virgilio e ridotti in volgare da Frate Guido da Pisa, carmelitano del secolo XIV.* Eds. B. Gamba and B. Puoti. Naples, del Fibreno.

--- (1957). *I Fatti d'Enea di Frate Guido da Pisa.* Ed. F. Fòffano. Florence, Sansoni.

Guido delle Colonne (1936). *Historia destructionis Troiae.* Ed. N. E. Griffin. Cambridge, Medieval Academy of America.

--- (1954). *Le rime di Guido delle Colonne.* Ed. G. Contini. Florence, Sansoni.

Guidoni, E. (1971). *Il Campo di Siena.* 1966. *Biblioteca di storia della cultura urbana: Saggi,* vol. 1. Rome, Multigrafica.

Guidoni, E., and P. Maccari (2000). *Siena e i centri senesi sulla via Francigena.* Florence, Giunta regionale.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Guidotto da Bologna (1994). *Fiore di rettorica.* Ed. G. Speroni. Pavia, Università di Pavia.

Gurrieri, O. (1973). *La Fontana Maggiore e le altre fontane in Perugia: una guida illustrata.* Perugia, Grafica.

Hale, J. R. (1973). *Renaissance Venice.* London, Faber & Faber.

Hammer, W. (1944). "The Concept of the New or Second Rome in the Middle Ages." *Speculum* 19: 50-62.

Hanawalt, B., and K. Reyerson, eds. (1994). *City and Spectacle in Medieval Europe.* Minneapolis, University of Minnesota Press.

Hankey, A. T. (1996). *Riccobaldo of Ferrara: His Life, Works, and Influence. Fonti per la storia d'Italia, Subsidia,* vol. 2. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Hankey, T. (1958). "Riccobaldo of Ferrara, Boccaccio and Domenico di Bandino." *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 21: 208-26.

Hankins, J., ed. (2000). *Renaissance Civic Humanism: Reappraisals and Reflections.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Hanson, A. C. (1965). *Jacopo della Quercia's Fonte Gaia.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Haskins, C. H. (1920). "Moses of Bergamo." *Byzantinische Zeitschrift* 23: 133-42.

Hattendorf, J. B., and R. W. Unger (2003). *War at Sea in the Middle Ages and the Renaissance.* Rochester, NY, Boydell Press.

Hen, Y., and M. Innes (2000). *The Uses of the Past in the Early Middle Ages.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Henkel, N. (1995). "Vergils 'Aeneis' und die mittelalterlichen Eneas-Romane." In *The Classical Tradition in the Middle Ages and the Renaissance; Proceedings of the First European Science Foundation Workshop on "The Reception of Classical Texts", Florence, Certosa del Galluzzo, 26-7 June 1992,* ed. C. Leonardi and B. Munk Olsen. Spoleto, Centro italiano di studi sull'alto Medioevo. 123-42.

Hersey, G. L. (1973). *The Aragonese Arch at Naples, 1433-1475.* New Haven, Yale University Press.

Historia Tudertine civitatis (1979). In *Le Cronache di Todi (secoli XIII-XVI),* ed. G. Italiani, C. Leonardi, et al. Florence, La nuova Italia. 66-93.

Hobsbawm, E. J. (1992). *Nations and Nationalism Since 1780: Programme, Myth, Reality.* 2nd ed. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Hoch, A. S. (1987). "The Antique Origins of an Emperor by Simone Martini." *Paragone-Arte* 443: 42-7.

Hoffmann-Curtius, K. (1968). *Das Programm der Fontana Maggiore in Perugia. Bonner Beiträge zur Kunstwissenschaft,* vol. 10. Düsseldorf, Rheinland-Verlag.

Hollander, R. (1983). "A Checklist of Commentators on the *Commedia* (1322-1982)." *Dante Studies* 101: 181-92.

--- (1993). "Dante and His Commentators." In *The Cambridge Companion to Dante,* ed. R. Jacoff. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 226-36.

Horace (1988). *The Odes and Epodes.* 1914. Ed. C. E. Bennett. Rev. ed. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Hortis, A. (1877). *Cenni di Giovanni Boccacci intorno a Tito Livio.* Trieste, Austro-Ungarico.

Hugh of Bologna (1961). *Rationes dictandi.* In *Briefsteller und Formelbücher des eilften bis vierzehnten Jahrhunderts,* vol. 1, ed. L. Rockinger. New York, Franklin. 49-94.

Hughes, D. (1977). "Kinsmen and Neighbors in Medieval Genoa." In *The Medieval City: Essays in Honor of Robert S. Lopez,* ed. H. Miskimin, D. Herlihy, et al. New Haven, Yale University Press. 95-111.

Hyde, J. K. (1965-6). "Medieval Descriptions of Cities." *Bulletin of the John Rylands Library* 48: 308-40. Reprinted in *Literacy and Its Uses* (Manchester, 1993), 1-32.

--- (1966). *Padua in the Age of Dante.* Manchester, Manchester University Press.

--- (1966-7). "Italian Social Chronicles of the Middle Ages." *Bulletin of the John Rylands Library* 49: 107-32. Reprinted in *Literacy and Its Uses* (Manchester, 1993), 33-57.

--- (1973). *Society and Politics in Medieval Italy: The Evolution of the Civil Life, 1000-1350.* London, Macmillan.

Il Palazzo della ragione a Padova (1992). 3 vols. Padua, Istituto poligrafico e Zecca dello Stato Libreria dello Stato.

Il senso della storia nella cultura medievale italiana (1100-1350); Atti del XIV Convegno di studi del Centro italiano di studi di storia e arte, Pistoia, 14-17 maggio 1993 (1995). Pistoia, Centro italiano di studi di storia e d'arte.

"Indigenous Peoples' Day." (2004). Website as of May 20, 2004: maintained by the city of Berkeley, CA, and the Indigenous Peoples' Day Committee. http://www.red-coral.net/Pow.html

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Isidorus (1911). *Etymologiarum sive Originum.* Ed. W. M. Lindsay. *Oxford Classical Texts,* vol. 20. 2 vols. Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Jacks, P. J. (1993). *The Antiquarian and the Myth of Antiquity: The Origins of Rome in Renaissance Thought.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Jacoff, R. (1993). *The Cambridge Companion to Dante.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Jacopo Alighieri (1990). *Chiose all'Inferno.* Ed. S. Bellomo. *Medioevo e umanesimo,* vol. 75. Padua, Antenore.

Jacopo da Varagine (1941). *Jacopo da Varagine e la sua cronaca di Genova.* Ed. G. Monleone. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 84-86. 3 vols. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

--- (1993). *The Golden Legend: Readings on the Saints.* Ed. and trans. W. G. Ryan. 2 vols. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

--- (1995). *Cronaca della città di Genova dalle origini al 1297.* Ed. and trans. S. Bertini Guidetti. Genoa, ECIG.

--- (1998). *Legenda aurea.* Ed. G. P. Maggioni. 2nd ed. 2 vols. Florence, SISMEL.

Jacopo Doria (1929). *Annali genovesi di Caffaro e de'suoi continuatori, vol. 5.* Ed. C. Imperiale di Sant'Angelo. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 14 bis. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Jaeger, M. (1997). *Livy's Written Rome.* Ann Arbor, University of Michigan Press.

Jenkyns, R. (1992). *The Legacy of Rome: A New Appraisal.* Oxford, Oxford University Press.

Jensen, F. (1986). *The Poets of the Scuola Siciliana.* New York, Garland.

John of Salisbury (1844-55). *Polycraticus* [sic]. In *Patrologia Latina,* vol. 199, ed. J.-P. Migne. Paris, Garnieri. cc. 379-822.
http://pld.chadwyck.com/

--- (1990). *Policraticus.* Ed. C. J. Nederman. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Jones, P. J. (1997). *The Italian City-State: From Commune to Signoria.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Julius Caesar (1917). *The Gallic War.* Reprinted 1994. Ed. H. J. Edwards. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Jung, M. R. (1996). *La légende de Troie en France au moyen âge: Analyse des versions françaises et bibliographie raisonnée des manuscrits.* Basel, Francke.

Justinus (1972). *Epitoma historiarum Philippicarum Pompei Trogi.* Eds. F. Rühl and O. Seel. 2nd ed. Stuttgart, Teubner.

Juvenal (1918). "Satires." In *Juvenal and Persius*, ed. G. G. Ramsay. Cambridge, Harvard University Press. 2-307. Reprinted 1979.

Kantorowicz, E. H. (1931). *Frederick the Second, 1194-1250.* Trans. E. O. Lorimer. London, Constable.

Kantorowicz, H. U., and W. W. Buckland (1969). *Studies in the Glossators of the Roman Law.* 1938. Aalen, Scientia-Verlag.

Kassim, H. (2000). *Aristotle and Aristotelianism in Medieval Muslim, Jewish, and Christian Philosophy.* Lanham, MD, Austin & Winfield.

Kedar, B. Z. (1997). "Una nuova fonte per l'incursione musulmana del 934-935 e le sue implicazioni per la storia genovese." In *Oriente e occidente tra medioevo ed età moderna: Studi in onore di Geo Pistarino*, ed. L. Balletto. Genoa, Brigati. 605-16.

Kelly, D. (2003). "Viking Saga Sets Sail in Utah Town." *Los Angeles Times*, August 31, 2003: A19.

Kempers, B. (1994). "Icons, Altarpieces, and Civic Ritual in Siena Cathedral, 1100-1530." In *City and Spectacle in Medieval Europe*, ed. B. Hanawalt and K. Reyerson. Minneapolis, University of Minnesota Press. 89-136.

Kempshall, M. S. (1999). *The Common Good in Late Medieval Political Thought.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Klapisch-Zuber, C. (1988). *La famiglia e le donne nel Rinascimento a Firenze.* Rome, Laterza.

Kohl, B. G. (1998). *Padua under the Carrara, 1318-1405.* Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press.

Kooper, E., ed. (1999). *The Medieval Chronicle: Proceedings of the First International Conference on the Medieval Chronicle.* Amsterdam, Rodopi.

--- (2002). *The Medieval Chronicle II: Proceedings of the Second International Conference on the Medieval Chronicle.* Amsterdam, Rodopi.

Krautheimer, R. (2000). *Rome, Profile of a City: 312-1308.* 2nd ed. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Kristeller, P. O. (1951). "Matteo de' Libri, Bolognese Notary of the Thirteenth Century, and his *Artes dictaminis*." In *Miscellanea Giovanni Galbiati*, vol. 2. Milan, Hoepli. 283-320.

--- (1963-97). *Iter Italicum: A Finding List of Uncatalogued or Incompletely Catalogued Humanistic Manuscripts of the Renaissance in Italian and Other Libraries*. London, Warburg Institute.

--- (1985). "Umanesimo e scolastica a Padova fino al Petrarca." *Medioevo* 11: 1-18. Reprinted in *Studies in Renaissance Thought and Letters* (Rome, 1996), 4.11-26.

Kristeller, P. O., and V. Brown (1960-). *Catalogus translationum et commentariorum: Mediaeval and Renaissance Latin Translations and Commentaries; Annotated Lists and Guides*. Washington, DC, Catholic University of America Press. http://www.itergateway.org/

Krueger, R. L. (2000). *The Cambridge Companion to Medieval Romance*. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Krüger, K. H. (1985). *Die Universalchroniken. Typologie des sources du Moyen Âge occidental*, vol. 16. Turnhout, Brepols.

L'Uomo, la terra e gli astri: gli affreschi del Palazzo della ragione a Padova (1989). 2nd ed. Padua, Istituto Poligrafico e Zecca dello Stato.

La Rocca, C. (2002). *Italy in the Early Middle Ages: 476-1000*. Oxford, Oxford University Press.

Landulfus Sagax (1912). *Historia romana*. Ed. A. Crivellucci. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

Lane, F. C. (1973). *Venice: A Maritime Republic*. Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press.

Larner, J. (1971). *Culture and Society in Italy, 1290-1420*. New York, Charles Scribner's Sons.

--- (1980). *Italy in the Age of Dante and Petrarch, 1216-1380*. New York, Longman.

Lazzarini, L. (1937). "La tomba di Antenore e il primo segno dell'Umanesimo." *Padova: Rivista del Comune* 10(8): 13-4.

--- (1976). "*Dux ille Dandoleus*: Andrea Dandolo e la cultura veneziana a metà del Trecento." In *Petrarca, Venezia, e il Veneto*, ed. G. Padoan. Florence, Olschki. 123-56.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Le Goff, J. (1982). "L'immaginario urbano nell'Italia medievale (secoli V-XV)." In *Storia d'Italia, Annali 5: Il paesaggio*, ed. C. De Seta. Turin, Einaudi. 5-43.

--- (1992). *History and Memory.* 1977. Trans. S. Rendall and E. Claman. New York, Columbia University Press.

Leone De Castris, P. (2003). *Simone Martini.* Milan, Motta.

Liagre-De Sturler, L. (1969). *Les relations commerciales entre Gênes, la Belgique et l'Outremont, d'après les archives notariales génoises, 1320-1400.* 2 vols. Brussels and Rome, Institut historique belge de Rome.

Libro fiesolano (1875-80). In *Quellen und Forschungen zur ältesten Geschichte der Stadt Florenz,* vol. 1, ed. O. Hartwig. Marburg, N. G. Elwert. 35-69.

Lilley, K. D. (2002). *Urban Life in the Middle Ages, 1000-1450.* Houndmills, UK, Palgrave.

Linke, B. (2000). *Mos maiorum: Untersuchungen zu den Formen der Identitätsstiftung und Stabilisierung in der Römischen Republik.* Ed. M. Stemmler. Stuttgart, Steiner.

Lisini, A. (1893). "Lupa." *Miscellanea storica senese* 1: 28.

[Lisini, A.] (1895). "L'impresa della lupa." *Miscellanea storica senese* 3: 195.

Lisini, A., ed. (1903). *Il costituto del comune di Siena volgarizzato nel MCCCIX-MCCCX.* 2 vols. Siena, Lazzeri.

Lisini, A., and F. Iacometti (1931-9). *Cronache senesi. Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 15.6. Bologna, Zanichelli.

Livy (1919). *Ab urbe condita.* Reprinted 1982-98. Ed. B. O. Foster. 14 vols. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Lopez, R. S., and I. W. Raymond (2001). *Medieval Trade in the Mediterranean World.* 1955. New York, Columbia University Press.

Lorenzo Ghiberti (1912). *Denkwürdigkeiten (I commentarii).* Ed. J. von Schlosser. Berlin, Bard.

--- (1948-67). *The Commentaries.* London, Courtauld Institute of Art.

Lorenzoni, G., and G. Bresciani Alvarez (1981). *L'Edificio del Santo di Padova.* Vicenza, Neri Pozza.

Lowe, E. A. (1934-1972). *Codices latini antiquiores: A Palaeographical Guide to Latin Manuscripts Prior to the Ninth Century.* Oxford, Clarendon Press. Abbr. CLA.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Lowenthal, D. (1985). *The Past is a Foreign Country.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

LRP=*Liber regiminum Padue* (1905). Ed. A. Bonardi. *Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 8.1. Città di Castello.

Lucan (1928). *Pharsalia.* Reprinted 1977. Ed. J. D. Duff. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Lucianetti, S. (1970). "Lo sviluppo della città medievale." In *La città di Padova: Saggio di analisi urbana.* Rome, Officina. 71-125.

Luzzatto, G. (1961). *An Economic History of Italy.* Trans. P. Jones. New York, Barnes & Noble.

Lynde-Recchia, M. (2000). *Prose, Verse, and Truth-Telling in the Thirteenth Century: An Essay on Form and Function in Selected Texts, Accompanied by an Edition of the Prose Thèbes as Found in the Histoire ancienne jusqu'à César.* Lexington, KY, French Forum.

Macconi, M. (2002). *Il grifo e l'aquila: Genova e il regno di Sicilia nell'età di Federico II. I sentieri dell'uomo,* vol. 2. Genoa, Name.

Macrobius (1963). *Saturnalia, apparatu critico instruxit.* Ed. J. Willis. Leipzig, Teubner.

--- (1969). *The Saturnalia.* Ed. P. V. Davies. *Records of Civilization: Sources and Studies,* vol. 79. New York, Columbia University Press.

"Maestri e scolari a Siena e Perugia, 1250-1500: Una prosopografia dinamica del corpo accademico e studentesco." (2004). Website as of May 20, 2004: maintained by C. Frova, P. Nardi, and P. Renzi.
http://www.unisi.it/docentes/

Maggini, F. (1952). *I primi volgarizzamenti dai classici latini. Quaderni di letteratura e d'arte,* vol. 14. Florence, Le Monnier.

Maginnis, H. B. J. (2001). *The World of the Early Sienese Painter.* University Park, Pennsylvania State University Press.

Magister Gregorius (1987). *The Marvels of Rome.* Ed. J. Osborne. *Mediaeval Sources in Translation,* vol. 31. Toronto, Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies.

Magnani, L. (1936). *La cronaca figurata di Giovanni Villani: Ricerche sulla miniatura fiorentina del trecento (BAV MS Chigi L.VIII.296).* Vatican City, Biblioteca apostolica vaticana.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Manacorda, D. (2001). *Crypta Balbi: Archeologia e storia di un paesaggio urbano.* Milan, Electa.

Mancini, A. (1928). "Macrobio Parmense." *Archivio storico per le Province Parmensi, NS* 28: 1-9.

Mancini, F., ed. (1979). *Il Conto di Corciano e di Perugia: Leggenda cavalleresca del secolo XIV. Quaderni del Centro per il Collegamento degli Studi Medievali e Umanistici nell'Università di Perugia,* vol. 6. Florence, La nuova Italia.

--- (1996). "L'Euliste della Fontana Maggiore nel 'Conto di Corciano e di Perugia'." In *Il linguaggio figurativo della Fontana Maggiore di Perugia,* ed. C. Santini. Perugia, Calzetti-Mariucci. 329-38.

Manfroni, C. (1898). *Le relazioni fra Genova, l'impero bizantino, e i turchi.* Genoa, Società ligure di storia patria.

Mann, N. (1996). "The Origins of Humanism." In *The Cambridge Companion to Renaissance Humanism,* ed. J. Kraye. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 1-19.

Marangon, P. (1997). *Ad cognitionem scientiae festinare: Gli studi nell'Università e nei conventi di Padova nei secoli XIII e XIV.* Trieste, LINT.

Marcacci Marinelli, O. (1975). *Liber Inquisitionum del Capitano del Popolo di Perugia. Annali della Facoltà di letter e filosofia, Università degli studi di Perugia: Complementi,* vol. 2. Perugia, Università degli studi di Perugia.

Marsilius of Padua (1951). *Marsilius of Padua: The Defender of Peace.* Ed. A. Gewirth. *Records of Civilization: Sources and Studies,* vol. 46. 2 vols. New York, Columbia University Press.

--- (2001). *Defensor pacis: The Defender of Peace.* 1951. Ed. C. Nederman. Trans. A. Gewirth. New York, Columbia University Press.

Marti, M. (1969). *Poeti del Dolce stil nuovo.* Florence, Le Monnier.

Martines, L. (1979). *Power and Imagination: City-States in Renaissance Italy.* New York, Knopf.

Martini, G. (1971). "Lo spirito cittadino e le origini della storiografia comunale lombarda." In *I problemi della civiltà comunale: Atti del Congresso storico internazionale per l'VIII Centenario della prima Lega Lombarda, Bergamo, 4-8 settembre 1967,* ed. C. D. Fonseca. Bergamo, Comune di Bergamo. 137-56.

The Marvels of Rome (Mirabilia urbis Romae) (1986). 1889. Ed. E. Gardiner. Trans. F. M. Nichols. 2nd ed. New York, Italica Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Matteo Ciaccheri (1968). *Cronachetta di S. Gemignano composta da Fr. Matteo Giaccheri fiorentino l'anno mccclv.* 1865. Ed. E. Sarteschi. Bologna, Commissione per i testi di lingua.

Matteo dei Libri (1974). *Le Arringhe.* Ed. E. Vincenti. *Documenti di filologia,* vol. 19. Naples, Ricciardi.

Mazzatinti, G. (1881). "La Fiorita di Armannino giudice." *Giornale di filologia romanza* 3: 1-55.

--- (1887). *Inventario dei manoscritti italiani delle biblioteche di Francia.* 3 vols. Rome, Presso i principali librai.

--- (1890). *Inventari dei manoscritti delle biblioteche d'Italia.* Florence, Olschki.

--- (1896). "Di Bonifacio da Verona, autore dell'Eulistea." *Bollettino della società Umbra di storia patria* 2: 557-61.

Mazzino, E., T. O. de Negri, et al. (1969). *Il centro storico di Genova.* Genoa, Stringa Editore.

McCormick, M. (1975). *Les annales du haut Moyen Âge. Typologie des sources du Moyen Âge occidental,* vol. 14. Turnhout, Brepols.

Meister, F. O. (1871). *Über Dares von Phrygien: De excidio Troiae historia.* Breslau, Druck von Grass Barth.

Mellor, R. (1999). *The Roman Historians.* London, Routledge.

Meredith, J. (1986). "The Revival of the Augustan Age in the Court Art of Emperor Frederick II." In *Artistic Strategy and the Rhetoric of Power: Political Uses of Art from Antiquity to the Present,* ed. D. Castriota. Carbondale, Southern Illinois University Press. 39-56.

--- (1994). "The Arch at Capua: The Strategic Use of *Spolia* and References to the Antique." In *Intellectual Life at the Court of Frederick II Hohenstaufen,* ed. W. Tronzo. Washington, DC, National Gallery of Art. 109-26.

Messerli, S. (2002). *Oedipe enténébré: Légendes d'Oedipe au XIIe siècle.* Paris, Champion.

Meyer, P. (1885). "Les premières compilations françaises d'histoire ancienne." *Romania* 14: 1-81.

Modesto, D. (2004). "Il Primo Popolo: A Monument on the Bargello." Website as of May 20, 2004: Proceedings of the Second Annual Conference on "The City and the Book", Florence, 4-7 September 2002, maintained by Julia Bolton Holloway. http://www.florin.ms/beth2.html#modesto

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Molho, A., K. Raaflaub, et al. (1991). *City States in Classical Antiquity and Medieval Italy: Athens and Rome, Florence and Venice.* Ann Arbor, University of Michigan Press.

Mommsen, T. E. (1952). "Petrarch and the Decoration of the Sala Virorum Illustrium in Padua." *Art Bulletin* 34: 95-116. Reprinted in *Medieval and Renaissance Studies* (Ithaca, 1959), 130-74.

Mor, C. G. (1964). *Il Palazzo della ragione di Padova.* Venice, Neri Pozza.

Moses de Brolo (1945). *Liber Pergaminus.* In *Mosè del Brolo e la cultura a Bergamo nei secoli XI-XII,* ed. G. Cremaschi. Bergamo, Società editrice S. Alessandro. 204-28.

Moskowitz, A. F. (1994). *Nicola Pisano's Arca di San Domenico and its legacy.* State College, PA, Pennsylvania State University Press.

Mozzarelli, C. (1987). *Mantova e i Gonzaga: dal 1382 al 1707.* Turin, UTET.

Mundy, J. H. (1989). "In Praise of Italy: The Italian City-Republics." *Speculum* 64: 815-34.

Munk Olsen, B. (1982). *L'étude des auteurs classiques latins aux XIe et XIIe siècles.* 3 vols. Paris, Editions du Centre national de la recherche scientifique.

Musto, R. G. (2003). *Apocalypse in Rome: Cola di Rienzo and the Politics of the New Age.* Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Najemy, J. M. (1993). "Dante and Florence." In *The Cambridge Companion to Dante,* ed. R. Jacoff. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 80-99.

Napoli, F. (2002). *Arnolfo di Cambio: Profilo e confronto di un maestro.* Florence, Pietro Chegai.

Nardi, B. (1963). *Mantuanitas Vergiliana.* Rome, Edizioni dell'Ateneo.

Nardi, P. (1996). *L'insegnamento superiore a Siena nei secoli XI-XIV: Tentativi e realizzazioni dalle origini alla fondazione dello Studio generale. Saggi e documenti per la storia dell'Università di Siena,* vol. 2. Milan, Giuffrè.

Nederman, C. J. (1988). "Nature, Sin, and the Origins of Society: The Ciceronian Tradition in Medieval Political Thought." *Journal of the History of Ideas* 49: 3-26.

--- (1992). "The Union of Wisdom and Eloquence before the Renaissance: The Ciceronian Orator in Medieval Thought." *Journal of Medieval History* 18: 75-95.

Nederman, C. J., and K. L. Forhan (1993). *Medieval Political Theory–A Reader: The Quest for the Body Politic, 1100-1400.* London, Routledge.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Neri, M. (1977). "Perugia e il suo contado nei secoli XIII e XIV: Interventi urbanistici e legislazione statutaria." *Storia della città* 3: 28-37.

Niccolò Smereglo (1921). *Annales civitatis Vincentiae.* In *Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 8.5, ed. G. Soranzo. Città di Castello, Zanichelli.

Niermeyer, J. F. (2002). *Mediae latinitatis lexicon minus.* Eds. J. W. J. Burgers and C. van de Kieft. 2nd ed. 2 vols. Leiden, Brill.

Norman, D. (1999). *Siena and the Virgin: Art and Politics in a Late Medieval City State.* New Haven, Yale University Press.

Oltrogge, D. (1989). *Die Illustrationszyklen zur "Histoire ancienne jusqu'à César" (1250-1400).* Frankfurt am Main, P. Lang.

Opicinus de Canistris (1996). "Libellus de descriptione Papie." In *Opicino de Canistris: L'anonimo ticinese,* ed. F. Gianani. 1927. Pavia, EMI. 73-121.

Origo, I. (1957). *The Merchant of Prato: Francesco di Marco Datini, 1335-1410.* Reprinted 1986. Boston, Godine.

Origone, S. (1992). *Bisanzio e Genova.* Genoa, ECIG.

Ortalli, G., and D. Puncuh (2001). *Genova, Venezia, il Levante nei secoli XII-XIV: Atti del Convegno internazionale di studi, Genova-Venezia, 10-14 marzo 2000.* Genoa and Venice, Società ligure di storia patria e l'Istituto veneto di scienze lettere ed arti.

Orwell, G. (1987). *Nineteen Eighty-Four.* Ed. P. H. Davison. *Complete Works,* vol. 7. London, Secker & Warburg.

Ottavi, L. (1999). *La Fontana Maggiore di Perugia: La storia, la iconografia.* Perugia, Era Nuova.

Pace da Ferrara (1843). *La festa delle Marie descritta in un poemetto elegiaco latino da Pace del Friuli.* Ed. E. A. Cicogna. Venice, Cecchini.

Padrin, L. (1887). *Lupati Lupatis, Bovetini de Bovetinis, Albertini Mussatis necnon et Jamboni Andreae de Favafuschis Carmina quaedam (per nozze Giusti-Giustiniani).* Padua, Tipografia del Seminario.

--- (1896). *La dedizione di Treviso e la morte di Cangrande I, Carme del secolo XIV (per le nozze Tolomei-Frigerio).* Padua, Tipografia del Seminario.

Palma, M. (1973). "La redazione autografo delle *Dicerie* di Filippo Ceffi." *Italia medievale e umanistica* 16: 323-5.

Palmieri, A. (1933). *Rolandino Passaggeri.* Bologna, Zanichelli.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Panella, E. (1986). "Priori di Santa Maria Novella di Firenze, 1221-1325." In *Memorie domenicane*, vol. 17. Pistoia. 253-84.

Paolozzi Strozzi, B. (1992). "Qualche riflessioni sull'iconografia monetale senese." In *Le monete della repubblica senese*, ed. B. Paolozzi Strozzi, G. Toderi, et al. Milan, Silvana. 73-169.

Papini, G. A. (1973). "I fatti dei Romani: per la storia della tradizione manoscritta." *Studi di filologia italiana* 31: 97-155.

Parodi, E. G. (1887). "I rifacimenti e le traduzioni italiani dell'*Eneide*." *Studi di filologia romanza* 2(5): 342.

Partner, P. (1972). *The Lands of St. Peter: The Papal State in the Middle Ages and the Early Renaissance*. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Pasqui, U. (1889). "La biblioteca d'un notaro aretino del secolo XIV." *Archivio storico italiano, 5th series* 4: 250-5.

Pauler, R. (1997). *Die deutschen Könige und Italien im 14. Jahrhundert: von Heinrich VII. bis Karl IV.* Darmstadt, Wissenschaftliche Buchgesellschaft.

Paulus Diaconus (1914). *Historia Romana*. Ed. A. Crivellucci. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 51. Rome, Tipografia del Senato.

Paulus Orosius (1964). *The Seven Books of History Against the Pagans*. Trans. R. J. Deferrari. Washington, DC, Catholic University of America.

Pasini, P. G. (1974). *L'arco di Augusto*. Rimini, Cosmi.

Pavoni, R. (1983). "I simboli di Genova alle origini del Comune." In *Saggi e documenti III*. Genoa, CIC. 29-64.

--- (1992). *Liguria medievale: Da provincia romana a stato regionale*. Genoa, ECIG.

Perria, A. (1973). *Ezzelino III da Romano e i suoi tempi: la figura più efferata del nostro Medioevo*. Milan, Longanesi.

Pertusi, A. (1970). *La storiografia veneziana fino al secolo XVI: Aspetti e problemi. Civiltà veneziana, Saggi,* vol. 18. Florence, Olschki.

Pesce, G., and G. Felloni (1975). *Monete genovesi: Storia, arte ed economia nelle monete di Genova dal 1139 al 1814*. Genoa, Stringa.

Petit, A. (1991). *Le Roman de Thèbes. Traductions des classiques français du Moyen Âge,* vol. 44. Paris, Champion.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Petit, A. (1997). *Le roman d'Enéas: Édition critique d'après le manuscrit BN fr. 60.* Paris, Livre de Poche.

--- (2002). *L'anachronisme dans les romans antiques du XIIe siècle: Le Roman de Thèbes, le Roman d'Énéas, le Roman de Troie, le Roman d'Alexandre.* Paris, Champion.

Petrarch (Francesco Petrarca) (1964). *De viris illustribus.* Ed. G. Martellotti, vol. 1. Florence, Sansoni.

--- (1975). *Rerum familiarium libri.* vol. 1, books 1-8. Trans. A. S. Bernardo. 3 vols. Albany, State University of New York Press.

Petrucci, A. (1992). *Medioevo da leggere: Guida allo studio delle testimonianze scritte del Medioevo italiano.* Turin, Einaudi.

--- (1995). "Reading and Writing *Volgare* in Medieval Italy." In *Writers and Readers in Medieval Italy.* New Haven, Yale University Press. 169-235.

Petti Balbi, G. (1979). *L'insegnamento nella Liguria medievale: Scuole, maestri, libri.* Genoa, Tilgher.

--- (1982). *Caffaro e la cronachistica genovese.* Genoa, Tilgher.

--- (1984). "Società e cultura a Genova tra due e trecento." In *Genova, Pisa, e il Mediterraneo tra due e trecento: per il VII centenario della battaglia della Meloria.* Genoa, Società ligure di storia patria. 121-49.

--- (1989). "Il mito nella memoria genovese (sec. XII-XV)." *Atti della società ligure di storia patria, NS* 29: 211-32.

--- (1991). *Una città e il suo mare: Genova nel medioevo. Biblioteca di storia urbana medievale,* vol. 5. Bologna, CLUEB.

--- (1995). "Il presente e il senso della storia in Caffaro e nei suoi continuatori." In *Il senso della storia nella cultura medievale italiana (1100-1350); Atti del XIV Convegno di studi del Centro italiano di studi di storia e arte, Pistoia, 14-17 maggio 1993.* Pistoia, Centro italiano di studi di storia e d'arte. 31-52.

Piaia, G. (1999). *Marsilio e dintorni: contributi alla storia delle idee.* Padua, Antenore.

Piastra, C. M. (1954). "Nota sull'*Annayde* di Bonifacio Veronese." *Aevum* 28: 505-21.

--- (1959). "Nota sulla *Veronica* di Bonifacio Veronese." *Aevum* 33: 356-81.

Picone, M. (1995). *Guittone d'Arezzo nel settimo centenario della morte: Atti del Convegno internazionale di Arezzo, 22-24 aprile 1994.* Florence, Cesati.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Picone, M., and C. Cazalé-Bérard (1998). *Gli zibaldoni di Boccaccio: Memoria, scrittura, riscrittura: Atti del seminario internazionale di Firenze-Certaldo, 26-28 aprile 1996.* Florence, Cesati.

Pierotti, R. (1981). "La circolazione monetaria nel territorio perugino nei secoli XII-XIV." *Bollettino della Deputazione di storia patria per l'Umbria* 78: 81-151.

Pietramellara, C. (1980). *Il duomo di Siena.* Florence, Edam.

Pietro Alighieri (2002). *Comentum super poema Comedie Dantis: A Critical Edition of the Third and Final Draft of Pietro's Alighieri's Commentary on Dante's The Divine Comedy.* Ed. M. Chiamenti. Tempe, Arizona Center for Medieval and Renaissance Studies.

Pighi, G. B., ed. (1960). *Versus de Verona, Versus de Mediolano civitate.* Bologna, Zanichelli.

Pincus, D. (1990). "Andrea Dandolo (1343-1354) and Visible History: The San Marco Projects." In *Art and Politics in Late Medieval and Early Renaissance Italy, 1200-1500,* ed. J. van Engen. Notre Dame, IN, University of Notre Dame Press. 191-206.

--- (1992). "Venice and the Two Romes: Byzantium and Rome as a Double Heritage in Venetian Cultural Politics." *Artibus et historiae* 26 (13): 101-14.

Pistarino, G. (1961). *Libri e cultura nella cattedrale di Genova tra Medioevo e Rinascimento.* Genoa, Società ligure di storia patria.

Polizzi, C. F. (1989). *Ezzelino da Romano: Signoria territoriale e comune cittadino.* Romano d'Ezzelino, Sezione cultura e ricerca storica del Comune.

Polonio, V. (2002). *Istituzioni ecclesiastiche della Liguria medievale.* Rome, Herder.

Polzer, J. (1987). "Simone Martini's *Guidoriccio* Fresco: The Polemic Concerning its Origin Reviewed, and the Fresco Considered as Serving the Military Triumph of a Tuscan Commune." *RACAR (Canadian Art Review)* 14: 16-69.

Powell, J. M., ed. (1971). *The "Liber Augustalis", or the Constitutions of Melfi Promulgated by the Emperor Frederick II for the Kingdom of Sicily in 1231.* Syracuse, NY, Syracuse University Press.

Presicce, C. P. (2000). *La Lupa Capitolina.* Milan, Electa.

Prosdocimi, A. (1939-41). "L'arca di Rolando di Piazzola sul sagrato del Santo." *Bollettino del Museo civico di Padova* 29-30: 19-31.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Prunai, G. (1949). "Lo studio Senese dalle origini alla 'migratio' Bolognese, sec. XII-1321." *Bullettino Senese di storia patria* 56: 53-79.

--- (1950). "Lo studio Senese dalla 'migratio' Bolognese alla fondazione della 'Domus Sapientiae', 1321-1408." *Bullettino Senese di storia patria* 57: 3-54.

Pseudo-Aurelius Victor (1983). *Les origines du peuple romain.* Ed. J.-C. Richard. Paris, Les Belles Lettres.

Ptolemy of Lucca (1997). *On the Government of Rulers (De Regimine Principum), with Portions Attributed to Thomas Aquinas.* Ed. and trans. J. M. Blythe. Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press.

Puncuh, D., and A. Rovere (1992). *I libri iurium della Repubblica di Genova.* Rome, Istituto poligrafico e zecca dello stato–Libreria dello stato.

Quaglioni, D. (1991). "The Legal Definition of Citizenship in the Late Middle Ages." In *City-States in Classical Antiquity and Medieval Italy,* ed. A. Molho, K. Raaflaub, et al. Stuttgart, Steiner. 155-68.

Radding, C. (1988). *The Origins of Medieval Jurisprudence: Pavia and Bologna, 850-1150.* New Haven, Yale University Press.

Raffaelli, G. (1928). "Bosone da Gubbio e le sue opere." *Giornale dantesco* 31: 87-248.

Raffard de Brienne, D. (1998). *Saint Antoine de Padoue.* Monaco, Rocher.

Ranieri Granchi (1915). *De proeliis Tuscie. Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 11.2. Bologna, Zanichelli.

Ranieri Sardo (1963). *Cronaca di Pisa.* Ed. O. Banti. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 99. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Rapisarda, M. (1965). *La signoria di Ezzelino da Romano.* Udine, Del Bianco.

Rashdall, H. (1987). *The Universities of Europe in the Middle Ages.* Eds. F. M. Powicke and A. B. Emden. 3rd ed. 3 vols. Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Razzolini, L., ed. (1874). *Le vite degli uomini illustri di Francesco Petrarca, volgarizzate da Donato degli Albanzati da Pratovecchio.* 2 vols. Bologna, Romagnoli.

Redon, O. (1982). *Uomini e communità del contado Senese nel duecento.* Siena, Accademia senese degli Intronati.

Reisenberg, P. (1969). "Civicism and Roman Law in 14th-Century Italian Society." In *Economy, Society, and Government in Medieval Italy: Essays in Honor of Robert L. Reynolds,* ed. D. Herlihy. Kent, OH, Kent State University Press. 237-54.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Remigio de' Girolami (1965-7). "De bono communi." Ed. M. C. de Matteis. *Annali dell'Università degli studi di Lecce* 3: 11-88.

Reynolds, L. D., ed. (1983). *Texts and Transmission: A Survey of the Latin Classics.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Reynolds, S. (1977). *An Introduction to the History of English Medieval Towns.* Oxford, Clarendon Press.

--- (1997). *Kingdoms and Communities in Western Europe, 900-1300.* 2nd ed. Oxford, Clarendon Press.

Riccobaldo da Ferrara (1983). *Chronica parva Ferrariensis.* Ed. G. Zannella. *Serie Monumenti,* vol. 9. Ferrara, Deputazione provinciale ferrarese di storia patria.

--- (1984). *Compendium romanae historiae.* Ed. A. T. Hankey. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 108. 2 vols. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

--- (2000). *Compilatio chronologica.* Ed. A. T. Hankey. *Fonti per la storia d'Italia, Rerum italicarum scriptores,* vol. 4. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Ricordano Malispini (1976). *Storia fiorentina: Col seguito di Giacotto Malispini dalla edificazione di Firenze sino all'anno 1286.* 1816. Ed. V. Follini. Rome, Multigrafica.

Riess, J. B. (1981). *Political Ideals in Medieval Art: The Frescoes in the Palazzo dei Priori, Perugia (1297).* Ann Arbor, University of Michigan Research Press.

Rigon, A. (2002). *Dal libro alla folla: Antonio di Padova e il francescanesimo medievale.* Rome, Viella.

Rolandino (1905). *Cronica in factis et circa facta Marchie Trivixane.* Ed. A. Bonardi. *Rerum italicarum scriptores, NS,* vol. 8.1. Città di Castello, Zanichelli.

Rolandino Passaggeri (1977). *Summa totius artis notariae.* 1546. Bologna, Forni.

--- (2000). *Atti & formule di Rolandino. 38o Congresso nazionale del notariato.* Bologna, Forni.

Roma antica nel Medioevo: Mito, rappresentazioni, sopravvivenze nella 'Respublica Christiana dei secoli IX-XIII; Atti della quattordicesima Settimana internazionale di studio, Mendola, 24-28 agosto 1998 (2001). Milan, Vita e pensiero Università.

Ronchi, O. (1911). "Padova che si rinnova: L'antica porta delle Torricelle, Vicende della strada dal Gallo al Prato." *Il Veneto* 24: 174ff.

--- (1967). "Vecchia Padova." *Bollettino del Museo civico di Padova* 56: 157-63.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Rondoni, G. (1886). *Tradizioni popolari e leggende di un comune medioevale e del suo contado: Siena e l'antico contado senese.* Reprinted 1968. Bologna, Forni.

Rota, A. (1953). "La costituzione originaria del Comune di Roma: L'epoca del Comune libero (luglio 1143-dicembre 1145)." *Bollettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo* 64: 19-131.

Roudometof, V. (2002). *Collective Memory, National Identity, and Ethnic Conflict: Greece, Bulgaria, and the Macedonian Question.* Westport, CN, Praeger.

Rouse, M. A., and R. H. Rouse (1991). *Authentic Witnesses: Approaches to Medieval Texts and Manuscripts.* Notre Dame, IN, University of Notre Dame Press.

Rouse, R. H. (1979). "Florilegia and Latin Classical Authors in Twelfth- and Thirteenth-Century Orléans." *Viator* 10: 131-60.

Rouse, R. H., and M. A. Rouse (1979). *Preachers, Florilegia and Sermons: Studies on the Manipulus florum of Thomas of Ireland.* Toronto, Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies.

Rowley, G. (1958). *Ambrogio Lorenzetti.* 2 vols. Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Rowling, J. K. (1997). *Harry Potter and the Sorcerer's Stone.* New York, Scholastic.

Rubinstein, N. (1958). "Political Ideas in Sienese Art: The Frescoes by Ambrogio Lorenzetti and Taddeo Bartolo in the Palazzo Pubblico." *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 21: 179-207.

--- (1965). "Marsilius of Padua and Italian Political Thought of His Time." In *Europe in the Late Middle Ages,* ed. J. R. Hale, J. R. L. Highfield, et al. London, Faber & Faber. 44-75.

Ruck, G. (1989). "Brutus als Modell des guten Richters: Bild und Rhetorik in einem Florentiner Zunftgebäude." In *Malerei und Stadtkultur in der Dantezeit: Die Argumentation der Bilder,* ed. H. Belting and D. Blume. Munich, Hirmer. 115-31.

Russell, J. C. (1972). *Medieval Regions and Their Cities.* Newton Abbot, David & Charles.

S. Antonio, 1231-1981: Il suo tempo, il suo culto e la sua città (1981). Padua, Signum.

Sabbadini, R. (1967). *Le scoperte dei codici latini e greci ne' secoli XIV e XV.* 1905. Rev. ed. 2 vols. Florence, Sansoni.

Sallust (1920). *Works.* 1980. Ed. J. C. Rolfe. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Santini, C., ed. (1996). *Il linguaggio figurativo della Fontana Maggiore di Perugia.* Perugia, Calzetti-Mariucci.

Sanzanome (1875-80). *Gesta florentinorum.* In *Quellen und Forschungen zur ältesten Geschichte der Stadt Florenz,* vol. 1, ed. O. Hartwig. Marburg, N. G. Elwert. 1-34.

Sassi, R. (1924). "Documenti intorno ad Armannino Giudice." *Atti e memorie della Deputazione di storia patria per le Marche, 4th series* 1(2): v-viii.

Saxl, F. (1957). "The Troy Romance in French and Italian Art." In *Lectures,* vol. 1. London, The Warburg Institute. 125-38.

Scaffai, M., ed. (1982). *Baebii Italici Ilias Latina.* Bologna, Pàtron.

Scalia, G. (1995). "Annalistica e poesia epico-storica pisana nel secolo XII." In *Il senso della storia nella cultura medievale italiana (1100-1350); Atti del XIV Convegno di studi del Centro italiano di studi di storia e arte, Pistoia, 14-17 maggio 1993.* Pistoia, Centro italiano di studi di storia e d'arte. 105-24.

Scheid, J. (2003). *An Introduction to Roman Religion.* Trans. J. Lloyd. Bloomington, Indiana University Press.

Schissel von Fleschenberg, O. (1908). *Dares-Studien.* Halle, Niemeyer.

Schmidt, P. G. (1978). "Mittelalterliches und humanistisches Städtelob." In *Die Rezeption der Antike: zum Problem der Kontinuität zwischen Mittelalter und Renaissance,* ed. A. Buck. Hamburg, Hauswedell. 119-28.

Schramm, P. E. (1929). *Kaiser, Rom, und Renovatio.* Leipzig-Berlin.

Scovazzi, I. (1932). *Origini, miti, e leggende liguri e piemontesi. Atti della Società Savonese di storia patria,* vol. 14. Savona, Tipografia savonese.

Seel, O., ed. (1956). *Pompeius Trogus fragmenta.* Leipzig, Teubner.

Segre, C., ed. (1969). *Volgarizzamenti del Due e Trecento.* Turin, UTET.

Seneca (1932). *De consolatione ad Helviam.* In *Moral Essays,* ed. J. W. Basore. Cambridge, Harvard University Press. 2.416-89.

Servius (1881). "In Vergilii carmina commentarii." Website as of May 20, 2004: Hyperlinked text based on the Teubner edition of 1881, ed. Georg Thilo and Hermann Hagen, maintained by the Perseus Project, Tufts University. http://vanth.perseus.tufts.edu/cgi-bin/ptext?lookup=Serv.+A.+1.pr

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Silva, A., ed. (1987). *Corpus inscriptionum medii aevi Liguriae 3: Genova, Centro storico.* Genoa, Istituto di medievistica, Università di Genova.

Simioni, A. (1968). *Storia di Padova: Dalle origini alla fine del secolo XVIII.* Padua, G. e P. Randi.

Simon, K. (1988). *A Renaissance Tapestry: the Gonzaga of Mantua.* New York, Harper & Row.

Siraisi, N. G. (1973). *Arts and Sciences at Padua: The Studium of Padua before 1350.* Toronto, Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies.

Skinner, Q. (1978). *The Foundations of Modern Political Thought.* 2 vols. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

--- (1986). "Ambrogio Lorenzetti: The Artist as Political Philosopher." *Proceedings of the British Academy* 72: 1-56. Reprinted as "Ambrogio Lorenzetti and the Portrayal of Virtuous Government," in Skinner (2002), 2.39-92.

--- (1990). "Machiavelli's *Discorsi* and the Pre-Humanist Origins of Republican Ideas." In *Machiavelli and Republicanism*, ed. G. Bock, Q. Skinner, et al. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 121-41. Reprinted in revised and expanded form as "The Rediscovery of Roman Values" in Skinner (2002), 2.10-38.

--- (1999). "Ambrogio Lorenzetti's *Buon governo* Frescoes: Two Old Questions, Two New Answers." *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 62: 1-28. Reprinted as "Ambrogio Lorenzetti on the Power and Glory of Republics", in Skinner (2002), 2.93-117.

--- (2002). *Visions of Politics.* 3 vols. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Smalley, B. (1960). *English Friars and Antiquity in the Early 14th Century.* Oxford, Oxford University Press.

--- (1971). "Sallust in the Middle Ages." In *Classical Influences on European Culture, AD 500-AD 1500*, ed. R. R. Bolgar. Cambridge, Cambridge University Press. 165-75.

--- (1974). *Historians in the Middle Ages.* London, Thames & Hudson.

Smith, A. D. (1986). *The Ethnic Origins of Nations.* Oxford, Blackwell.

Solinus (1864). *Collectanea rervm memorabilivm.* Ed. T. Mommsen. Berlin, Frederick Nicholas.

Sòriga, R. (1937). "La tradizione Romana in Pavia e la statua del 'Regisole'." In *Atti e memorie del primo congresso storico Lombardo (Como 21-22 maggio—Varese 23 maggio 1936).* Milan, Giuffrè. 33-44.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Southard, E. C. (1979a). *The Frescoes in Siena's Palazzo Pubblico, 1289-1539: Studies in Imagery and Relations to Other Communal Palaces in Tuscany.* New York, Garland.

--- (1979b). "Simone Martini's Lost Marcus Regulus: A Document Rediscovered and a Subject Clarified." *Zeitschrift für Kunstgeschichte* 42: 217-21.

--- (1988). "Reflections on the Documented Work by Simone Martini in the Palazzo Pubblico." In *Simone Martini: Atti del convegno: Siena, 27-29 marzo 1985*, ed. L. Bellosi. Florence, Centro Di. 103-8.

Spiegel, G. M. (1993). *Romancing the Past: The Rise of Vernacular Prose Historiography in Thirteenth-Century France. The New Historicism,* vol. 23. Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Sproviero, F. (1999). *La Fontana Maggiore di Perugia: Immagini di un restauro.* Perugia, Guerra.

Stadter, P. A. (1973). "Planudes, Plutarch, and Pace of Ferrara." *Italia medievale e umanistica* 17: 139-62.

Starn, R. (1994). *Ambrogio Lorenzetti: the Palazzo Pubblico, Siena.* New York, George Braziller.

Starn, R., and L. W. Partridge (1992). *Arts of Power: Three Halls of State in Italy, 1300-1600.* Berkeley and Los Angeles, University of California Press.

Stella, G. (1990). *Storia illustrata di Padova.* Rimini, SOEDE Società Editrice Emiliana.

Stierle, K. (2003). *Francesco Petrarca: ein Intellektueller im Europa des 14. Jahrhunderts.* Munich, Hanser.

Stillwell, M. B. (1936). *Gutenberg and the Catholicon of 1460: A Bibliographical Essay.* New York, Edmond Byrne Hackett.

Stock, B. (1983). *The Implications of Literacy: Written Language and Models of Interpretation in the 11th and 12th Centuries.* Princeton, NJ, Princeton University Press.

Stopani, R. (1998). *La via Francigena: Storia di una strada medievale.* Florence, Le lettere.

Stringa, P. (1982). *Genova e la Liguria nel Mediterraneo: Insediamenti e culture urbane.* Genoa, Sagep.

Szabó, T. (1975). "La rete stradale del contado di Siena: Legislazione statutaria e amministrazione comunale nel Duecento." *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome: Moyen Age–temps modernes* 85: 141-86.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Tamba, G., ed. (2002). *Rolandino e l'ars notaria da Bologna all'Europa: Atti del Convegno internazionale di studi storici sulla figura e l'opera di Rolandino: Bologna, 9-10 ottobre 2000.* Milan, Giuffrè.

Thomas, H. (1993). *Ludwig der Bayer, 1282-1347: Kaiser und Ketzer.* Regensburg, Verlag Styria.

Tomei, A. (2002). *Le Biccherne di Siena: Arte e finanza all'alba dell'economia moderna.* Rome, Retablo-Bolis.

Torri, A., ed. (1995). *L'ottimo commento della Divina commedia.* 3 vols. Bologna, Forni.

Tucci, H. Z. (1985). "Il carroccio nella vita comunale italiana." *Quellen und Forschungen aus italienischen Archiven und Bibliotheken* 65: 1-104.

Ugolini, F., ed. (1964). "Annali e Cronaca di Perugia in volgare dal 1191 al 1336." *Annali della facoltà di lettere e filosofia della Università degli studi di Perugia* 1: 143-337.

Ullman, B. L. (1945). "The Post-Mortem Adventures of Livy." *University of North Carolina Extension Bulletin* 34(4): 39-53. Reprinted in *Studies in the Italian Renaissance* (Rome, 1955), 55-79.

--- (1955). "Hieremias de Montagnone and His Citations from Catullus." In *Studies in the Italian Renaissance.* Revision of article first published in *Classical Philology* 5 (1910) 66-82. Rome, Edizioni di storia e letteratura. 81-115.

Ullmann, W. (1975). *Law and Politics in the Middle Ages: An Introduction to the Sources of Medieval Political Ideas.* Ithaca, NY, Cornell University Press.

Valentini, R., and G. Zucchetti (1946). *Codice Topografico della Città di Roma, vol. 3. Fonti per la storia d'Italia,* vol. 90. Rome, Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo.

Valerius Maximus (2000). *Memorable Doings and Sayings.* Ed. D. R. Shackleton Bailey. 2 vols. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Van der Ploeg, K. (1993). *Art, Architecture and Liturgy: Siena Cathedral in the Middle Ages.* Groningen, Forsten.

Varanini, G. M., ed. (1988). *Gli Scaligeri, 1277-1387.* Verona, Mondadori.

Venturi, A. (1923). "Giovanni Pisano e le lupe-doccioni del Palazzo Pubblico di Siena." *L'Arte* 26: 187-9.

Vermiglioli, G. B. (1816). *Della zecca e delle monete perugine.* Perugia, Francesco Baduel.

Verona e il suo territorio 3: Verona Scaligera (1960). Verona, Istituto per gli studi storici veronesi.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Veyne, P. (1976). *Le pain et le cirque: Sociologie historique d'un pluralisme politique.* Paris, Seuil.

Vidal, G. (1976). *1876: A Novel.* New York, Random House.

Vinogradoff, P. (1994). *Roman Law in Medieval Europe.* 1929. Ed. P. Stein. 2nd ed. Holmes Beach, FL, Gaunt.

Virgil (1918). *Aeneid.* Reprinted 1998. Ed. H. R. Fairclough. 2 vols. Cambridge, Harvard University Press.

Vitale, V. (1951). *Il comune del podestà a Genova.* Milan, R. Ricciardi.

Waley, D. P. (1961). *The Papal State in the Thirteenth Century.* New York, St. Martin's Press.

--- (1988). *The Italian City-Republics.* 3rd ed. New York, Longman.

--- (1991). *Siena and the Sienese in the Thirteenth Century.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Weinstein, D. (1969). "The Myth of Florence." In *Florentine Studies,* ed. N. Rubinstein. London, Faber & Faber. 15-44.

Weiss, R. (1951). "Lovato Lovati (1241-1309)." *Italian Studies* 6: 3-28.

--- (1964). *The Spread of Italian Humanism.* London, Hutchinson.

--- (1973). *The Renaissance Discovery of Classical Antiquity.* New York, Humanities Press.

White, H. V. (1990). *The Content of the Form: Narrative Discourse and Historical Representation.* Baltimore, Johns Hopkins University Press.

White, J. (1970). "The Reconstruction of Nicola Pisano's Perugia Fountain." *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 33: 70-83.

--- (1993). *Art and Architecture in Italy 1250-1400.* 3rd ed. New Haven, Yale University Press.

Wickham, C. (1981). *Early Medieval Italy: Central Power and Local Society, 400-1000.* London, Macmillan.

Wieruszowksi, H. (1944). "Art and the Commune in the Time of Dante." *Speculum* 19: 19-33. Reprinted in *Politics and Culture in Medieval Spain and Italy* (Rome, 1971), 465-502.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Wieruszowski, H. (1967). "Rhetoric and the Classics in Italian Education of the 13th Century." *Studia Gratiana* 11: 169-207. Reprinted in *Politics and Culture in Medieval Spain and Italy* (Rome, 1971), 589-628.

Wilkins, E. H. (1955). *Studies in the Life and Works of Petrarch.* Cambridge, Mediaeval Academy of America.

--- (1961). *Life of Petrarch.* Chicago, University of Chicago Press.

Winroth, A. (2000). *The Making of Gratian's Decretum.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Wiseman, T. P. (1995). *Remus: A Roman Myth.* Cambridge, Cambridge University Press.

Witt, R. G. (1988). "Medieval Italian Culture and the Origins of Humanism as a Stylistic Ideal." In *Renaissance Humanism: Foundations, Forms, and Legacy,* vol. 1, ed. A. Rabil. Philadelphia, University of Pennsylvania Press. 29-70.

--- (1995). "What Did Giovannino Read and Write? Literacy in Early Renaissance Florence." *I Tatti Studies: Essays in the Renaissance* 6: 83-114.

--- (2000). *In the Footsteps of the Ancients: The Origins of Humanism from Lovato to Bruni.* Leiden, Brill.

Wright, J., ed. (1975). *The Life of Cola di Rienzo.* Toronto, Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies.

Yates, F. A. (1966). *The Art of Memory.* London, Routledge.

Zampieri, G., ed. (1990). *Padova per Antenore: Atti della giornata di studio tenutasi il 14 dicembre 1989 presso il Museo Civico Archeologico agli Eremitani e altri interventi.* Padua, Editrice Programma.

Zanella, G. (1980). *Riccobaldo e dintorni: Studi di storiografia medievale ferrarese.* Ferrara, Bovolenta.

--- (1984). *Storici e storiografia del medioevo italiano: Antologia di saggi. Il Mondo medievale: Sezione di storia delle istituzioni della spirtualità e delle idee,* vol. 14. Bologna, Pàtron.

--- (1989). "Riccobaldo e Livio." *Studi petrarcheschi, NS* 6: 59-66.

Zanker, P. (1988). *The Power of Images in the Age of Augustus.* Ann Arbor, University of Michigan Press.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Zappacosta, G. (1972). "'Orationes de laudibus Perusiae' di Francesco Maturanzio e Cristoforo Sassi." In *Studi e ricerche sull'umanesimo italiano.* Bergamo, Minerva Italica. 65-113.

Zdekauer, L. (1894). *Lo studio di Siena nel Rinascimento.* Reprinted 1977. Bologna, Forni.

--- (1896). *La vita privata dei Senesi nel Dugento.* Reprinted 1967. Siena, Lazzeri.

---, ed. (1897). *Il constituto del comune di Siena dell'anno 1262.* Milan, Hoepli.

--- (1900). "Per la storia del pretore Senese, 1231-1241." *Bullettino Senese di storia patria* 7: 468-72.

Zorzi, M. A. (1931). "L'ordinamento comunale padovano nella seconda metà del secolo XIII." *Miscellanea di storia veneta, R. Deputazione Veneta di storia patria, 4th series* 5.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: Monica Brognoli <brognoli@mondadori.it>
Subject: **Re: Richiesta**
Date: May 11, 2004 9:11:18 AM PDT
To: Carrie Benes <benes@ucla.edu>

Gentilissima Carrie,
non trattandosi di pubblicazione può tranquillamente utilizzare l'immagini.

Buon lavoro per la sua tesi

Michela Beretta
Ufficio Stampa Libri Electa
via Trentacoste, 7
20134 Milano

tel 02 21 563 456
fax 02 21 563 314
brognoli@mondadori.it

Carrie Benes wrote:

> Egregia signora:
>
> Vorrei usare una illustrazione da un libro Electa nel mio tesi dottorale per l'Università di California, Los Angeles. Non è un pubblicazione proprio, ma devo chiedere se sarebbe possibile. A chi devo applicare?
>
> Il libro è "Crypta Balbi: Archeologia e storia di un paesaggio urbano" (ed. Manacorda, Electa 2001), e vorrei riprodurre fig. 71 sul p. 64.
>
> Grazie tanto per la Sua aiuta,
>
> Carrie Benes
> Facoltà di storia
> UCLA

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Los Angeles, CA
USA

++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++

Thanks to modern chemistry, sleep is now optional.

-Milo Aukermann

That's not Farrah hair; it's Gidget hair. Don't they teach you anything in history?

-Buffy's mom

--

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: Rose Robinson <Rose.Robinson@ucpress.edu>
Subject: **Re: copyright request**
Date: April 27, 2004 12:12:21 PM PDT
To: Carrie Benes <benes@ucla.edu>

Carrie.

I am happy to grant your request to use an illustration for your PhD dissertation for UCLA

PhD. dissertation, UCLA History Department.
"Roman Foundations: Constructing Civic Identity in Late Medieval Italy."
Filing date June 2004.

Please list the standard scholarly acknowlegement in your paper, which should include the author/the title/(c) year/The Regents of the University of California.

Good luck with your paper and future goals...

May this enote serve as my letter granitng your request, should you need a formal letter, please let me know and I can prepare one.

Rose

At 10:14 AM 4/13/04 -0700, you wrote:
>
>Dear Ms. Robinson:
>
>I'm hoping to use an illustration from a UC Press book in my PhD
>dissertation for UCLA; I've provided here all the information asked for
>on your website. Please contact me if you need anything else from me,
>and to let me know if this will be possible. Thanks very much!
>
>Carrie Benes
>1458 Lincoln Boulevard, Apt 2
>Santa Monica, CA 90401
>(310) 451.1643
>benes@ucla.edu
>
>I'd like to request: 2) Permission to reprint or quote in article or
>book:
>
>PhD. dissertation, UCLA History Department.
>"Roman Foundations: Constructing Civic Identity in Late Medieval Italy."
>Filing date June 2004.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

>
>Material requested: ISBN 0-520-21522-2.
>Would like to use figure 2, page 25 (map showing expansion of medieval
>Florence).
>
>Thanks!
>
>++++++++++++++++++++++
>Carrie Benes
>UCLA History Department
>6265 Bunche Hall
>Los Angeles, CA 90095-1473
>benes@ucla.edu
>

++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++
Rose Robinson, Permissions Supervisor
University of California Press
2120 Berkeley Way
Berkeley CA 94720-5814 U.S.A.
Tel (510) 643-9795
Fax (510) 643-7127 or 642-1144
Email Rose.Robinson@ucpress.edu
++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: "Dott. Bianchi \(segreteria\)" <cosaecome@giuffre.it>
Subject: **Questo messaggio è inviato da parte del Dott. Gaetano Giuffrè**
Date: May 27, 2004 7:19:29 AM PDT
To: <benes@ucla.edu>
Reply-To: <cosaecome@giuffre.it>

Gentilissima Sig.ra Benes,

Facciamo seguito alla Sua e-mail datata 17 maggio e Le confermiamo la nostra autorizzazione all'utilizzo delle pagine da Lei indicate del volume di Bascapé G. C. "I sigilli dei comuni italiani nel Medioevo e nell'età moderna" in Studi di paleografia, diplomatica, storia e araldica in onore di Cesare Manaresi.

Con i nostri più cordiali saluti.

Gaetano Giuffrè

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: musei <musei@comune.rimini.it>
Subject: **Re: Richiesta**
Date: May 24, 2004 1:26:06 AM PDT
To: Carrie Benes <benes@ucla.edu>

Centilissima dottoressa Carrie Benes,

con la presente l'autorizzo a riprodurre nella sua tesi di dottorato per l'Università di Los Angeles l'immagine del sigillo del Comune di Rimini del XIII sec. pubblicata nel volume "L'Arco di Augusto" (ed. Pasini 1974) a p. 24. L'imagine riprodotta dovrà riportare nella didascalia la fonte da cui è tratta. Cordiali saluti.

Il Direttore dei Musei Comunali
(dott. arch. Pier Luigi Foschi)

Scrive Carrie Benes <benes@ucla.edu>:

> Egregio/a signore/a:
>
> Vorrei usare una illustrazione da un libro pubblicato dal Comune di Rimini nel mio tesi dottorale per l'Università di California, Los Angeles. Non è un pubblicazione proprio, ma devo chiedere se sarebbe possibile.
>
> Il libro è "L'Arco di Augusto" (ed. Pasini, 1974), e vorrei riprodurre il sigillo del comune di Rimini (XIII sec.) nella sinistra della pagina 24.
>
> Grazie tanto per la Sua aiuta,
>
> Carrie Benes

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Facoltà di storia
UCLA

++++++++++++++++++++++

Carrie Benes
UCLA History Department
6265 Bunche Hall
Los Angeles, CA 90095-1473
benes@ucla.edu

This message was sent using IMP, the Internet Messaging Program.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: "Pepi Renzo" <pepir@comune.siena.it>
Subject: **autorizzazione pubblicazione**
Date: May 21, 2004 11:55:32 PM PDT
To: <benes@ucla.edu>

Siena, 22 maggio 2004

Biblioteca Comunale Intronati - Istituzione del Comune di Siena
Servizio Riproduzioni
Via della Sapienza, 5 53100 SIENA
Codice fiscale e Partita IVA: 80005860525

Oggetto: **Diritti pubblicazione ms. S IV 11 c. 1r.**

Gentile Dottoressa Carrie Benes
Facoltà di Storia
UCLA

concediamo volentieri l'autorizzazione a riprodurre per questa sola edizione (tesi dottorale) la seguente immagine di opere possedute dalla nostra bibloteca:
S.IV.11 (traduzione del Virgilio di Ciampolo de Meo Ugurgieri), c. 1r.

Le applico la tariffa scontata del 30%
Le immagini dovranno riportare in calce la didascalia "Su autorizzazione della Biblioteca Comunale Intronati, 22.05.2004".

L'importo è di
43,38 €(se l'immagine è riprodotta a colori)
13,02€ (se l'immagine è riprodotta in bn)

E' gradita una copia in omaggio della pubblicazone.

Il mio più cordiale saluto.

Il pagamento potrà essere effettuato

preferibilmente tramite vaglia postale internazionale intestato a

Biblioteca Comunale Intronati - Ufficio Riproduzioni
Via della Sapienza, 5 53100 SIENA
pagabile presso l'agenzia di SIENA CENTRO - Piazza Matteotti, 37 53100 Siena

Oppure con bonifico bancario a favore della Biblioteca Comunale degli Intronati – MPS Servizio Tesoreria, Viale Vittorio Emanuele Siena, Pos. 98 c/c n. 10290192. Codice ABI 1030 Codice CAB 14200
NB: il pagamento tramite bonifico bancario dovrà essere al netto delle spese bancarie, che sono a carico del richiedente.

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

Un cordiale saluto

Renzo Pepi

dr. Renzo Pepi Responsabile Ufficio Riproduzioni - Prestito interbibliotecario – Fornitura Documenti
Biblioteca Comunale Intronati - Istituzione del Comune di Siena
Via della Sapienza, 5 53100 SIENA
Tel: 0577*280704 Fax: 0577*44293
Email: pepir@comune.siena.it

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: "John Benicewicz" <jbenicewicz@artres.com>
Subject: **Art Resource/dissertation request**
Date: May 19, 2004 7:34:55 AM PDT
To: <benes@ucla.edu>

Dear Carrie Benes,

Thank you for your request. Art Resource grants one time non-exclusive reproduction rights.

We offer reduced rates for scholarly and non-profit works. Based on the information you provided, the fee would be $30 for each image used in a dissertation.

If you would like to proceed, please let me know and I will forward your request to our Research Department for processing.

Best regards,

John Benicewicz
Permissions Department

----- Original Message -----
From: "Carrie Benes" <benes@ucla.edu>
To: <requests@artres.com>
Sent: Tuesday, May 11, 2004 11:41 AM
Subject: Reproduction Request

>
> Dear Art Resource:
>
> I'm hoping to use two details from an Art Resource image in my PhD
> dissertation for UCLA: they come from Randolph Starn's 1994 book on
> the Palazzo Pubblico in Siena, the illustrations of which are credited
> to you. I'd like to use two details of Ambrogio Lorenzetti's frescoes
> of Good Government (the wolf and twins seated under the figure of Good
> Government, and the gate separating the city and country in the
> "effects of good government" landscape. Would this be possible?
> Please let me know if you need more information than I've provided
> here. Thanks very much!
>
> Carrie Benes
> 1458 Lincoln Boulevard, Apt 2
> Santa Monica, CA 90401

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> (310) 451.1543
> benes@ucla.edu
>
> PhD. dissertation, UCLA History Department (filing June 2004).
> "Roman Foundations: Constructing Civic Identity in Late Medieval Italy."
>
> ++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++++
> Thanks to modern chemistry, sleep is now optional.
> -Milo Aukermann
>
> That's not Farrah hair; it's Gidget hair. Don't they
> teach you anything in history?
> -Buffy's mom
>
>

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: "Robin Stolfi" <rstolfi@artres.com>
Subject: **Re: Image Request**
Date: May 26, 2004 9:25:26 AM PDT
To: "BENES,CARRIE ELIZABETH" <benes@ucla.edu>

Dear Carrie,

I can send you the scans we have, and you can crop them to show whatever detail you need. Would you like to download the scans from our website? Or send them on cd?

John Benicewicz will send you an invoice. You can pay by check or credit card. John's email is jbenicewicz@artres.com

Best,

Robin Stolfi
Art Resource
----- Original Message -----
From: "BENES,CARRIE ELIZABETH" <benes@ucla.edu>
To: <rstolfi@artres.com>
Sent: Tuesday, May 25, 2004 5:25 PM
Subject: Re: Image Request

> Hi Robin: From the first image on that page, I need one image of the entire
> gate, and another close-up of the wolf on the gate. From the third image
> on that page, I need the central male figure in black and white with the
> wolf and twins at his feet. Can you send me hi-res digital copies of those
> two images, and I'll crop them as needed, or do you need to do that?

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

> And how do I go about paying? I'd love to get this sorted out by Friday if
> possible.
>
> Thanks!
> Carrie
>
> > Below is a link that will take you to images we have for your request
> > (Lorenzetti, Good Government). Please let me know which details you would
> > like to use. I can send you color transparencies or hi-res scans.
> >
> > Best,
> > Robin Stolfi
> > Art Resource
> >
> > Please click on the following link to see the selection.
> >
> > http://www.artres.com/c/htm/CExpT.aspx?E=22SITWHWo2Z&o=THT

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.

From: <rstolfi@artres.com>
Subject: **Art Resource : Images ready for download**
Date: May 26, 2004 12:55:53 PM PDT
To: <benes@ucla.edu>
Cc: <rstolfi@artres.com>

Dear Carrie Benes,

The images you requested from Art Resource for your project "Dissertation for UCLA" are ready to be downloaded in high resolution.

http://www.artres.com/c/htm/O_IList.aspx?S=c&E=22SIFB12XR

If this link does not function, please go to http://www.artresourceinc.com/c then into "My Account" then "Images ready for download".

Please keep in mind, although you have been granted the ability to download an image, permission for usage must be provided in writing from the Art Resource permissions department. Please call us at 212-505-8700 with any questions regarding pricing, usage, or to finalize your request.

For further details regarding the Terms & Conditions of our site visit http://66.113.139.23/c/htm/help.aspx?IdxHelp=Terms_And_Conditions

Thank you for your patronage.

Robin Stolfi
Art Resource Inc.
536 Broadway, 5th floor
New York, NY, 10012 USA
Tel.: (212) 505-8700
Fax: (212) 505-2053
http://www.artres.com

Reproduced with permission of the copyright owner. Further reproduction prohibited without permission.